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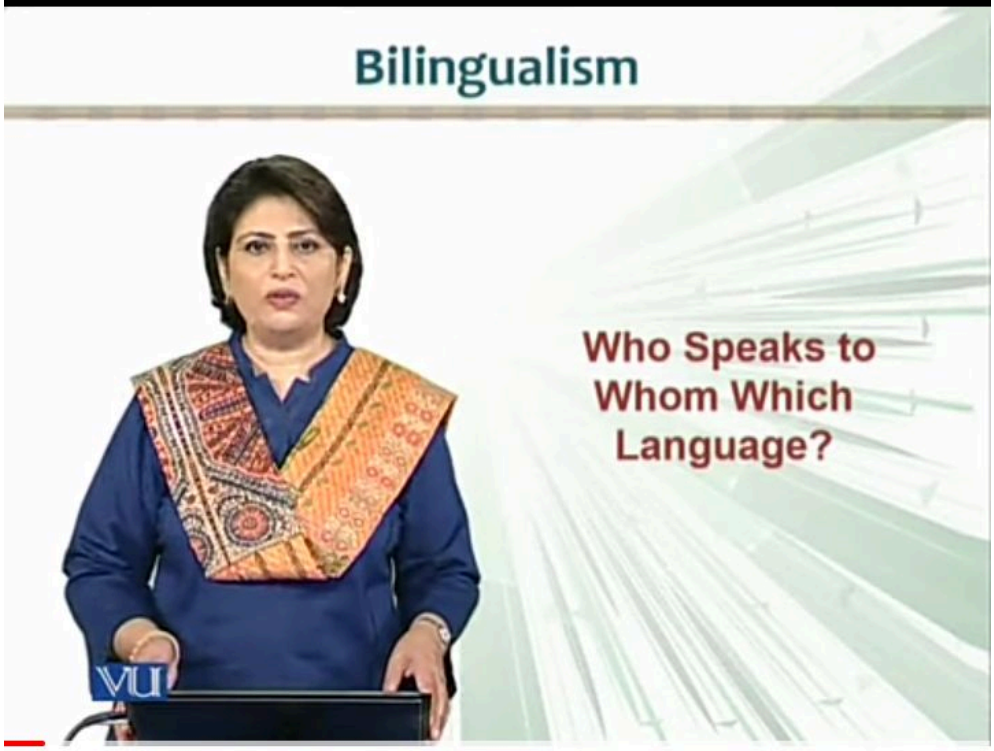

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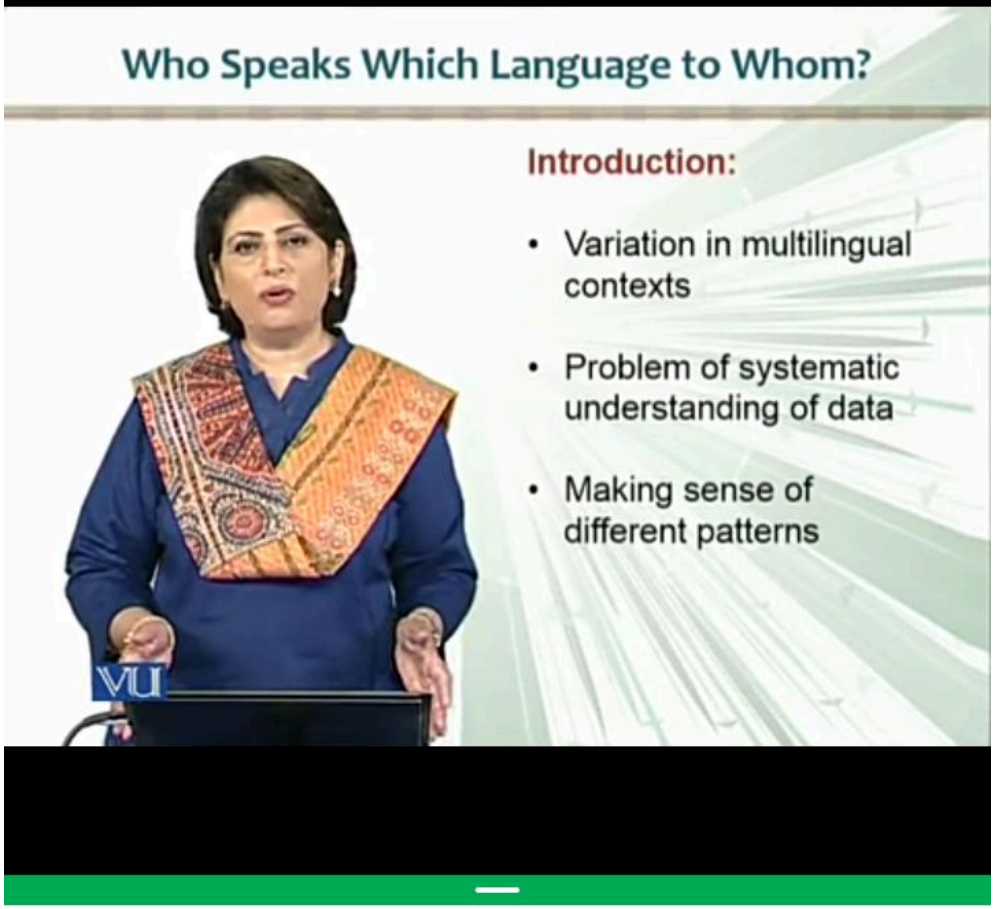

Topic No. 056-060

Who Speaks to Whom?; And Which Language?; Habitual Language Choice; Habitual Language Choice and Group; Language Choice and Situation; Language Choice and Topic

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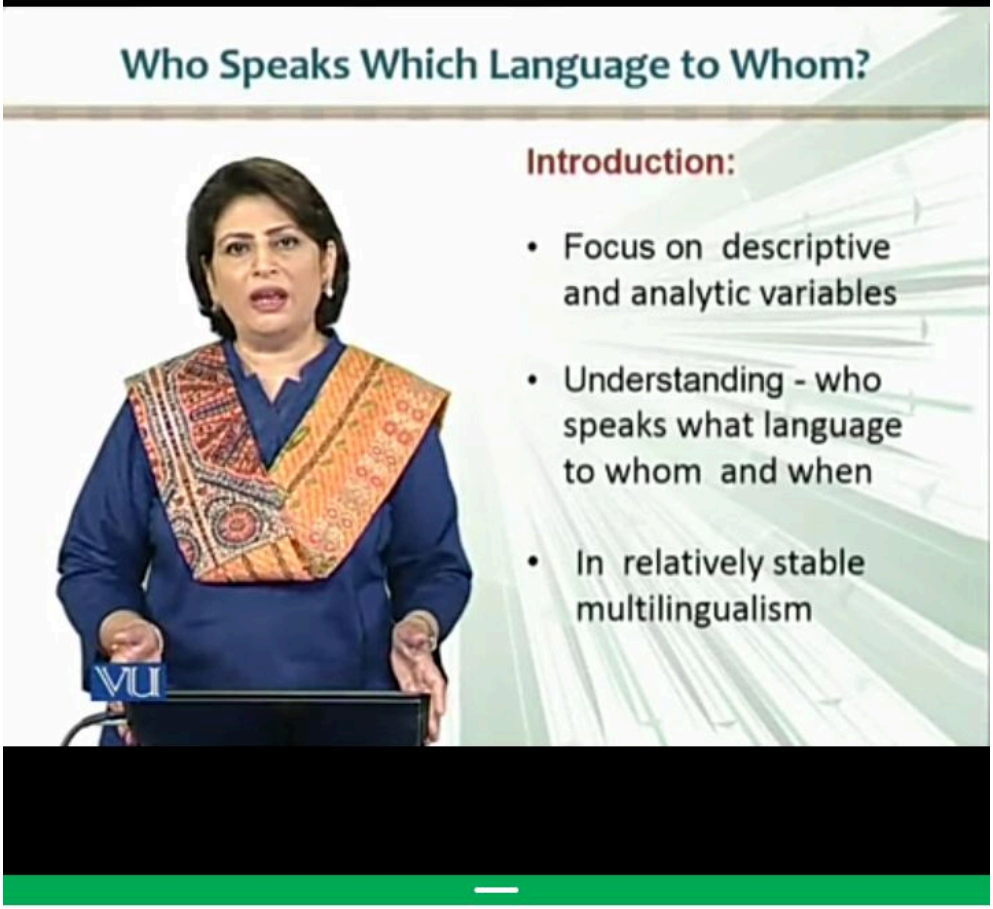

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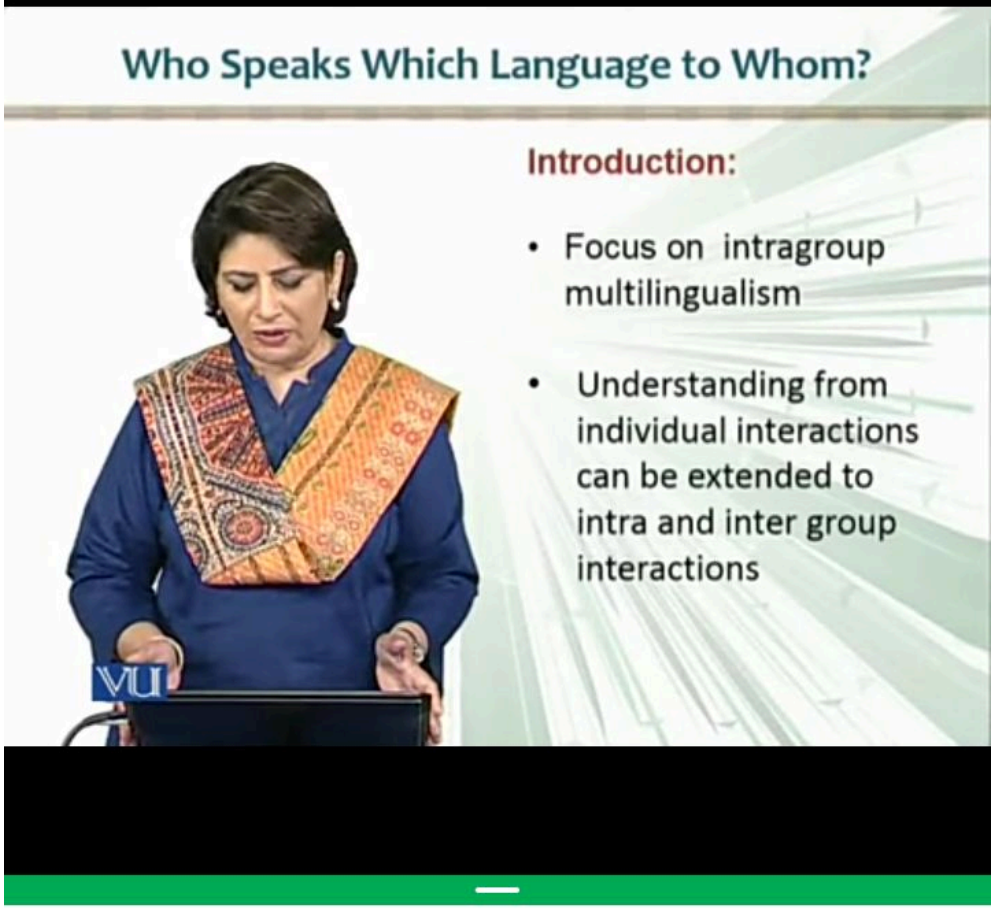

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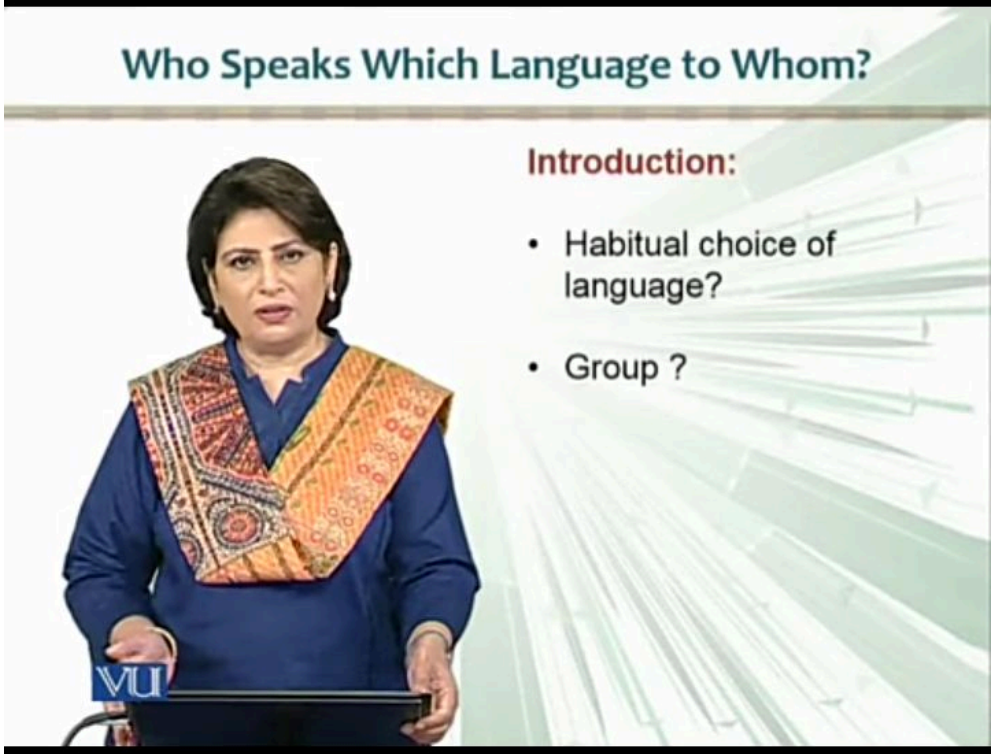

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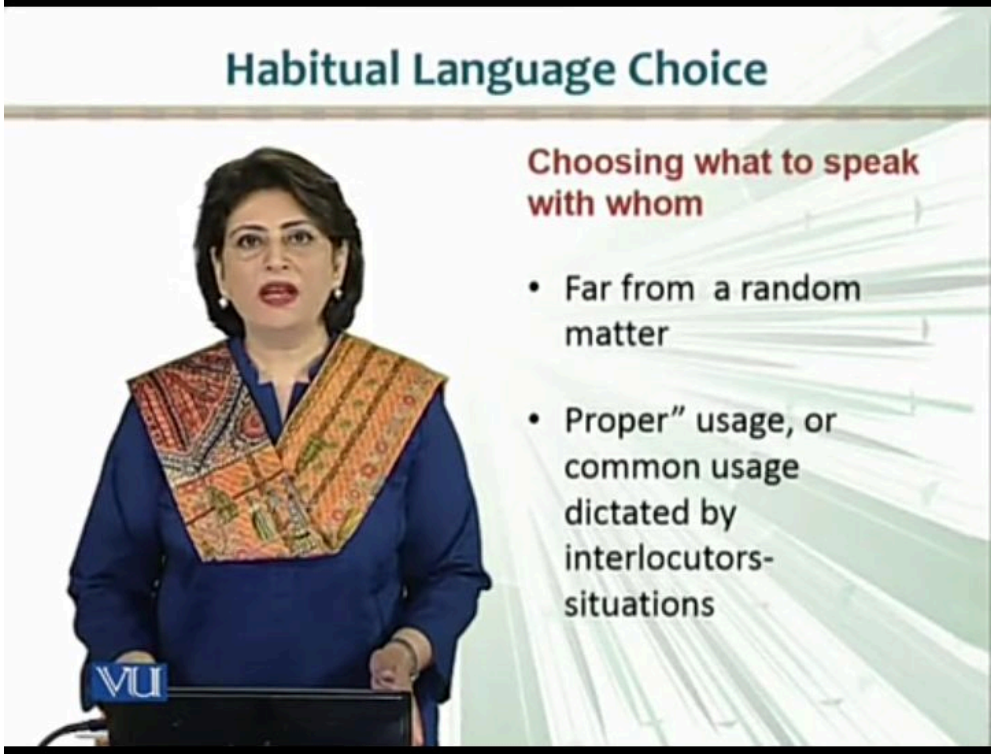

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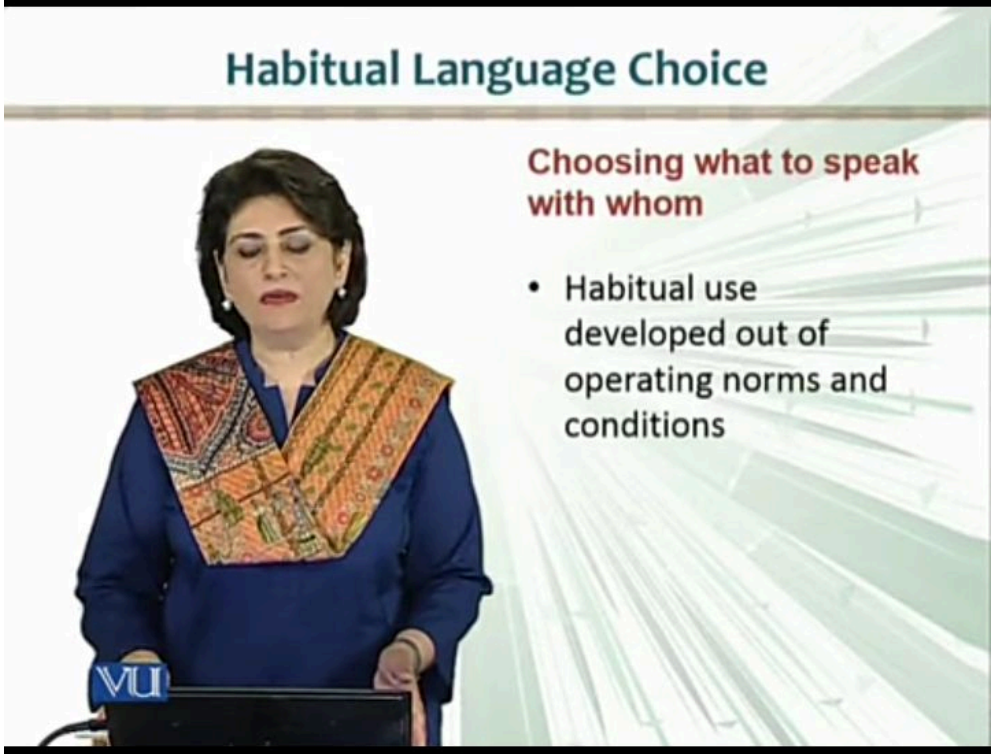

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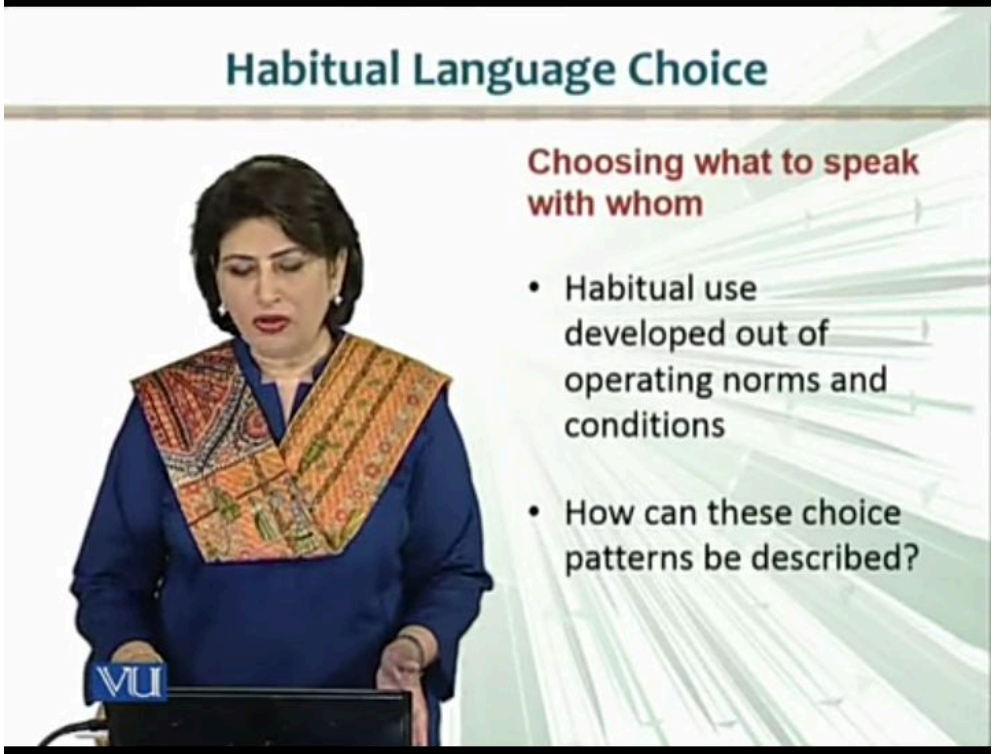

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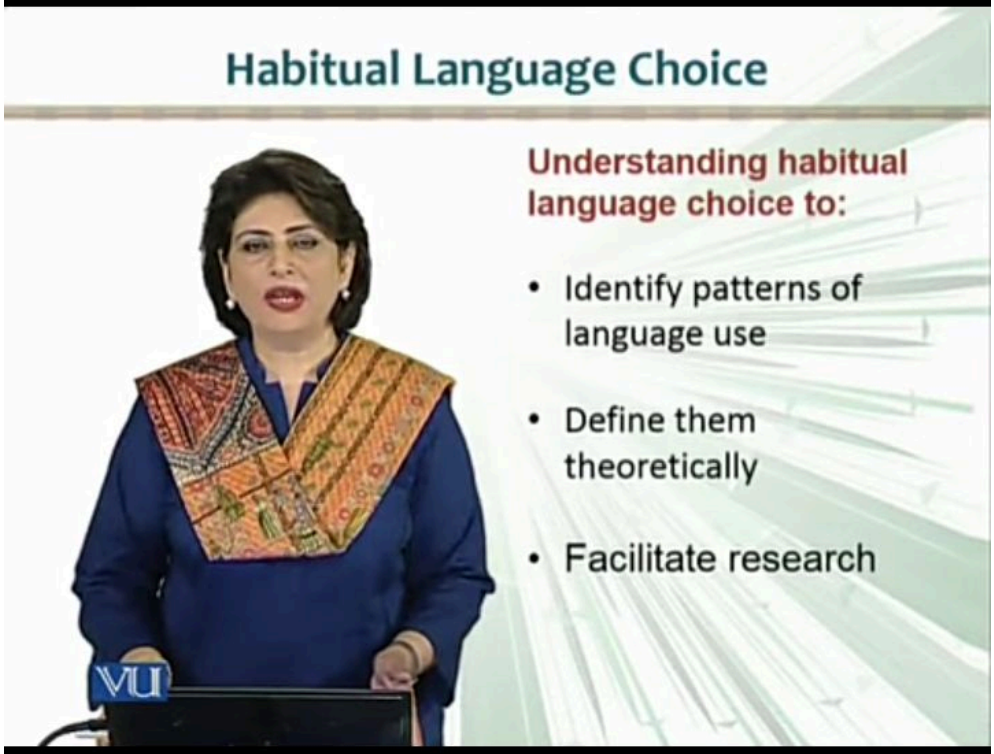

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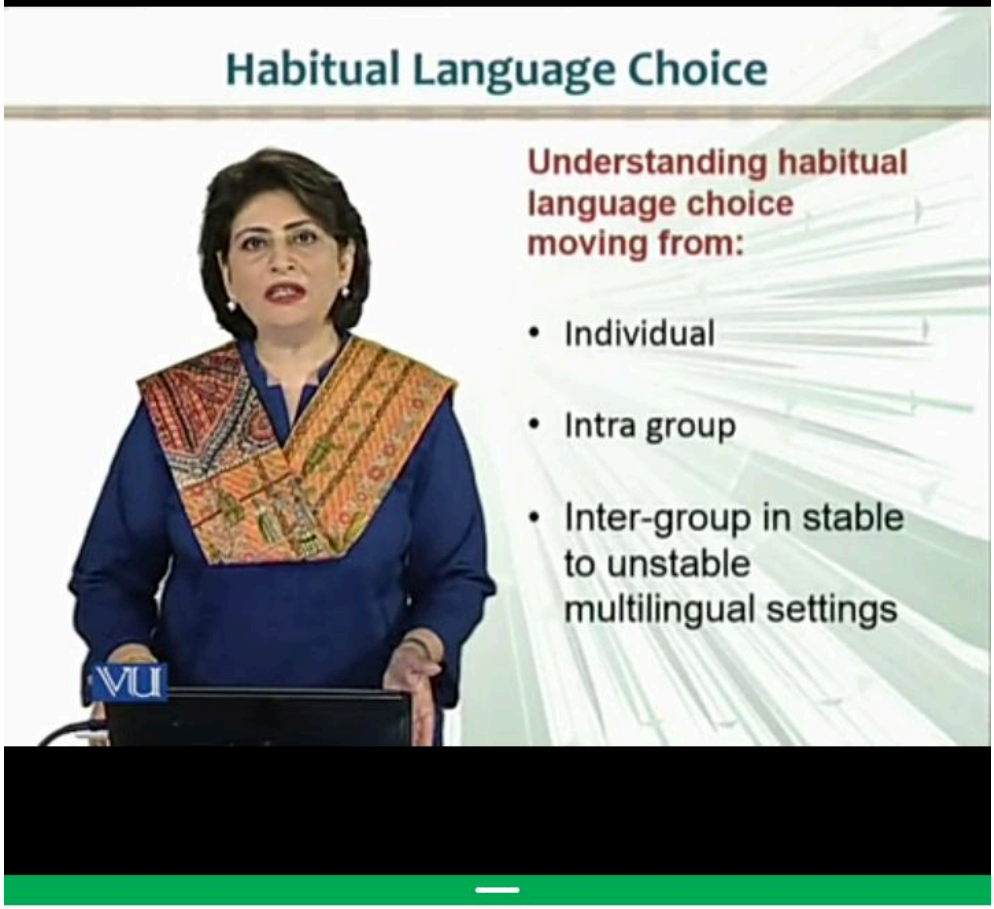

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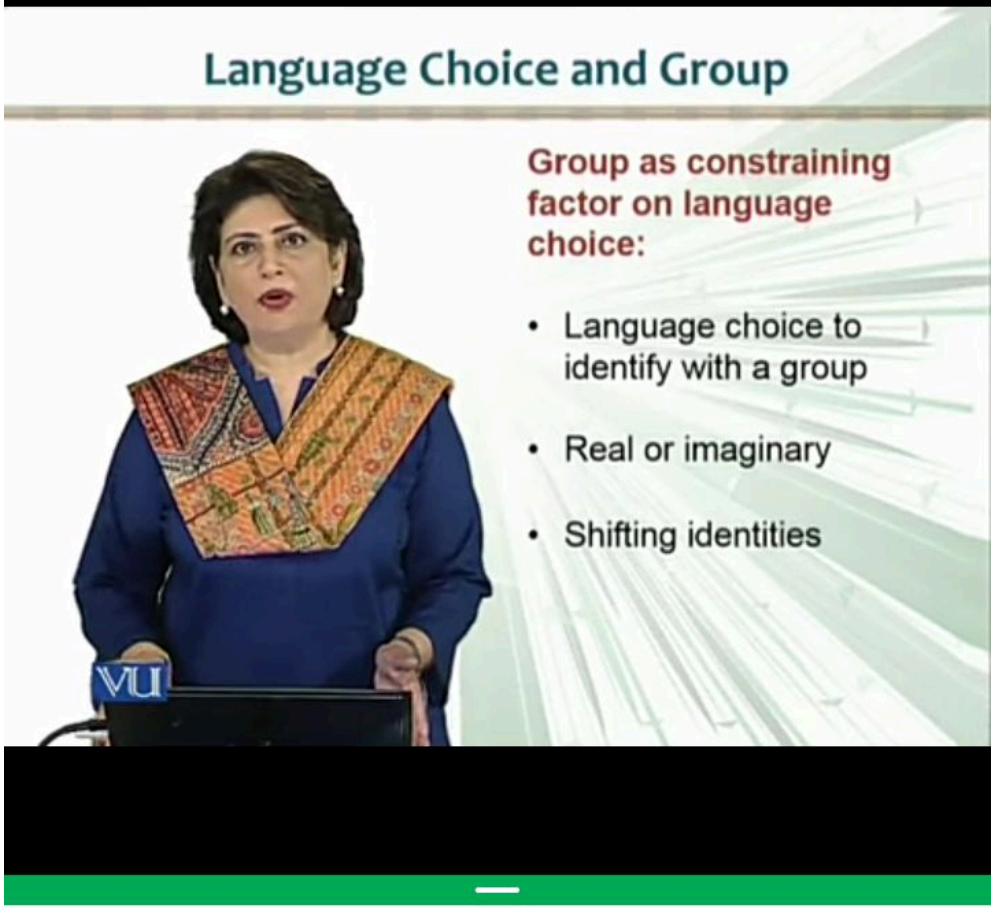

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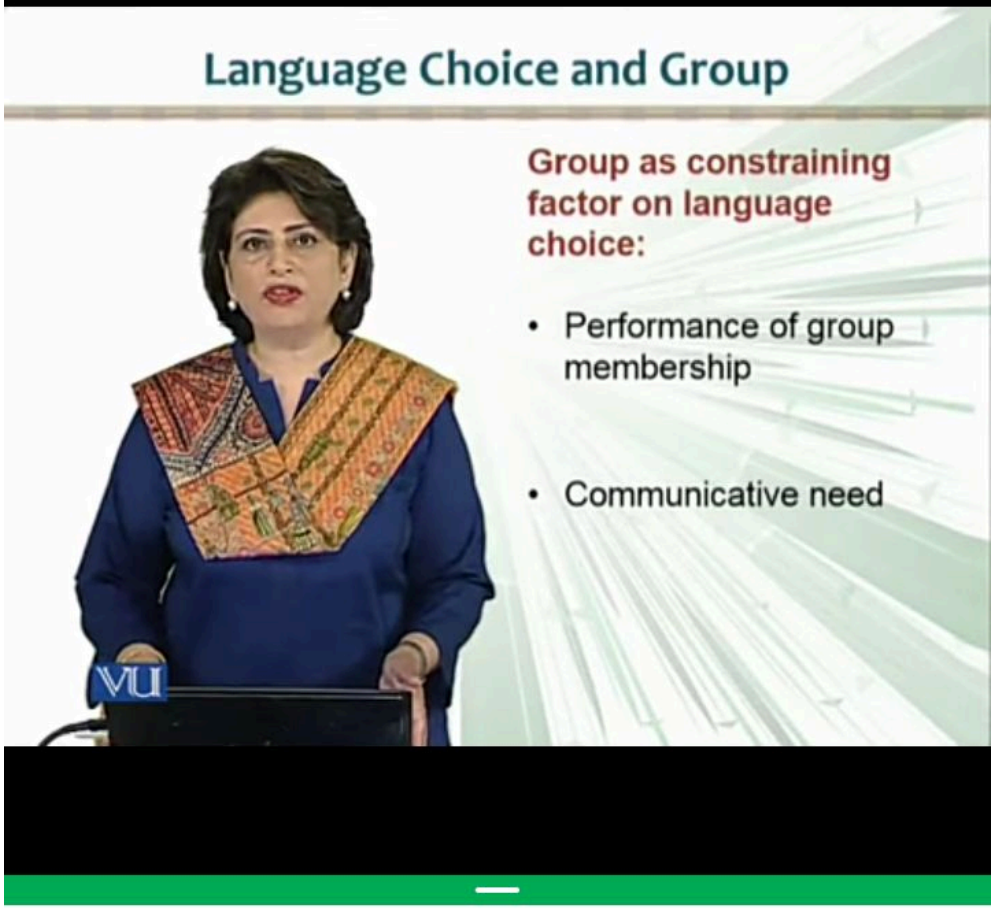

Topic No. 056-060

Who Speaks to Whom?; And Which Language?; Habitual Language Choice; Habitual Language Choice and Group; Language Choice and Situation; Language Choice and Topic

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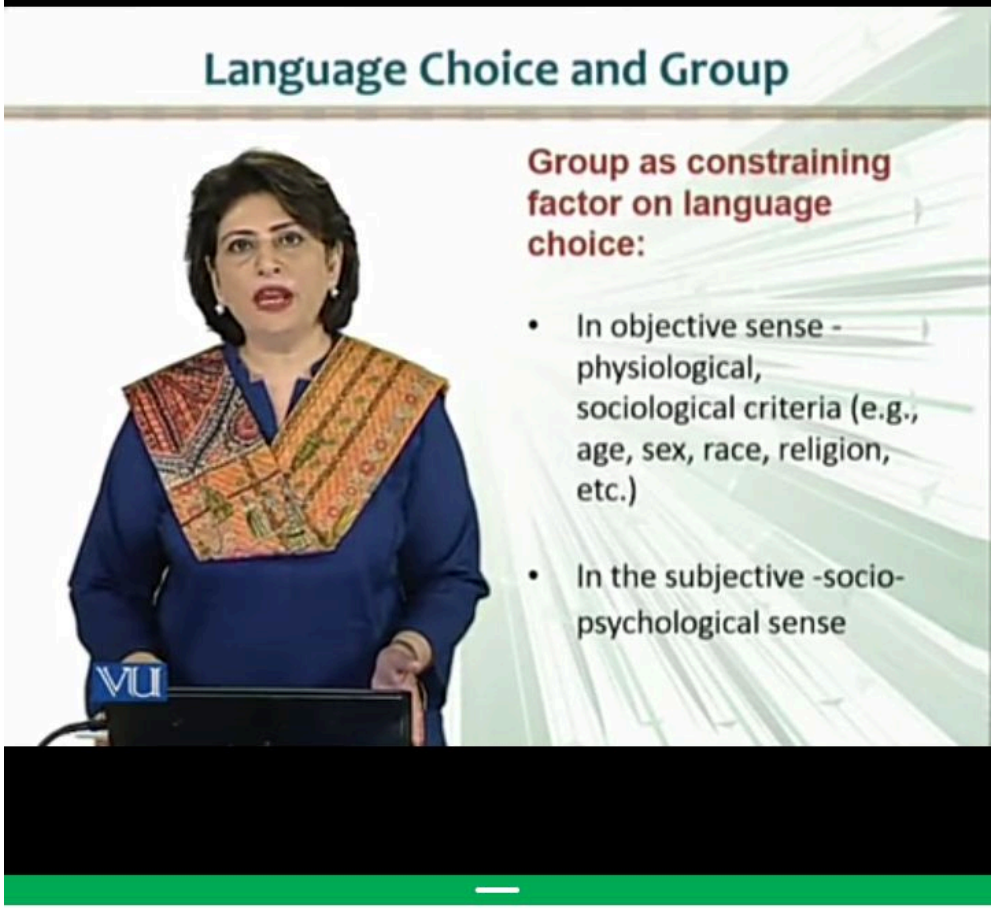

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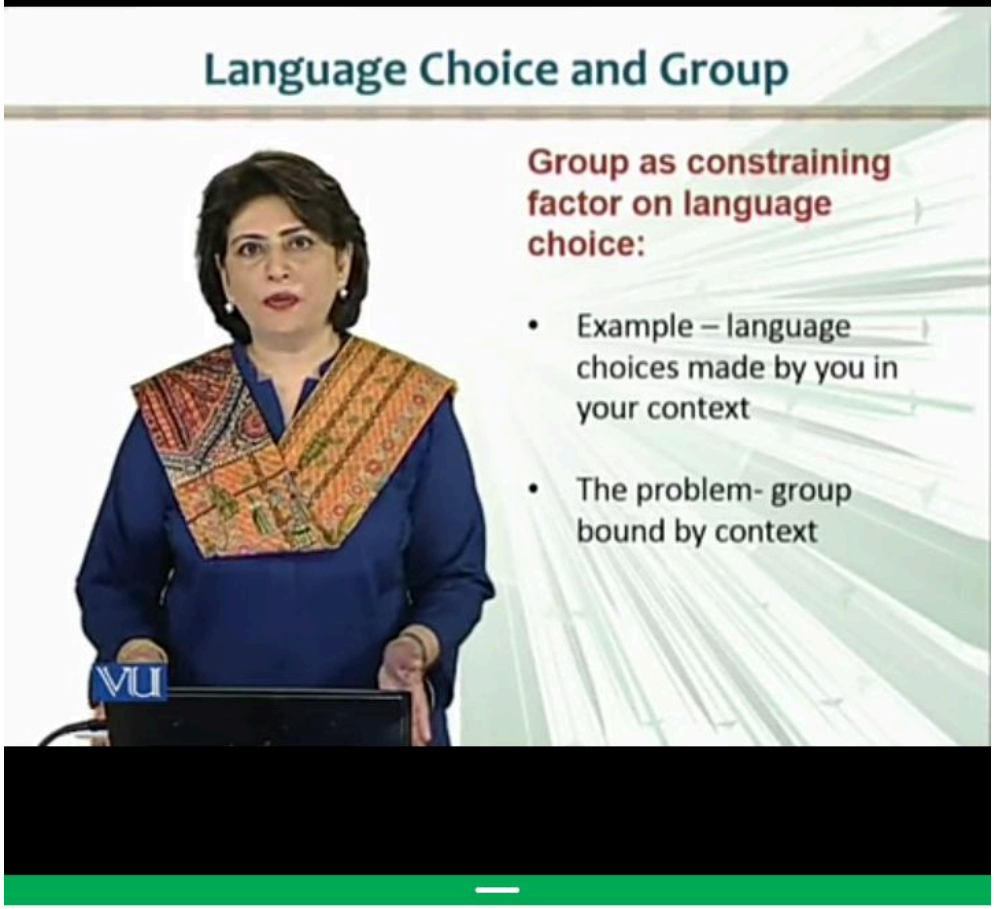

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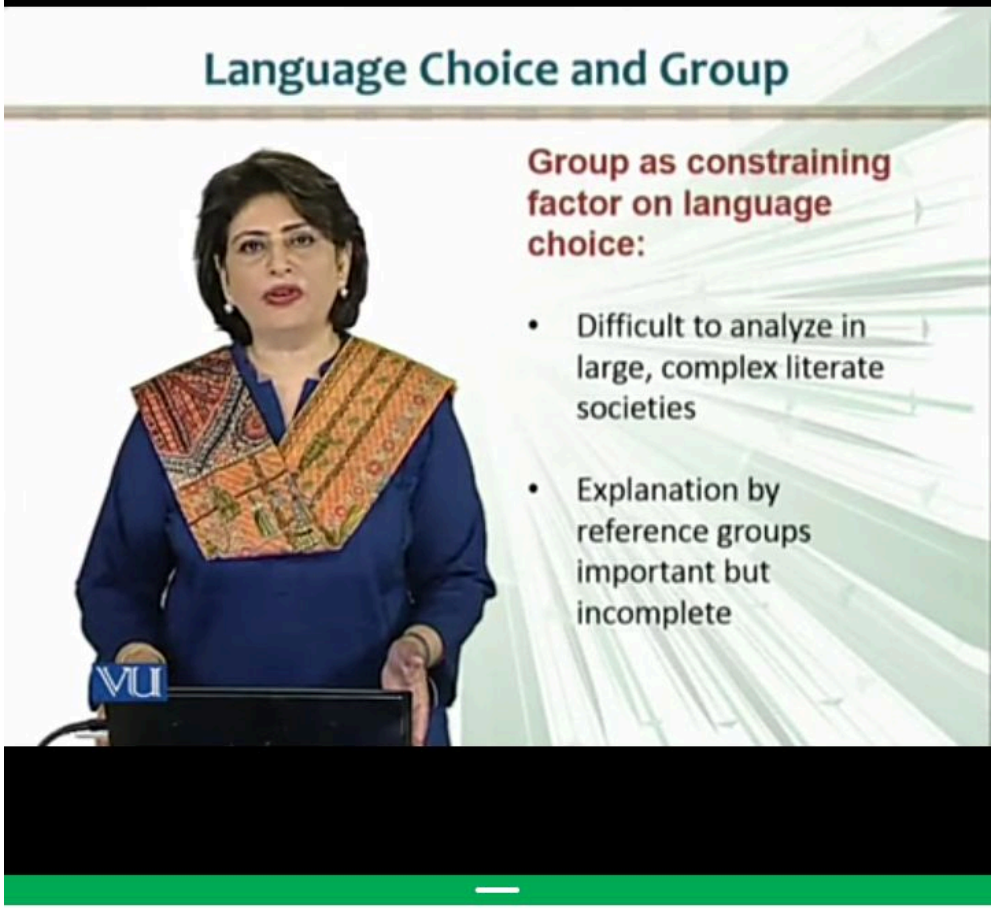

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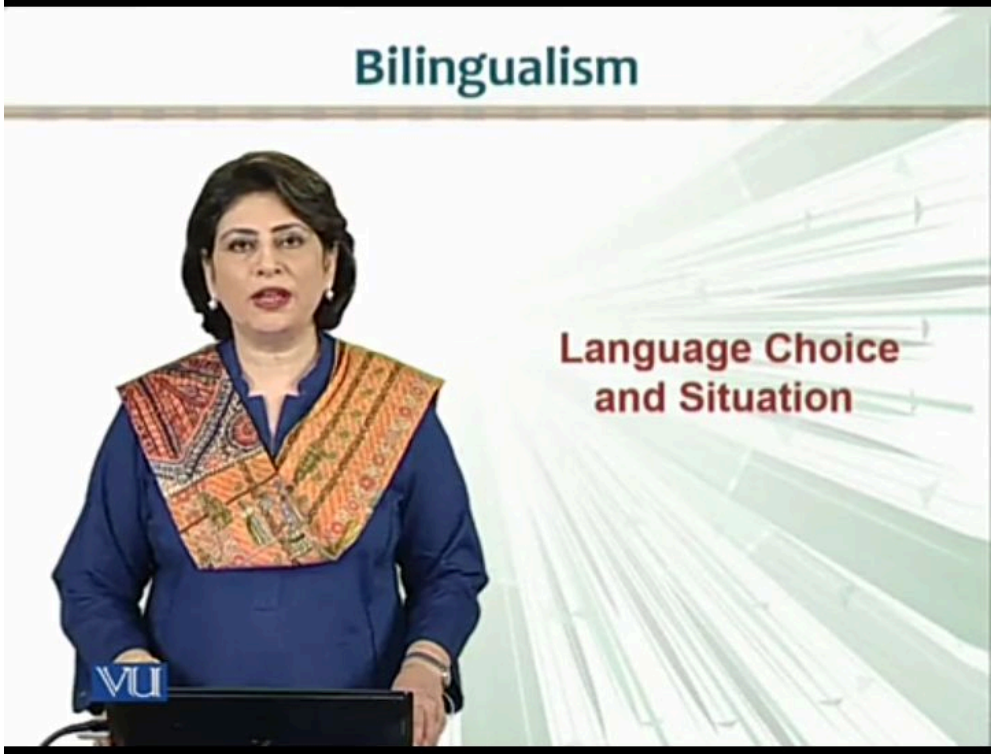

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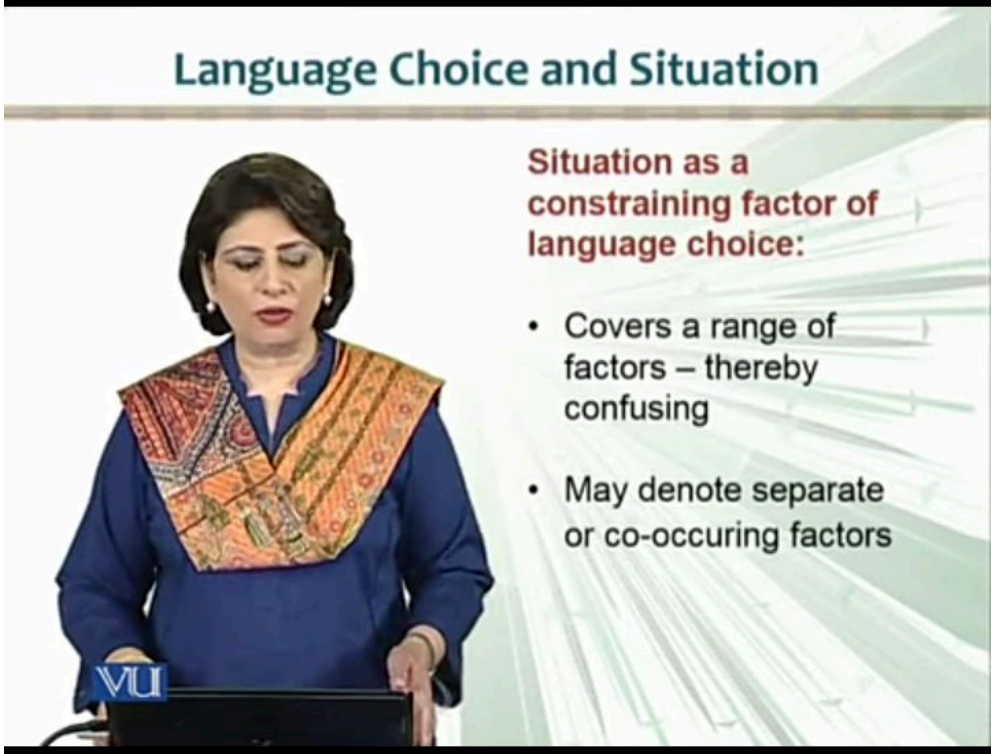

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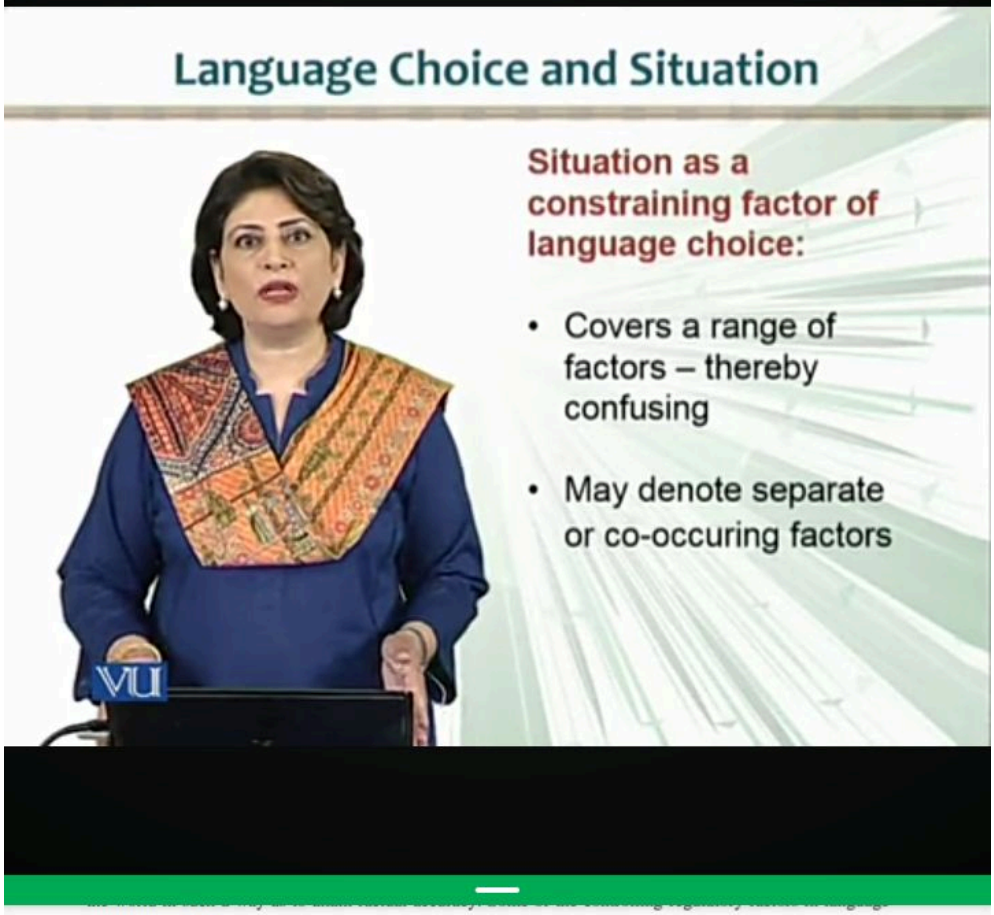

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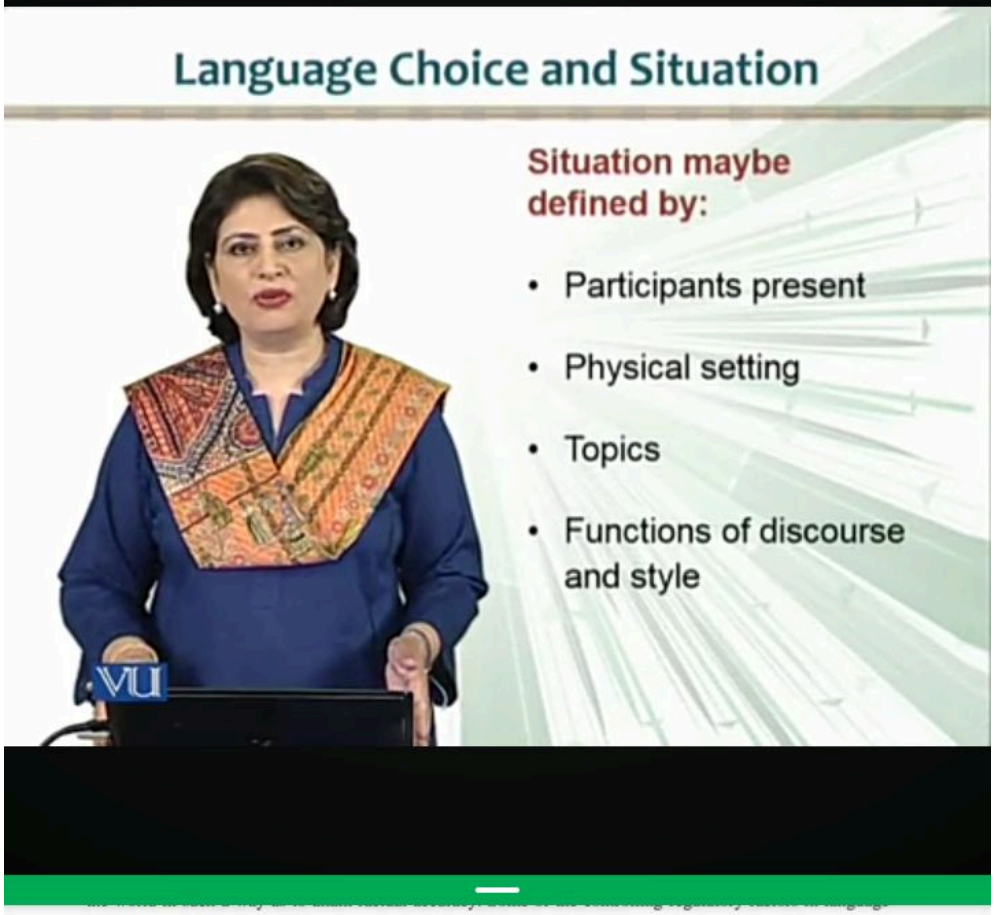

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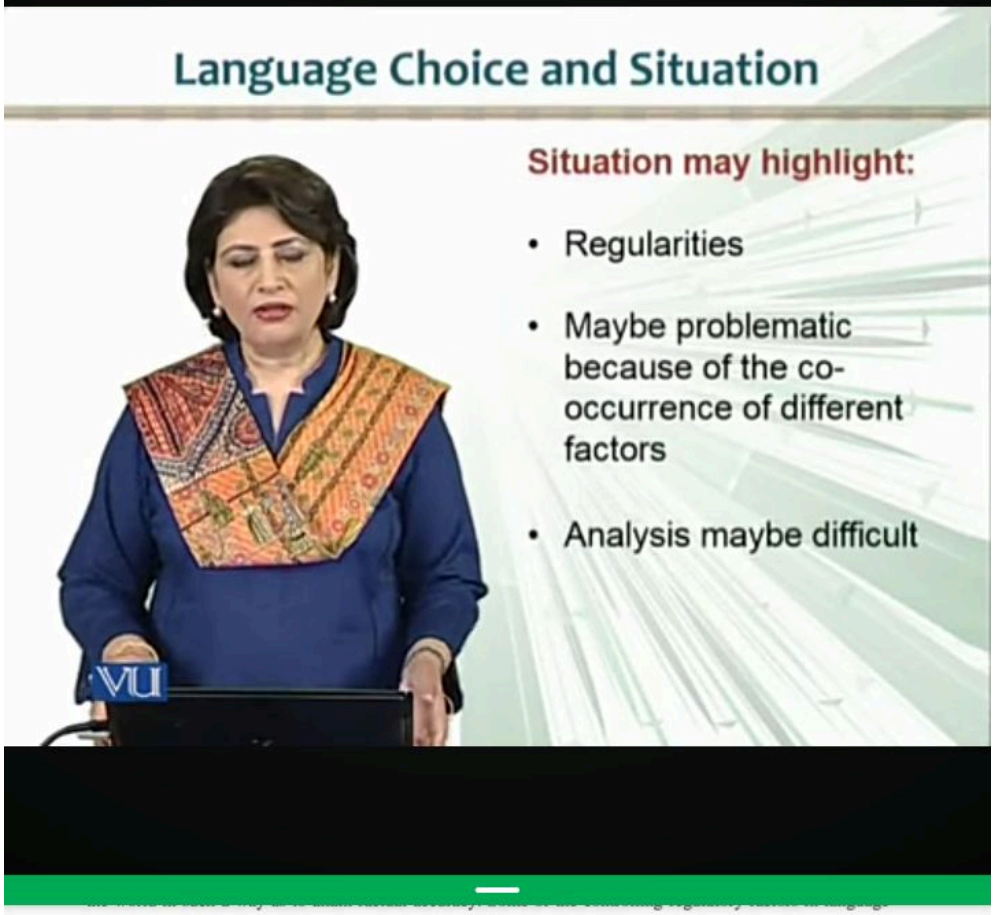

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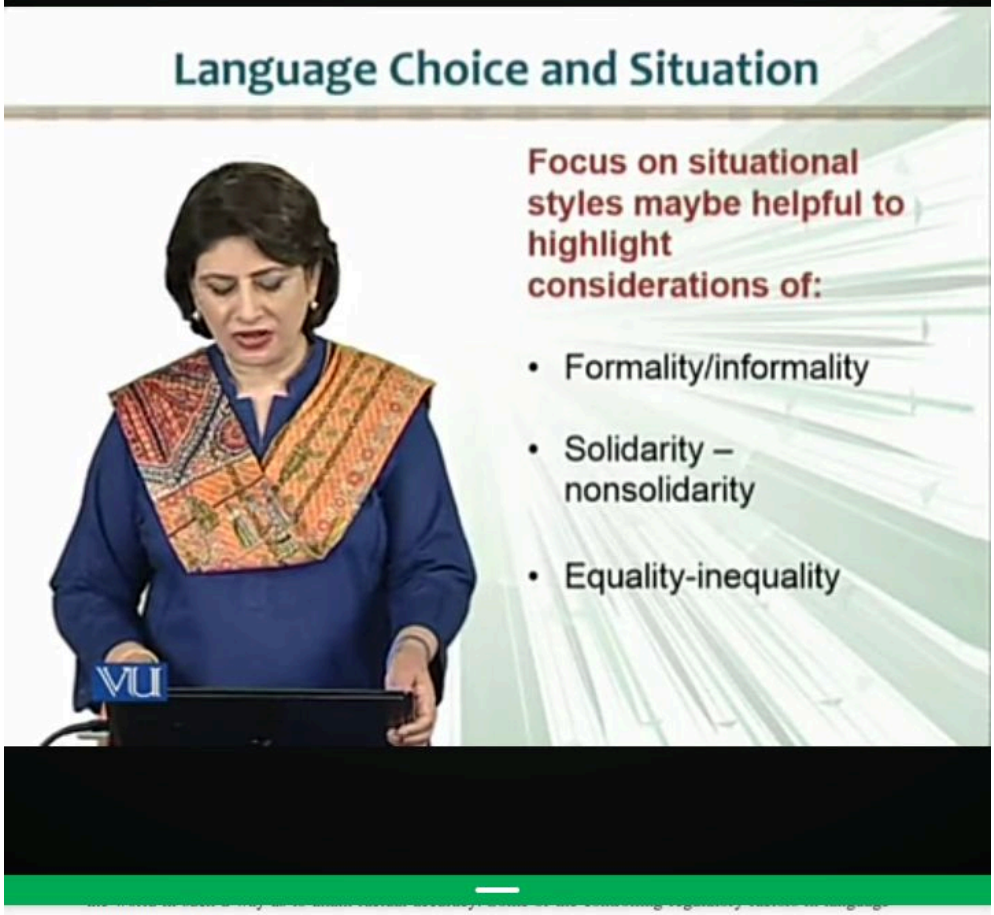

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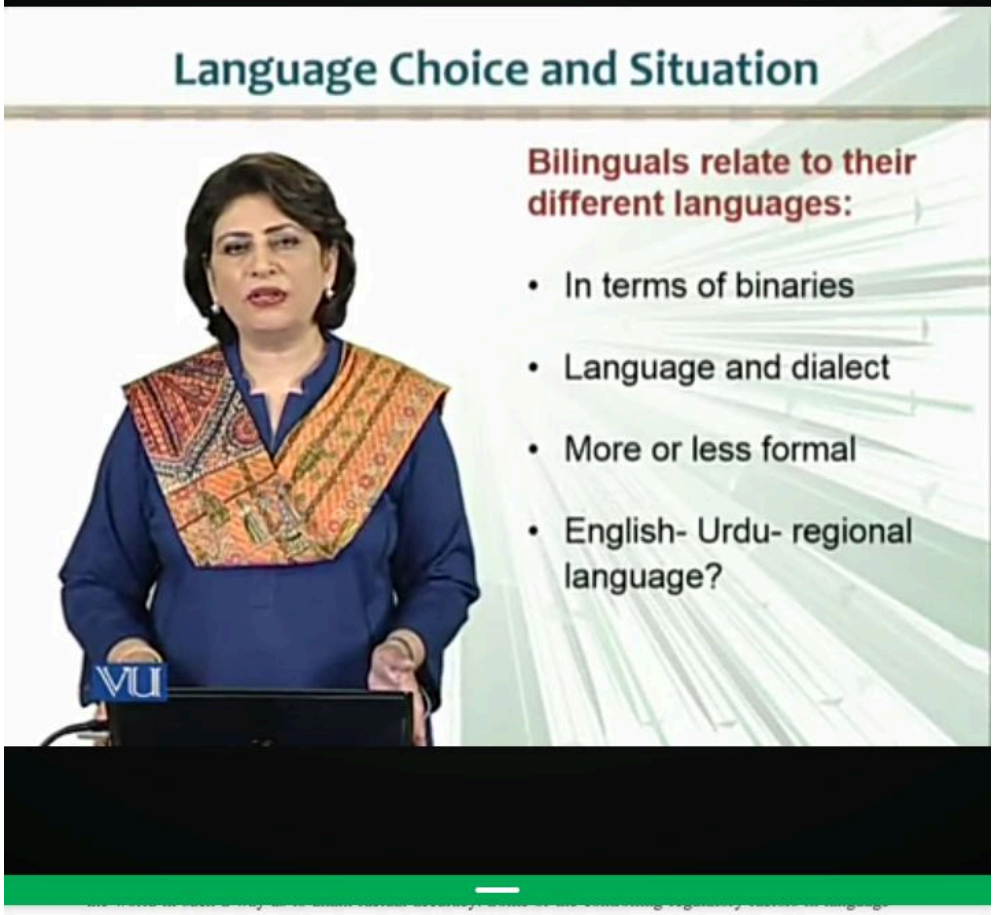

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(b)The regulatory factor of situation: This term has been used to designate a large (and, at times, confusing) variety of considerations. Indeed, it has been used to designate various separate considerations as well as theirco-occurrence. Each of these aspects of "situation" may shed light on certain regularities in language choice on particular social occasions. However, the possible co-occurrence of so many variables must also make it exceedingly difficult to use the concept "situation," for analytic purposes.

We can therefore, limit our use of this term to considerations of "style" alone, and attempt to cope with the other itemized features in other ways and in their own right. Situational styles pertain to considerations of intimacy-distance, formality-informality, solidarity—non-solidarity, status (or power) equality-inequality, etc. Thus, certain styles within every language (and, in multilingual settings, certain languages in contrast to others) are considered by particular interlocutors to be indicators of greater intimacy, informality, equality, etc.

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(c) Topic: Even when reference group and situation agree in requiring a particular language, it is not uncommon to find that topic succeeds in bringing another language to the fore. The implication of topical regulation of language choice is that certain topics are somehow handled better in one language than in

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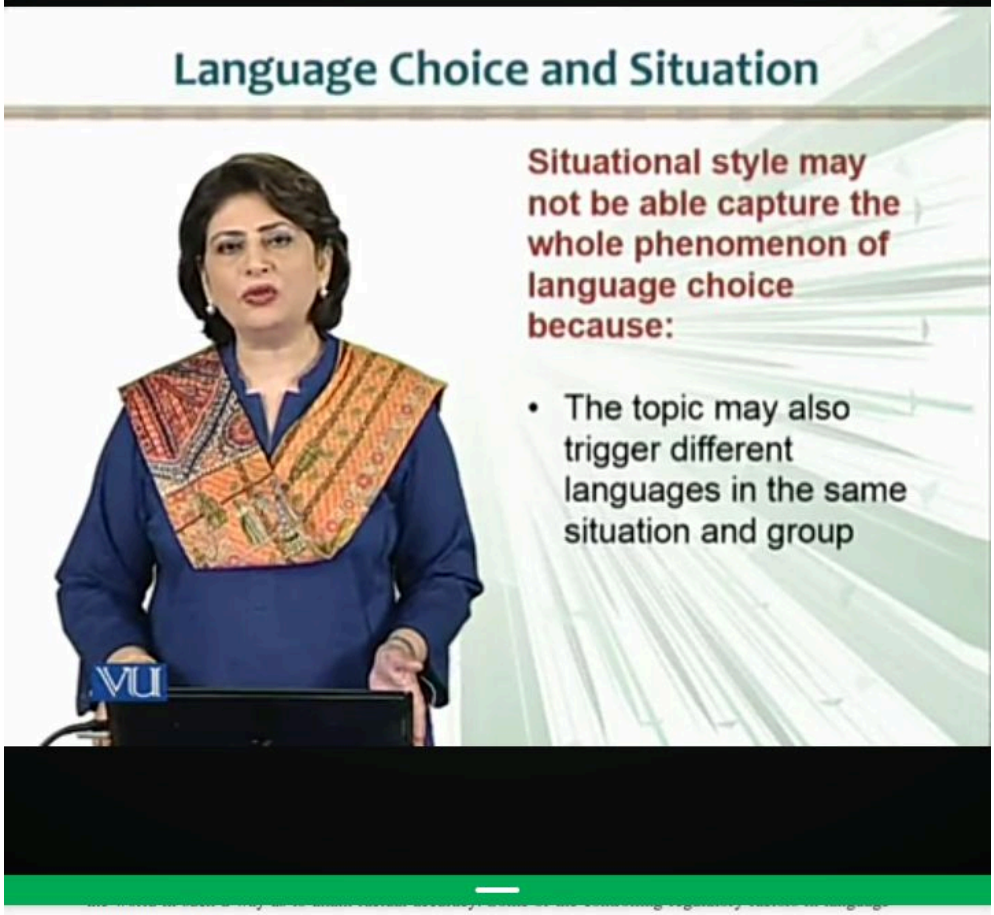

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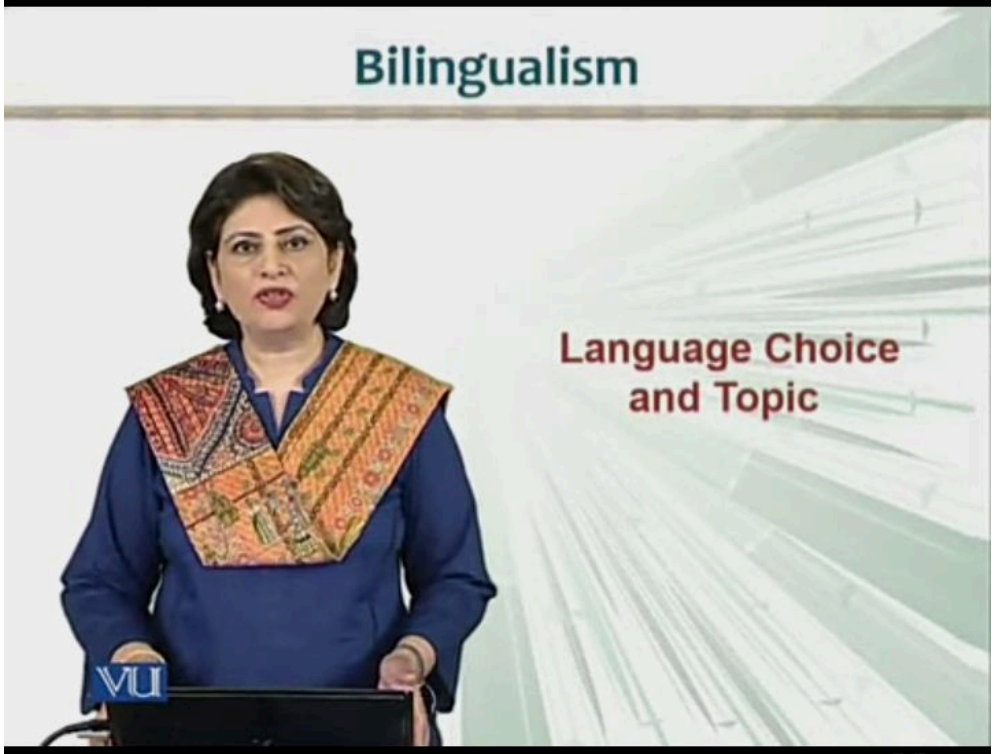

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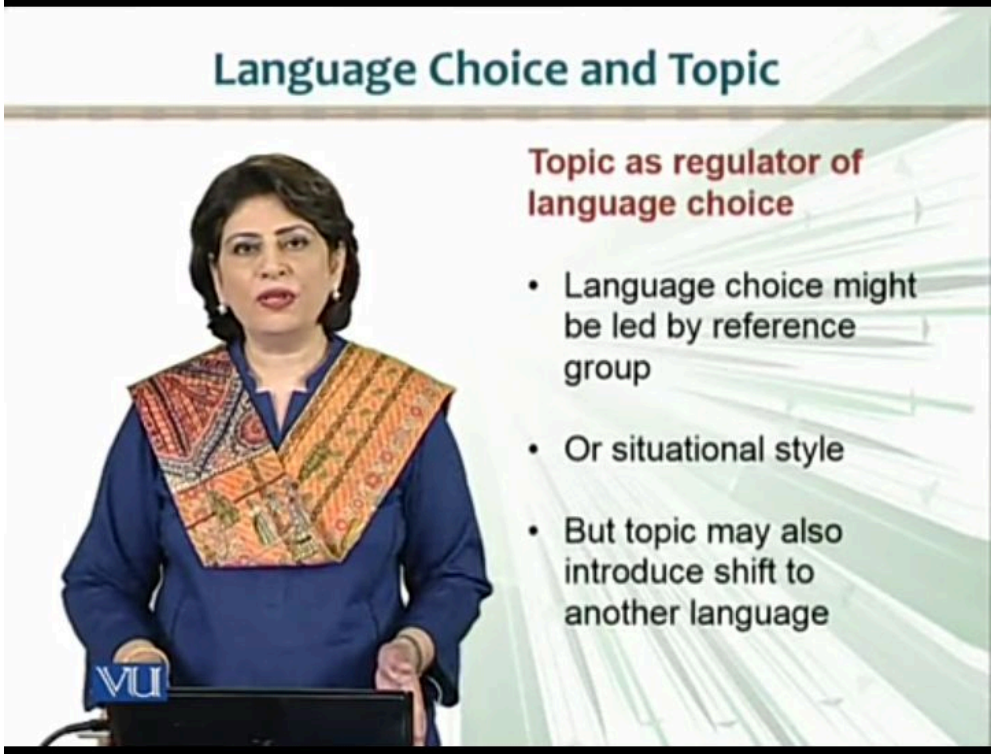

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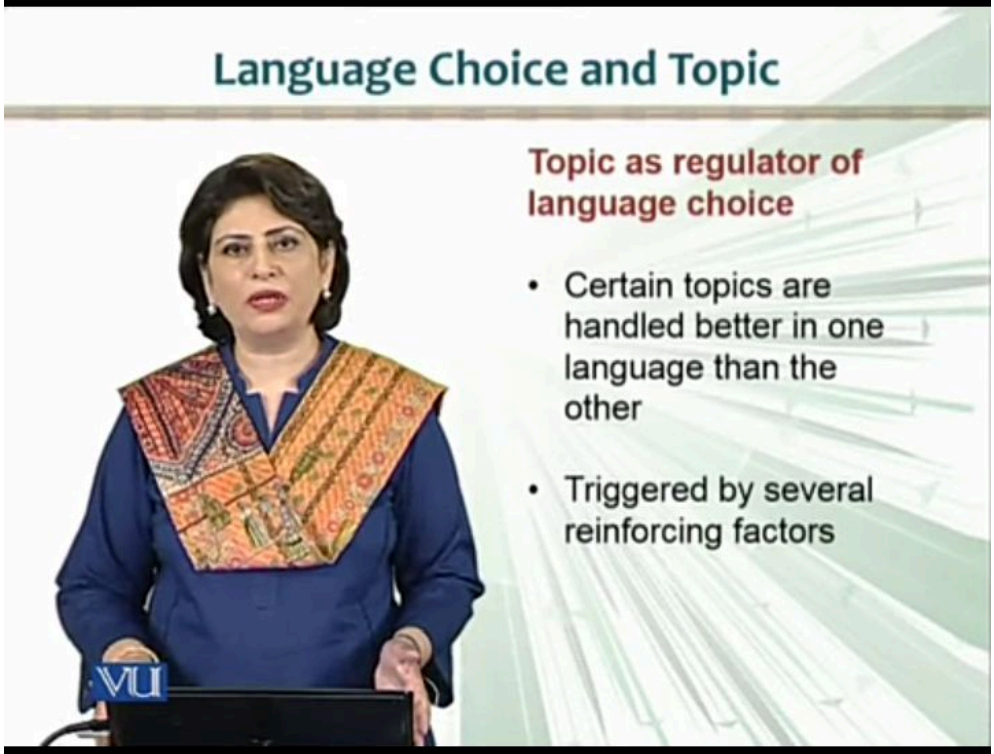

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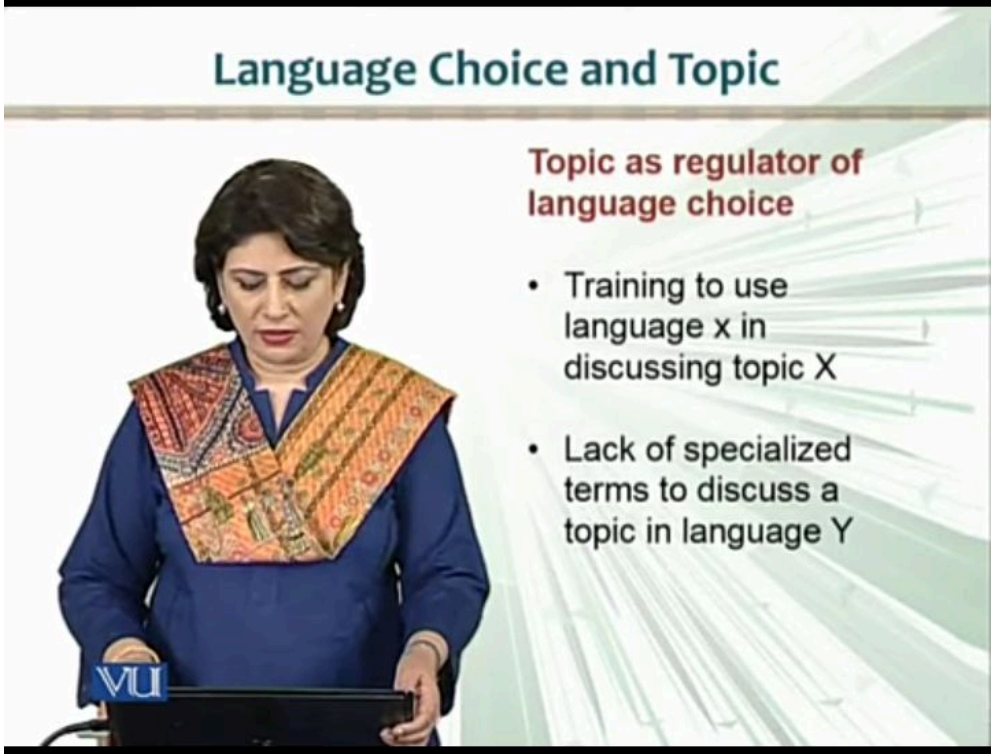

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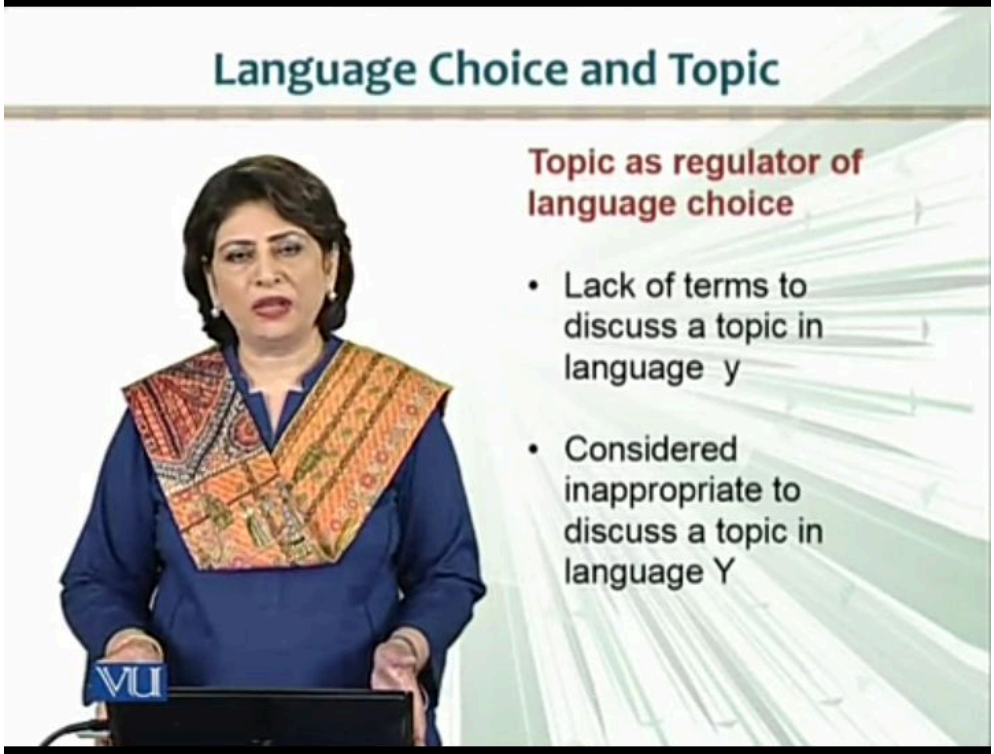

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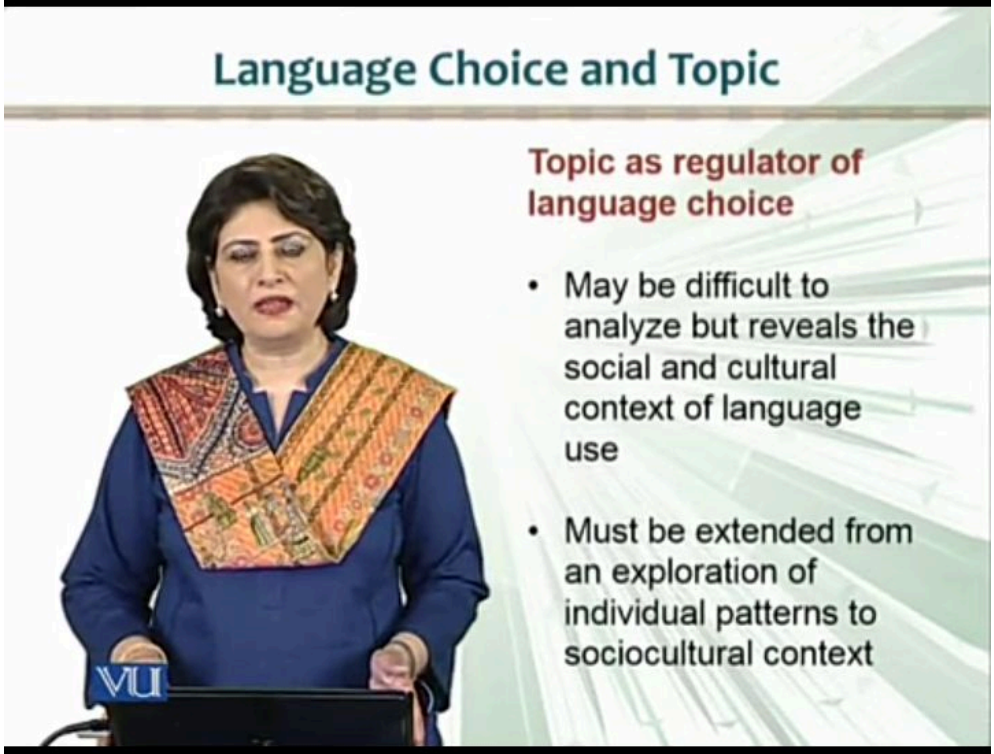

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ENG512_Topic061

Lesson-12

DOMAINS OF LANGUAGE BEHAVIOR

Topic No. 061-065

Introduction; Institutional Contexts; Contexts-Micro Social Dynamics; Governmental Administration; Domain and Role Relations

Nine domains recommended by Schmidt-Rohr were: the family, the playground and street, the school (subdivided into language of instruction, subject of instruction, and language of recess and entertainment), the church, literature, the press, the military, the courts, and the governmental administration. Subsequently, other investigators either added or found that fewer domains were sufficient in particular multilingual settings.

Institutional contexts or socio-ecological co-occurrences attempt major clusters of interaction situations that occur in particular multilingual settings. Domains such as these help us understand that language choice and topic, appropriate though they may be for analyses of individual behaviour at the level of face-to-face verbal encounters, are related to widespread socio-cultural norms and expectations.

Language choices, cumulated over many individuals and many choice instances, become transformed into the processes of language maintenance or language shift. Furthermore, if many individuals (or sub-groups) tend to handle topic *x* in language X, this may well be because this topic pertains to a domain in which that language is "dominant" for their society or for their sub-group as a whole. By recognizing the existence of domains, it becomes possible to contrast the language of topics for individuals or particular sub-populations with the language of domains for larger parts, if not the whole of the population. However, the domains of language behaviour may differ from setting to setting.

The inter-relationship between domains of language behaviour define data societal- institutional level and domains defined at a socio-psychological level (the latter being somewhat similar to situational analyses discussed earlier) may enable us to study language choice in multilingual settings in newer and more fruitful ways.

A domain is a socio-cultural construct abstracted from topics of communication, relationships between communicators, and locales of communication, in accord with the institutions of a society and the spheres of activity of a culture, in such a way that individual behaviour and social patterns can be distinguished from each other and yet related to each other. For example, the "governmental administration" domain is a social nexus which brings people together primarily for a certain cluster of purposes. Furthermore, it brings them together *primarily* for a certain set of role-relations and in a delimited environment. Hence a domain is a higher order of abstraction or summarization which is arrived at from a consideration of the socio-cultural patterning which surrounds language choices.

Of the many factors contributing to and subsumed under the domain concept some are more important and more accessible to careful measurement than others for example, role-relations within a domain. Role-relations may be of value to us in accounting for the fact that our two hypothetical governmental functionaries, who usually speak an informal variant of language to each other at the office, except when they talk about technical, professional or sophisticated "cultural" matters, are themselves not entirely a like in this respect. One of the two tends to slip into French more frequently than the other, even when reference group, situational

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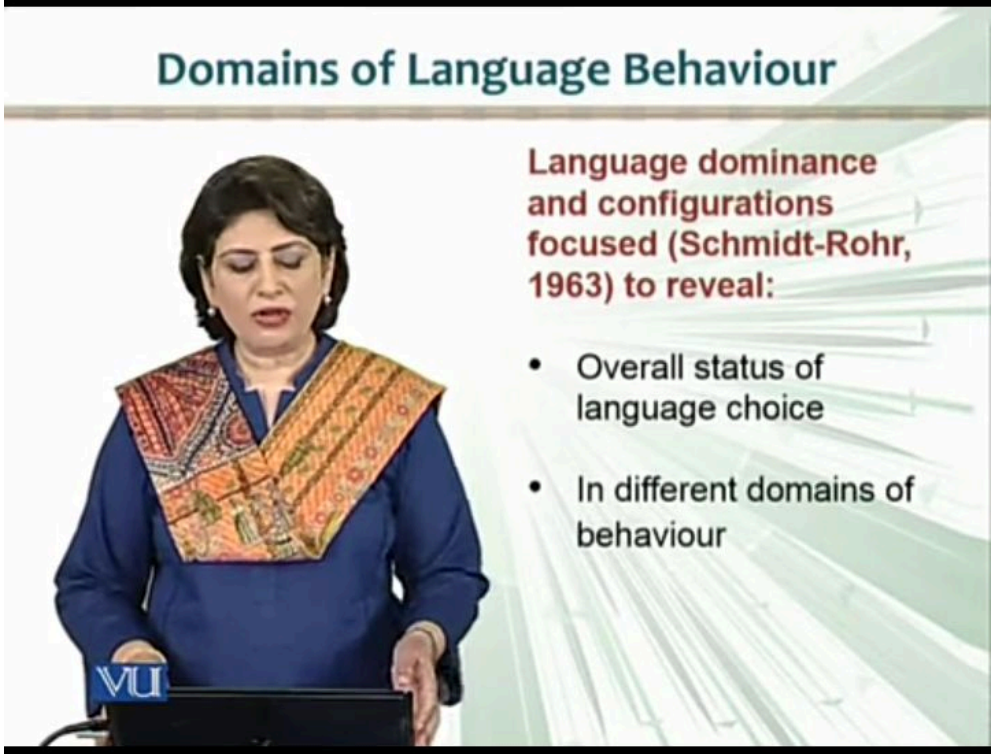

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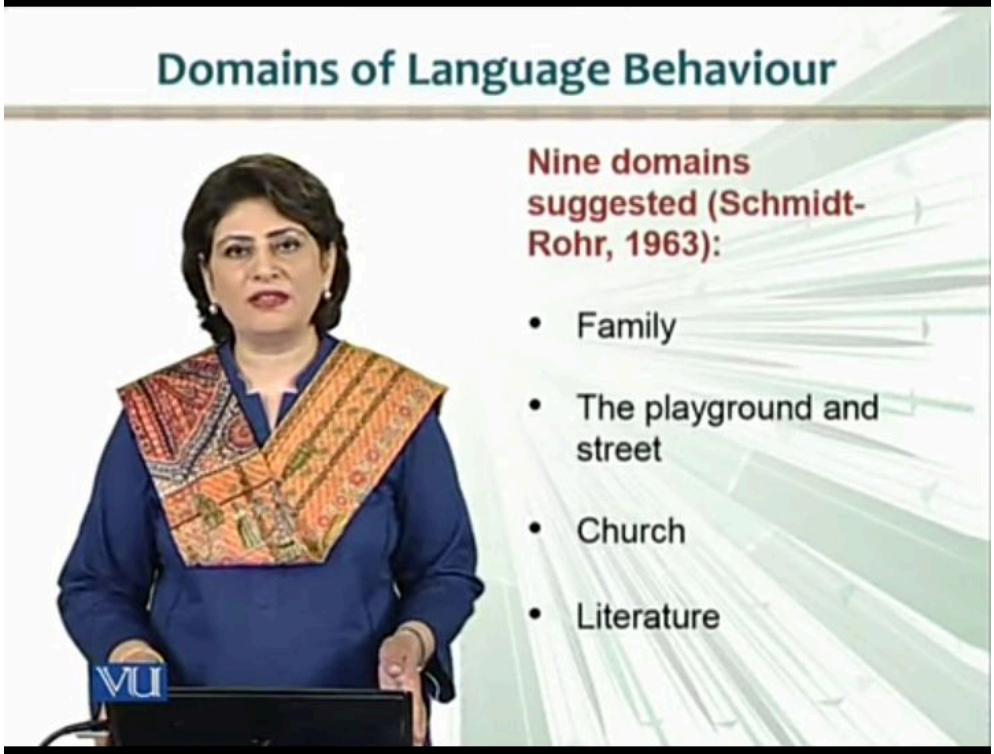

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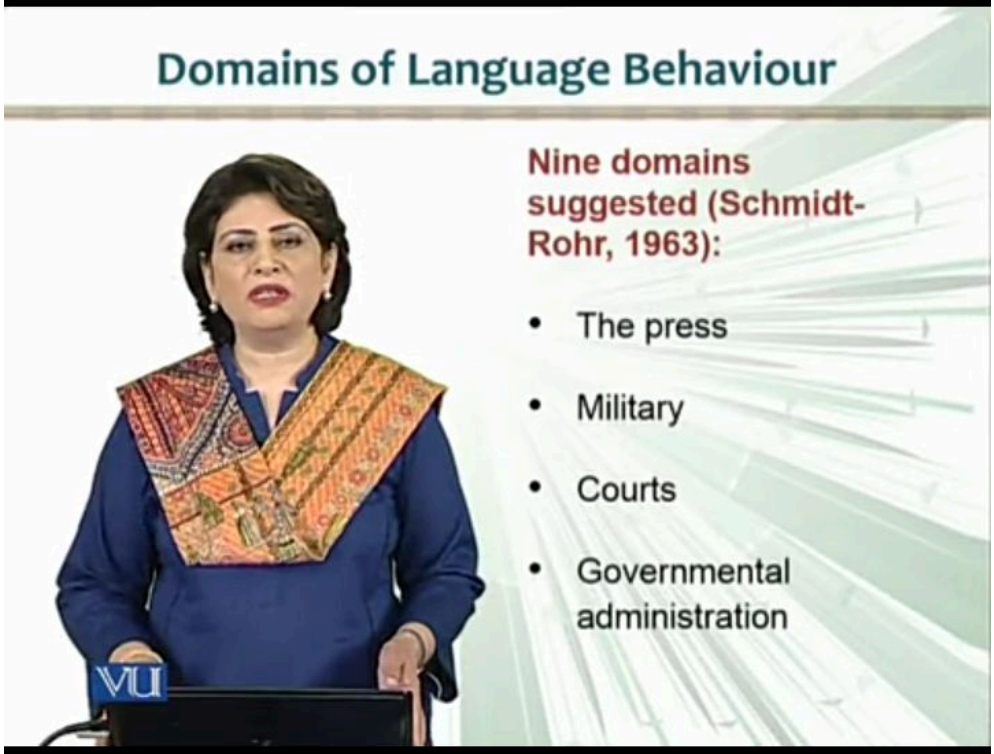

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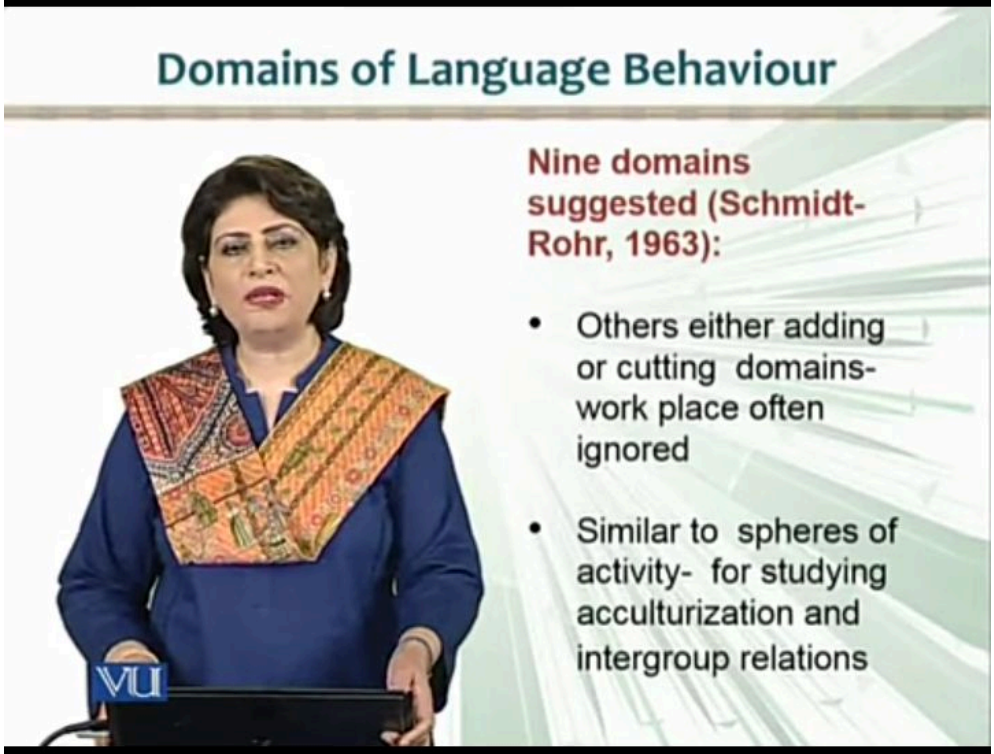

Lesson-12

DOMAINS OF LANGUAGE BEHAVIOR

Topic No. 061-065

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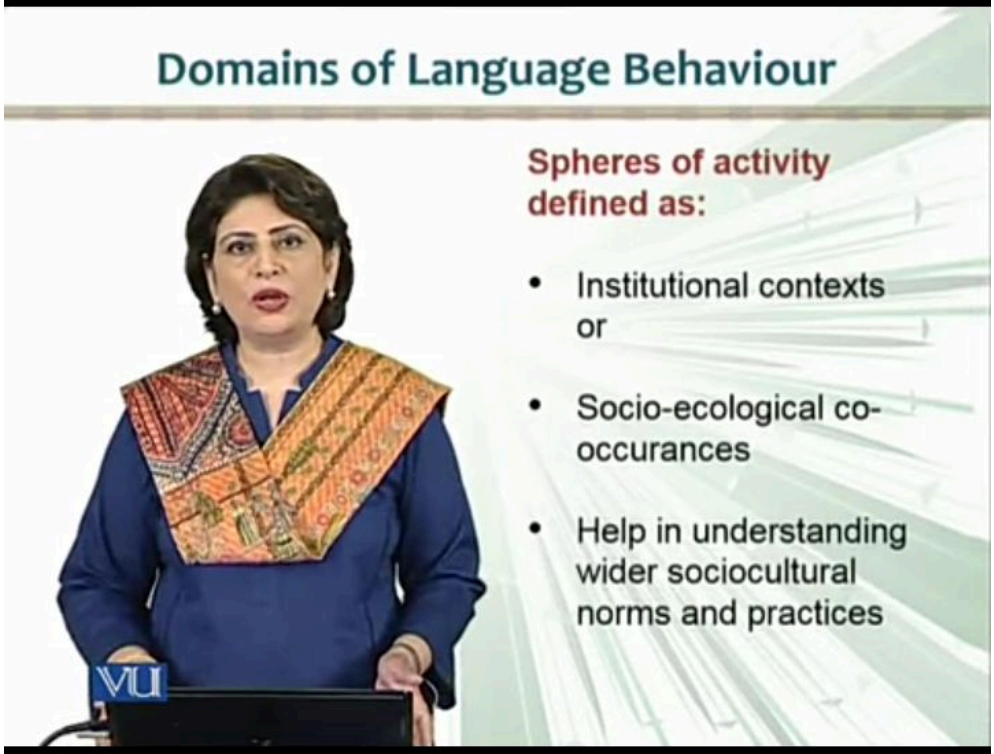

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ENG512_Topic062

Bilingualism

Domain and Contexts: Institutional

0:13 / 6:00

Lesson-12

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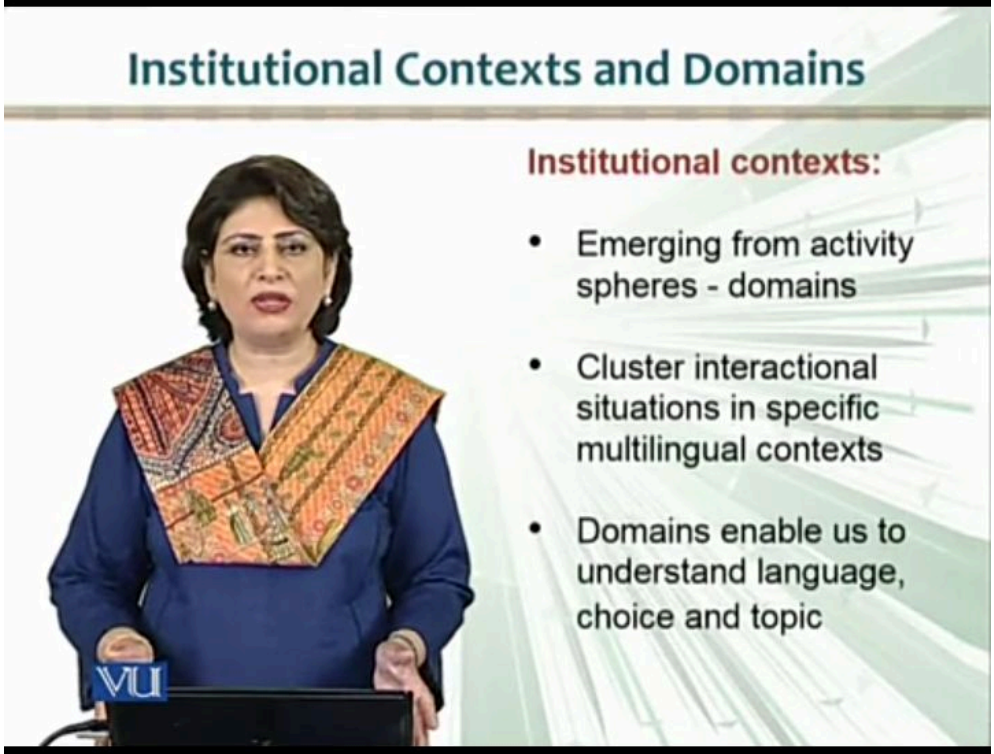

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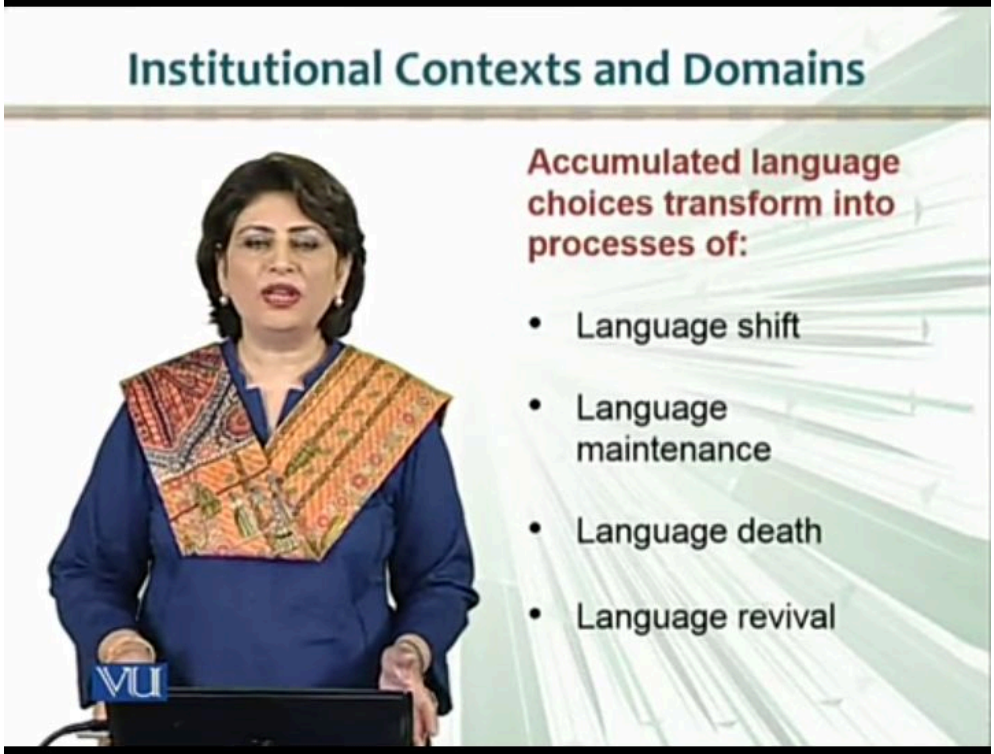

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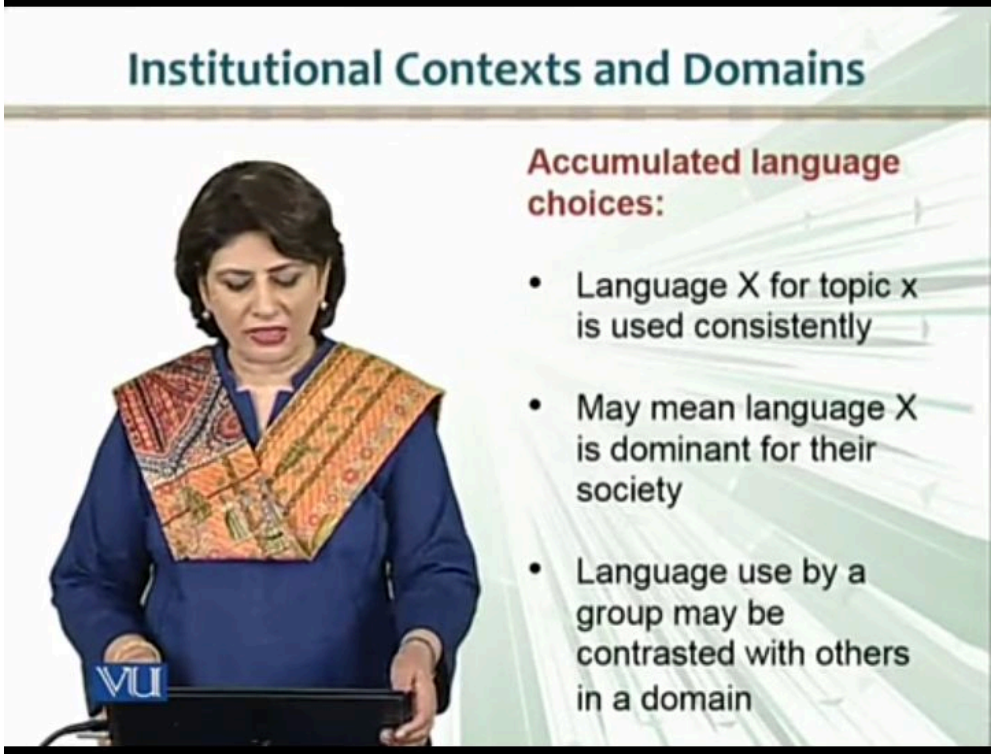

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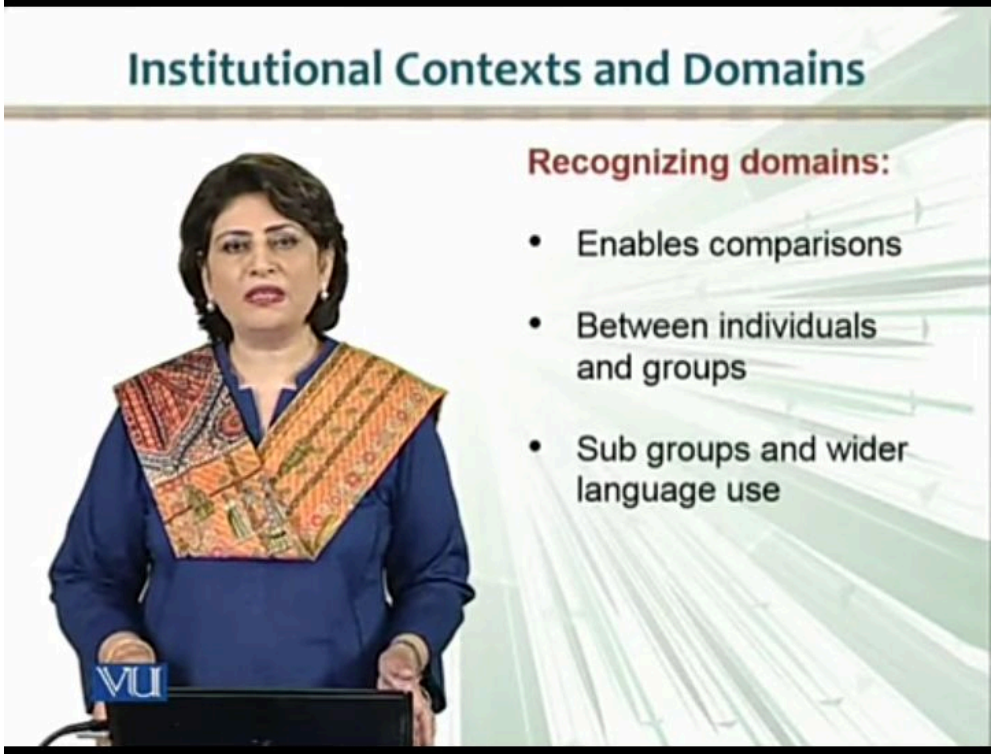

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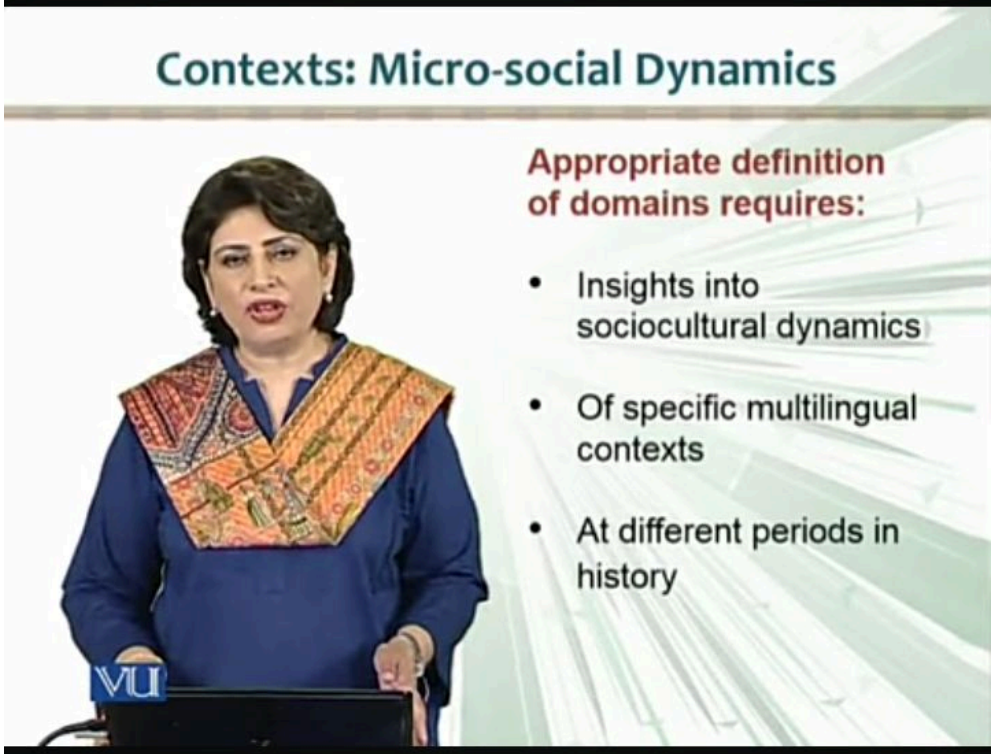

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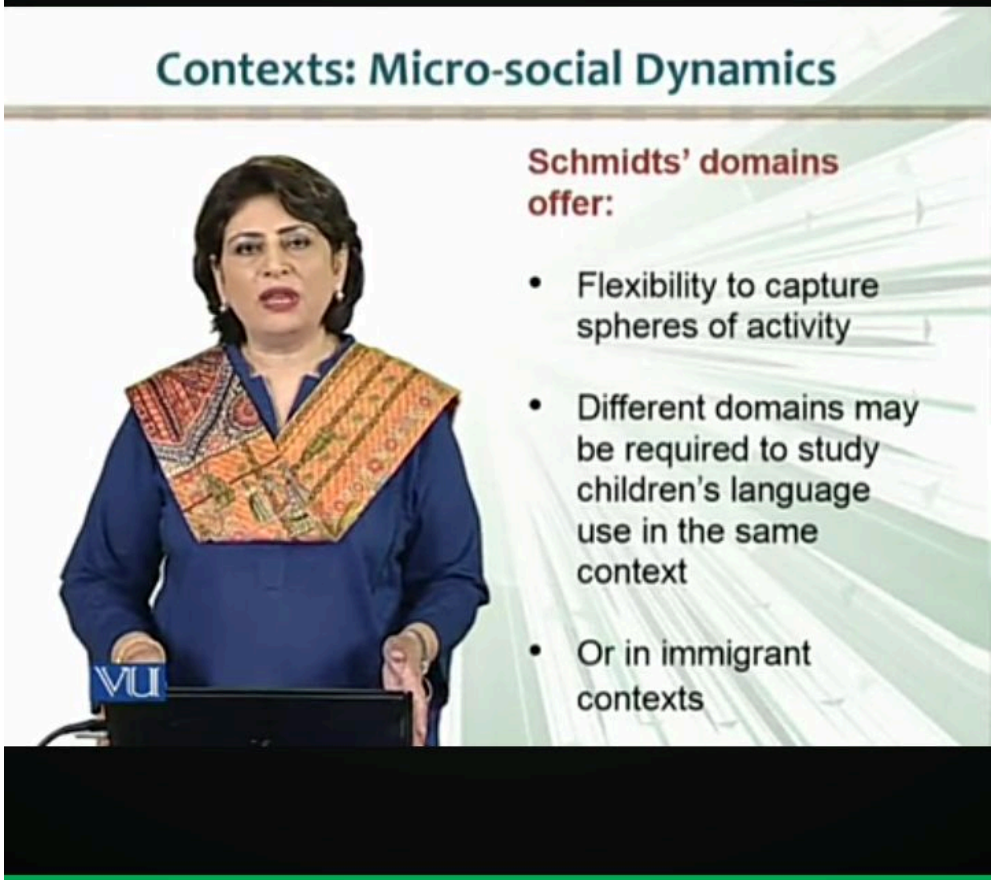

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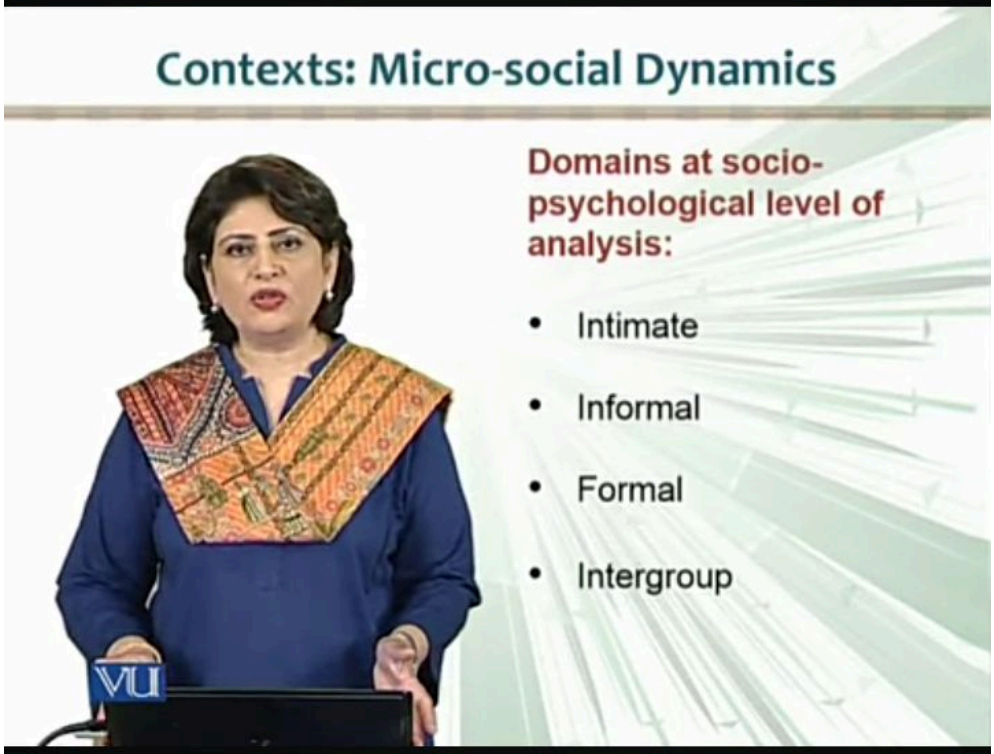

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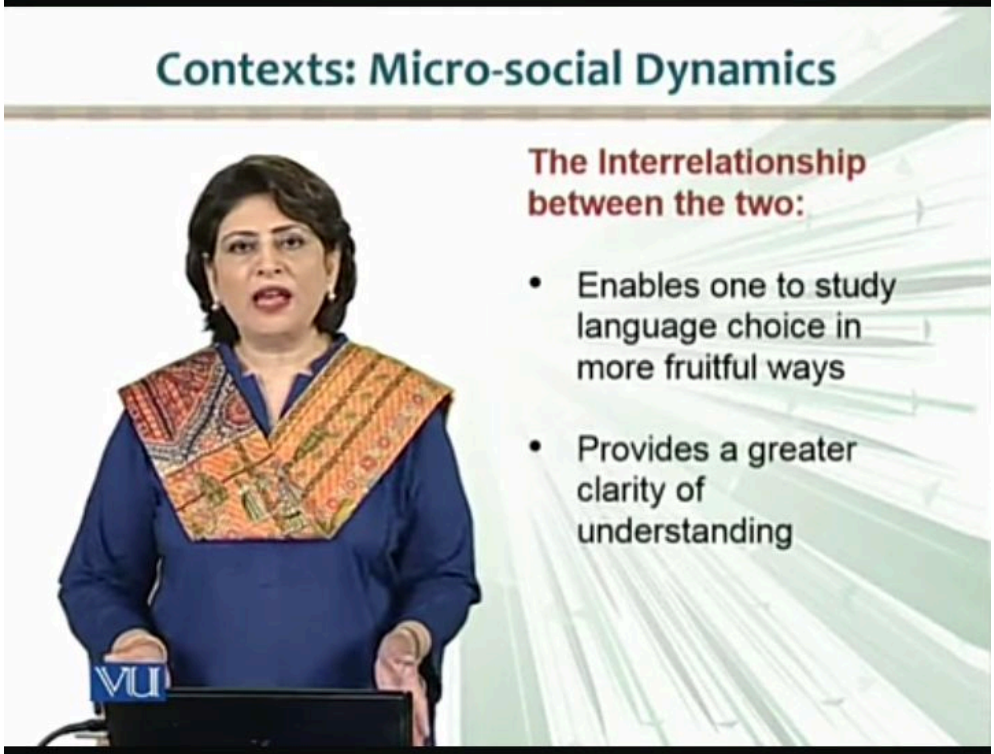

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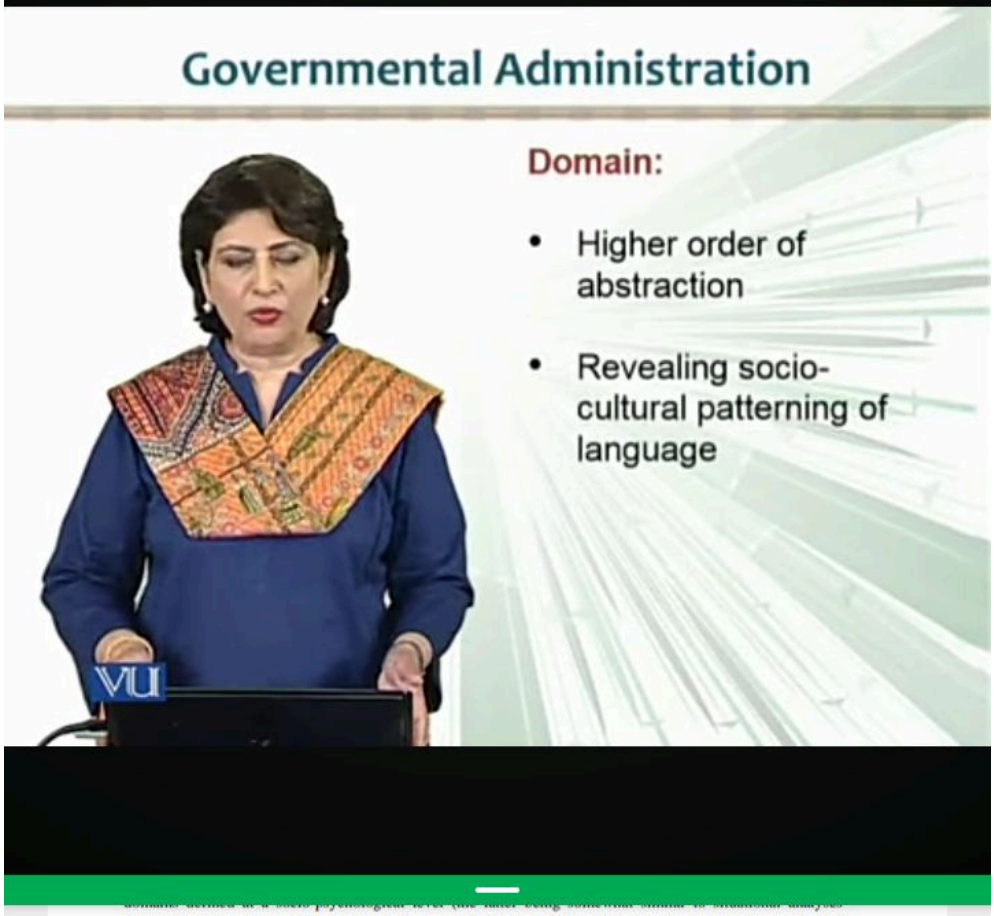

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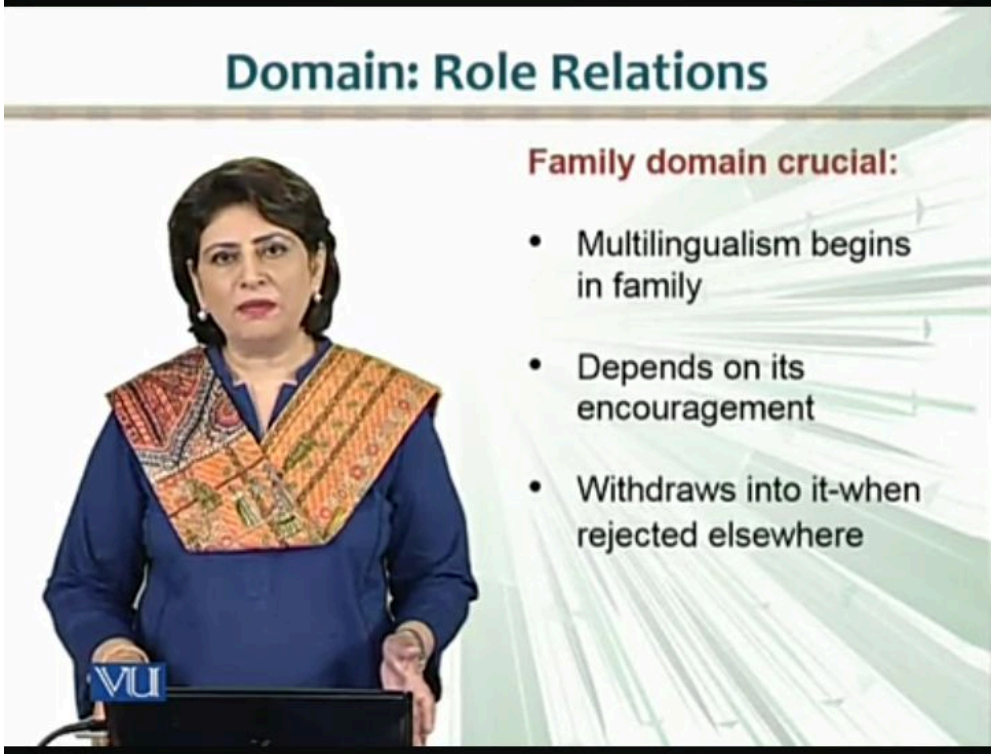

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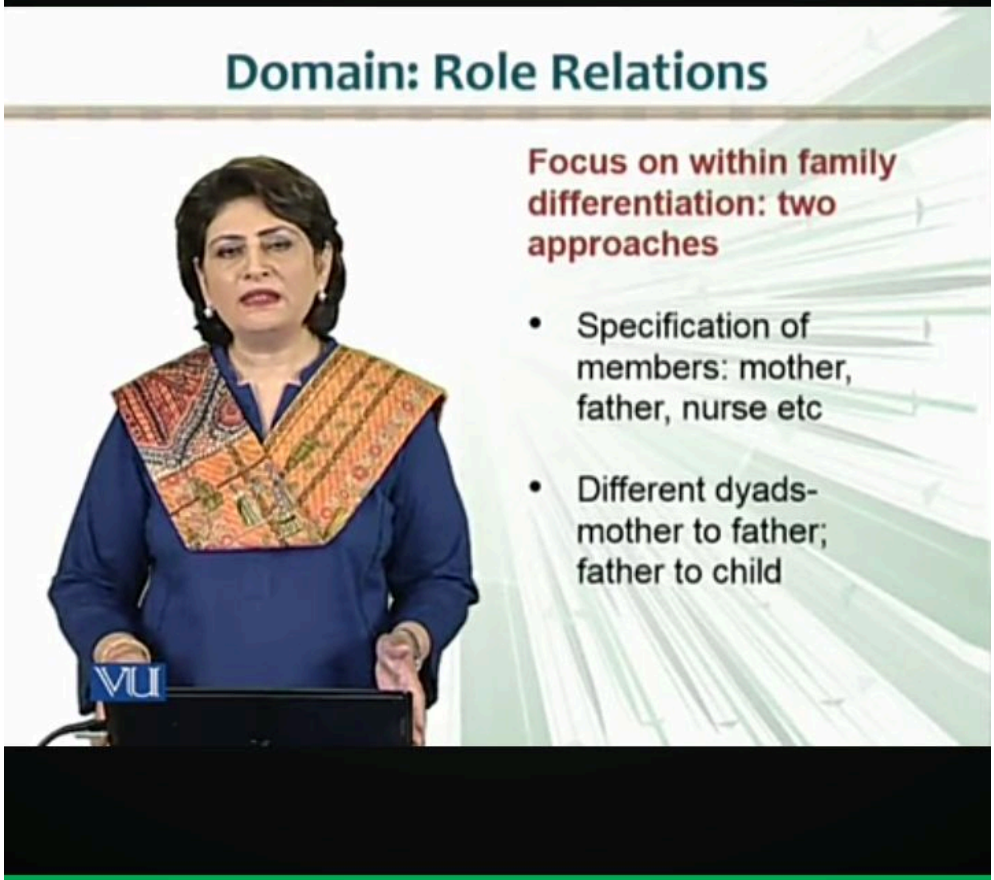

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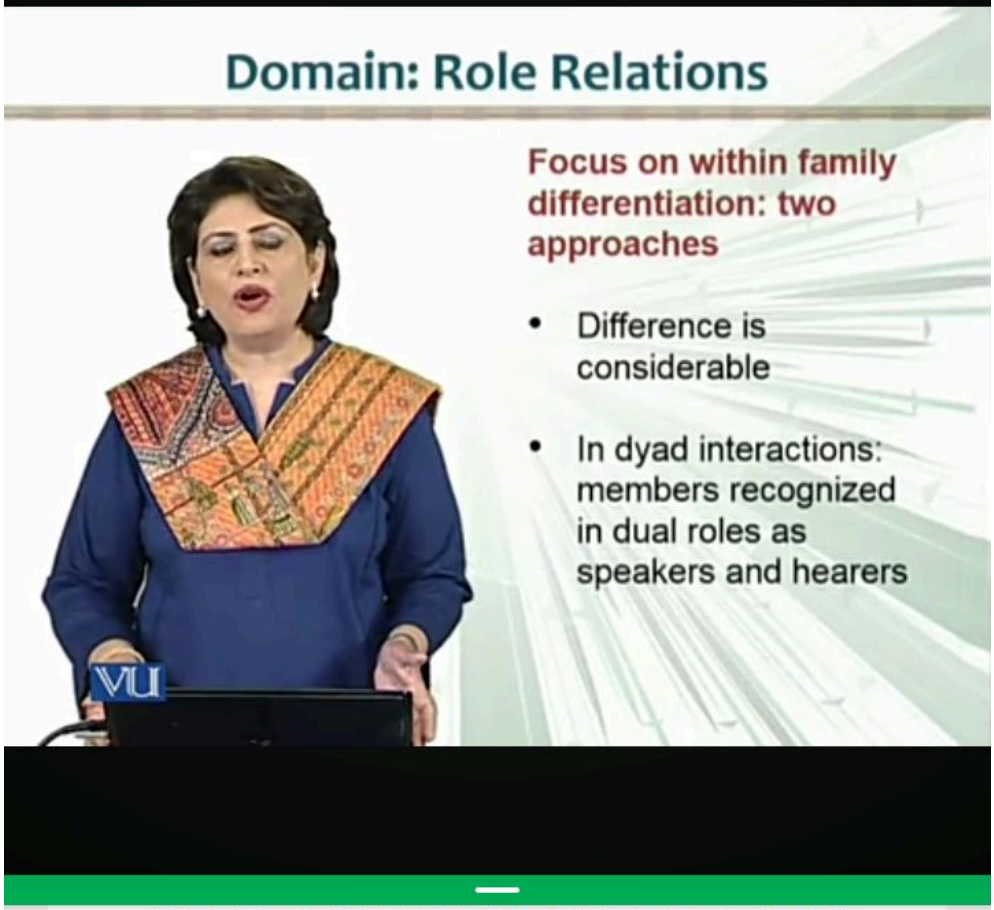

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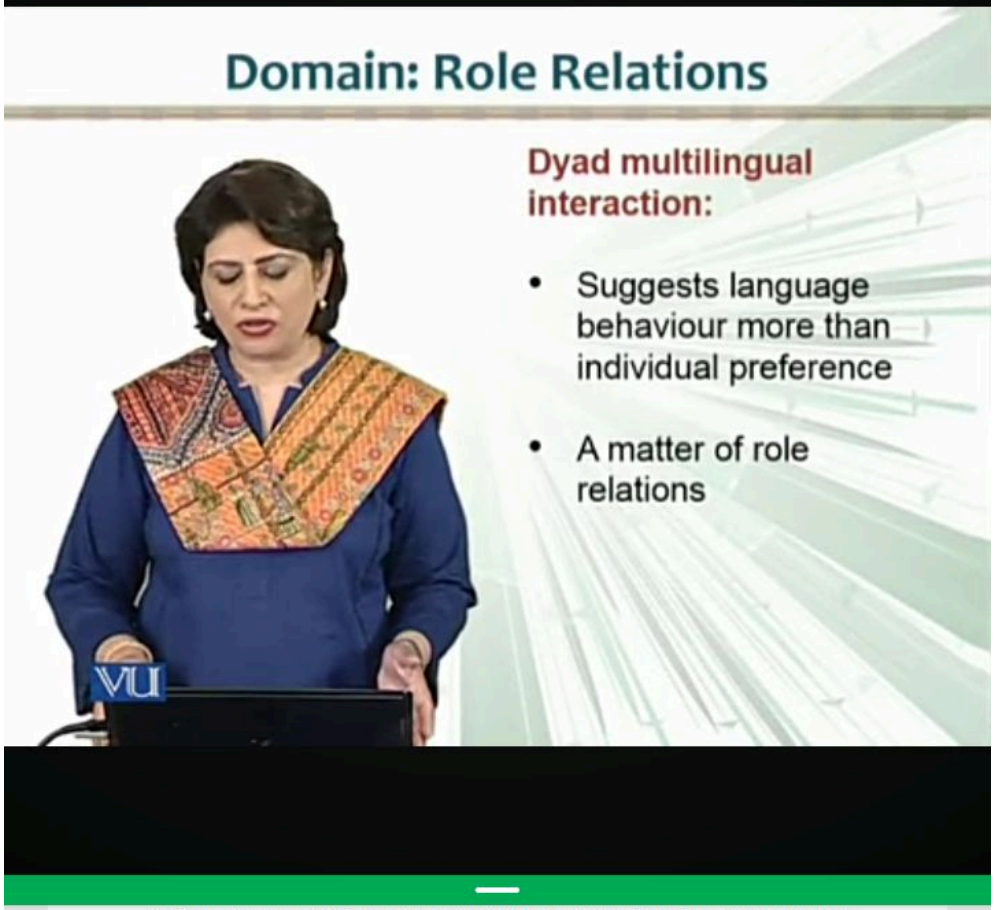

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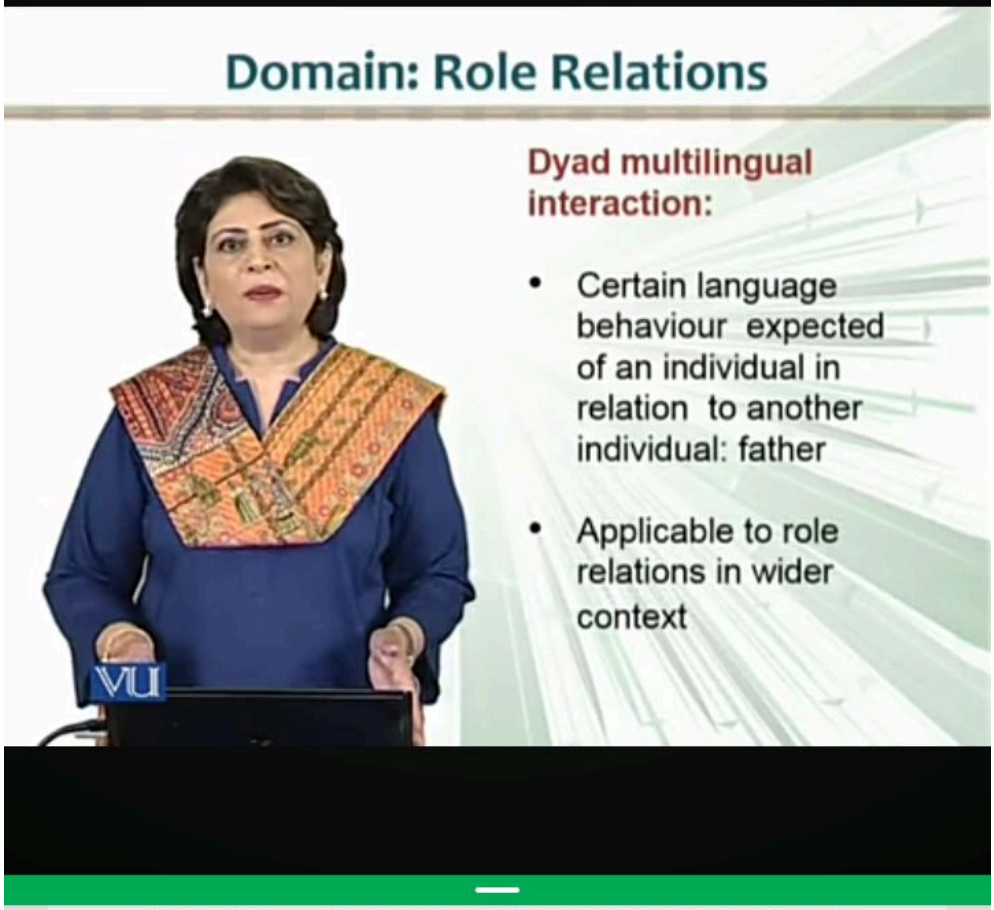

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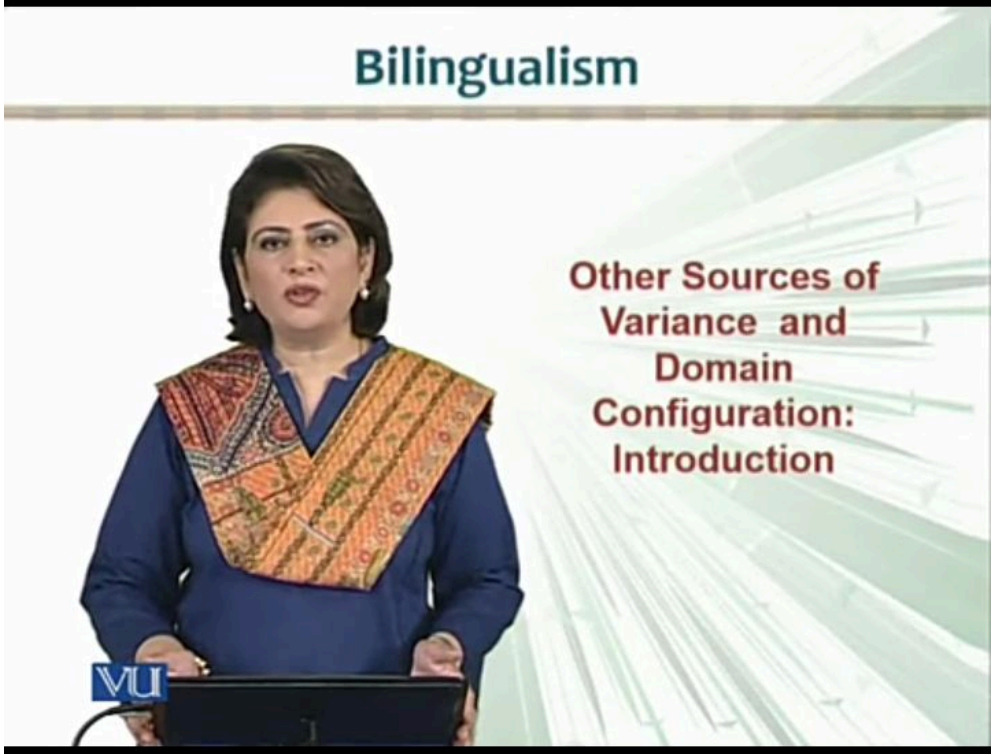

Lesson-13

OTHER SOURCES OF VARIANCE AND DOMAIN CONFIGURATION

Topic No. 066-070

Introduction; Sources of Variation; Domain Configuration; Domain analysis-Contribution; Domain Analysis Challenges

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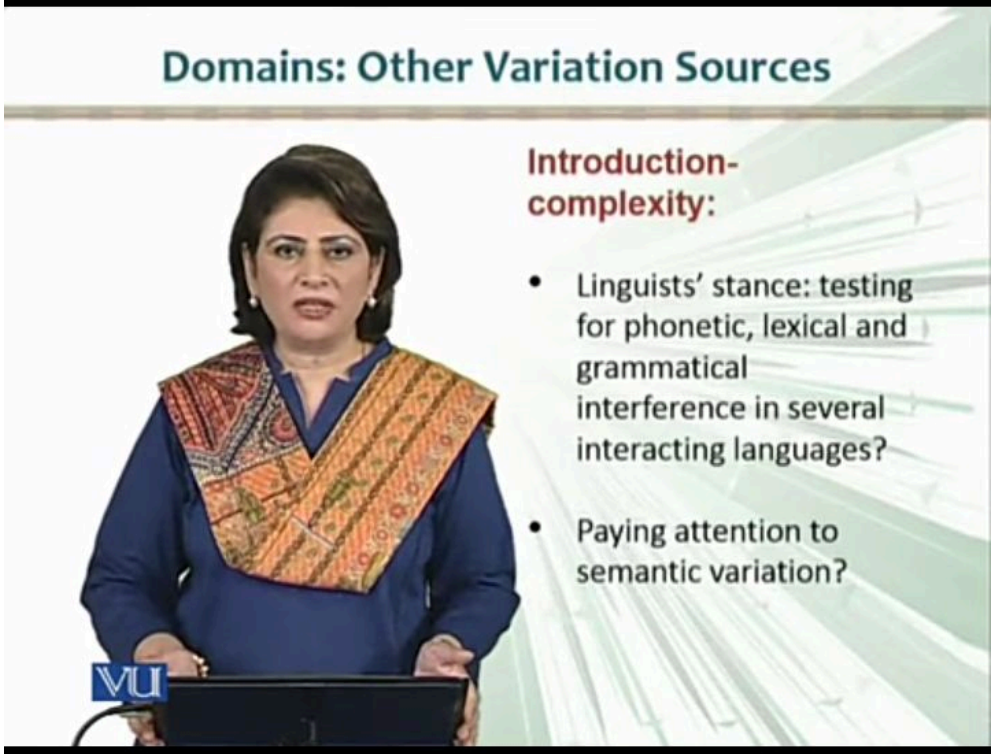

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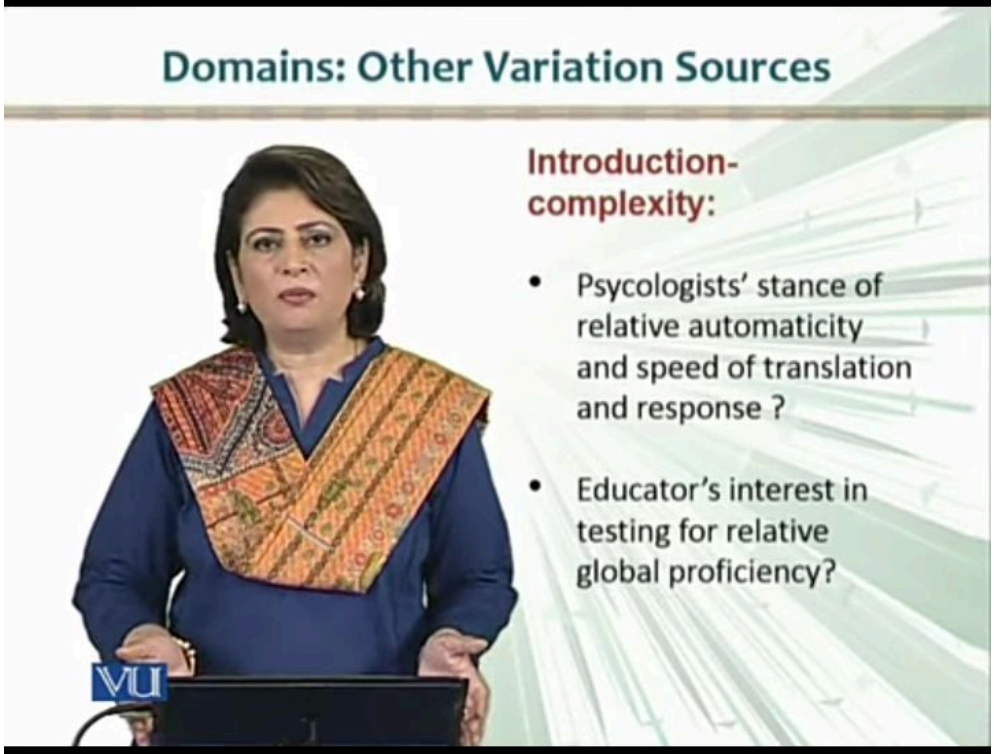

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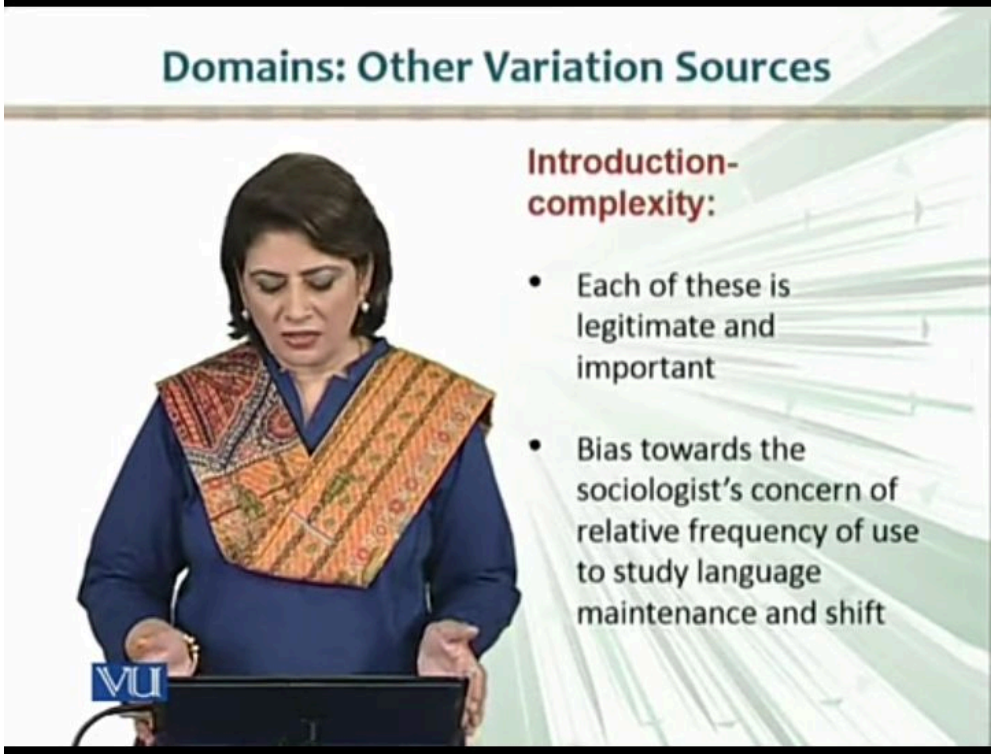

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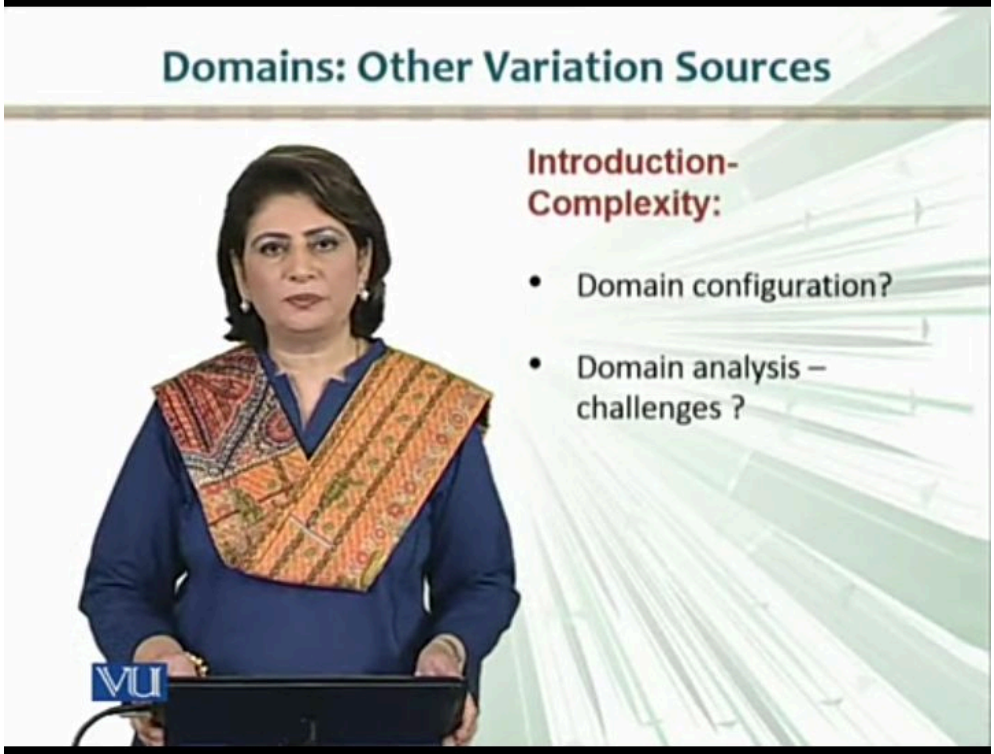

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No connection

Lesson-13

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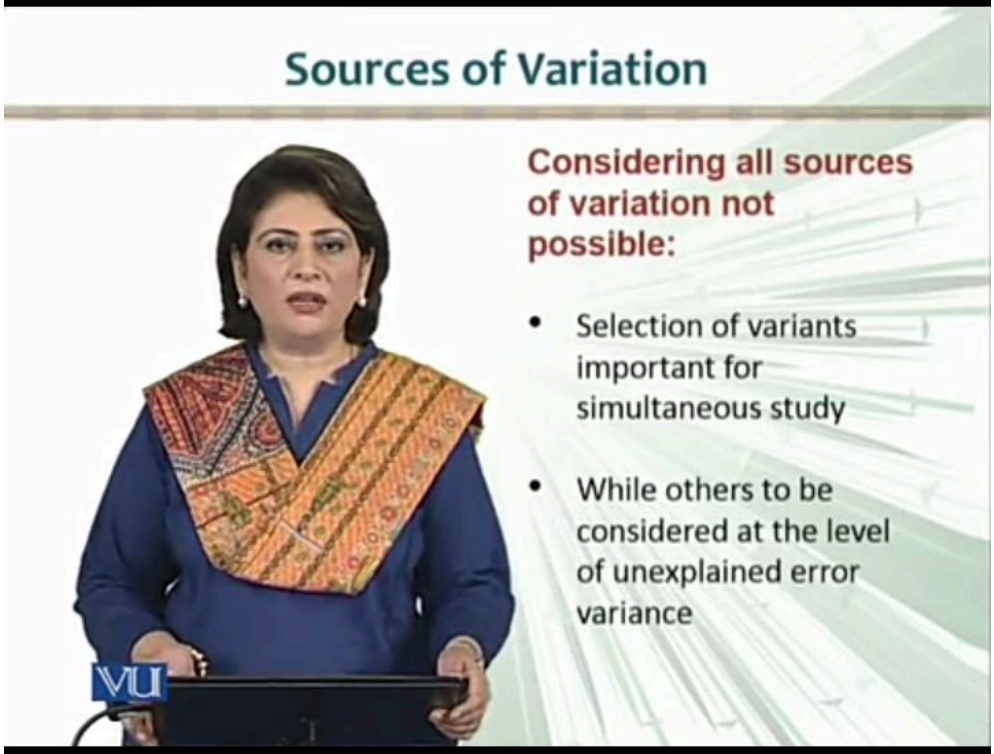

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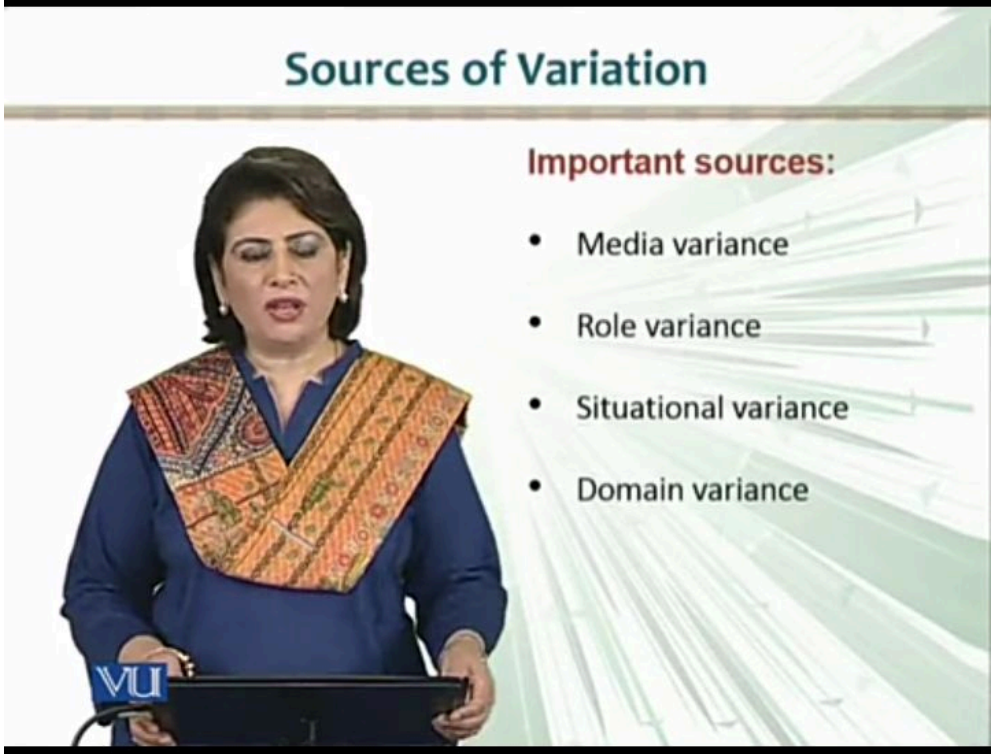

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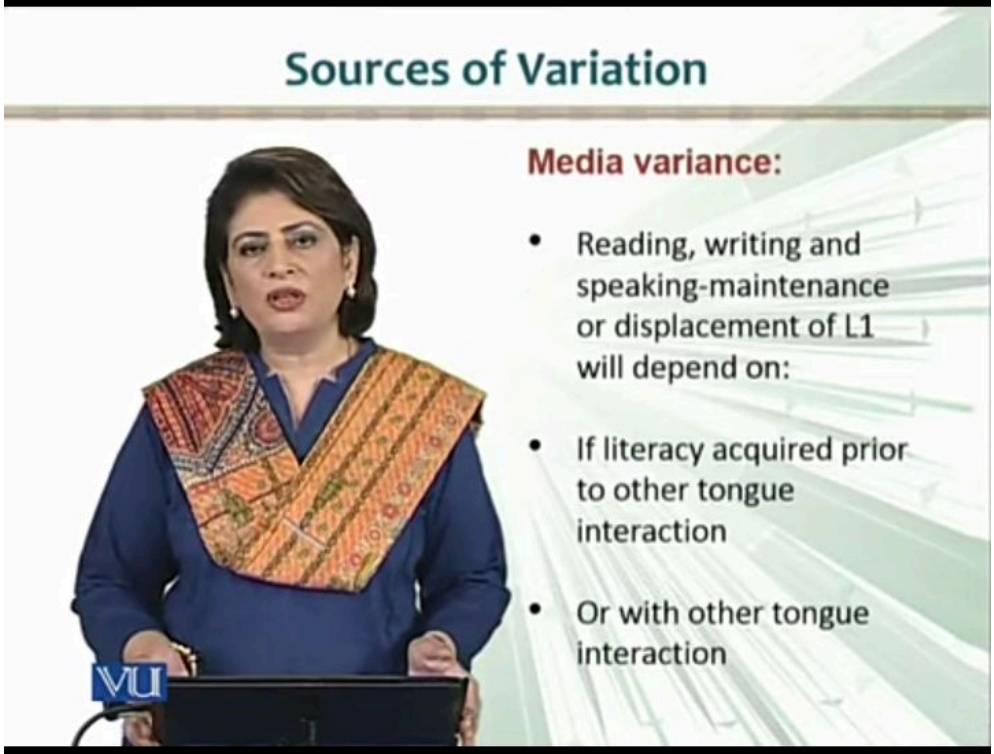

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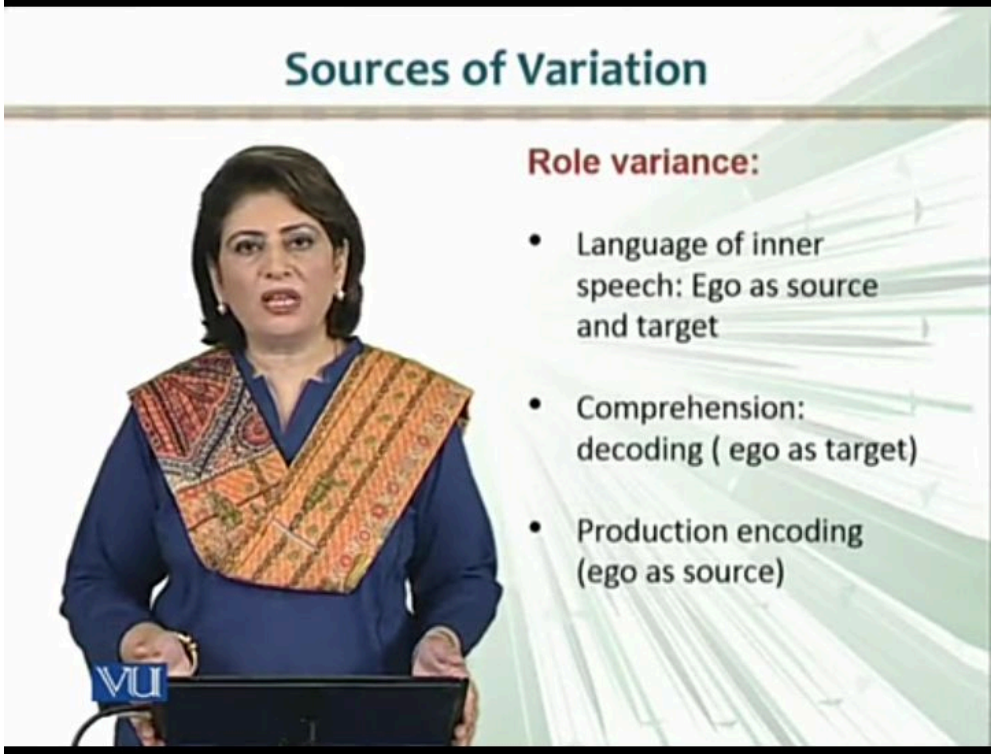

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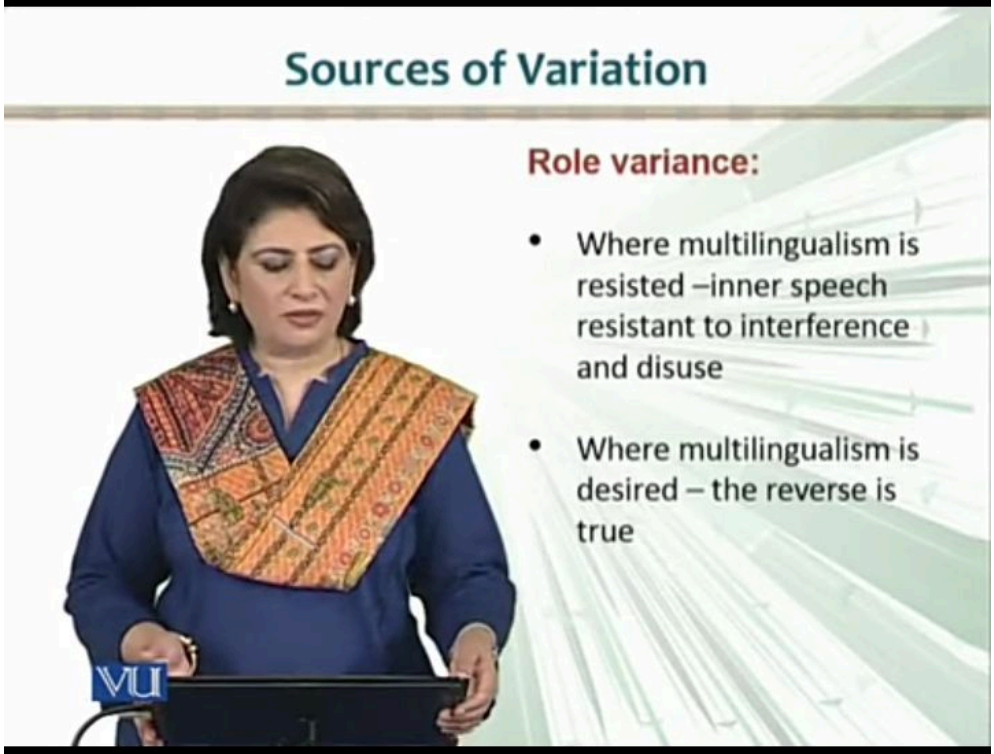

Lesson-13

OTHER SOURCES OF VARIANCE AND DOMAIN CONFIGURATION

Topic No. 066-070

Introduction; Sources of Variation; Domain Configuration; Domain analysis-Contribution; Domain Analysis Challenges

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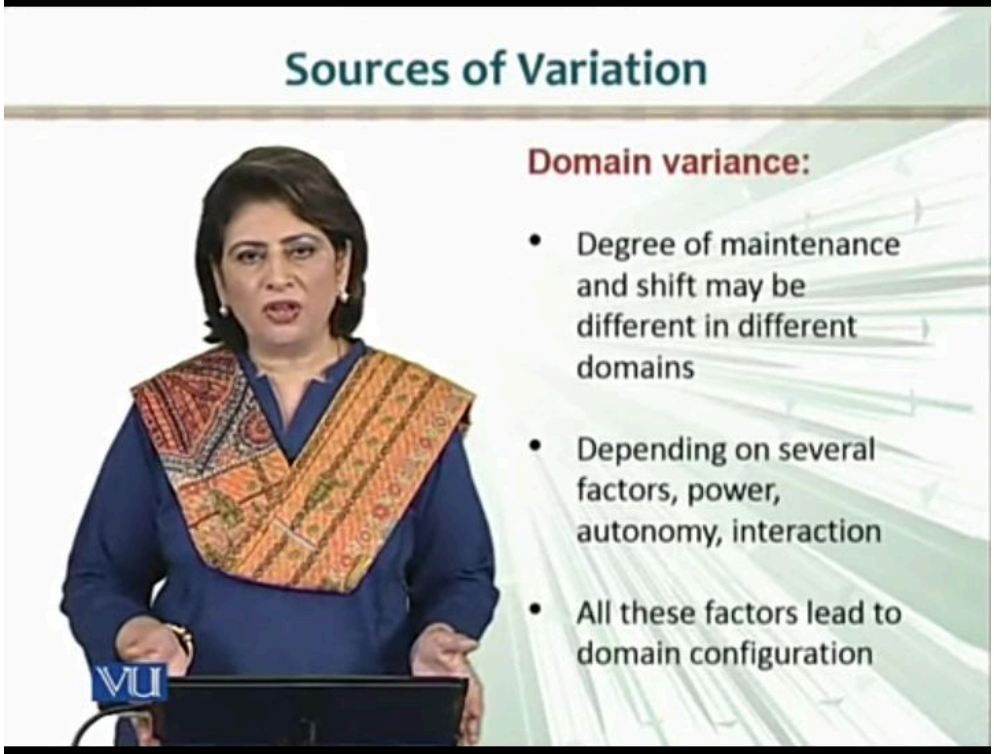

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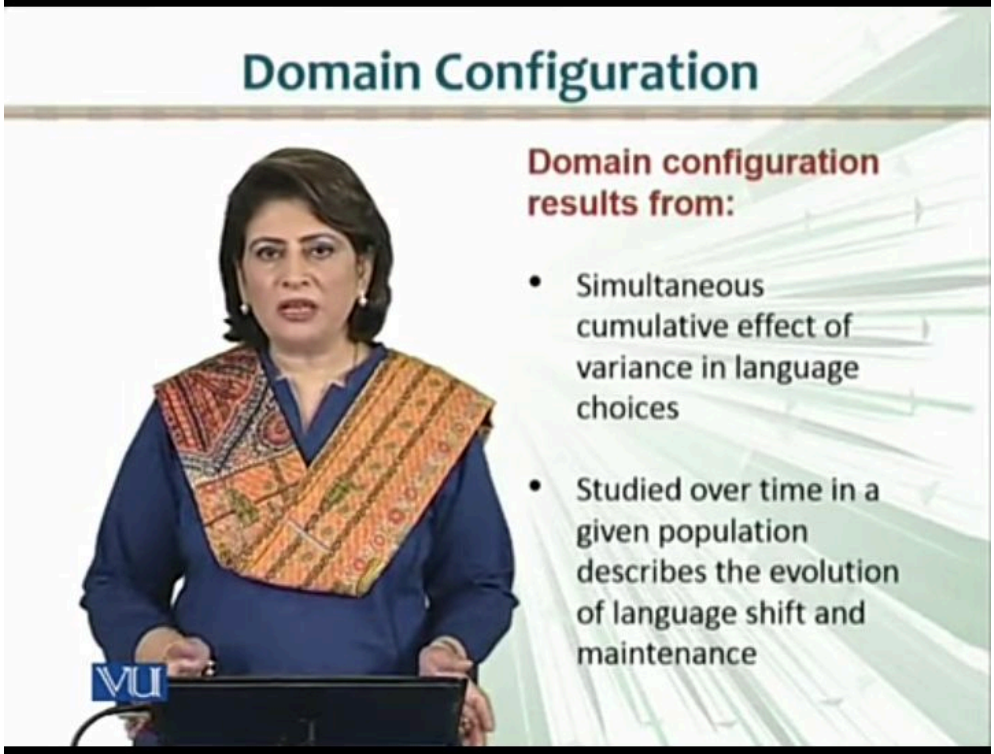

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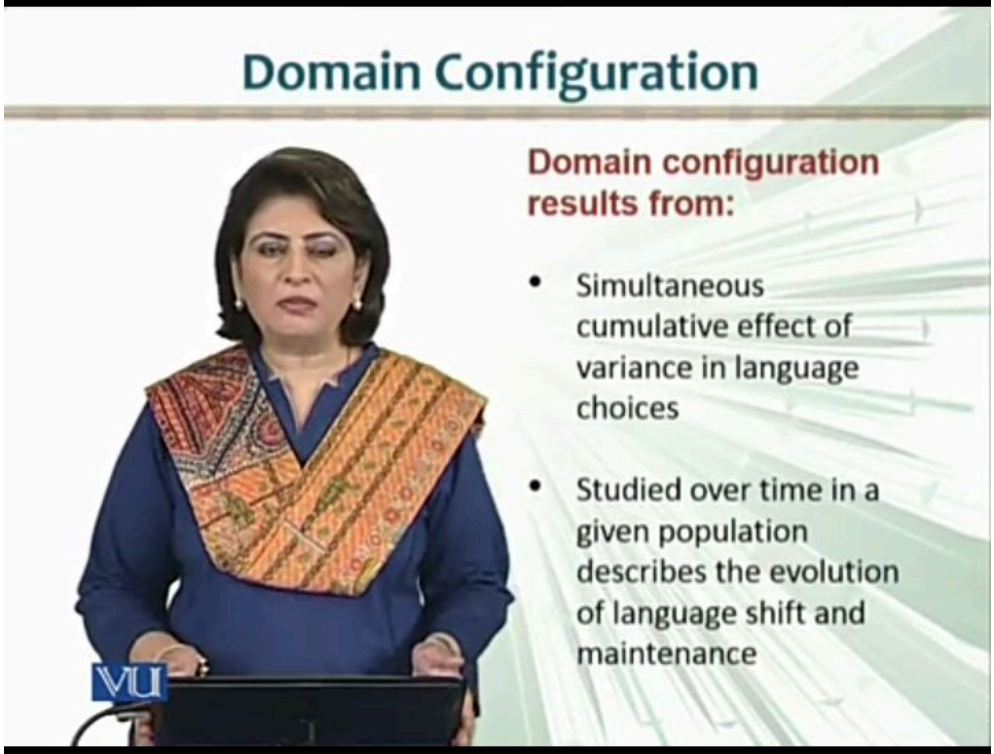

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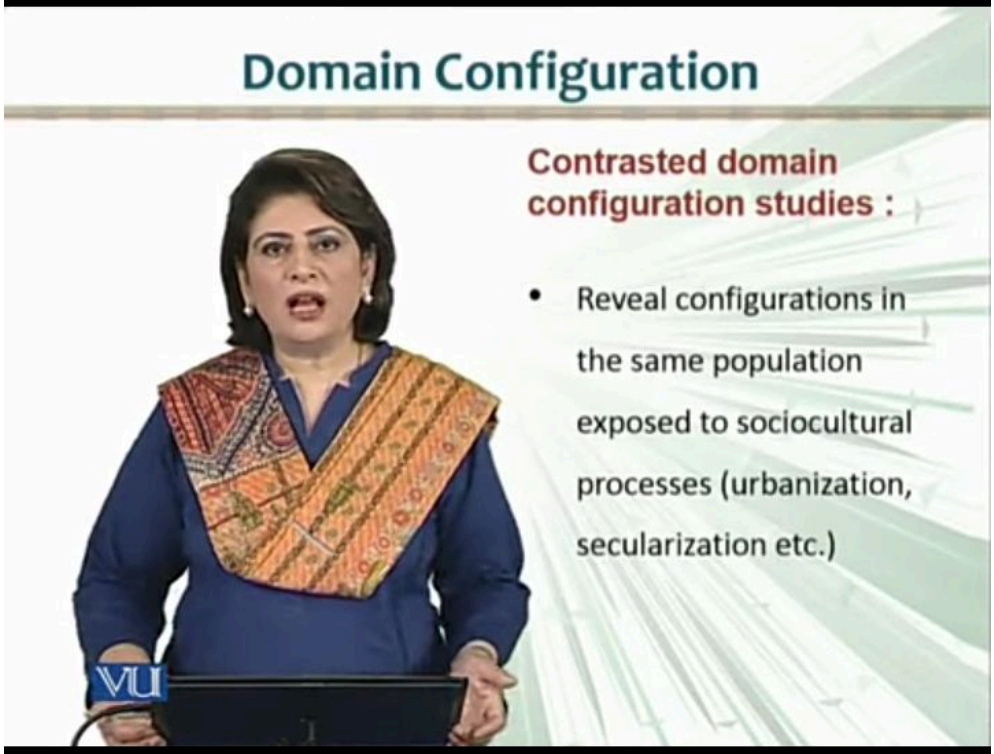

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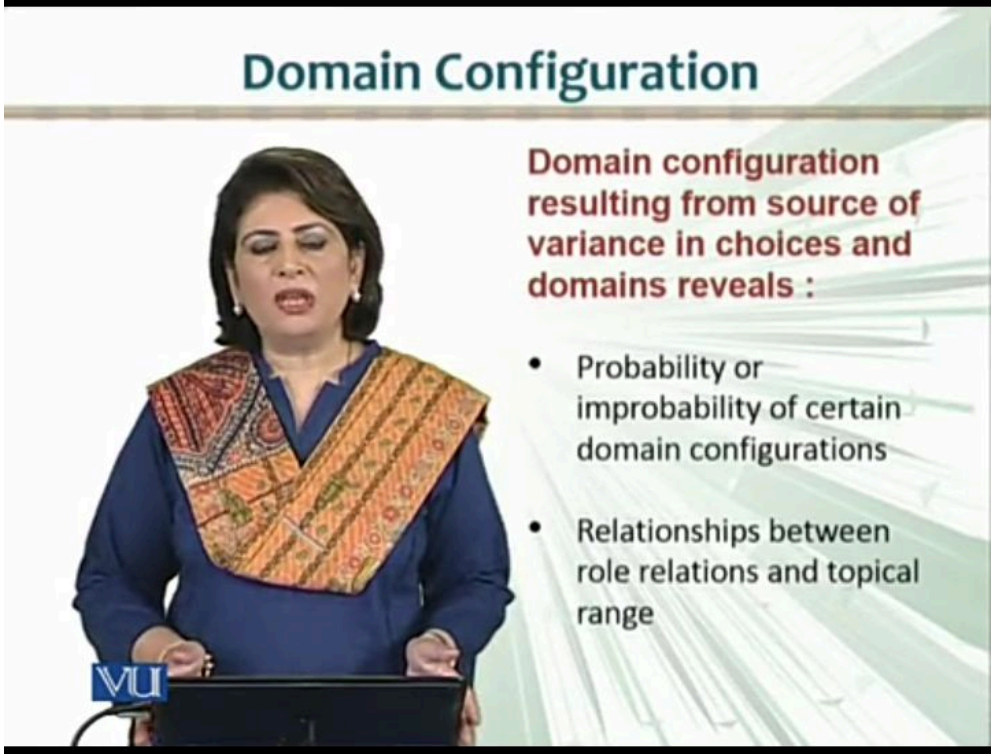

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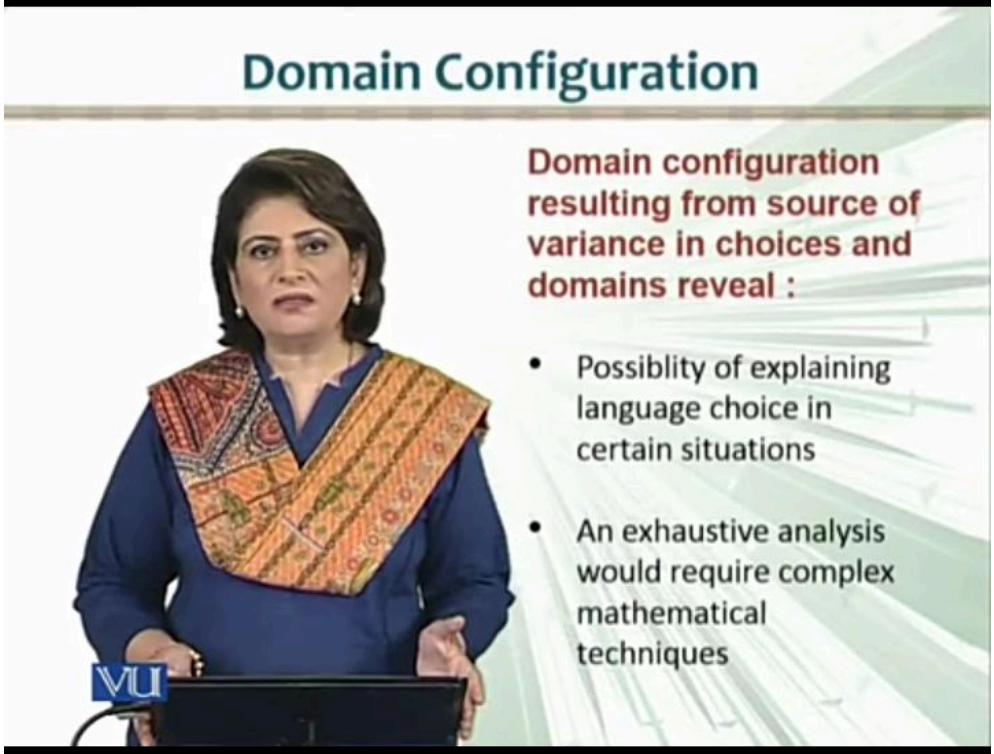

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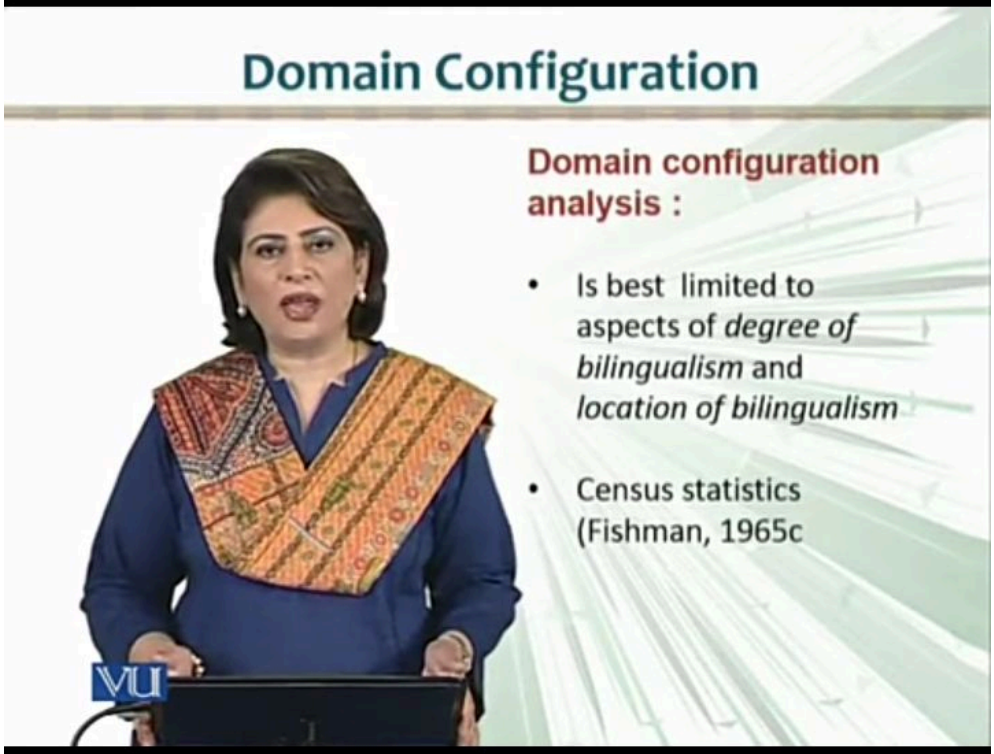

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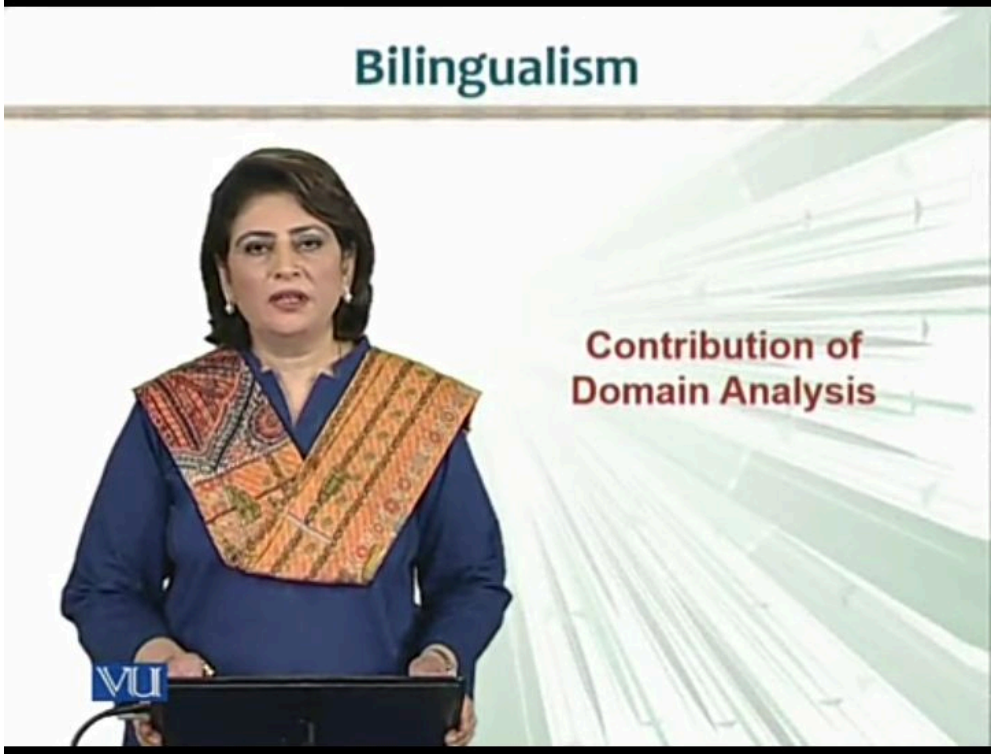

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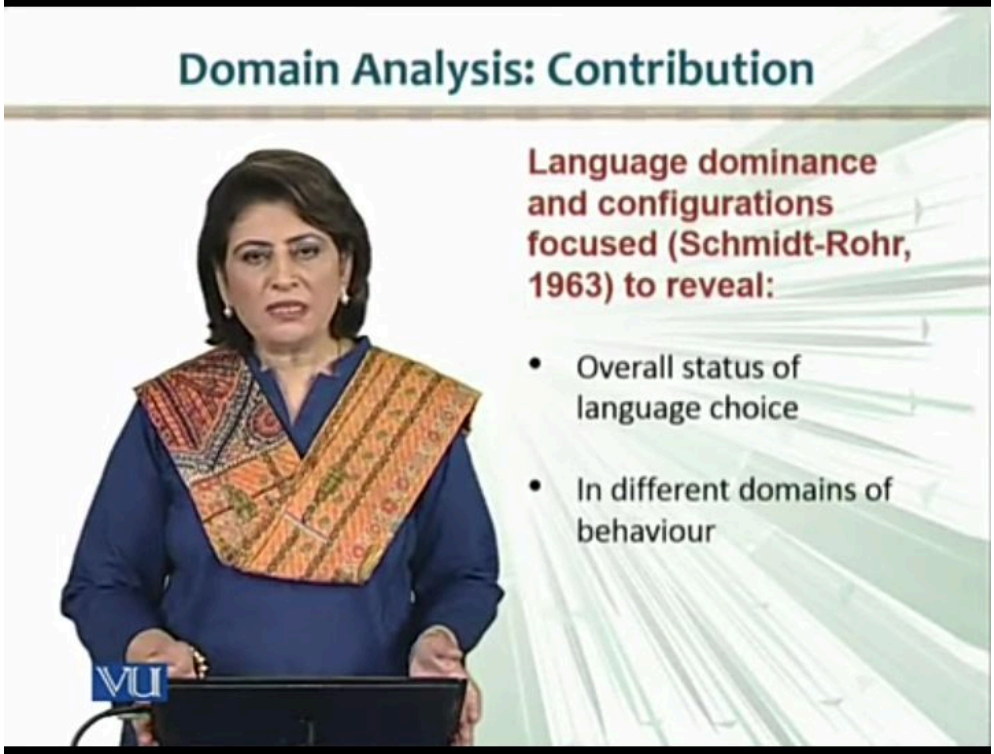

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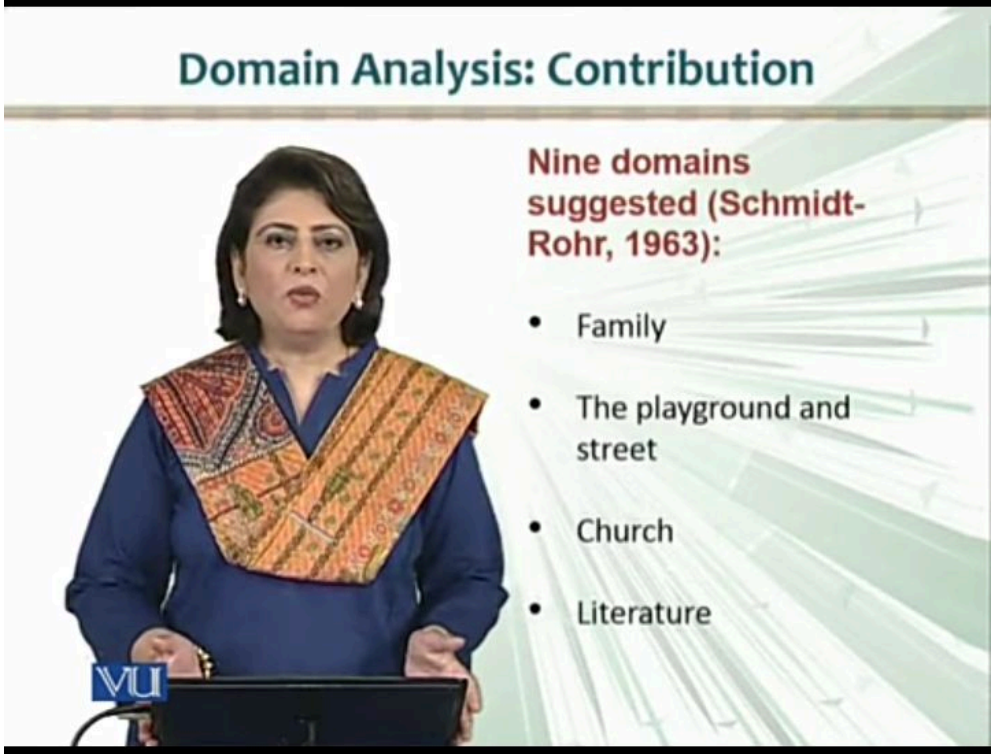

Lesson-13

OTHER SOURCES OF VARIANCE AND DOMAIN CONFIGURATION

Topic No. 066-070

Introduction; Sources of Variation; Domain Configuration; Domain analysis-Contribution; Domain Analysis Challenges

Variance in language behaviour in multilingual settings is likely to be exceedingly complex. For highlighting patterns of language choice in multilingual settings, it would seem appropriate to distinguish at least between the following sources of variance:

1. Media variance: writing, reading and speaking: Degree of mother tongue maintenance or displacement may be quite different in each of these very different media. Where literacy has been attained *prior* to interaction with an "other tongue" reading and writing use of the mother tongue may resist displacement longer than speaking usage.

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3. Situational variance: Degree of maintenance or shift may be quite different in conjunction with *more formal, less formal* and *intimate* communication (Fishman, 1965a). Language shift is resisted more in intimate situations.

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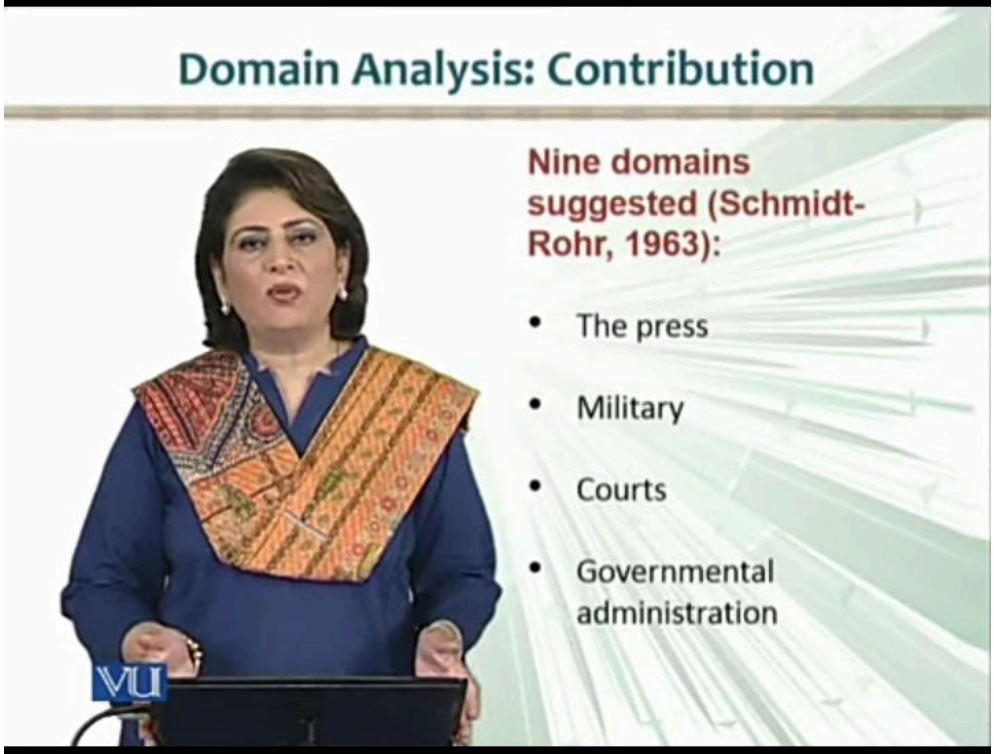

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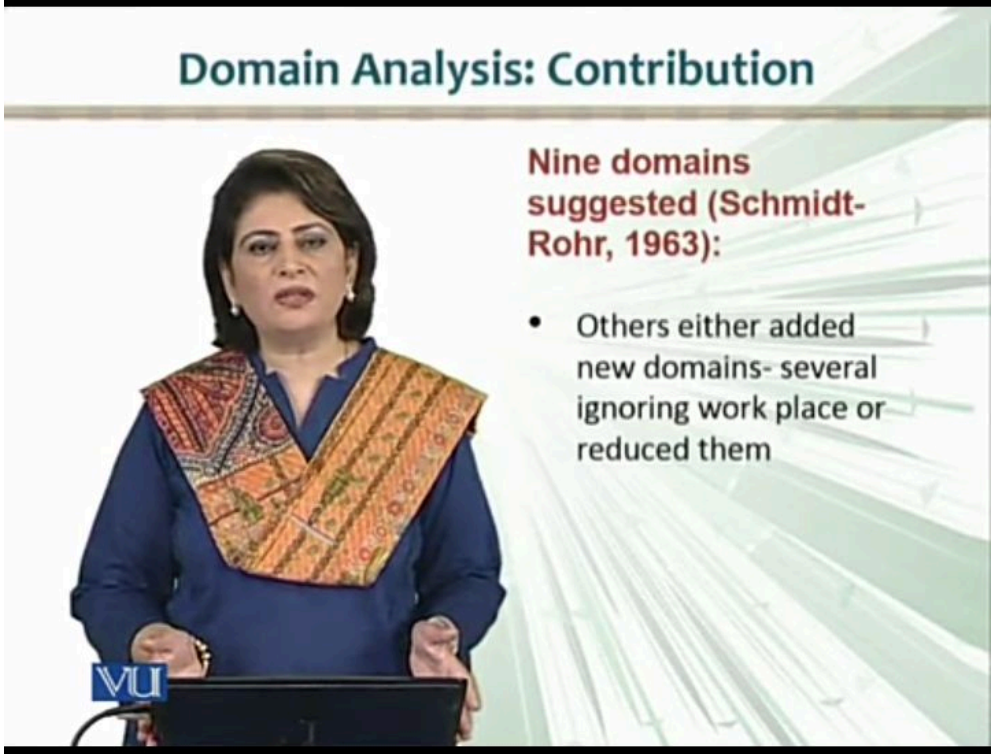

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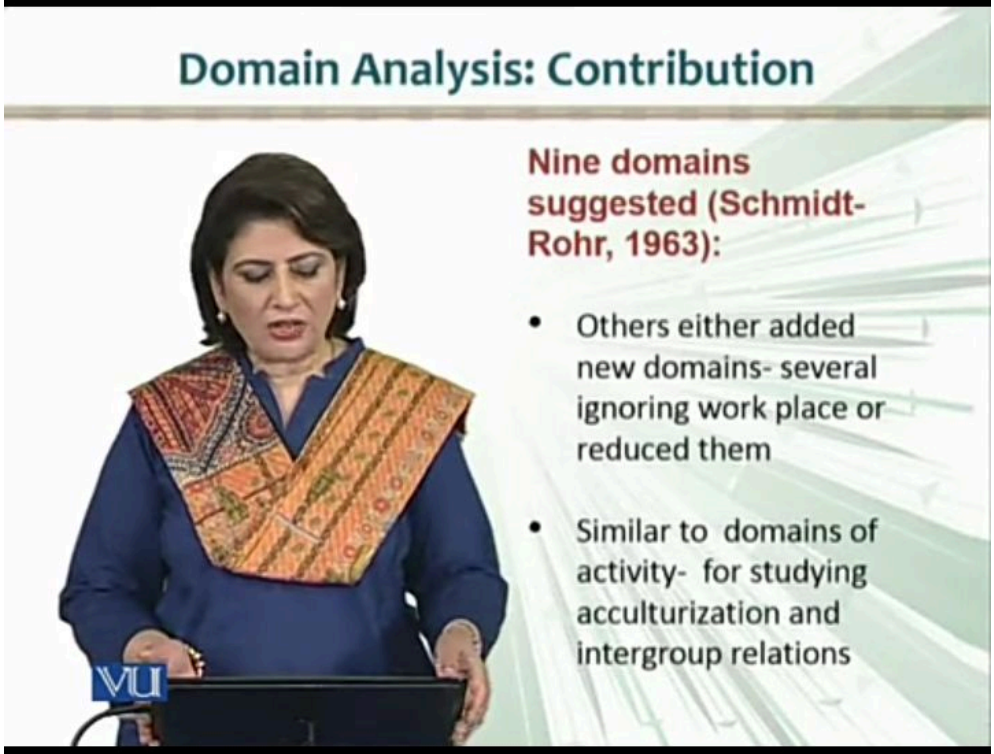

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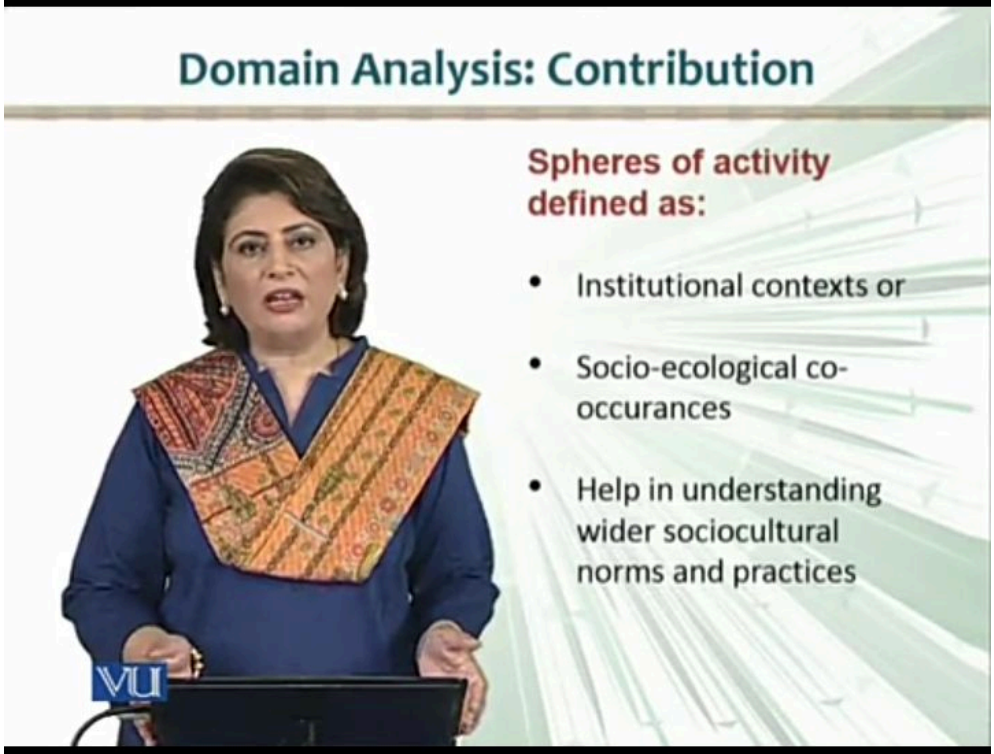

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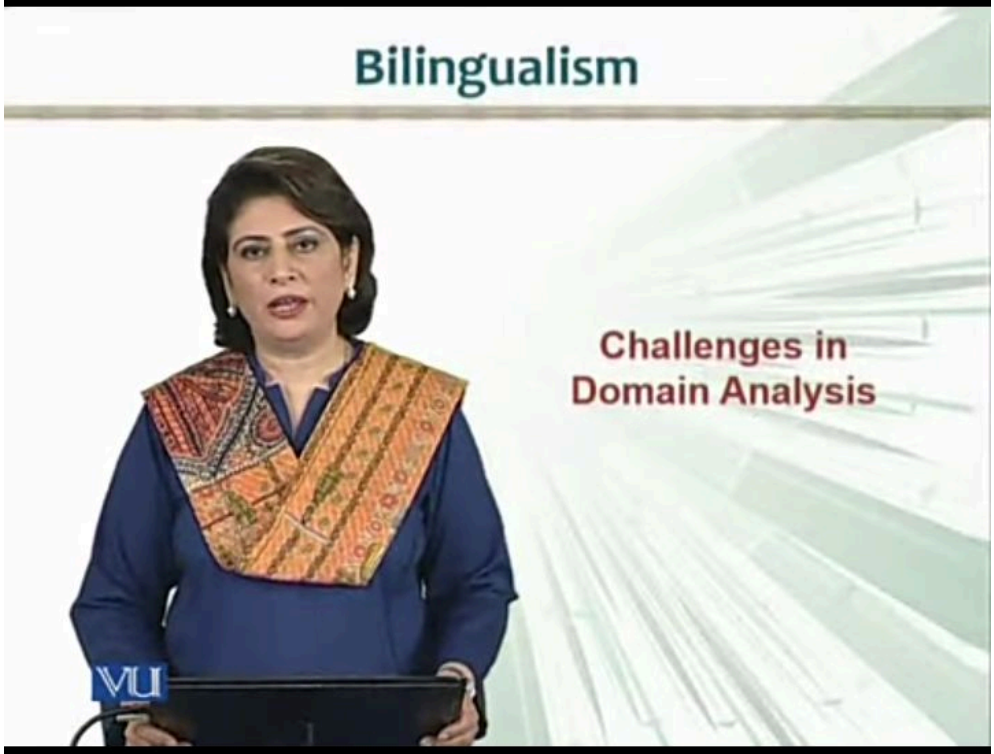

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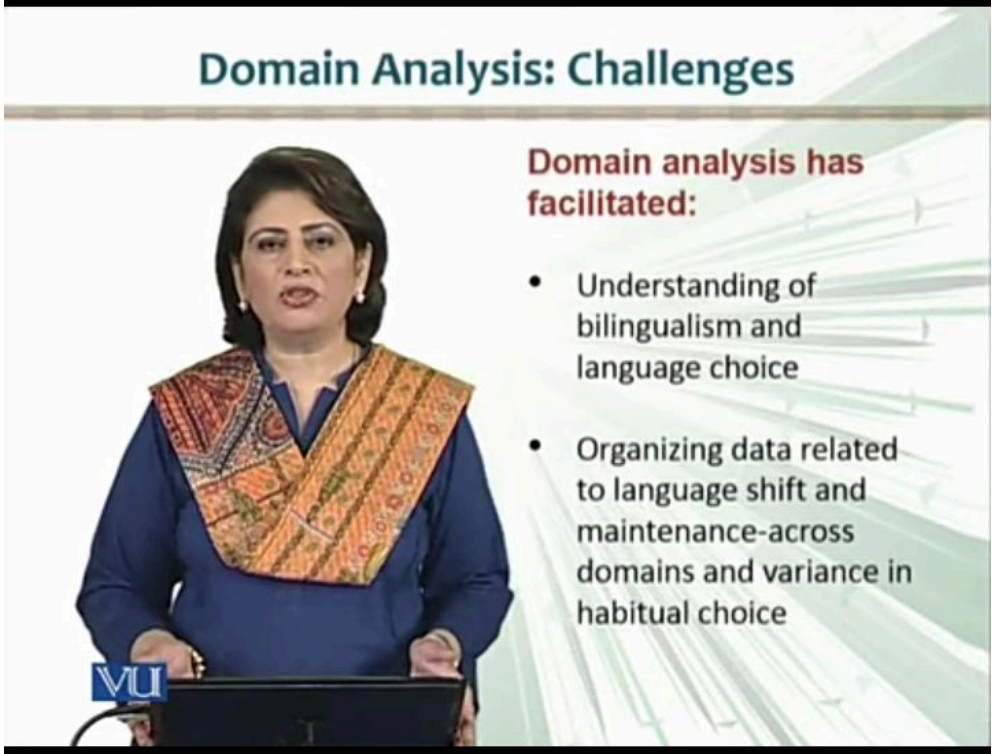

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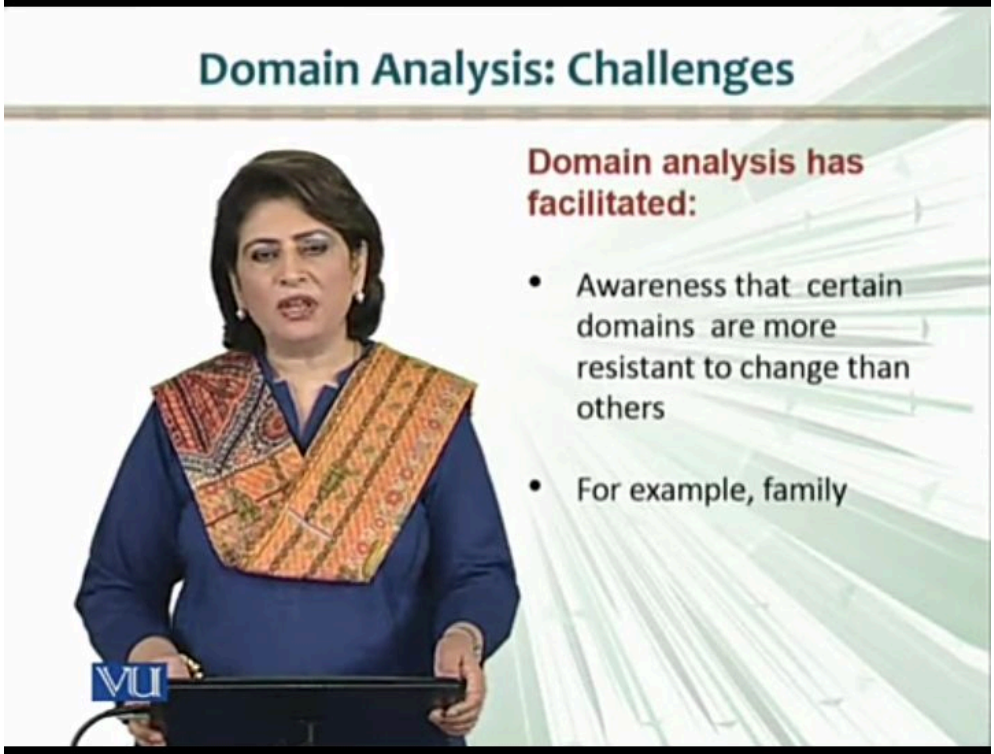

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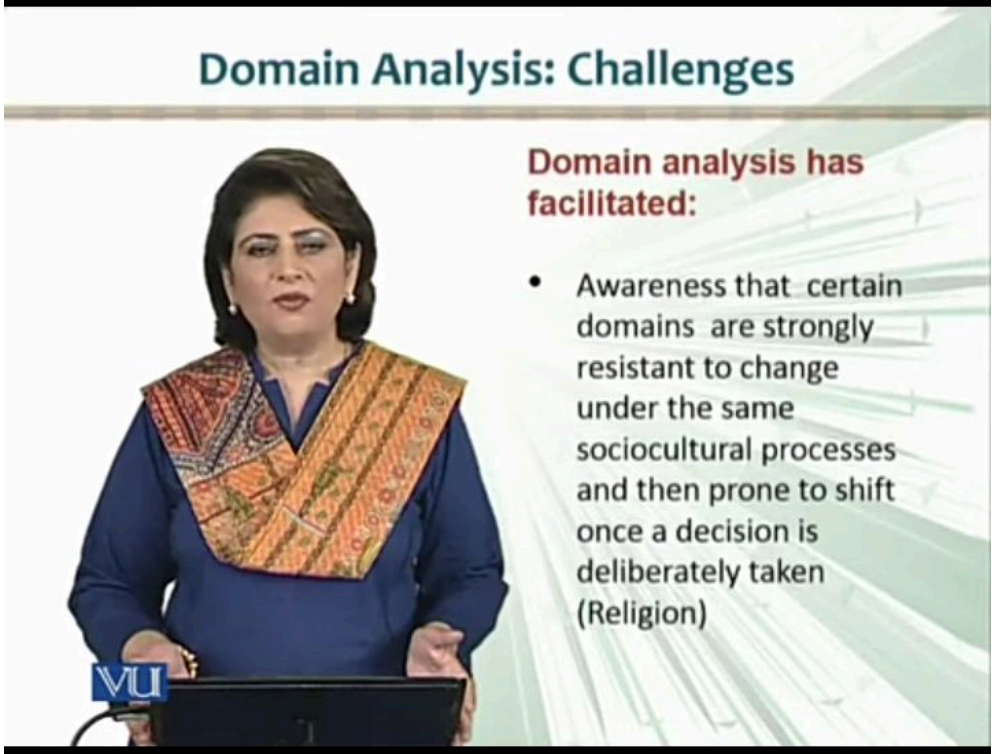

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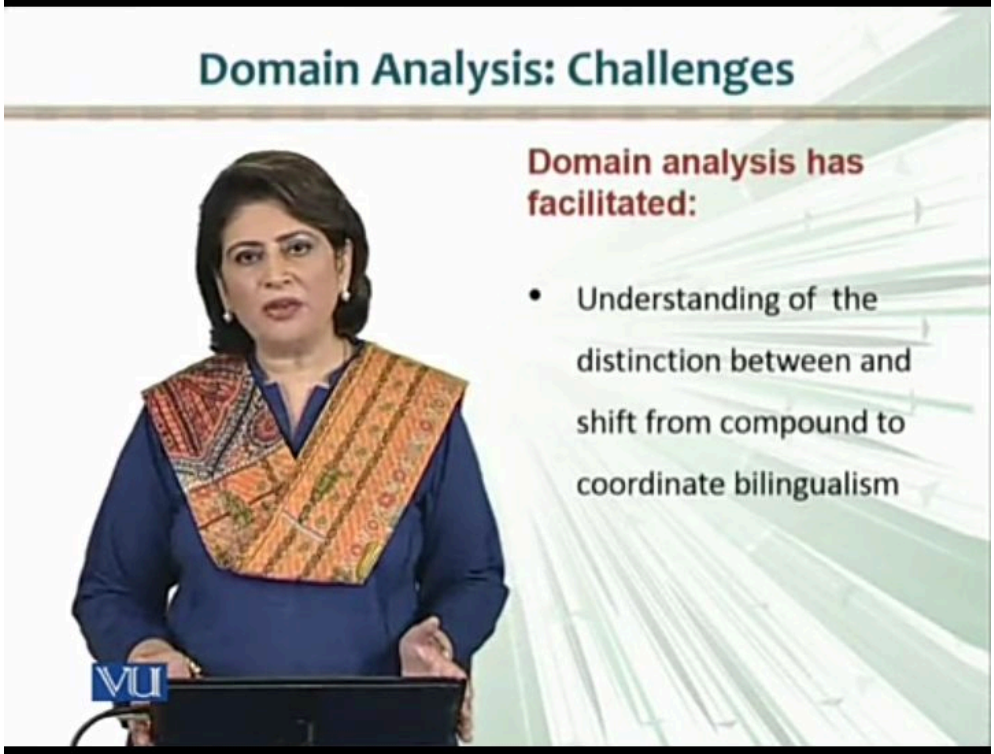

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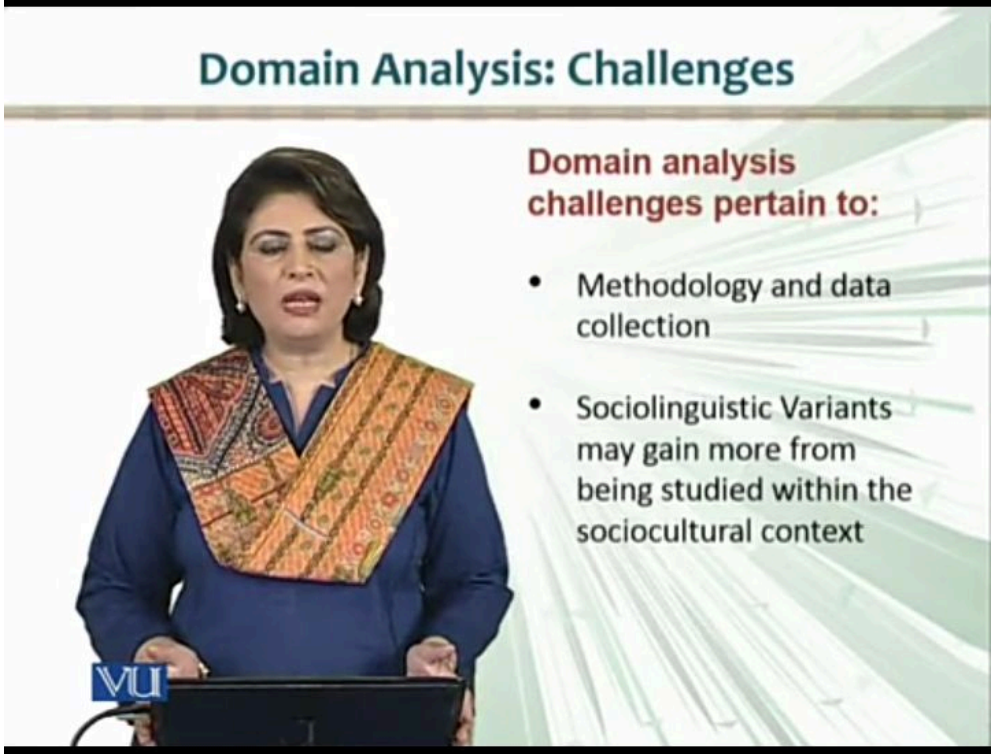

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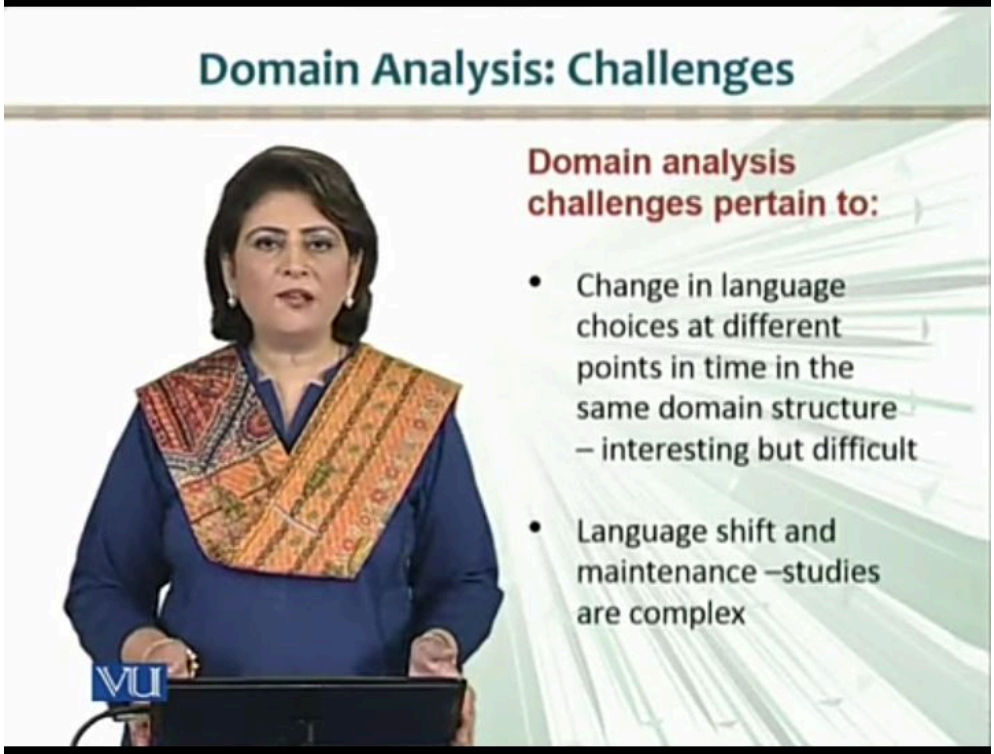

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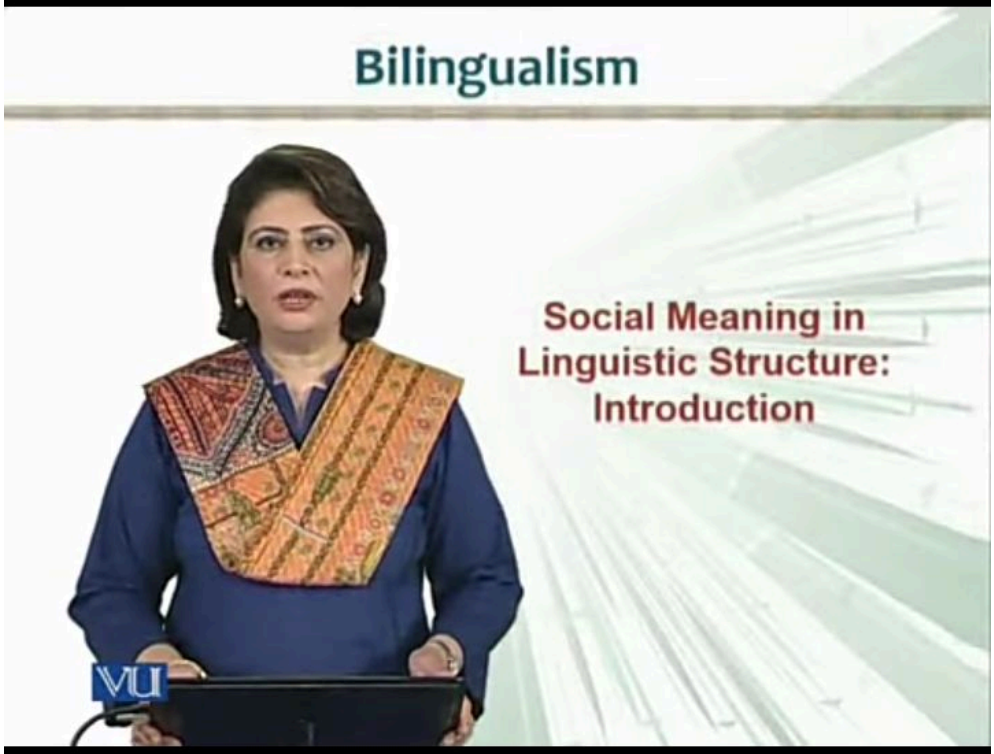

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Lesson-14

SOCIAL MEANING IN LINGUISTIC STRUCTURE

Topic No. 071-077

Introduction-Social Meaning in Linguistic Structure; Dialect and Group Membership; Regularity in Social Meanings; Constraints; Time, Setting, Situation and Event; Situational Code –Switching; Interactional Linguistics

In regular face-to-face interaction, the structure of that repertoire can be related to the verbal behaviour of members of the community in particular situations.

In Norway, local independence and distinctness of folk culture are highly valued, the dialect enjoys great prestige. A person's native speech is regarded as an integral part of his family background, a sign of his local identity. By identifying himself as a dialect speaker both at home and abroad, a member symbolizes pride in his community and in the distinctness of its contribution to society at large.

Formal education, however, is always carried on in the standard language, the language of official transactions, religion, and the mass media. Norwegian law sanctions two standard languages. In everyday interaction, a specific community may select among the two as the situation demands. Members view this alternation as a shift between two distinct entities, which are never mixed. A person speaks either one or the other.

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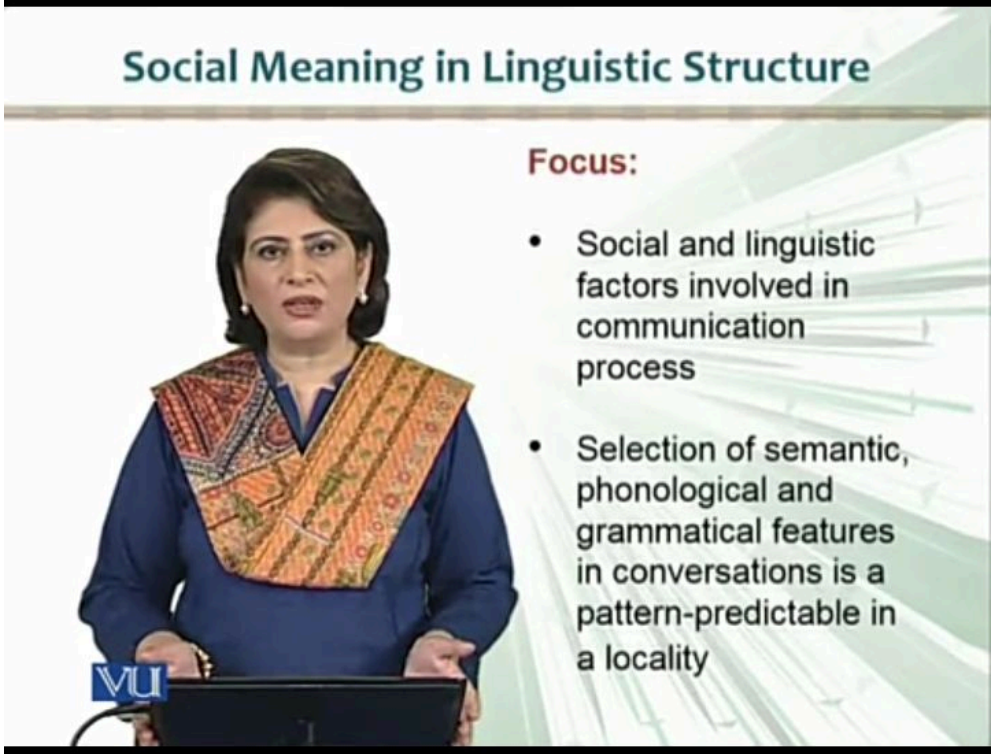

Lesson-14

SOCIAL MEANING IN LINGUISTIC STRUCTURE

Topic No. 071-077

Introduction-Social Meaning in Linguistic Structure; Dialect and Group Membership; Regularity in Social Meanings; Constraints; Time, Setting, Situation and Event; Situational Code –Switching; Interactional Linguistics

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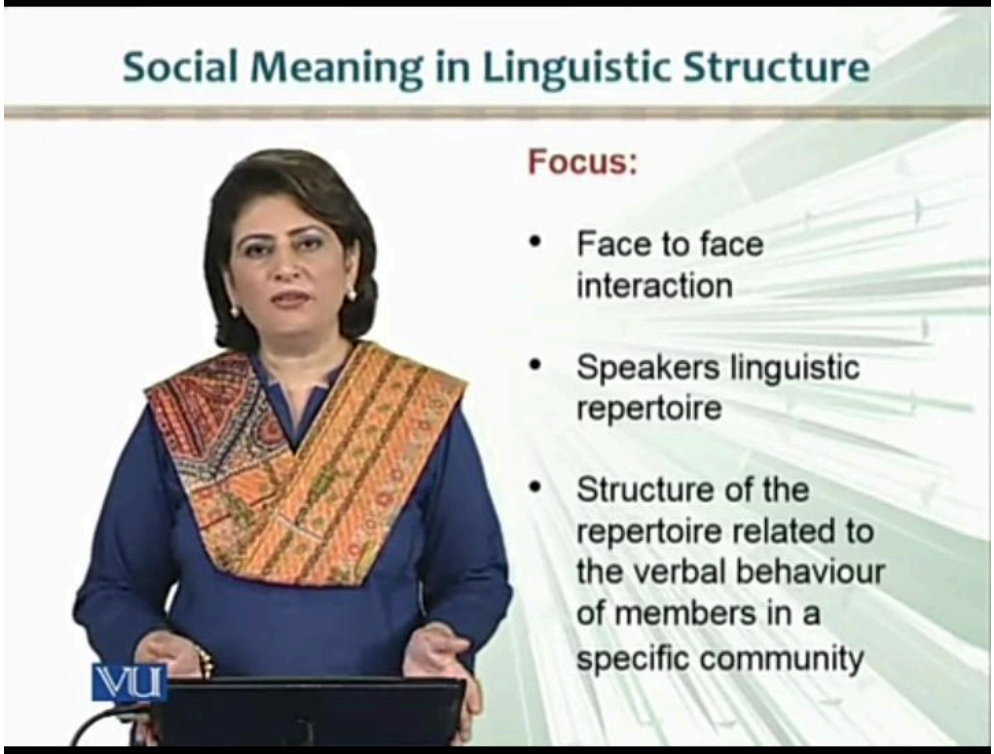

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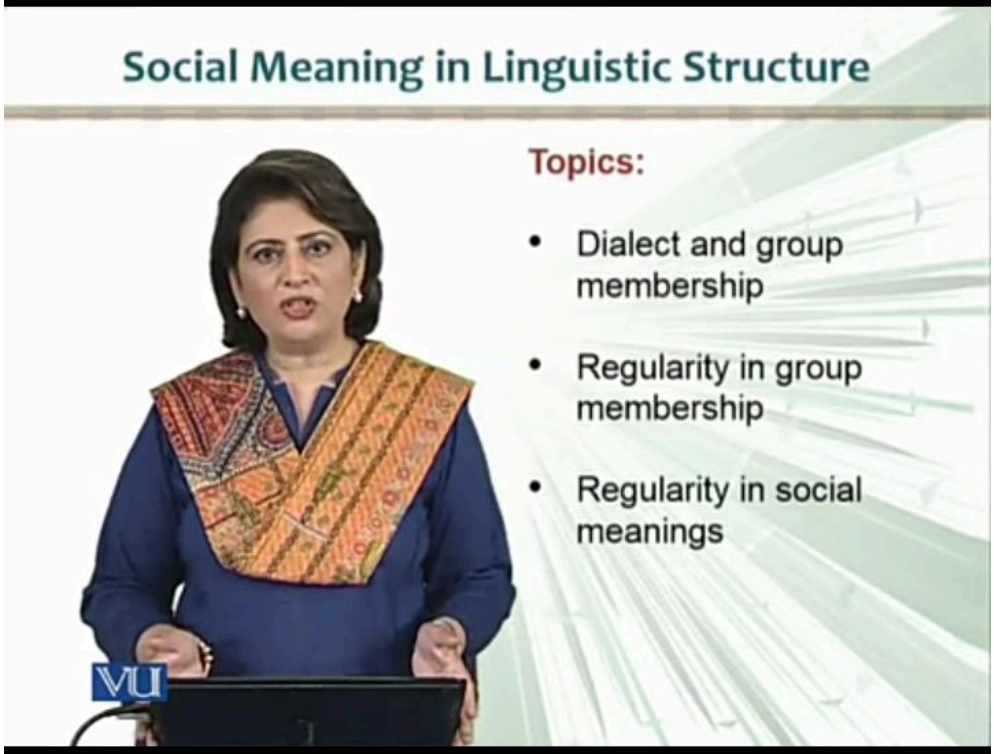

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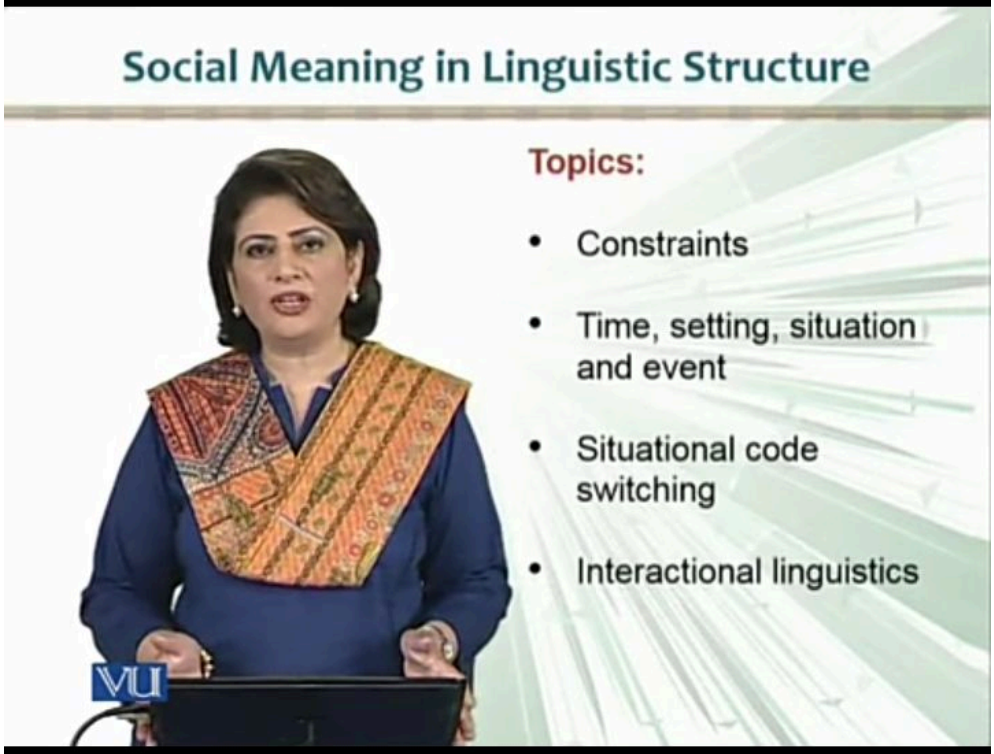

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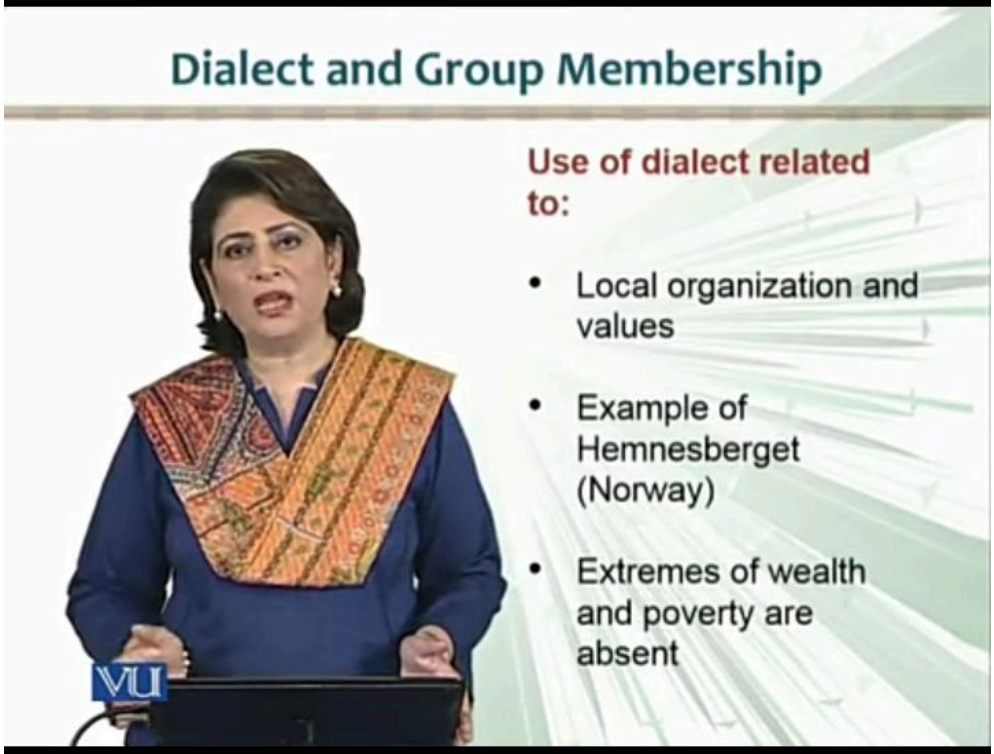

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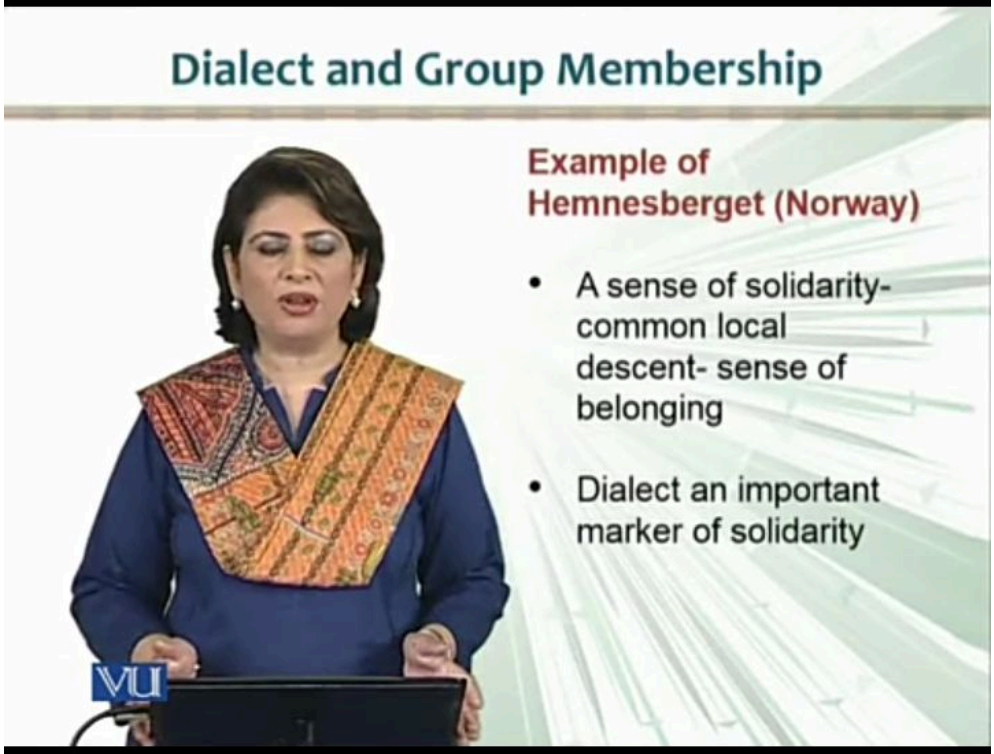

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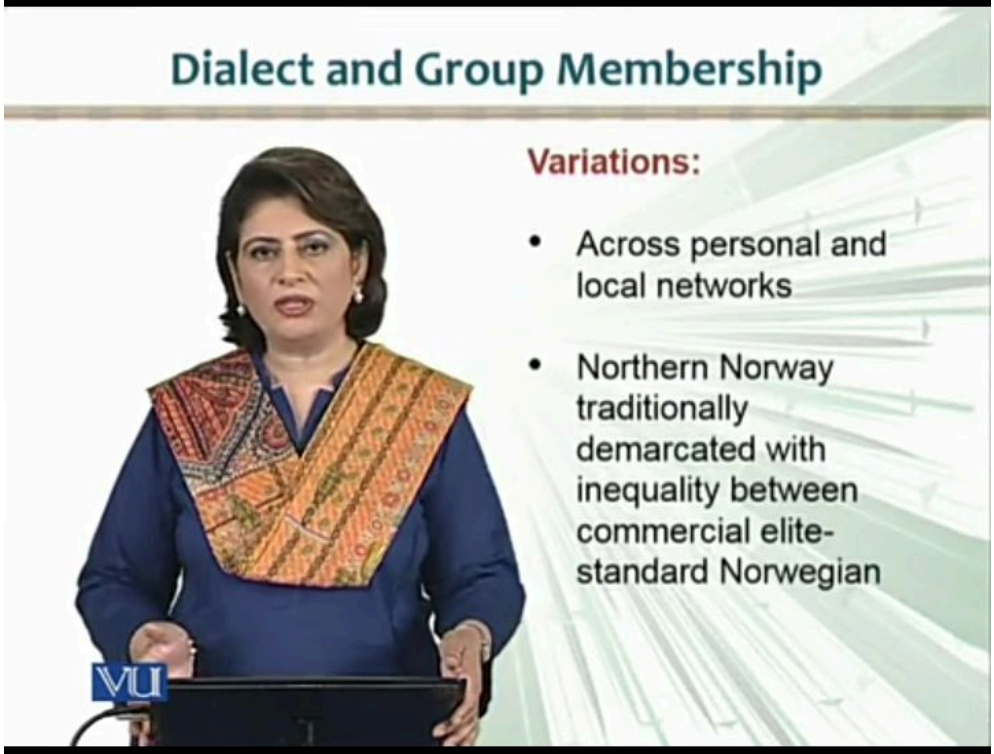

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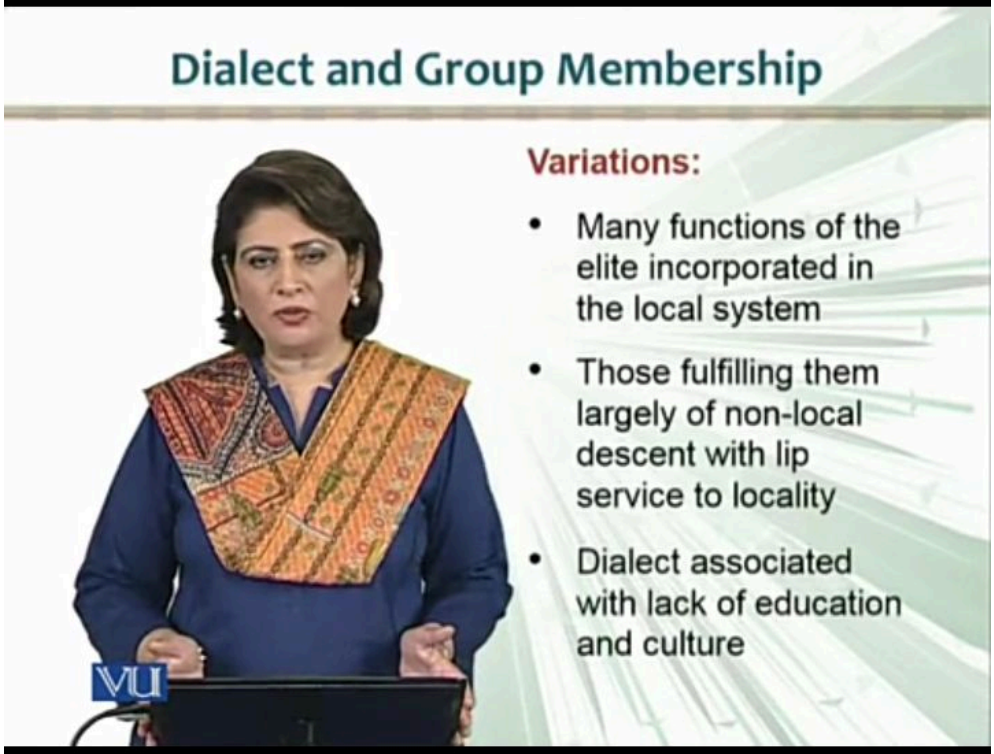

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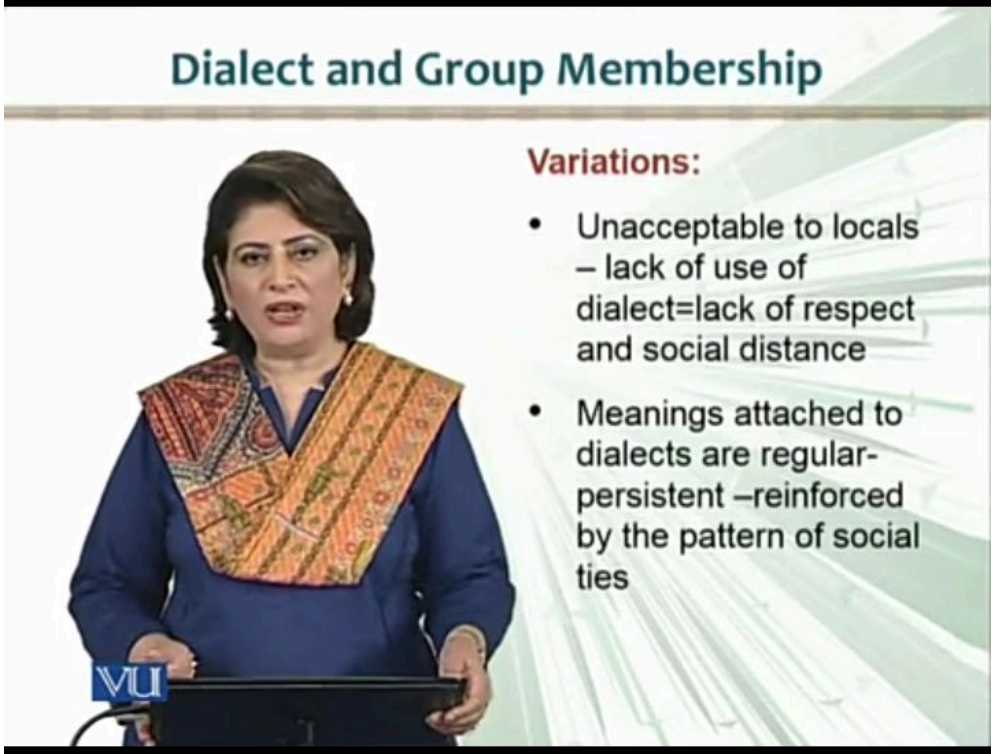

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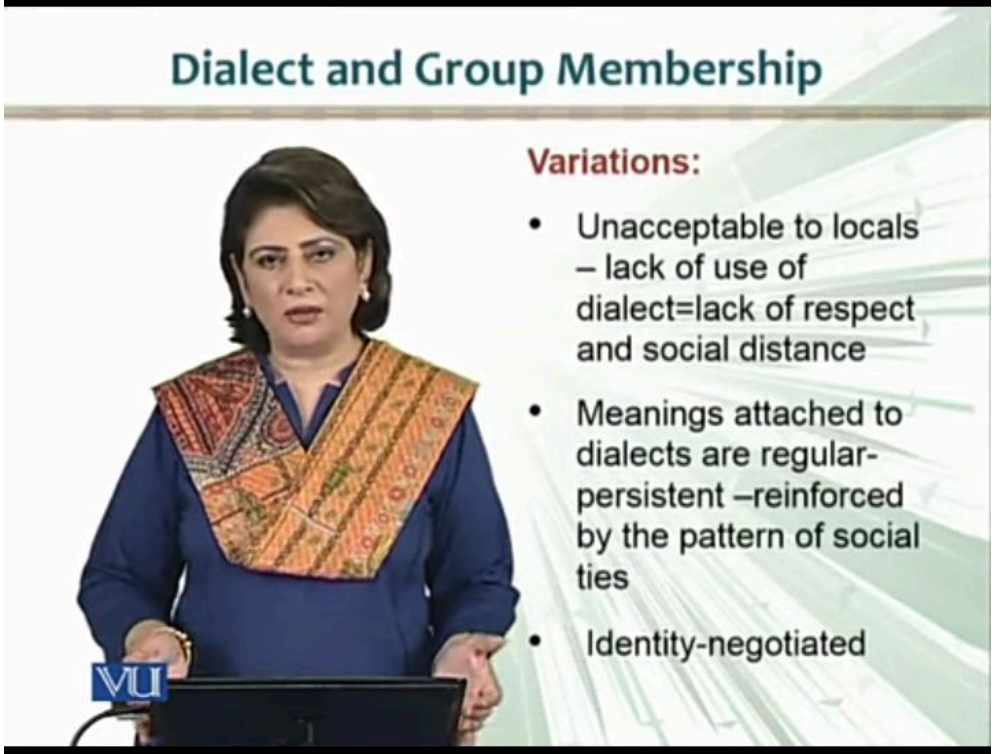

Lesson-14

SOCIAL MEANING IN LINGUISTIC STRUCTURE

Topic No. 071-077

Introduction-Social Meaning in Linguistic Structure; Dialect and Group Membership; Regularity in Social Meanings; Constraints; Time, Setting, Situation and Event; Situational Code –Switching; Interactional Linguistics

In regular face-to-face interaction, the structure of that repertoire can be related to the verbal behaviour of members of the community in particular situations.

In Norway, local independence and distinctness of folk culture are highly valued, the dialect enjoys great prestige. A person's native speech is regarded as an integral part of his family background, a sign of his local identity. By identifying himself as a dialect speaker both at home and abroad, a member symbolizes pride in his community and in the distinctness of its contribution to society at large.

Formal education, however, is always carried on in the standard language, the language of official transactions, religion, and the mass media. Norwegian law sanctions two standard languages. In everyday interaction, a specific community may select among the two as the situation demands. Members view this alternation as a shift between two distinct entities, which are never mixed. A person speaks either one or the other.

The meaning attached to local descent and dialect use— being part of the "local team"—is clearly seen when we consider those members of the community who dissociate themselves from this "team." Traditionally, in northern Norway the local community of equals was separated from the landowning commercial and administrative elite by a wide gulf of social and judicial inequality. Since the latter were the introducers and users of standard Norwegian, the standard form was—and to some extent still is—associated with this inequality of status. Many of the functions of the former elite have now been incorporated into the local social system. Individuals who fill these functions, however, continue to be largely of nonlocal descent. Although they may pay lip service to locally accepted rules of etiquette and use the dialect on occasion. Since the different social meanings which attach to the dialect are regular and persistent, they must in some way be reinforced by the pattern of social ties.

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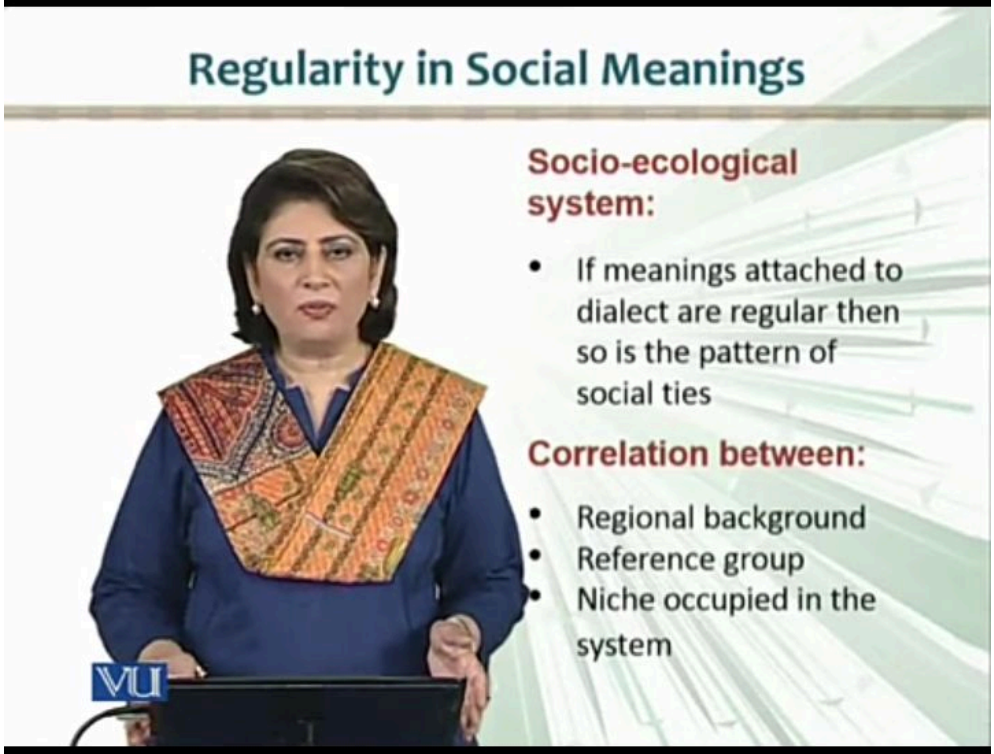

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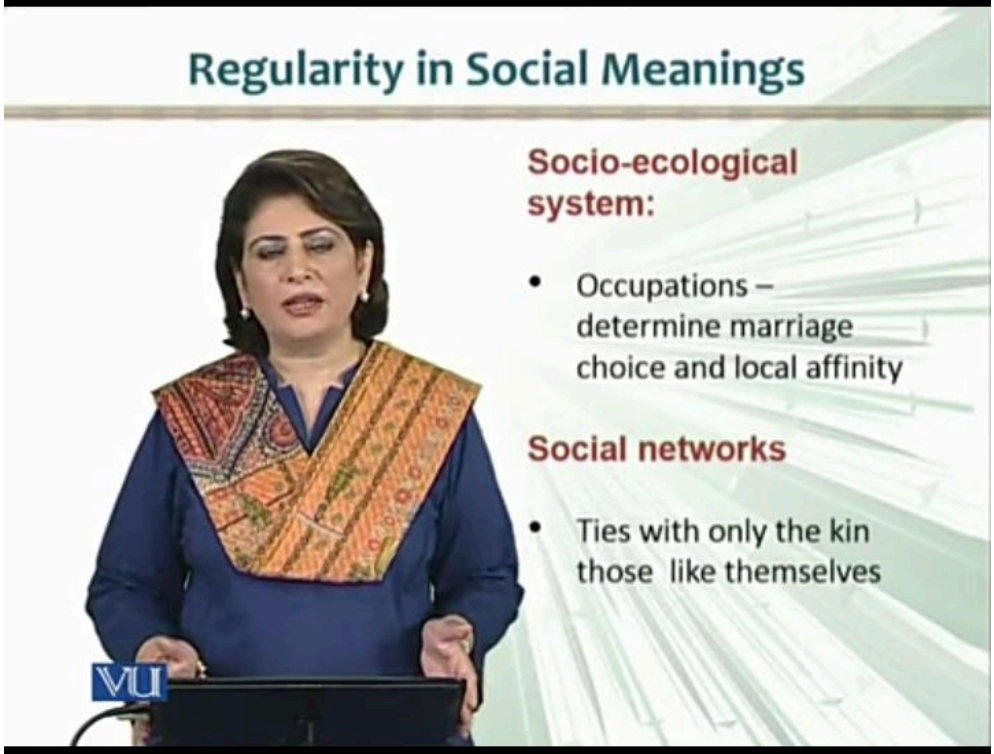

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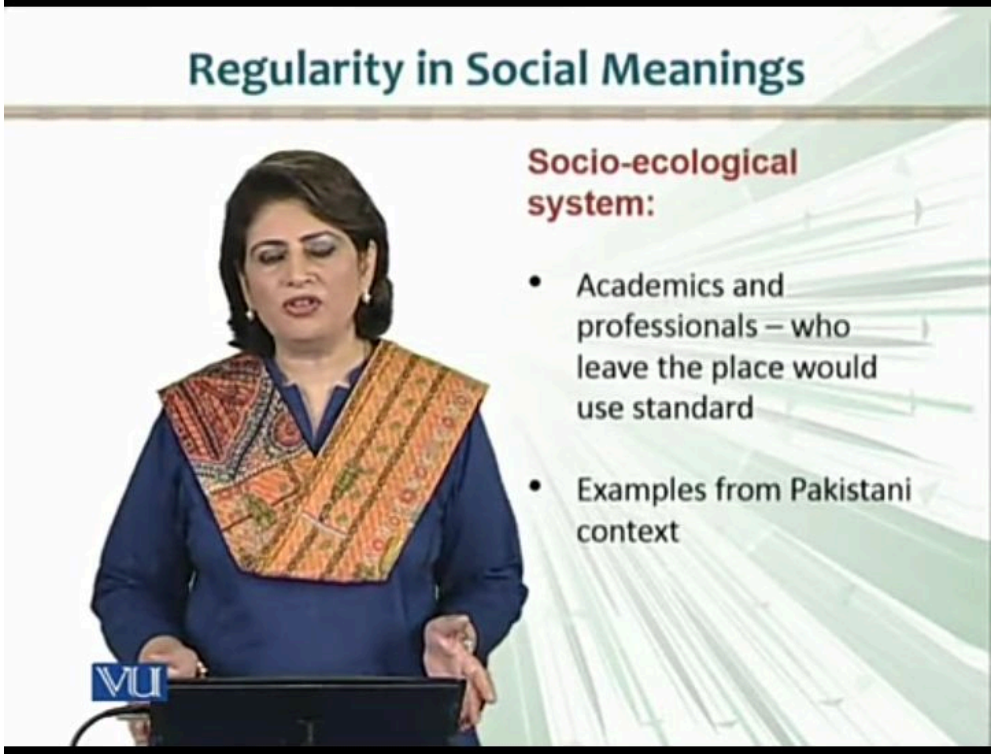

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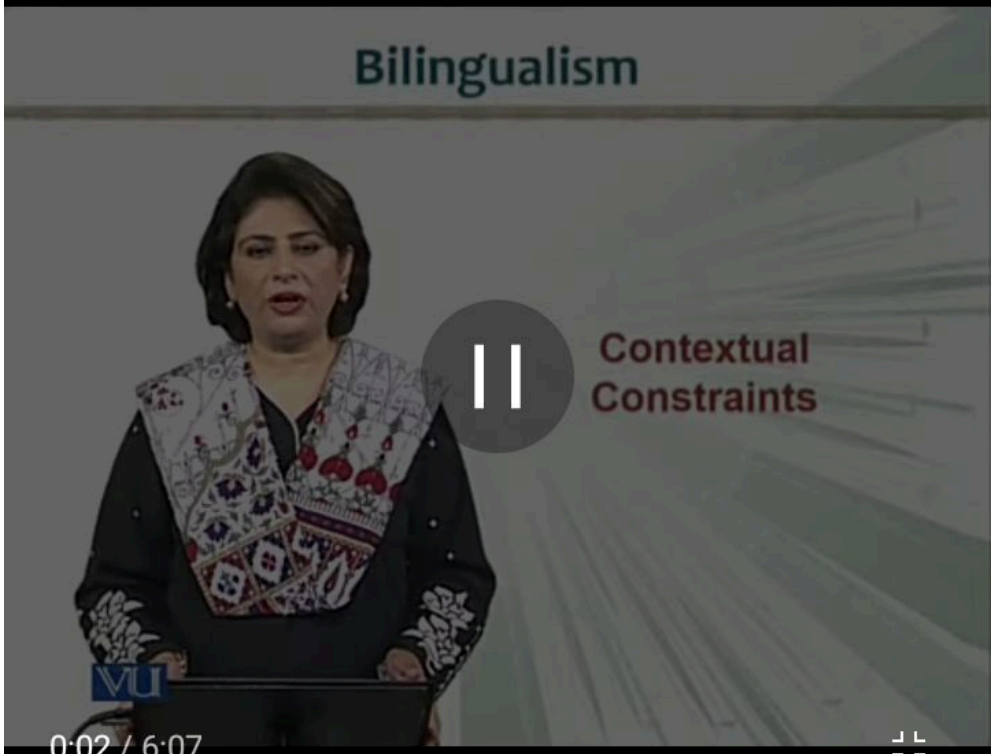

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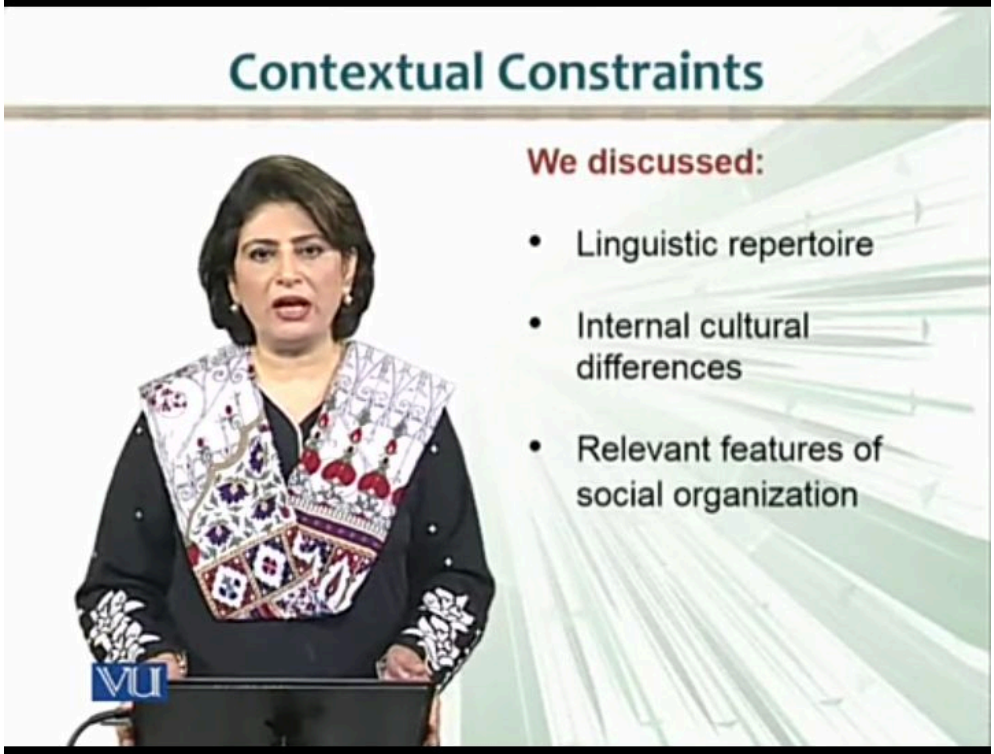

Setting

Setting is used to indicate the way in which natives classify their ecological environment into distinct locales. This enables us to relate the opportunities for action to constraints upon action provided by the socially significant features of the environment. The socio-ecological restrictions on personnel and activities still allow for a wide range of socially distinct happenings, for example school is used for class, all denoting a framework of specific status sets, i.e. systems of complementary distributions of rights and duties.

Alternative social definitions of the situation may occur within the same setting, depending on the opportunities and constraints on interaction offered by a shift in personnel and/or object of the interaction. Such definitions always manifest themselves in what we would prefer to call a social event. Events center around one or at the most a limited range of topics and are distinguishable because of their sequential structure. They are marked by stereotyped and thus recognizable opening and closing routines.

The distinction between situation and event can be clarified if we consider the behaviour of Hemnes residents who are sometimes seen in the community office, first transacting their business in an officially correct manner, and then turning to one of the clerks and asking him to step aside for a private chat. The norms which apply to the two kinds of interaction differ; the break between the two is clearly marked. Therefore, they constitute two distinct social events, although the personnel and the locale remain the same. The terms setting, social situation, and social event as used here can be considered three successively more complex stages in the speaker's processing of contextual information. Each stage subsumes the previous one in such a way that the preceding one is part of the input affecting the selection rules of the next stage. Thus, a speaker cannot identify the social situation without having made some decision as to the nature of the setting.

Situational Switching

When within the same setting the participants' definition of the social event changes, this change may be signaled among others by linguistic clues. The notion of situational switching assumes a direct relationship between language and the social situation. The linguistic forms employed are critical features of the event in the sense that any violation of selection rules changes members' perception of the event. Situations also differ in the amount of freedom of choice allowed to speakers. Some like greetings, petitions, and similar routines described by Albert (1972) similarly seem strictly determined.

Metaphorical Switching

In contrast with those instances where choice of variables is narrowly constrained by social norms, there are others in which participants are given considerably more latitude. Thus, official community affairs are largely defined as nonlocal and hence the standard is appropriate. But since many individuals who carry out the relevant activities all know each other as fellow locals, they often interject casual statements in the dialect into their formal discussions. The language switch here relates to particular kinds of topics or subject matter rather than to change in social situation. We will use the term metaphorical switching for this phenomenon.

In interactional sociolinguistics, therefore, we can no longer base our analyses on the assumption that language and society constitute different kinds of reality, subject to correlational studies. Social and linguistic information are comparable only when studied within the same general analytical framework. Moving from statements of social constraints to grammatical rules thus represents a transformation from one level of abstraction to another within a single communicative system. As Bernstein (1961) has pointed out, verbal communication is a process in which actors select from a limited range of alternates within a repertoire of

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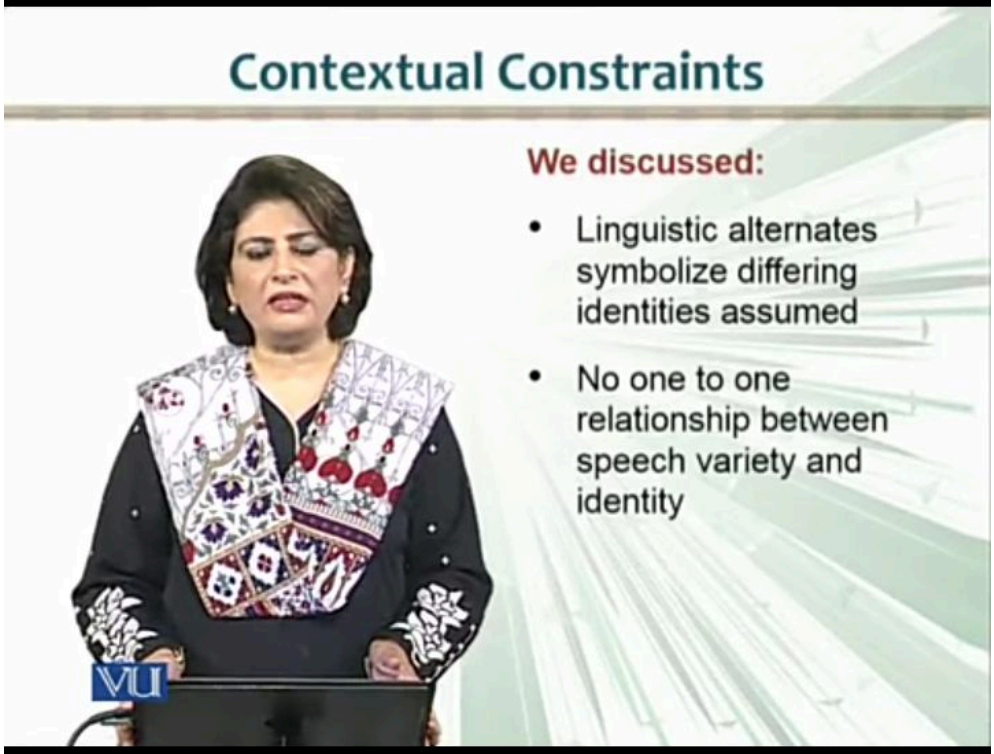

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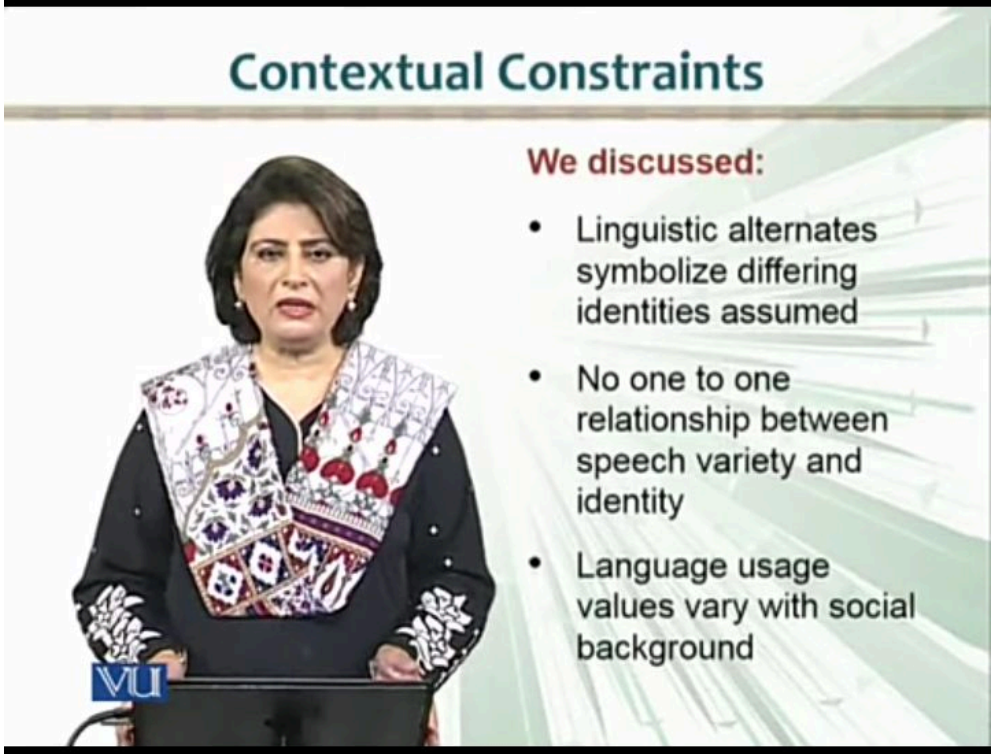

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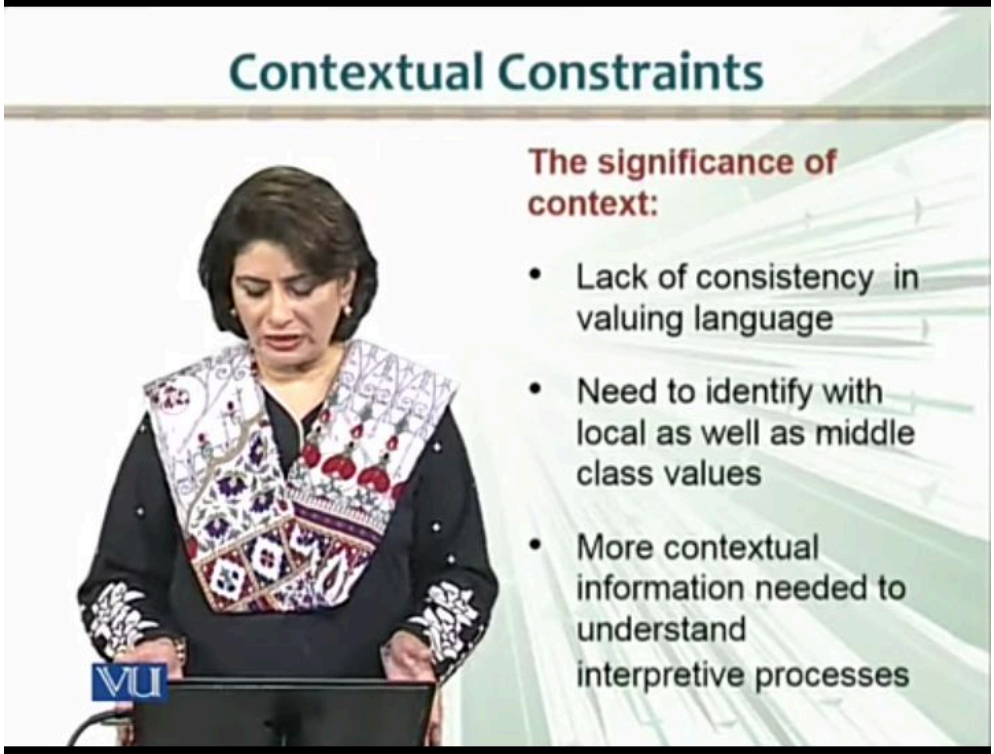

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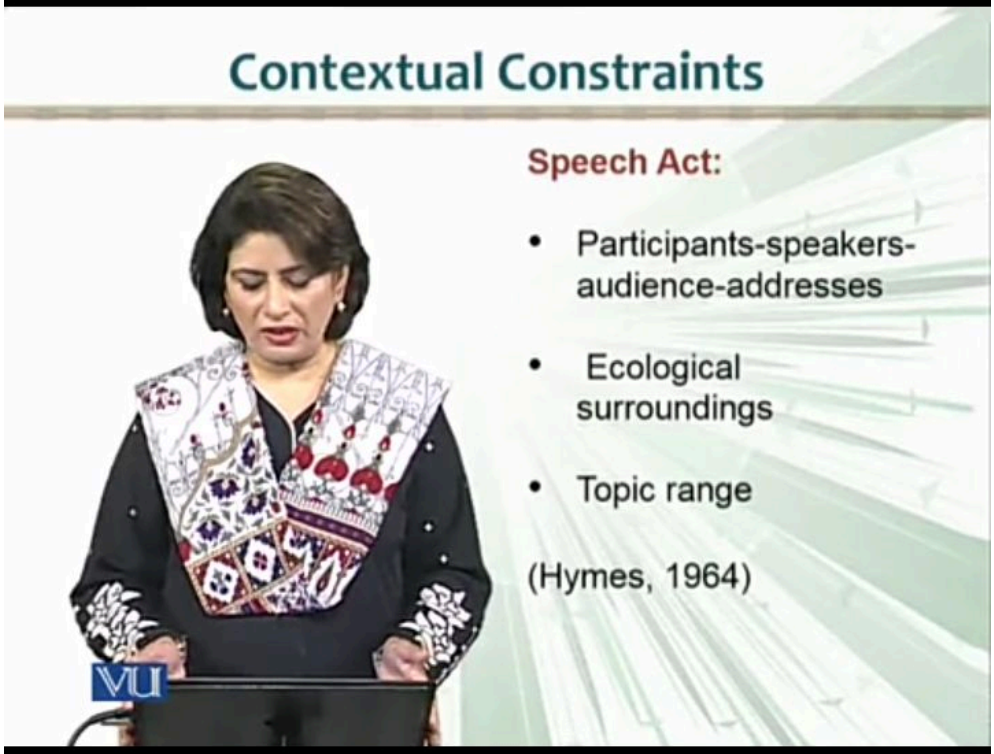

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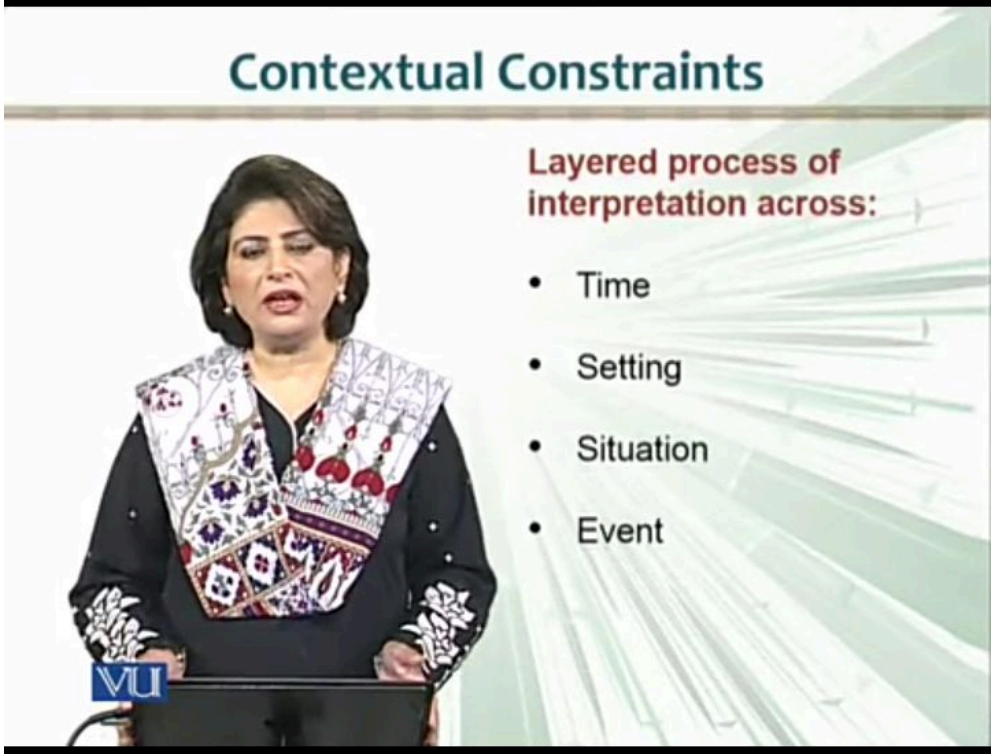

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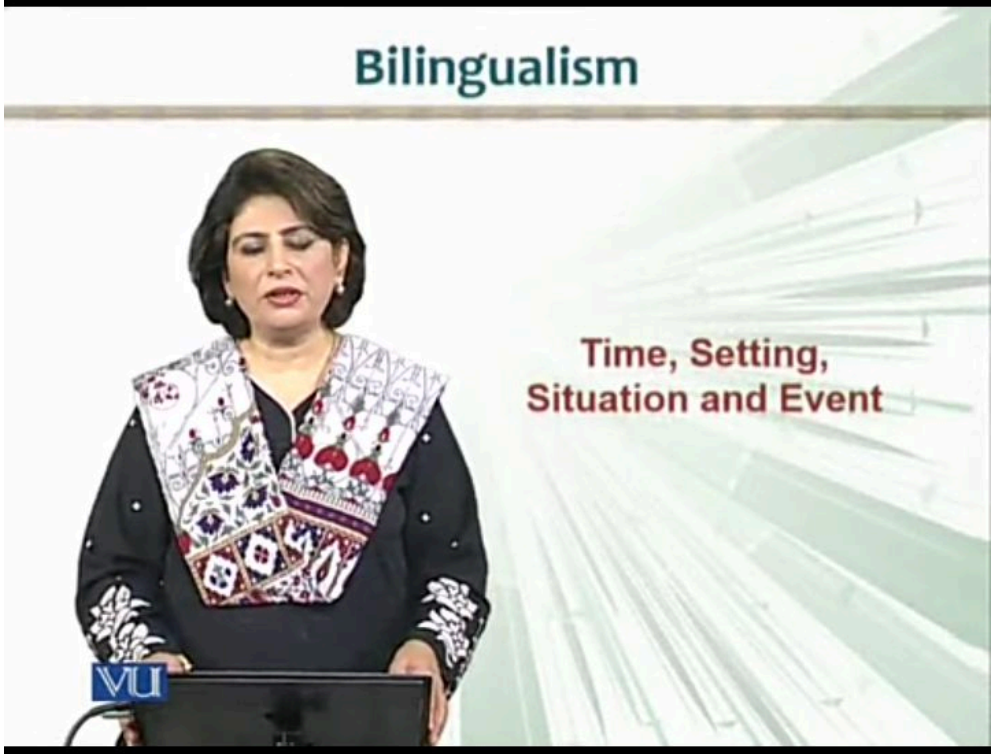

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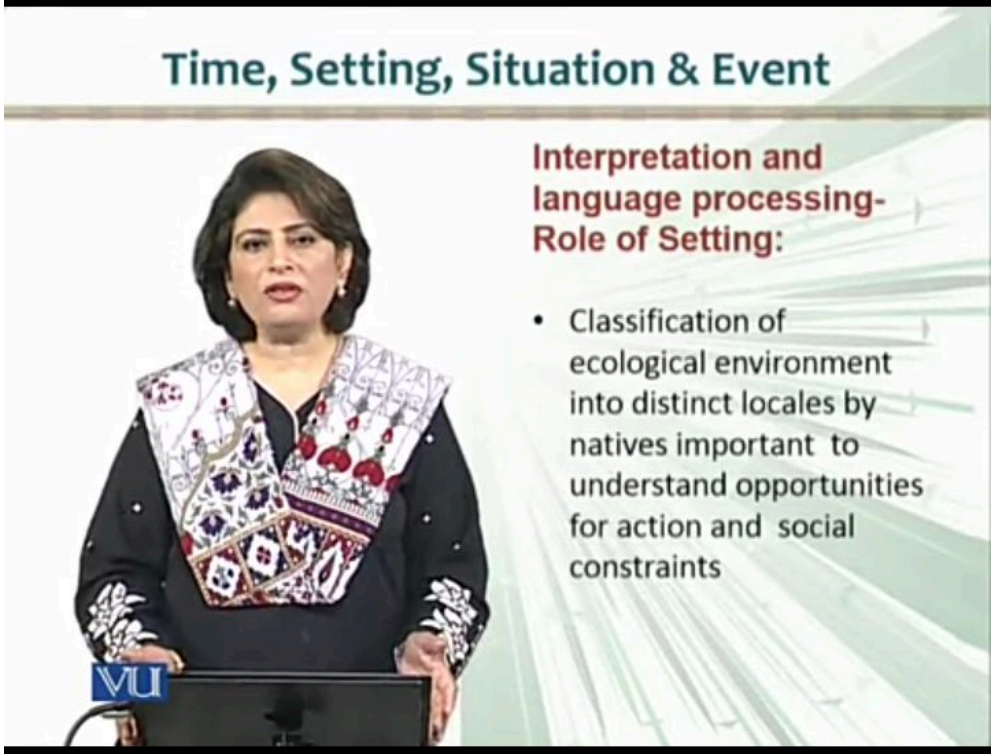

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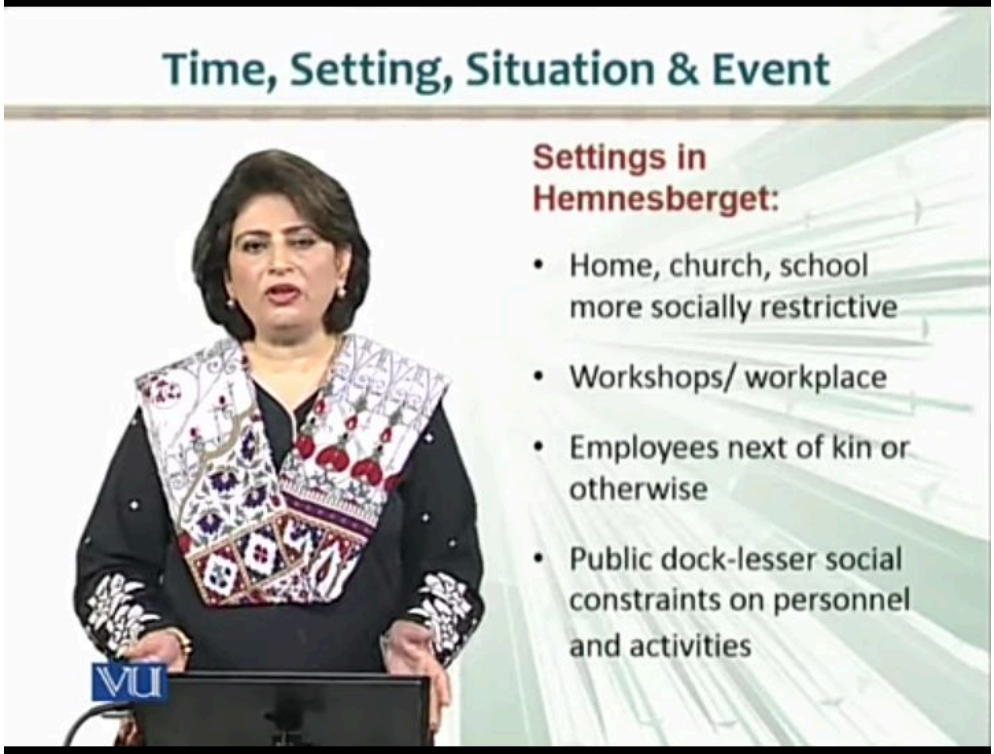

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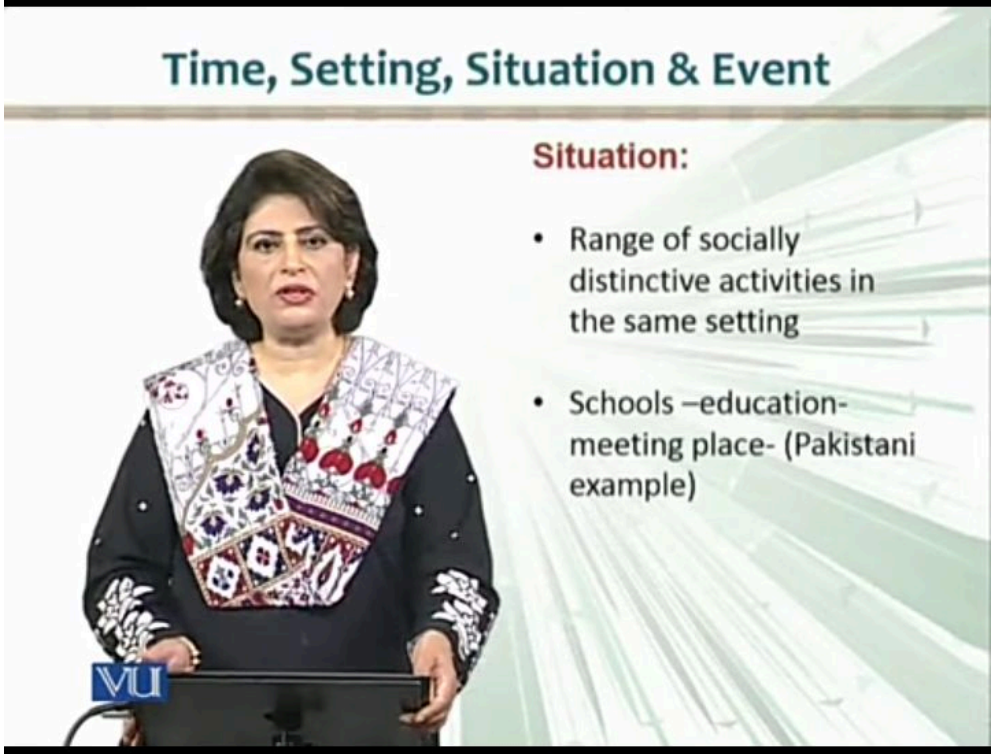

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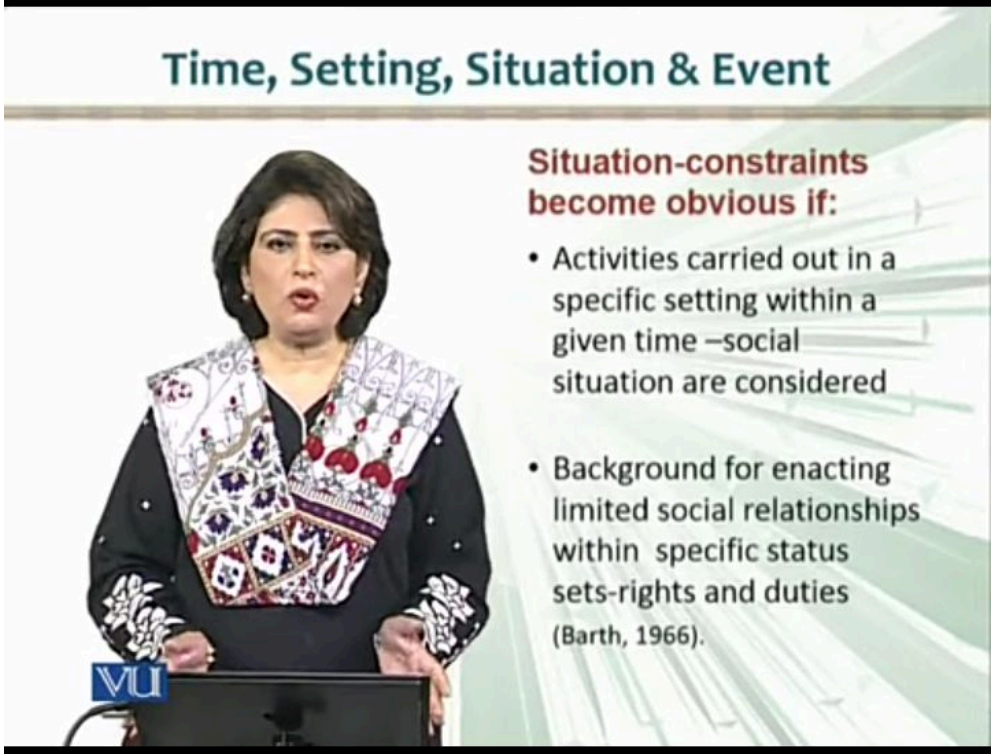

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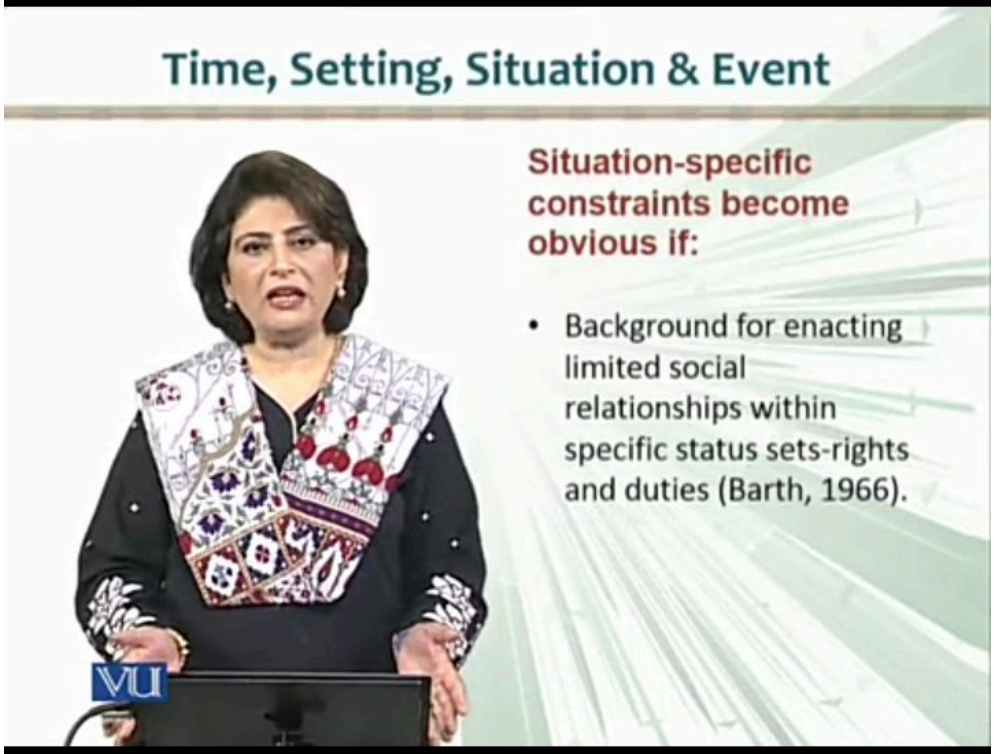

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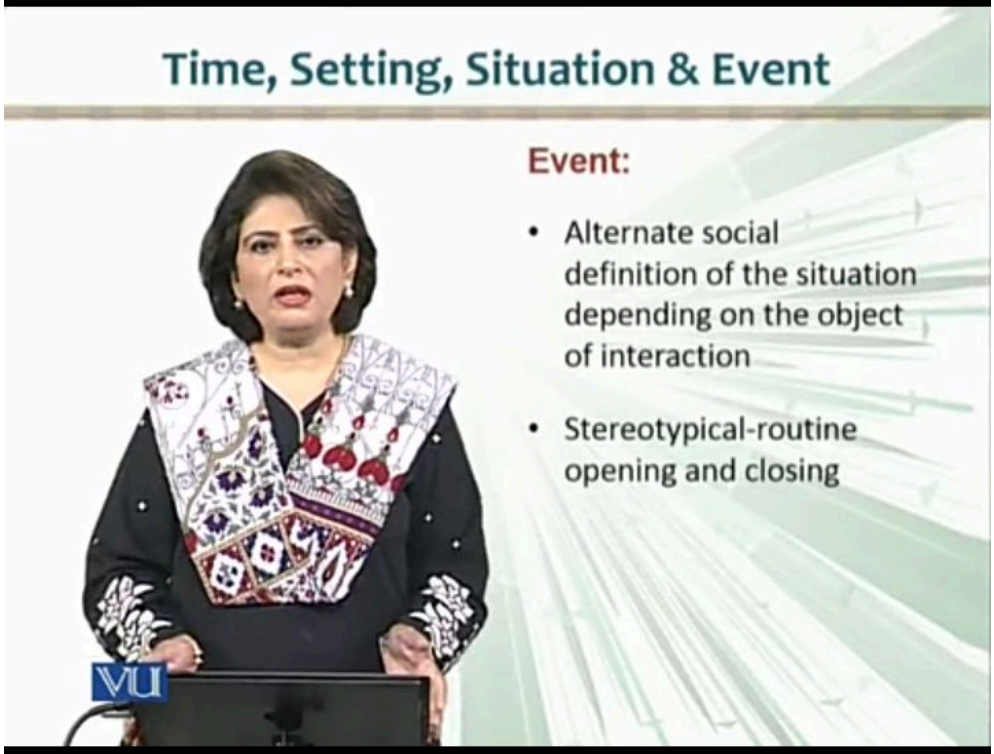

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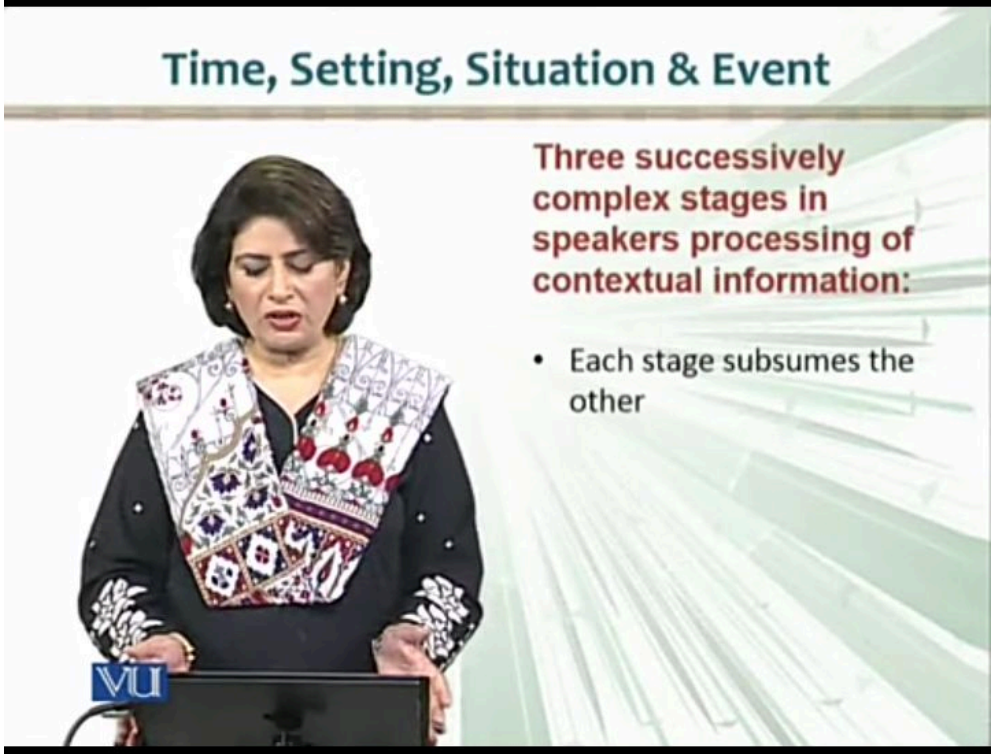

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Setting is used to indicate the way in which natives classify their ecological environment into distinct locales. This enables us to relate the opportunities for action to constraints upon action provided by the socially significant features of the environment. The socio-ecological restrictions on personnel and activities still allow for a wide range of socially distinct happenings, for example school is used for class, all denoting a framework of specific status sets, i.e. systems of complementary distributions of rights and duties.

Alternative social definitions of the situation may occur within the same setting, depending on the opportunities and constraints on interaction offered by a shift in personnel and/or object of the interaction. Such definitions always manifest themselves in what we would prefer to call a social event. Events center around one or at the most a limited range of topics and are distinguishable because of their sequential structure. They are marked by stereotyped and thus recognizable opening and closing routines.

The distinction between situation and event can be clarified if we consider the behaviour of Hemnes residents who are sometimes seen in the community office, first transacting their business in an officially correct manner, and then turning to one of the clerks and asking him to step aside for a private chat. The norms which apply to the two kinds of interaction differ; the break between the two is clearly marked. Therefore, they constitute two distinct social events, although the personnel and the locale remain the same. The terms setting, social situation, and social event as used here can be considered three successively more complex stages in the speaker's processing of contextual information. Each stage subsumes the previous one in such a way that the preceding one is part of the input affecting the selection rules of the next stage. Thus, a speaker cannot identify the social situation without having made some decision as to the nature of the setting.

Situational Switching

When within the same setting the participants' definition of the social event changes, this change may be signaled among others by linguistic clues. The notion of situational switching assumes a direct relationship between language and the social situation. The linguistic forms employed are critical features of the event in the sense that any violation of selection rules changes members' perception of the event. Situations also differ in the amount of freedom of choice allowed to speakers. Some like greetings, petitions, and similar routines described by Albert (1972) similarly seem strictly determined.

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In contrast with those instances where choice of variables is narrowly constrained by social norms, there are others in which participants are given considerably more latitude. Thus, official community affairs are largely defined as nonlocal and hence the standard is appropriate. But since many individuals who carry out the relevant activities all know each other as fellow locals, they often interject casual statements in the dialect into their formal discussions. The language switch here relates to particular kinds of topics or subject matter rather than to change in social situation. We will use the term metaphorical switching for this phenomenon.

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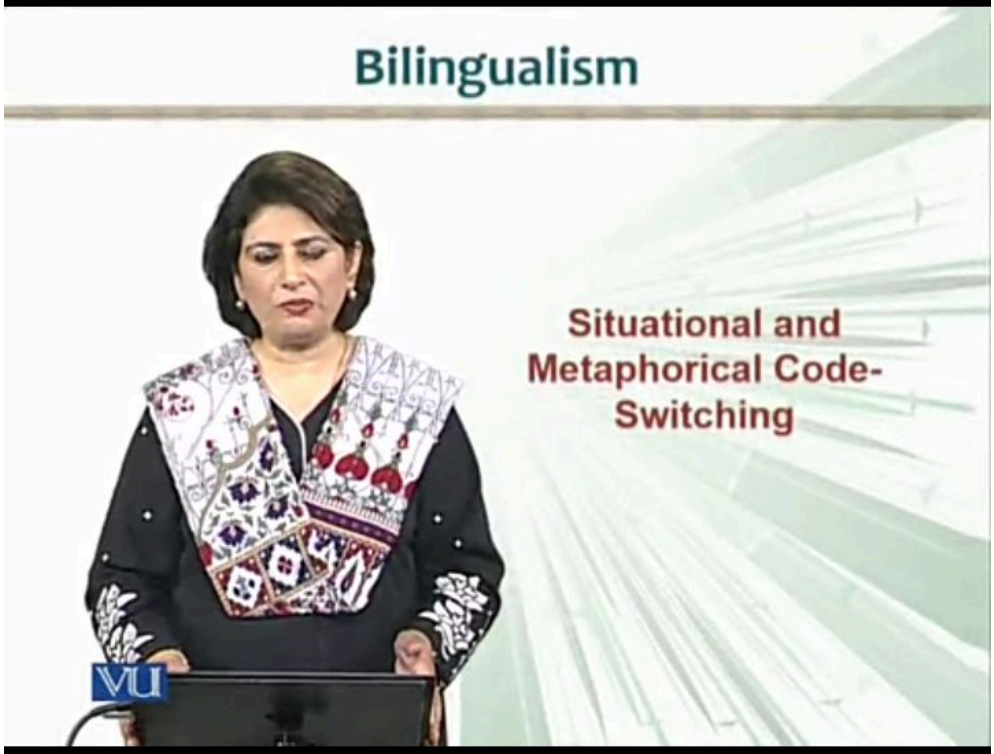

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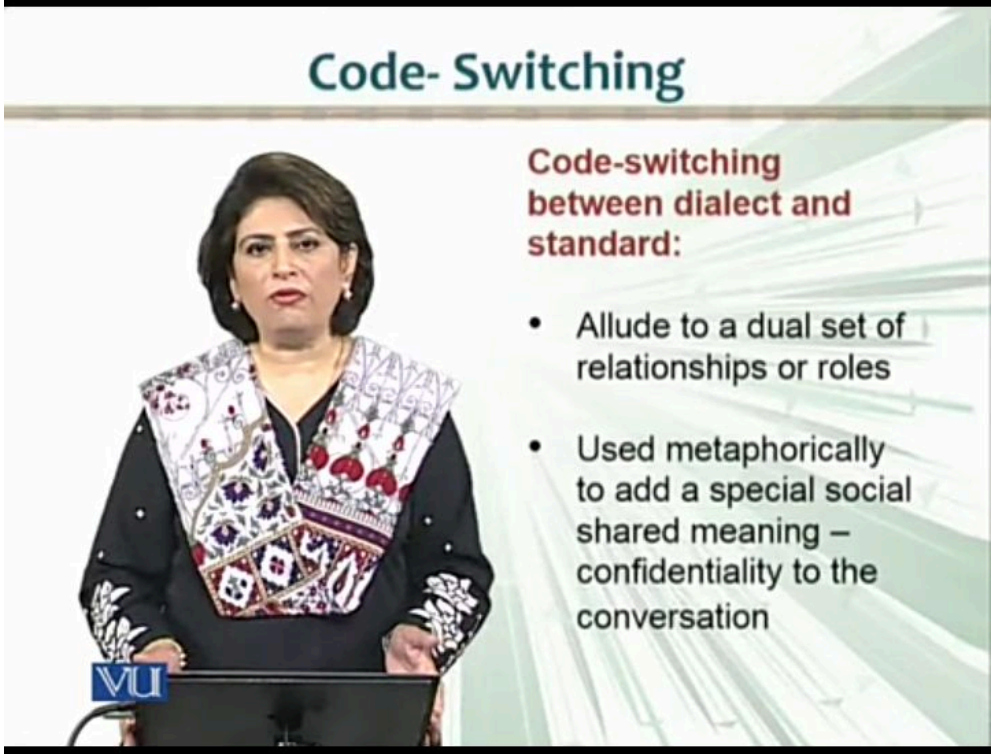

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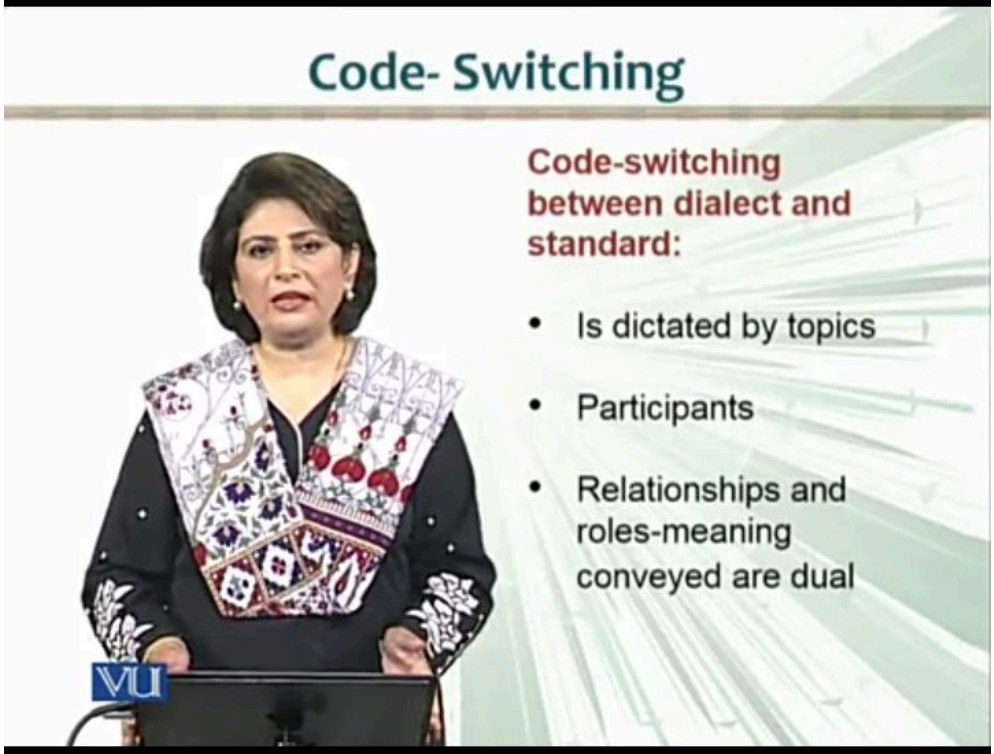

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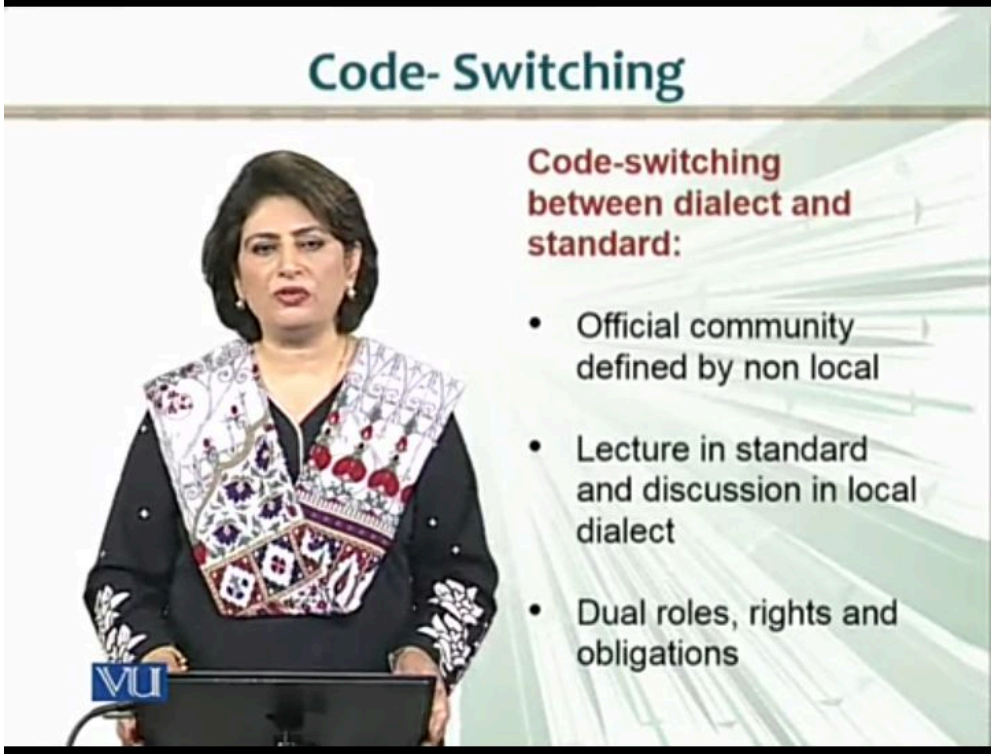

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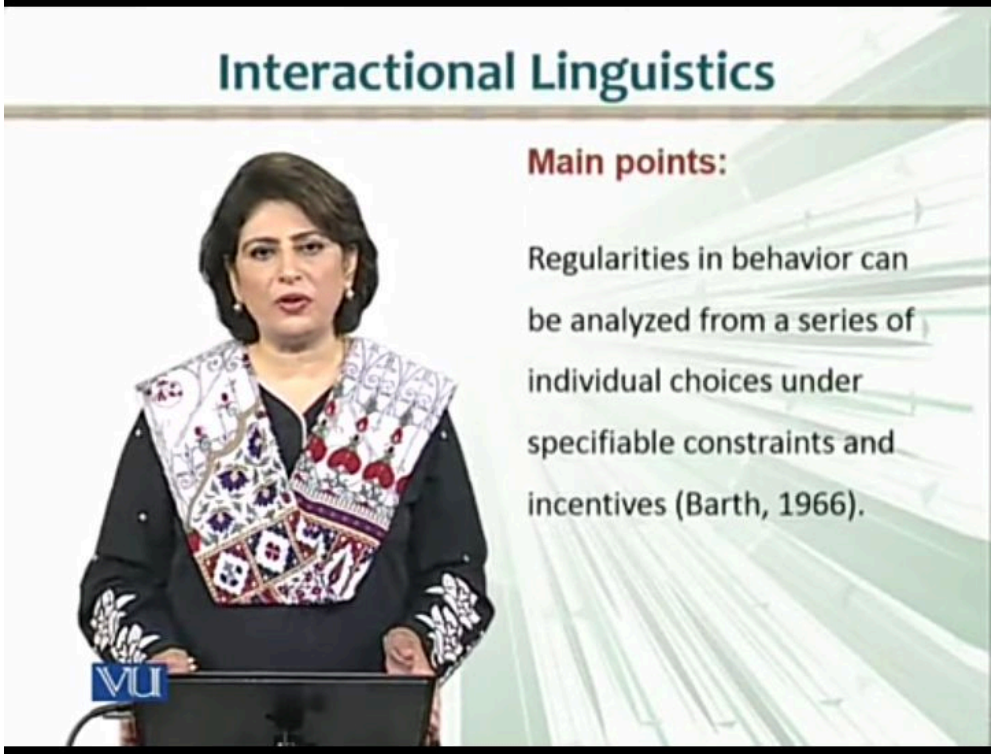

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Ethnographic investigation suggests the hypothesis that dialects have a social value as a signal of distinctness and speaker's identification with other members of local descent. This social significance of the dialect can only be understood by contrast with the meanings which locals assign to the standard. The standard is associated with education and power on the national scene and carries connotations of differences in rank which are unacceptable in the realm of informal local relations. The fact that all residents frequently switch between the dialect and the standard can only be explained through the analysis of particular speech events. The concepts of setting, social situation, and social event represent an attempt to explain the natives' conception of their behavioural environment in terms of an ordered set of constraints which operate to transform alternative lines of behaviour into particular social meanings.

The analysis presented in this chapter, demonstrate the importance of social or non-referential meaning for the study of language in society. In order to interpret what he hears, the investigator must have some background knowledge of the local culture and of the processes which generate social meaning. Without this it is impossible to generalize about the social implication of dialect differences.

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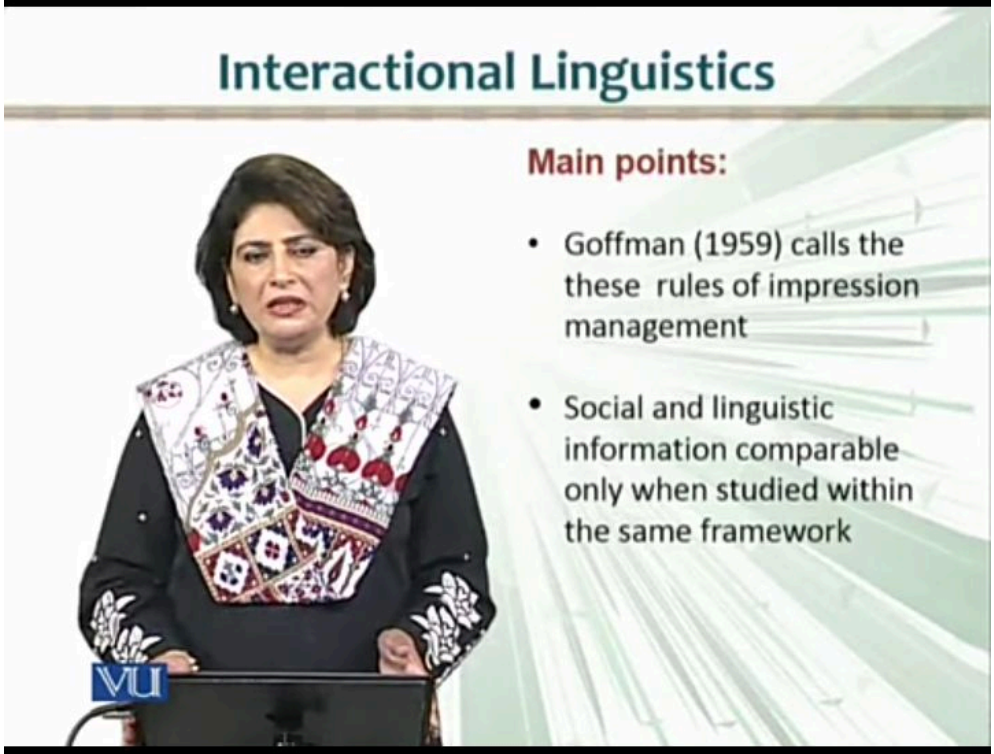

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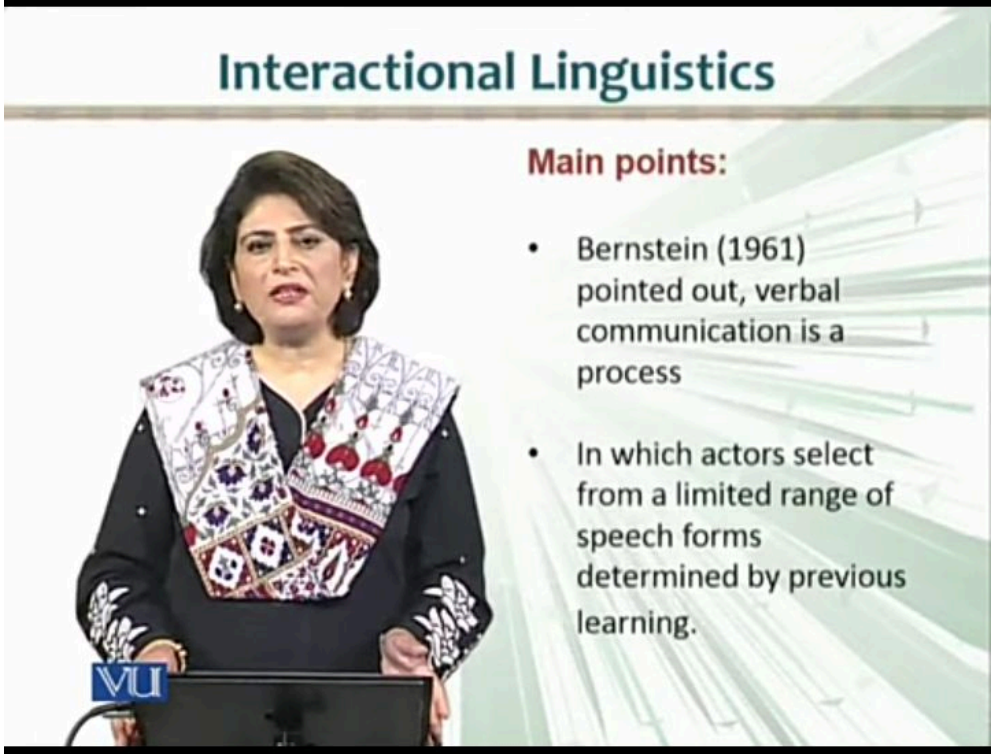

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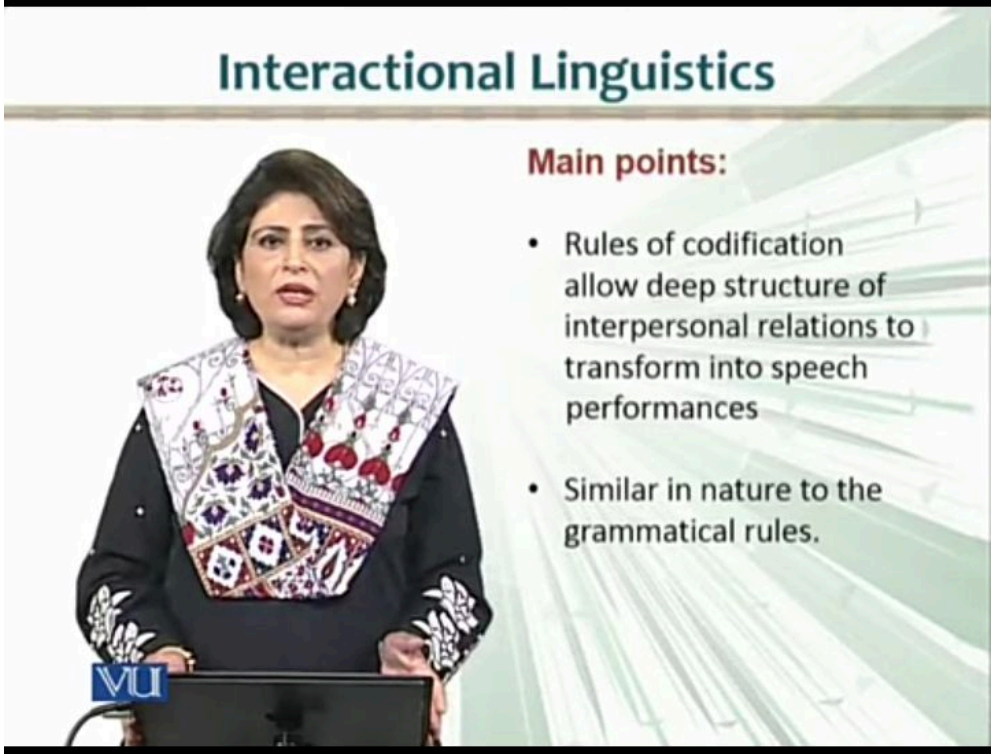

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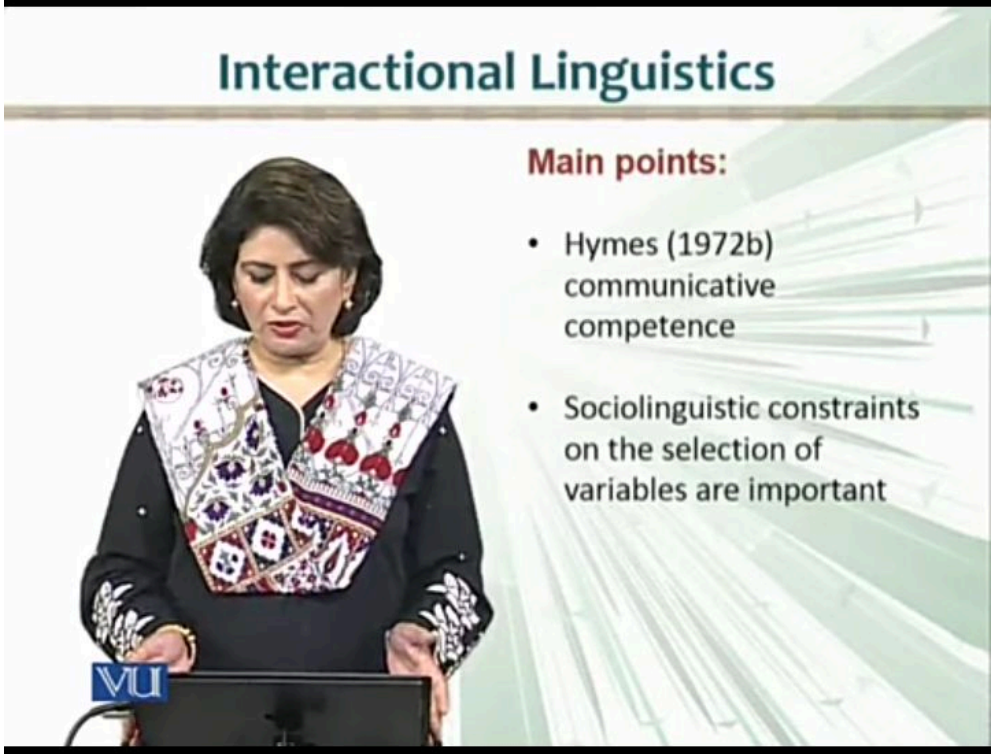

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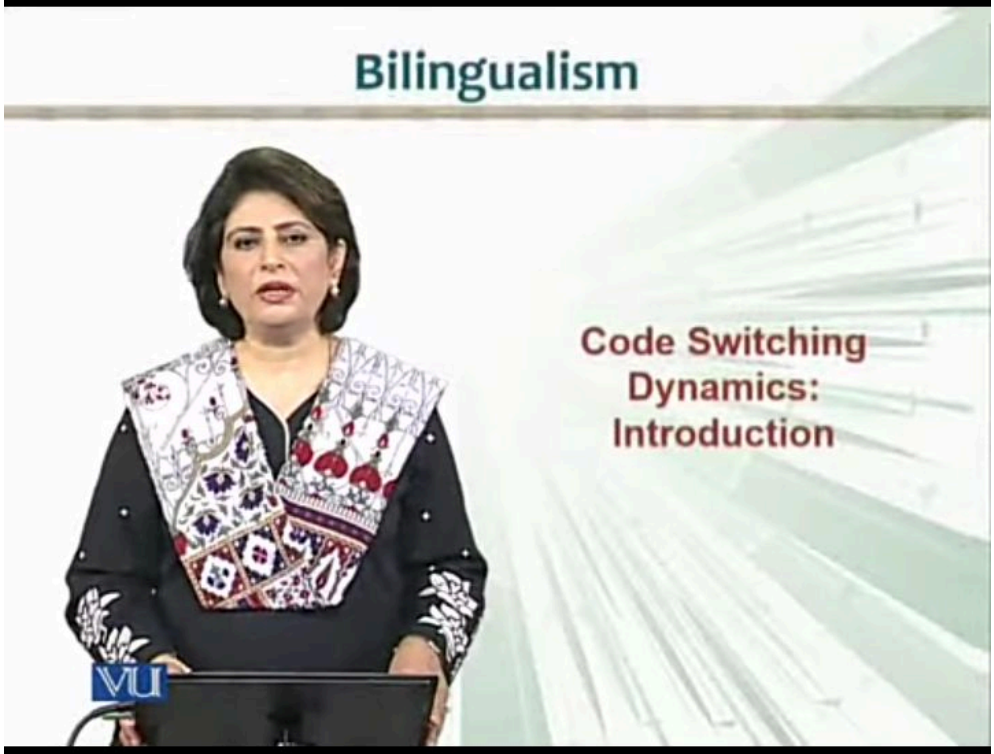

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Lesson-15

CODE SWITCHING

Topic No. 078-083

Code Switching Introduction; Code Switching Definition; Speech Events; Indexicality; Speech Events; Conventions; Social Networks and Code Switching

A set of maxims referring to the choice of one linguistic variety rather than another relates to the negotiation principle. Referential content, what the conversation is about, obviously contributes to the social relationships of participants, but with content kept constant, different relational outcomes may result. This is because the particular linguistic variety used in an exchange carries social meaning.

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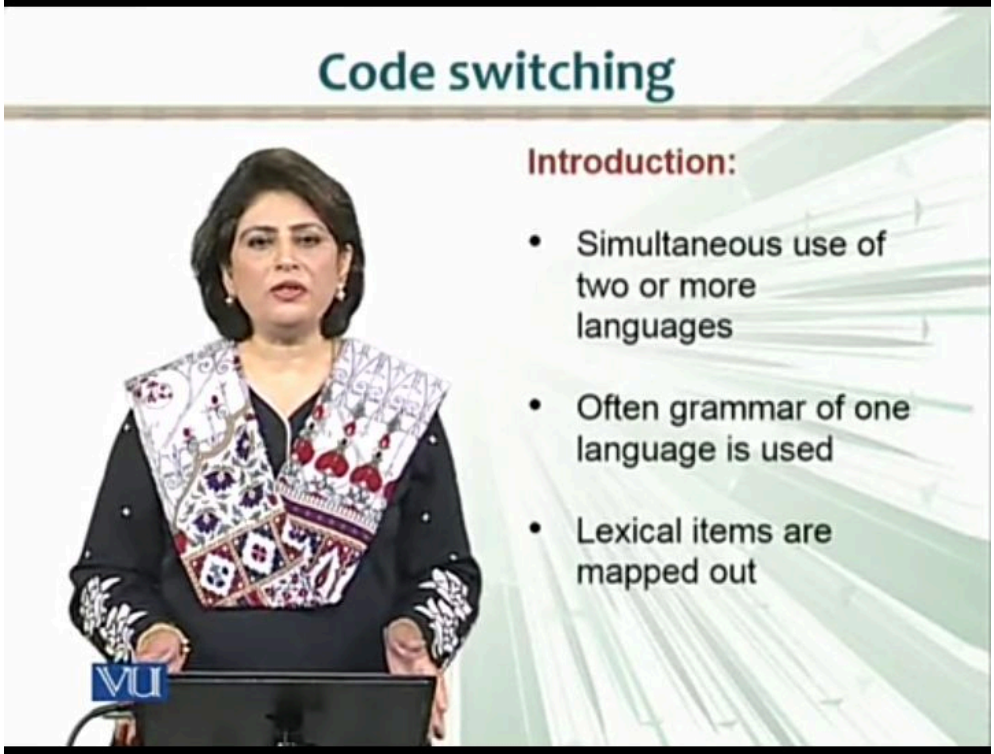

Lesson-15

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Topic No. 078-083

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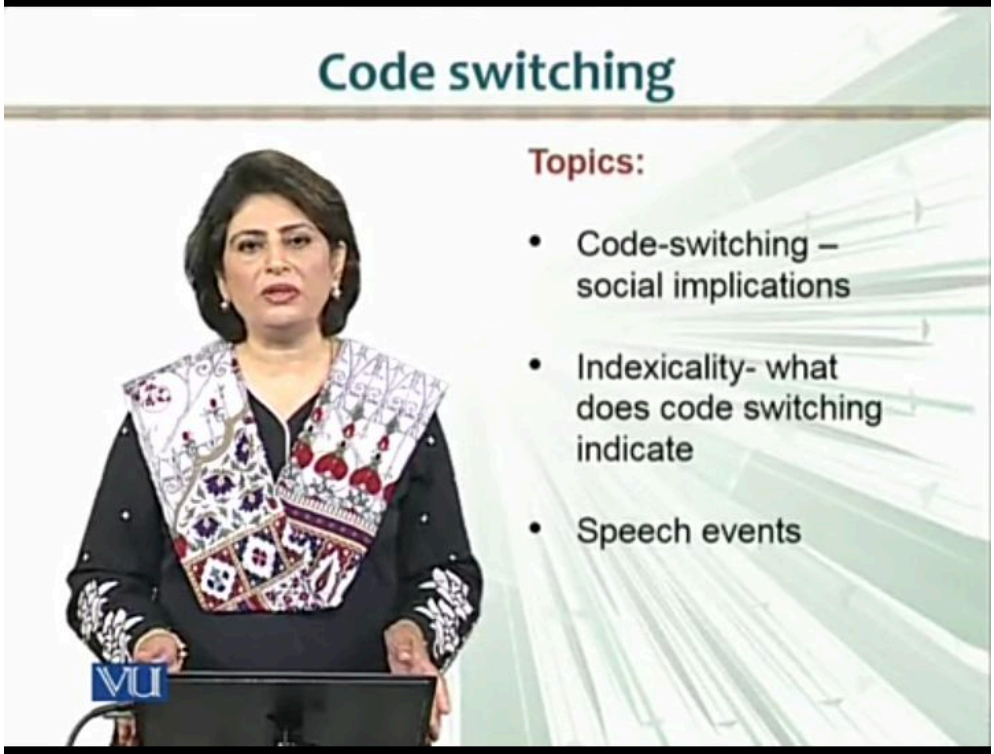

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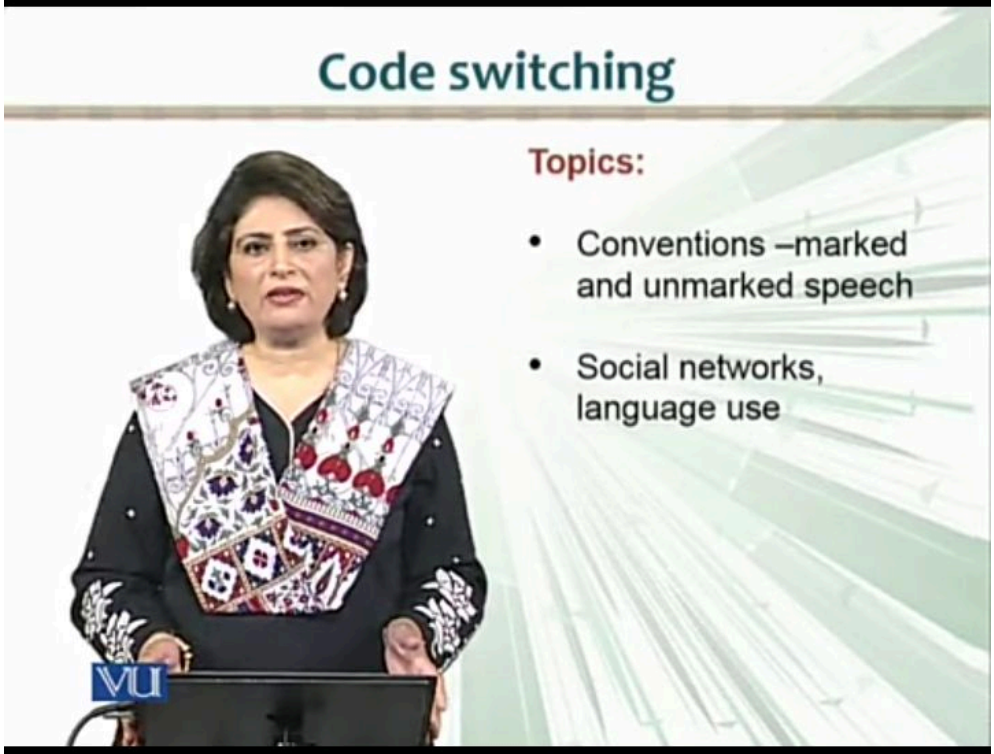

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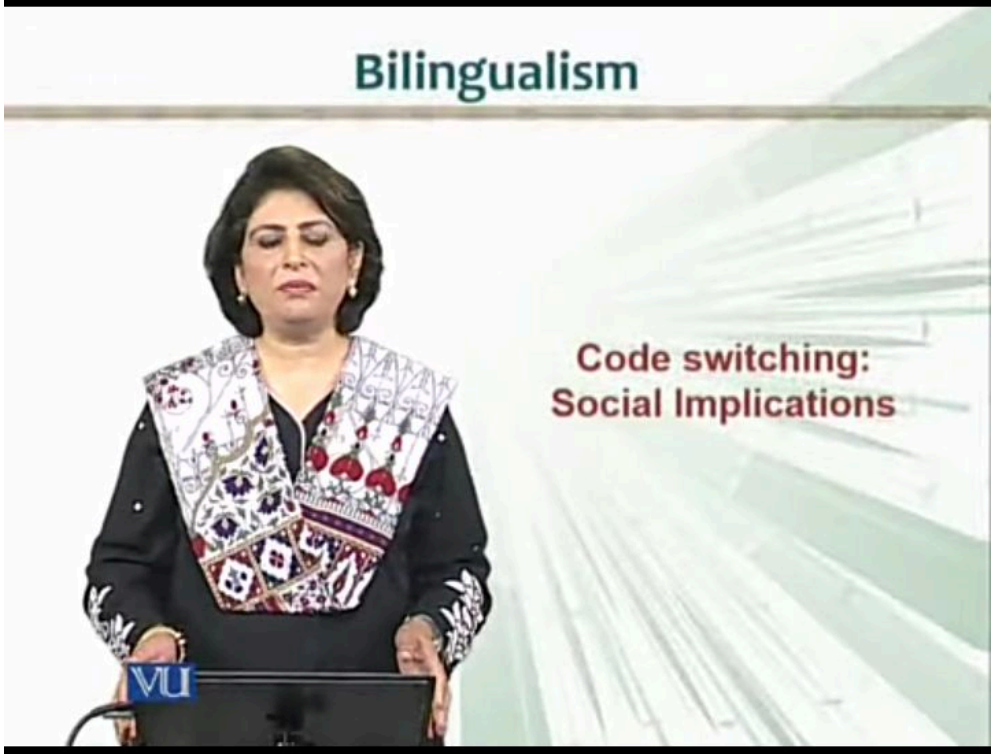

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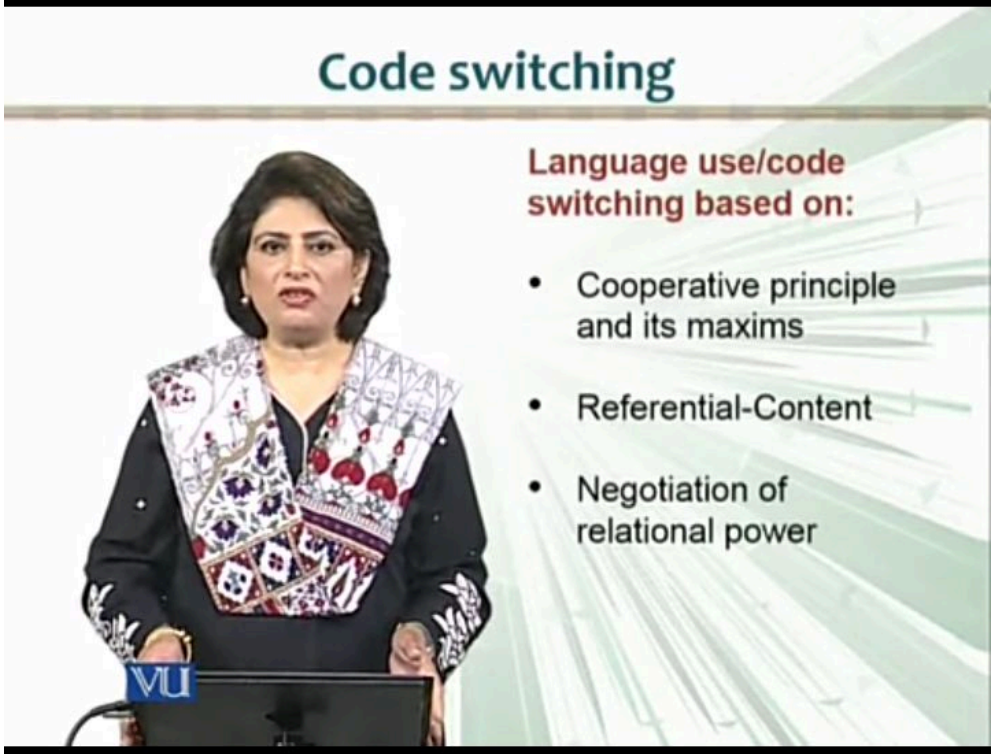

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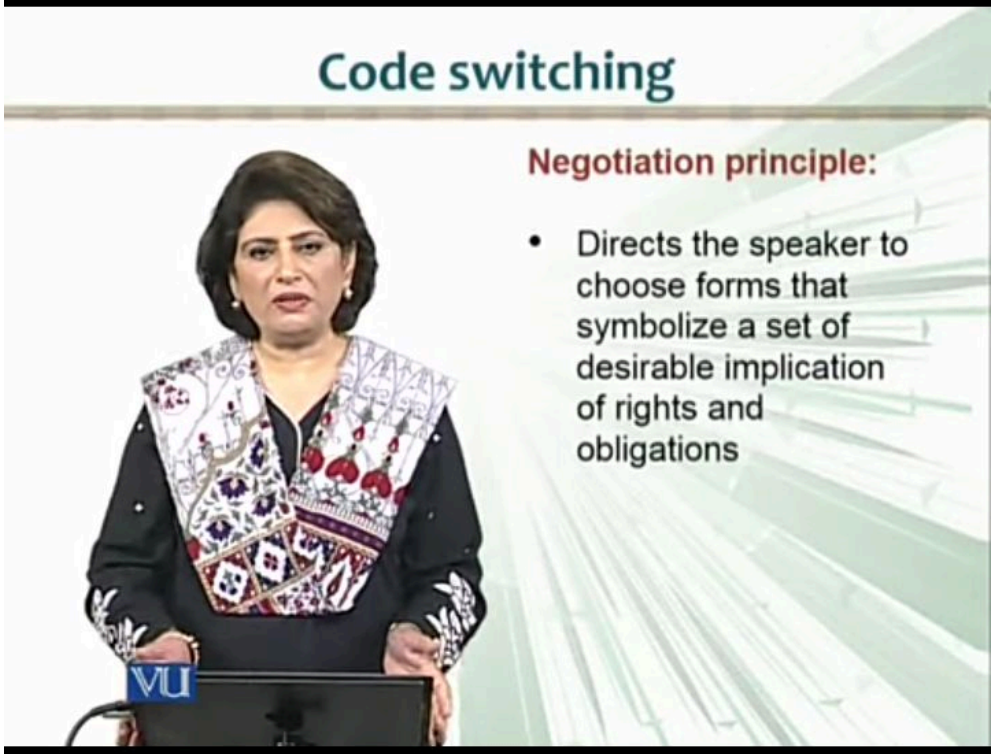

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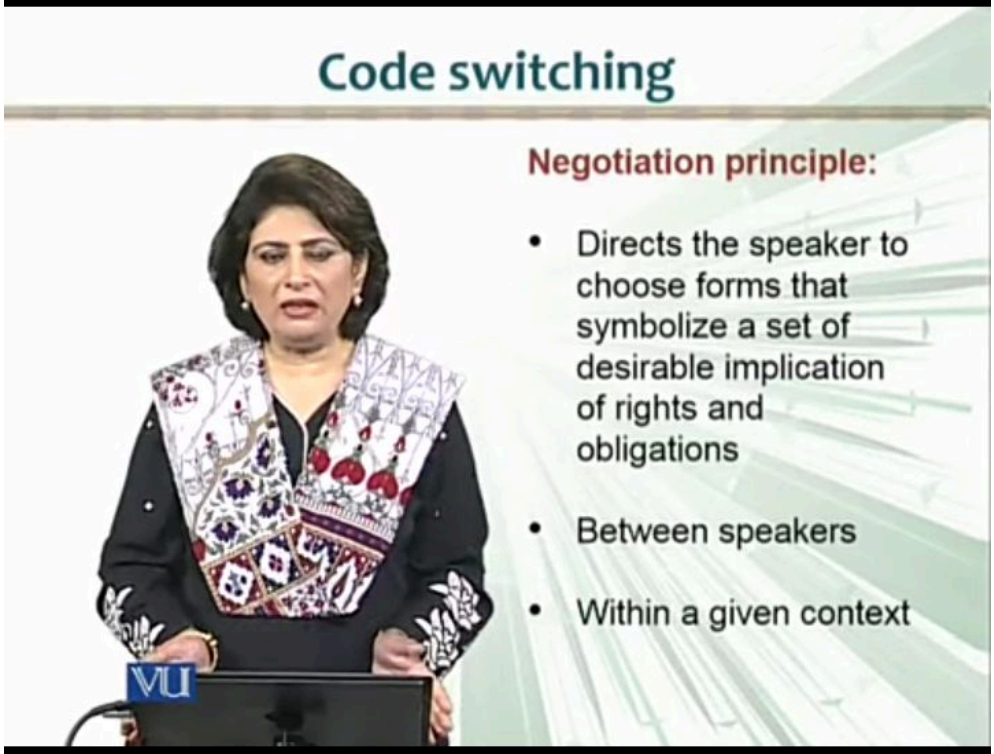

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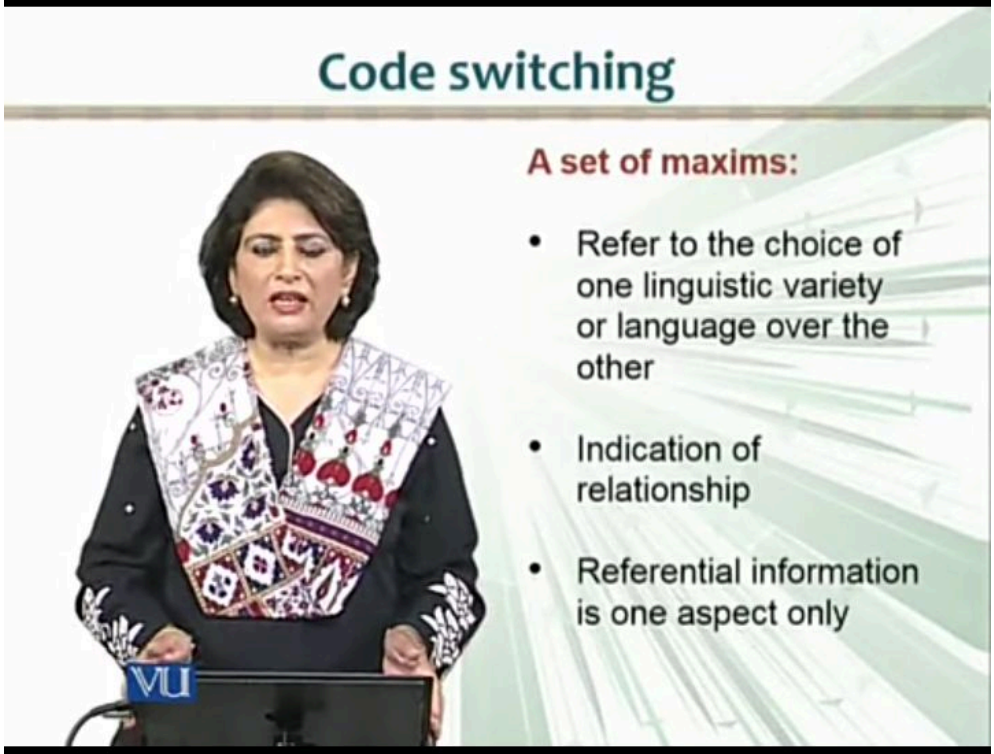

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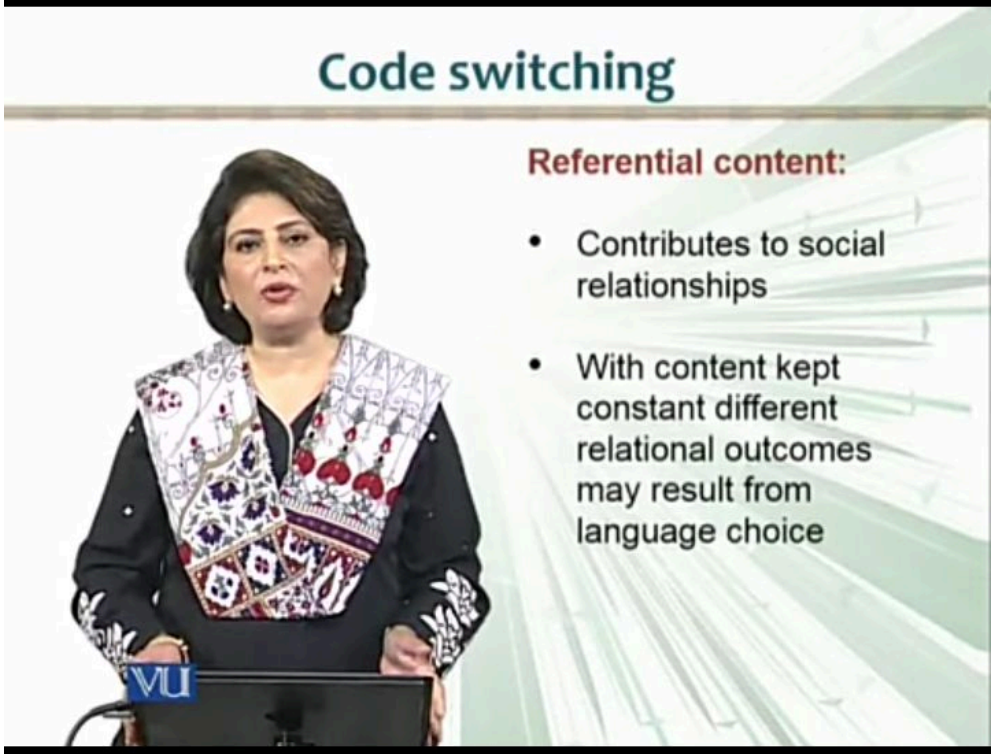

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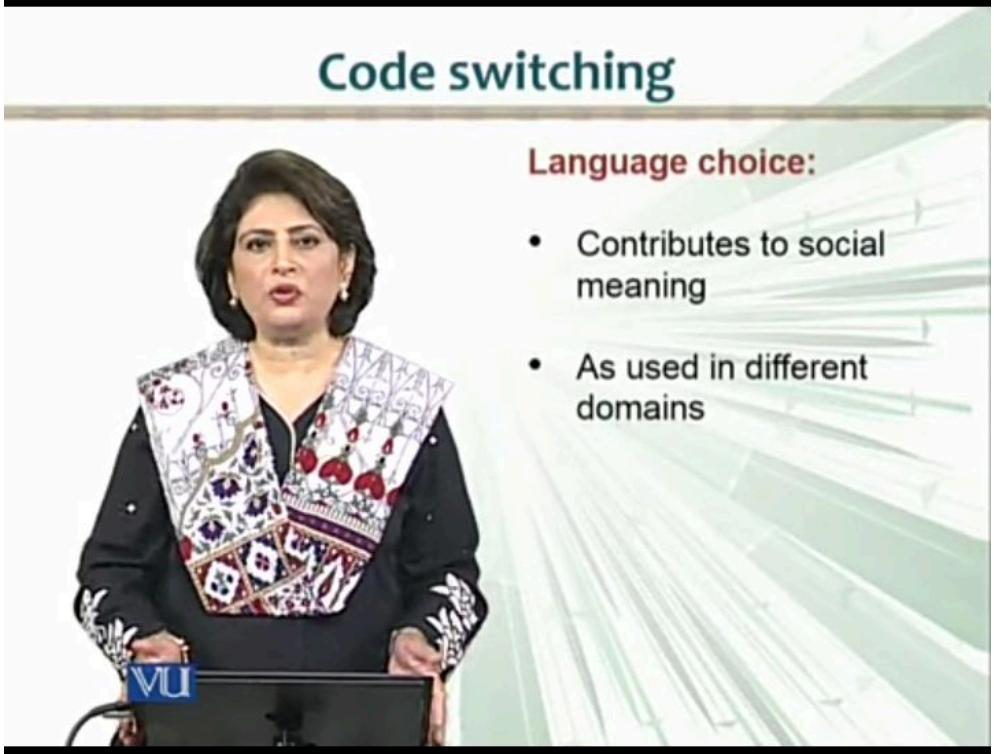

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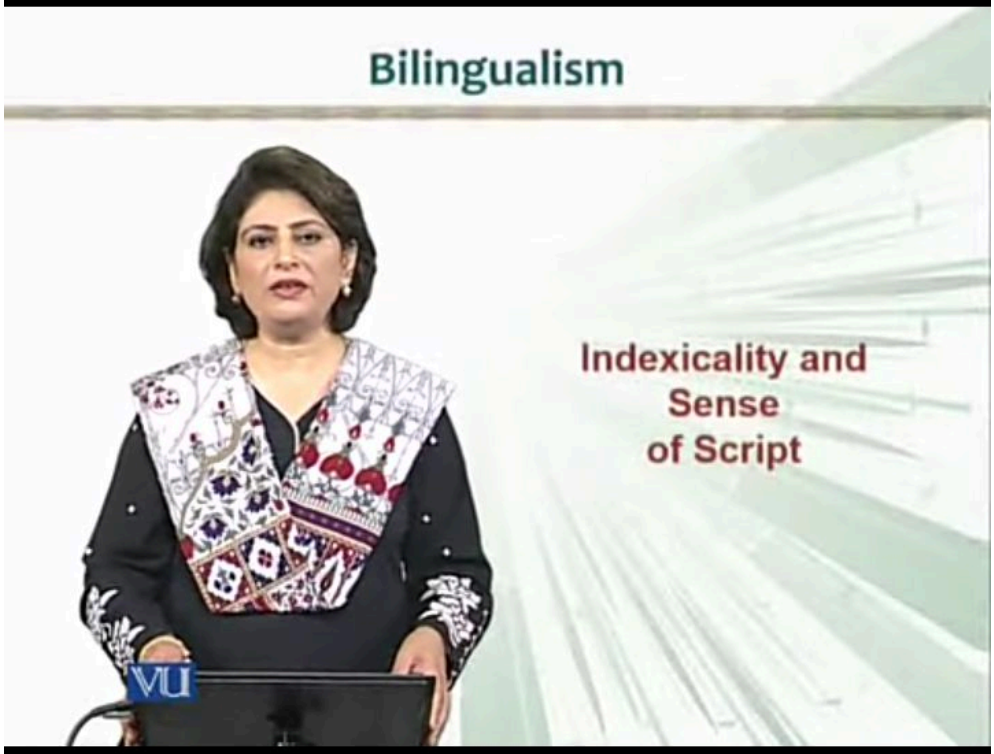

No connection

CODE SWITCHING

Topic No. 078-083

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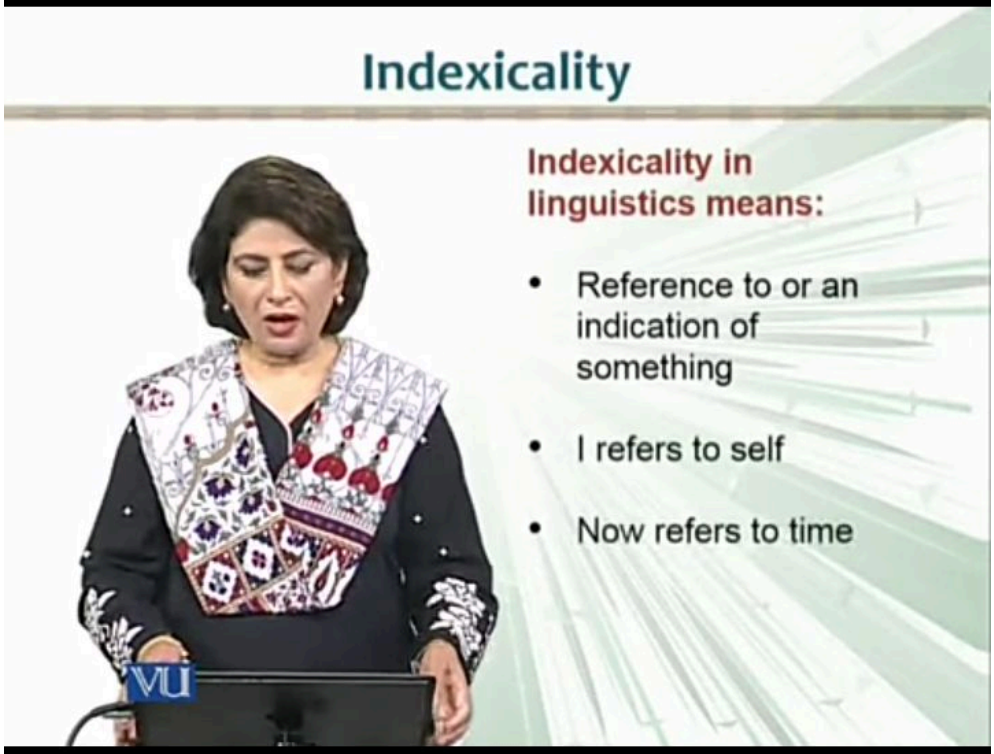

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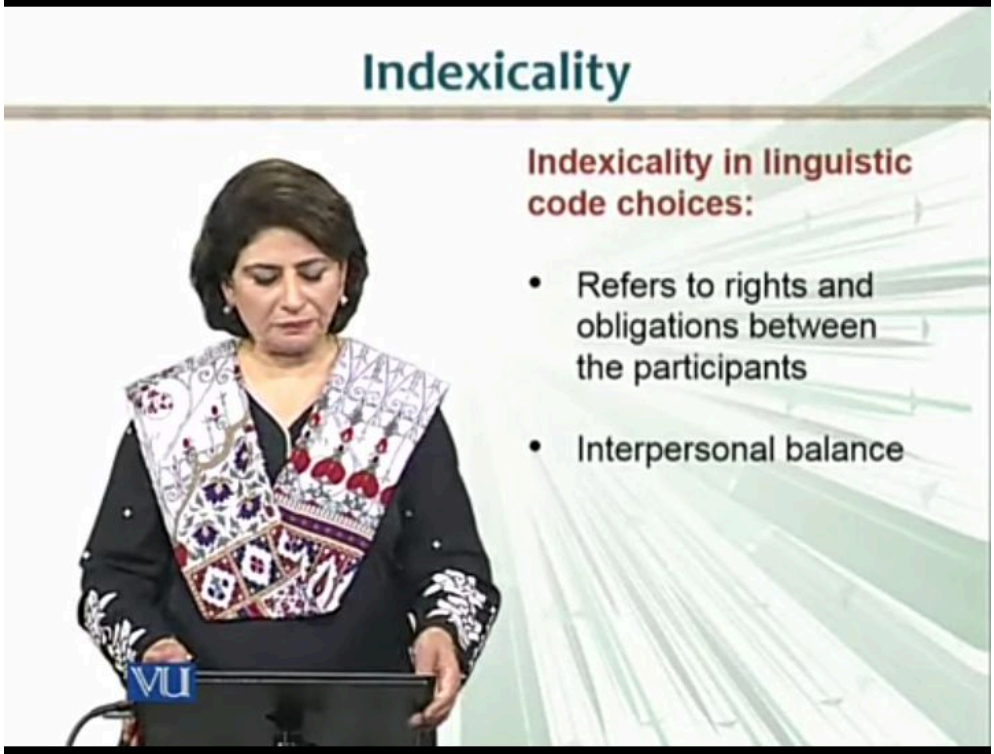

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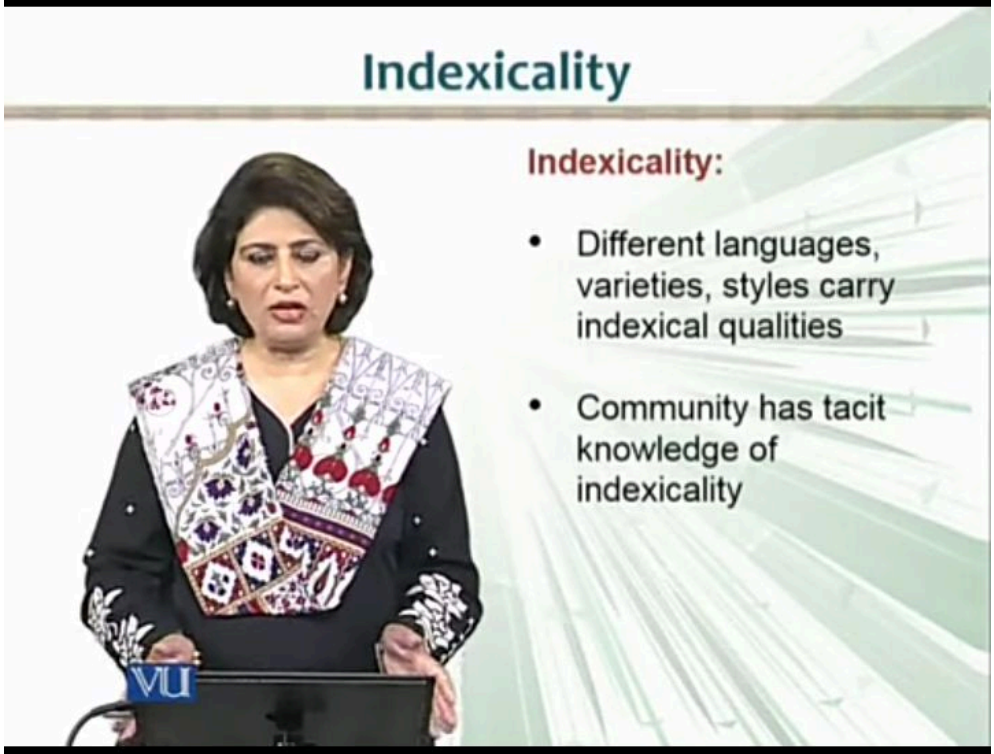

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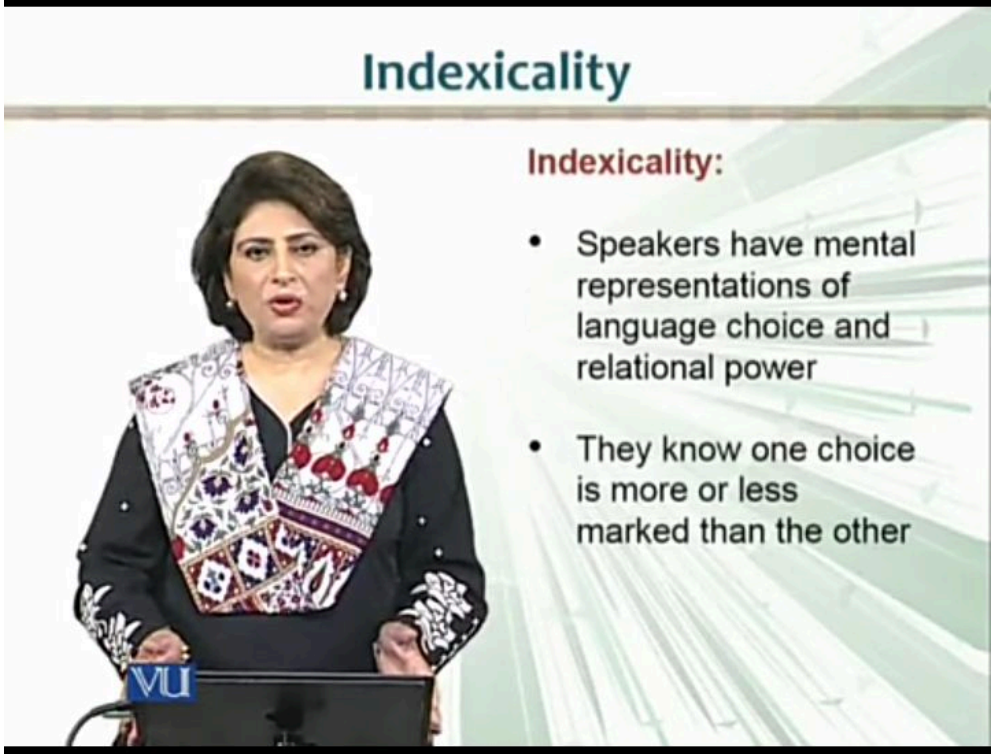

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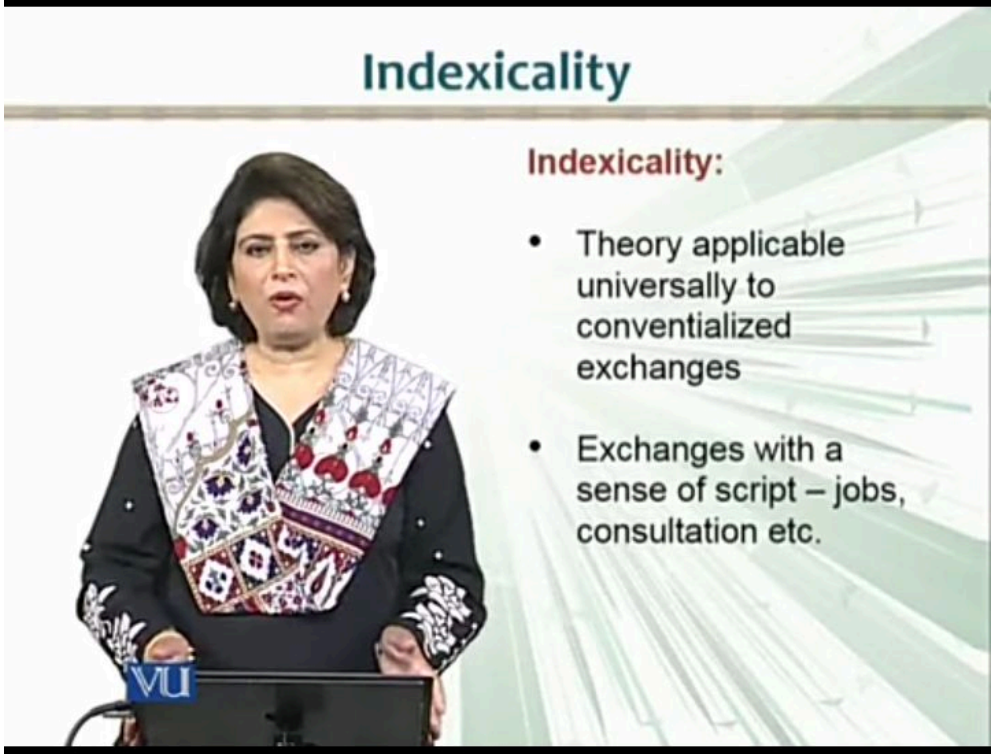

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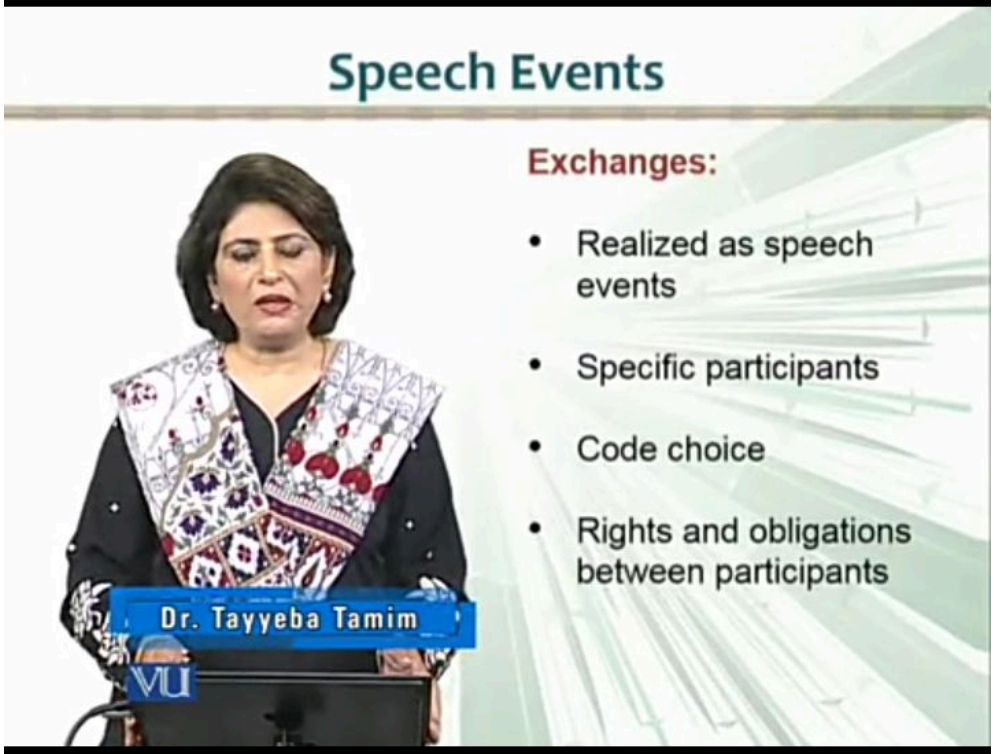

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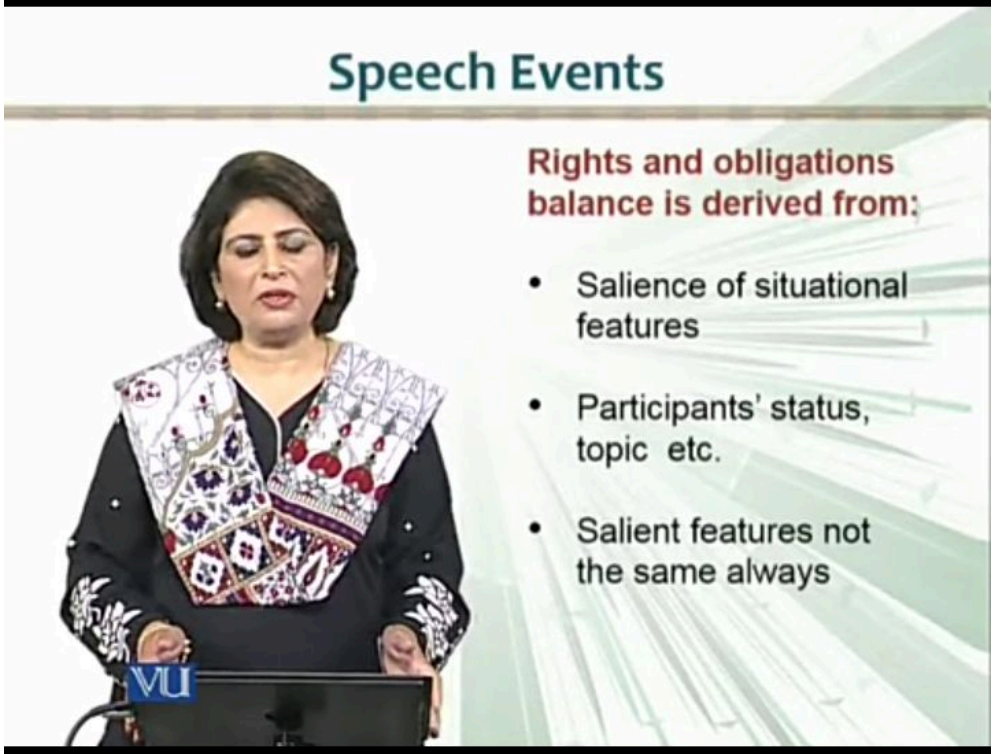

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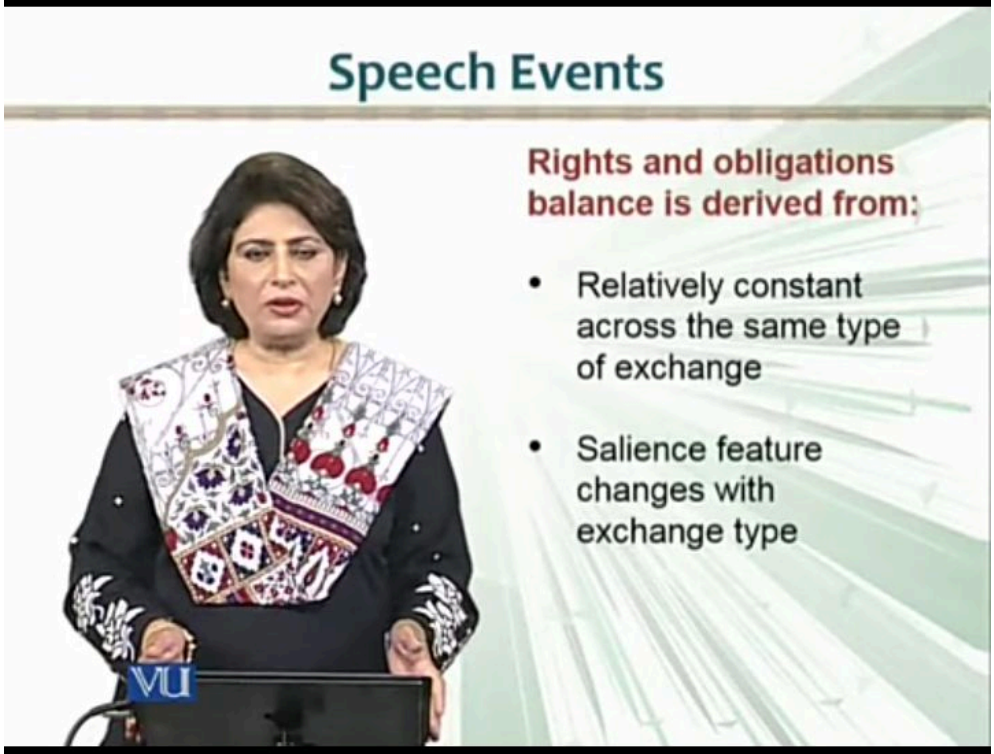

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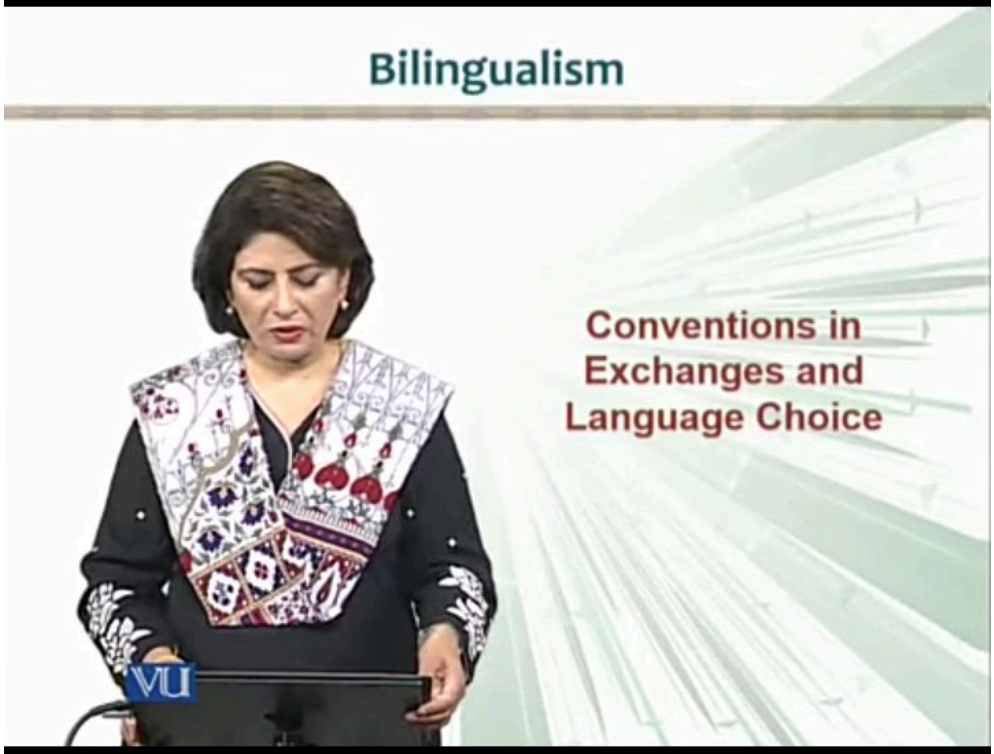

No connection

CODE SWITCHING

Topic No. 078-083

Code Switching Introduction; Code Switching Definition; Speech Events; Indexicality; Speech Events; Conventions; Social Networks and Code Switching

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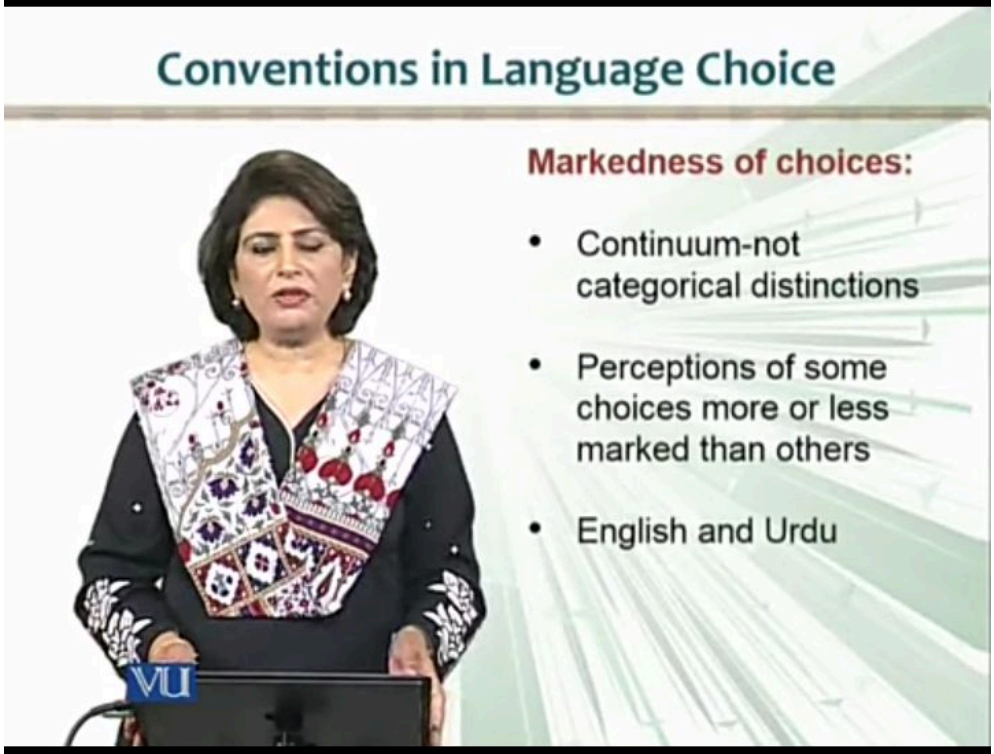

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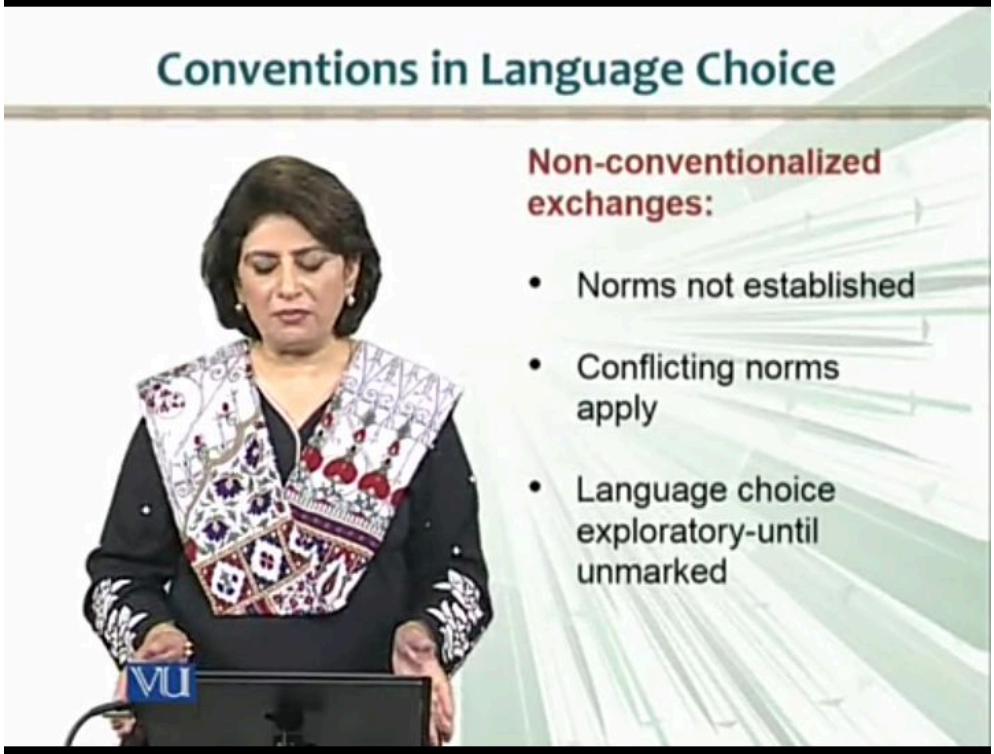

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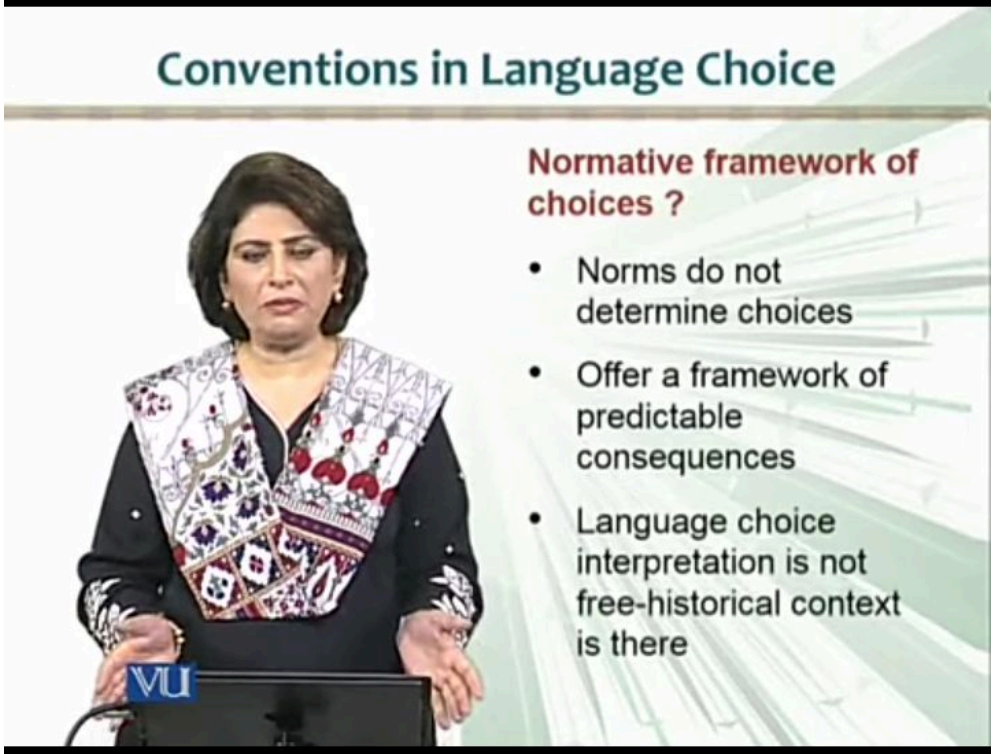

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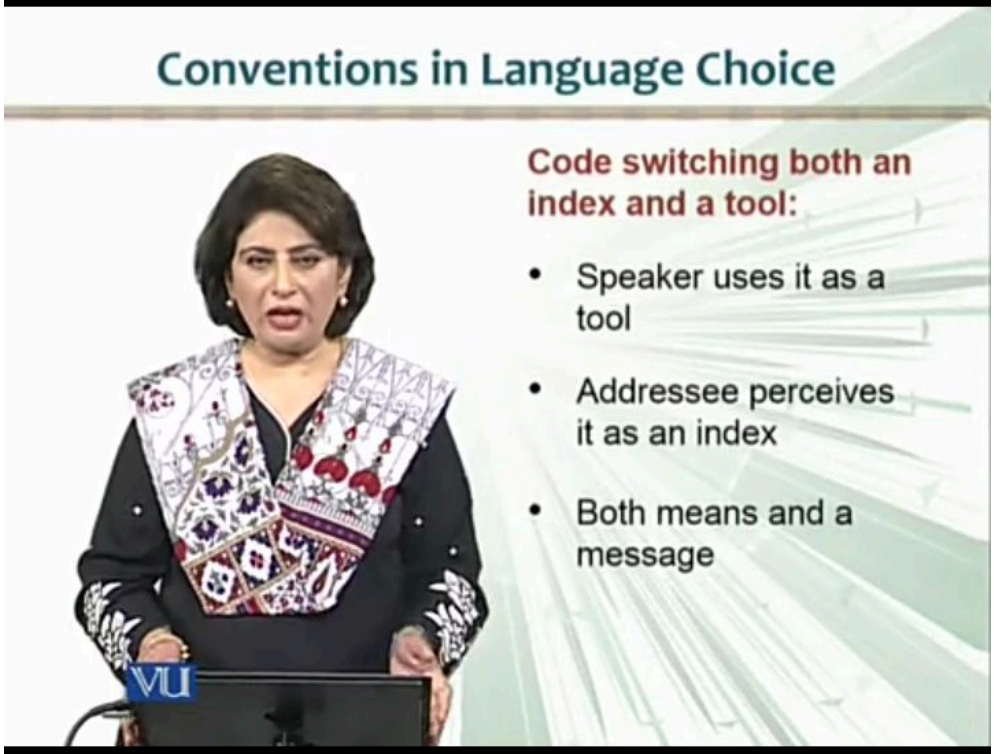

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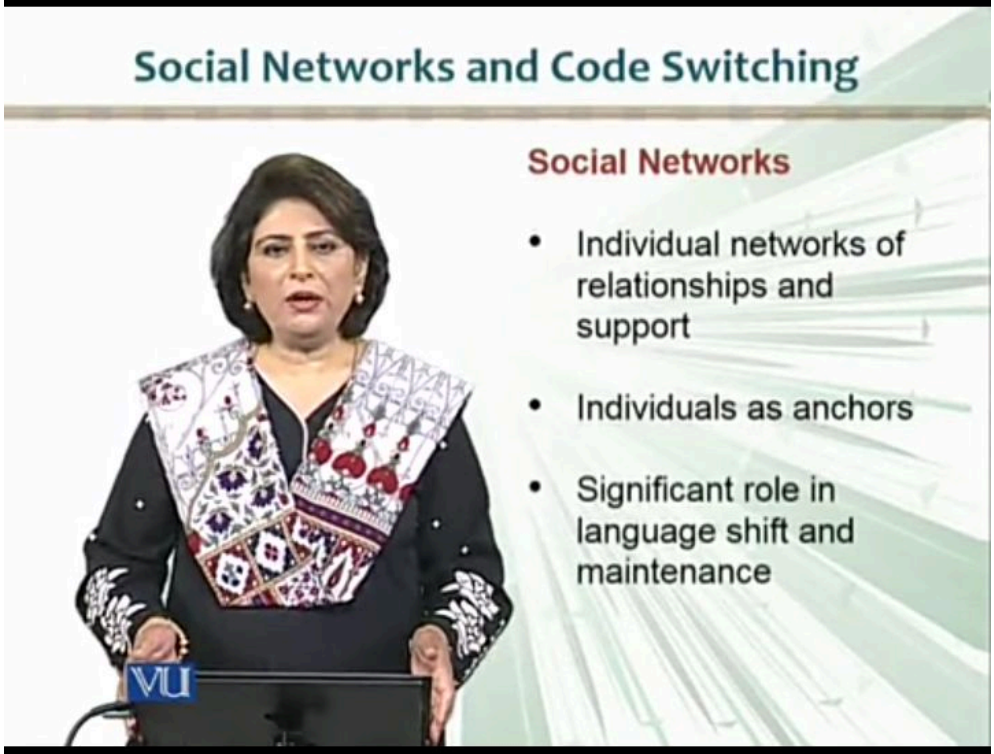

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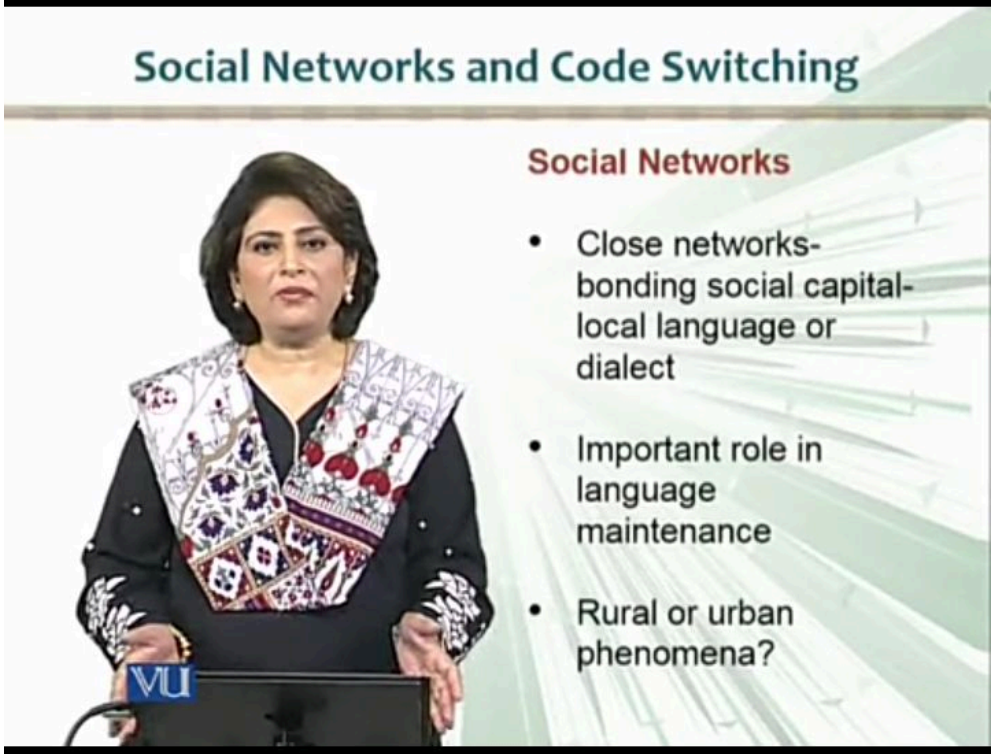

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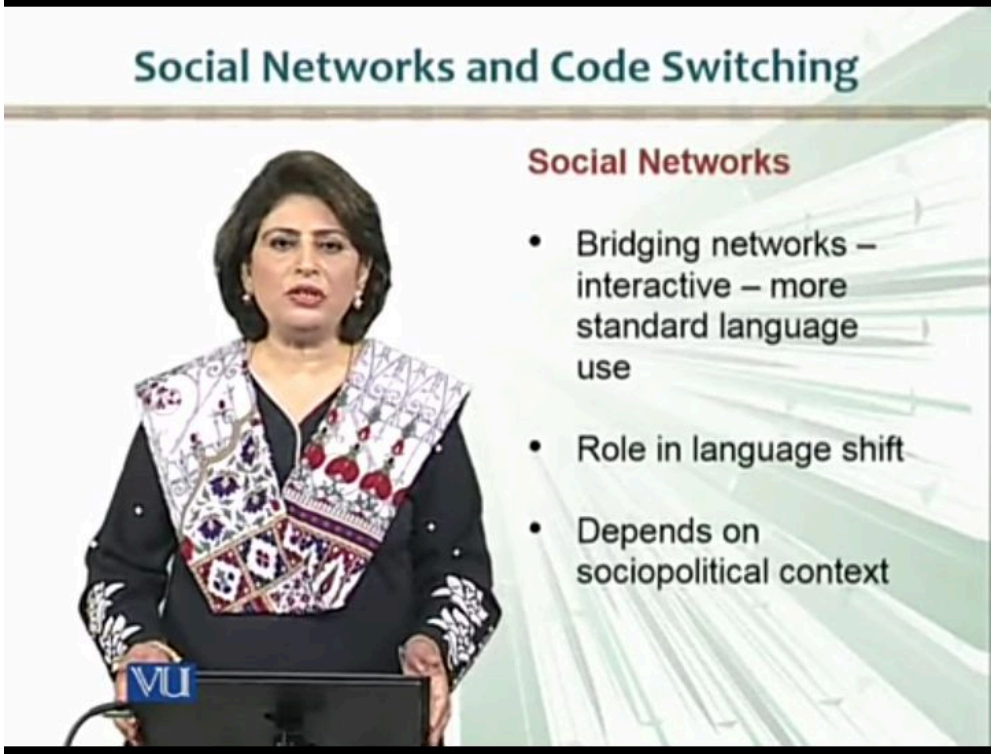

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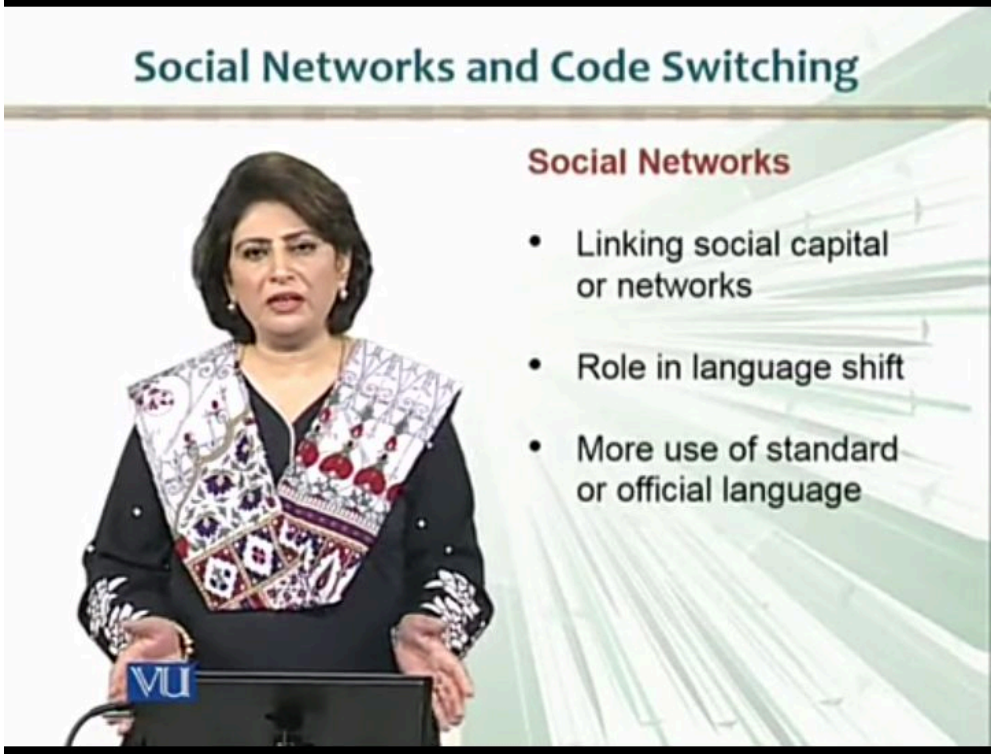

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Lesson-16

LINGUISTIC DIMENSIONS OF BILINGUALISM- EARLY LANGUAGE DEVELOPMENT

Topic No. 084-089

Introduction; Grammar of Code Switching; Linguistic Dimension-One System or Two; Linguistic Dimension-Bilingual Mixing; Bilingual Mixing; Linguistic Variation and Age

Michael Clyne argues that the grammatical constraints and the grammatical models of code-switching cannot be substantiated universally. He further develops the idea of 'triggering', which he proposed in his earlier work namely, an item of ambiguous affiliation—i.e. one belonging to the speakers' two systems triggers off a switch from one language to another. He points out that trigger words are not part of the switch, but indicative of the psycholinguistic process by which the bilingual speaker plans and produces his or her speech.

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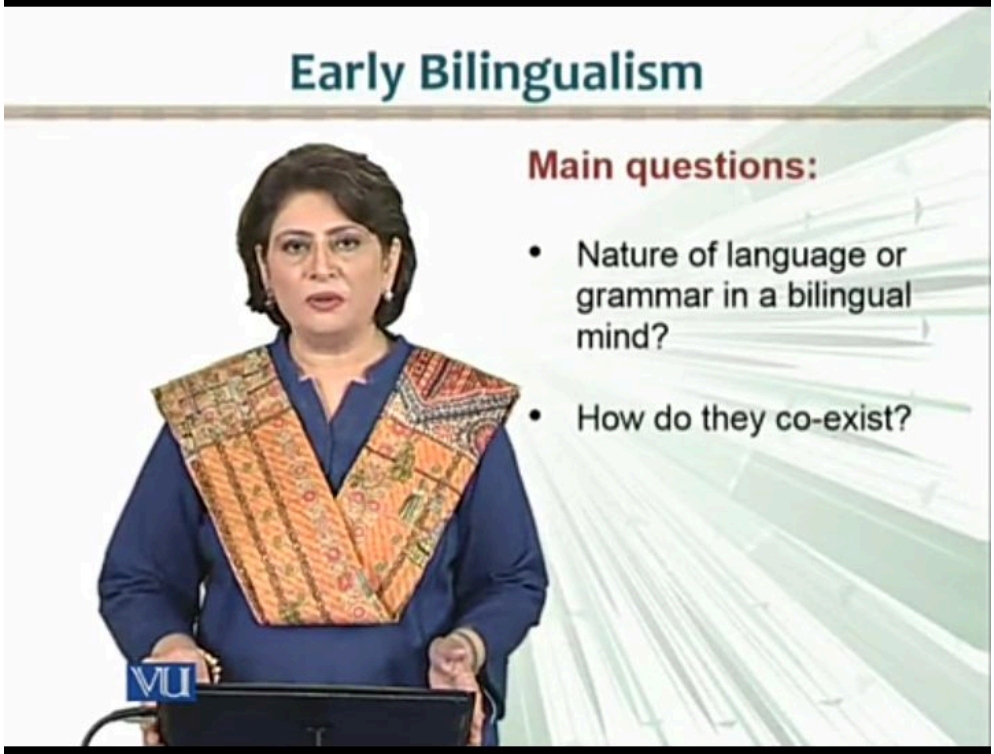

Lesson-16

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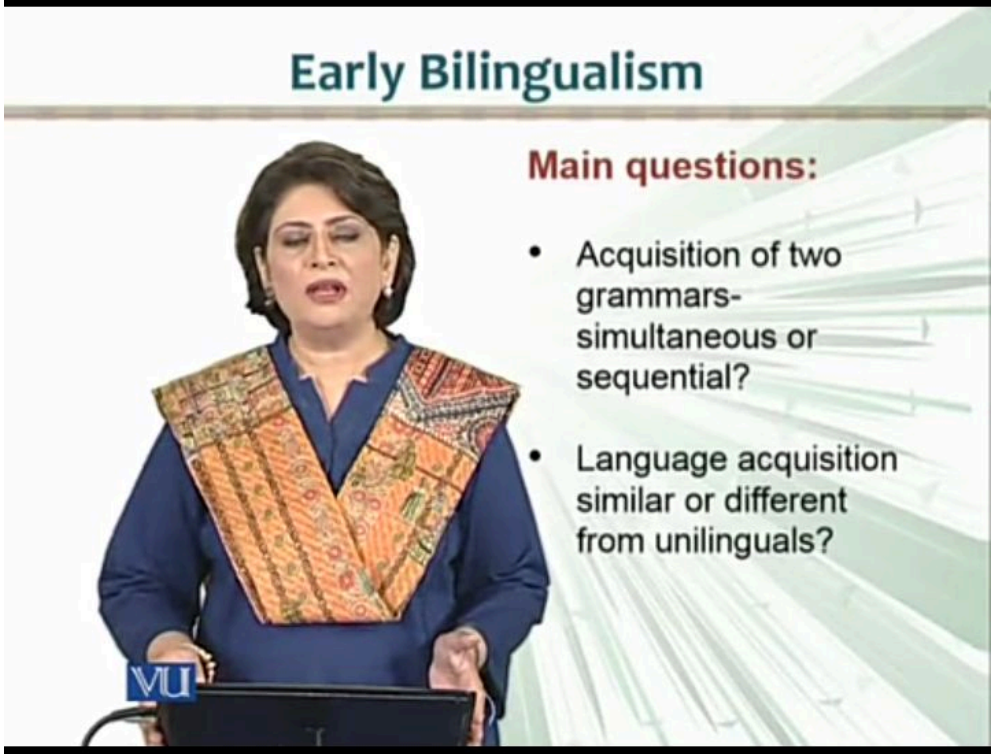

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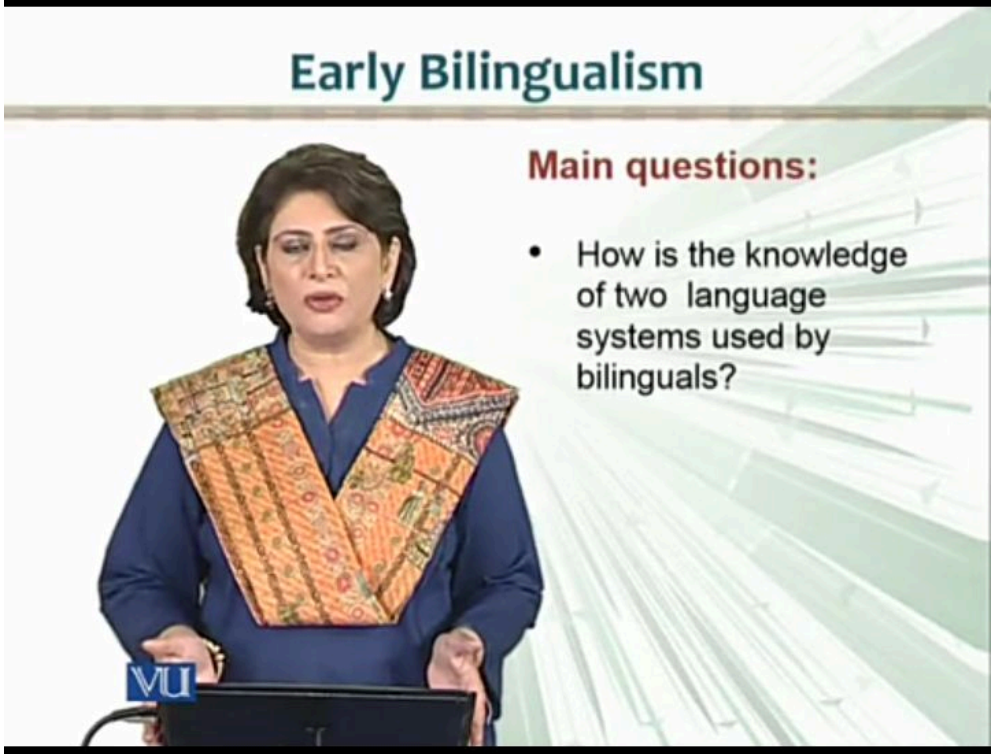

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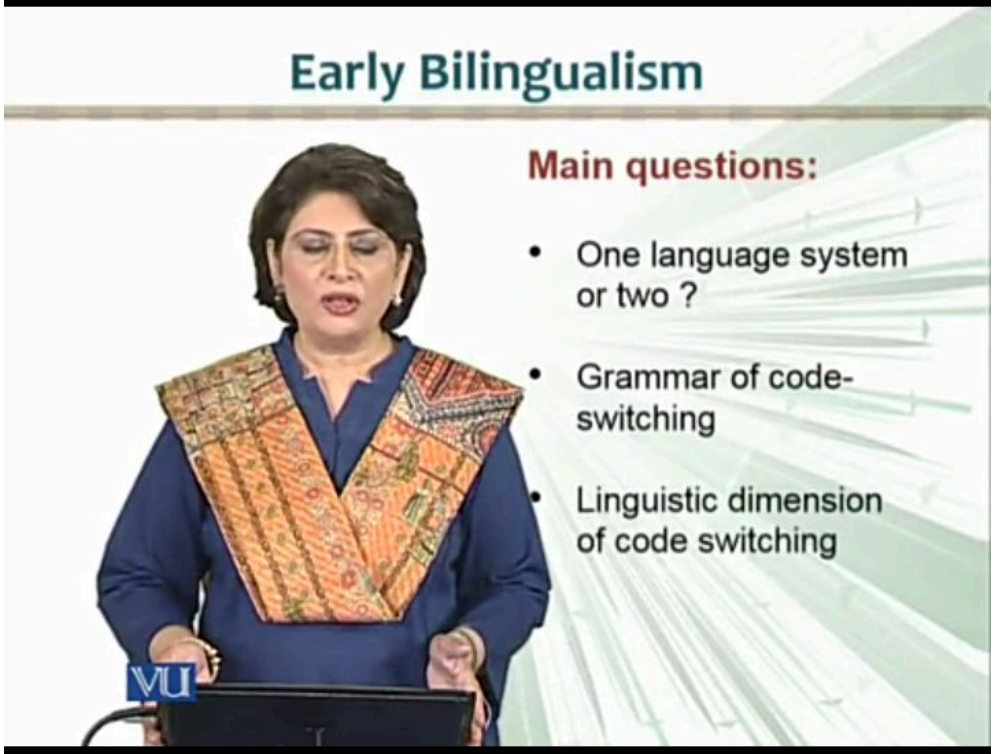

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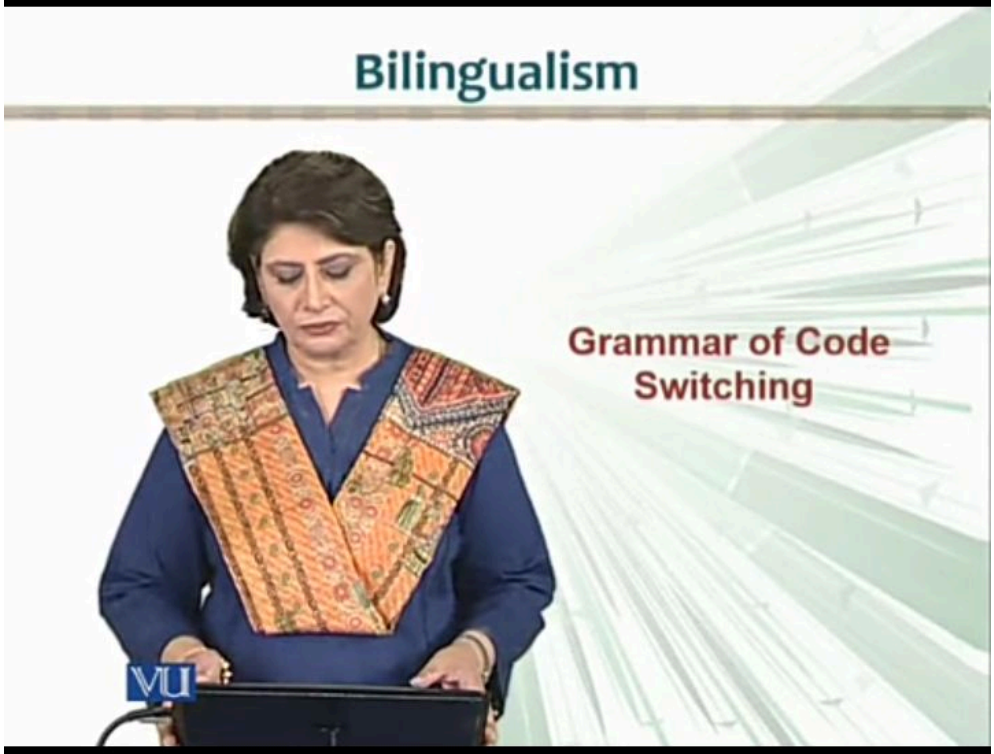

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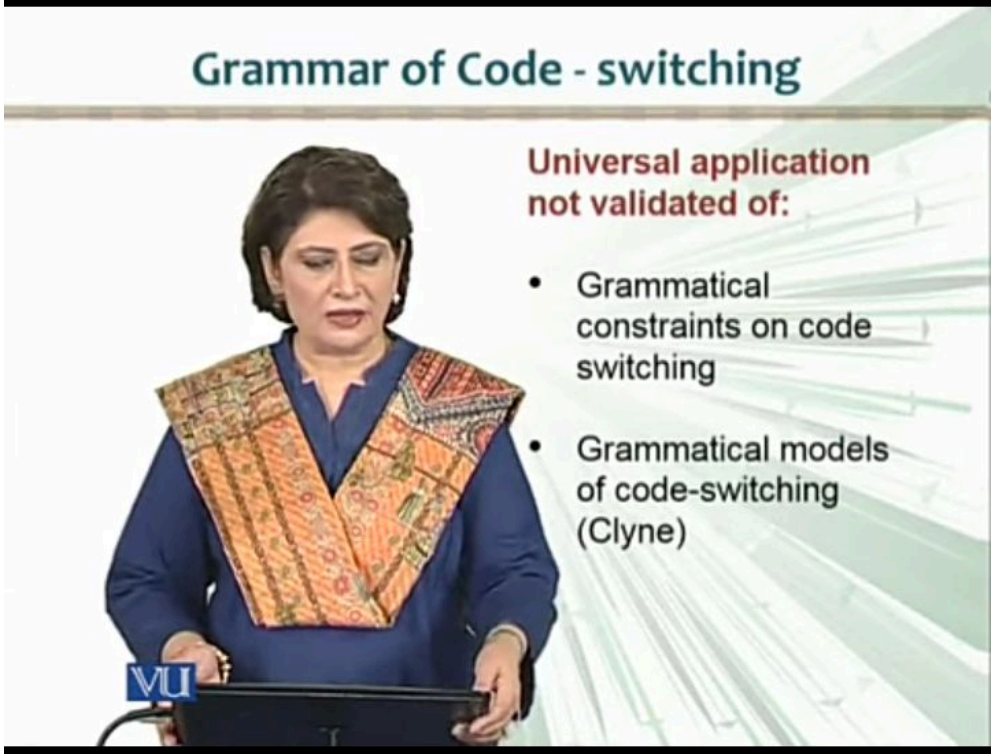

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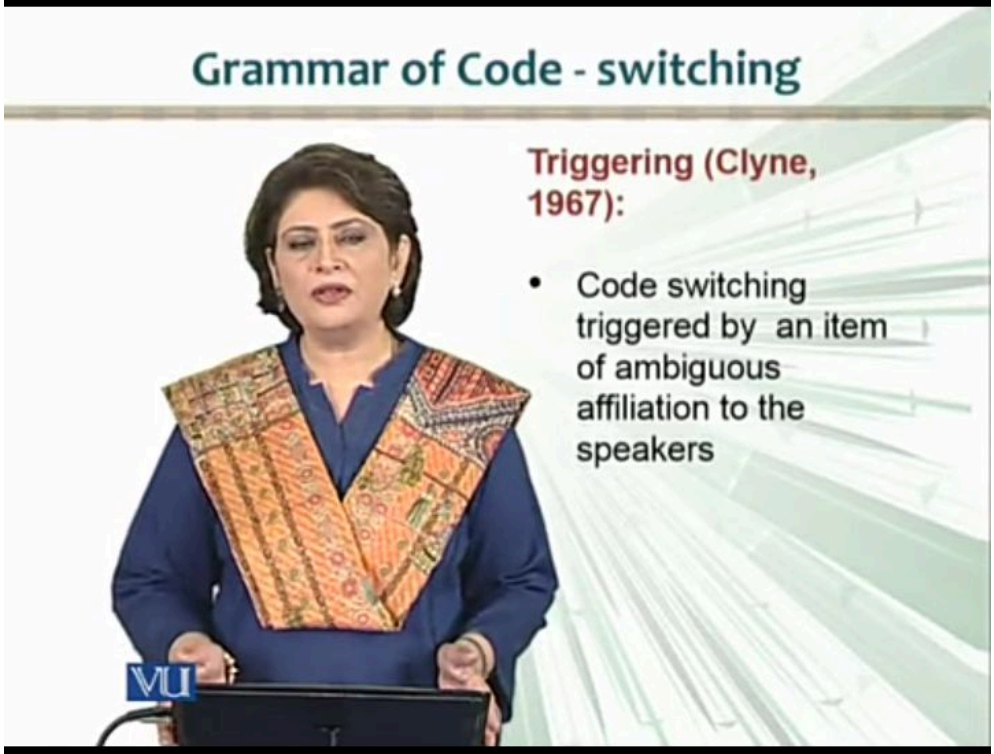

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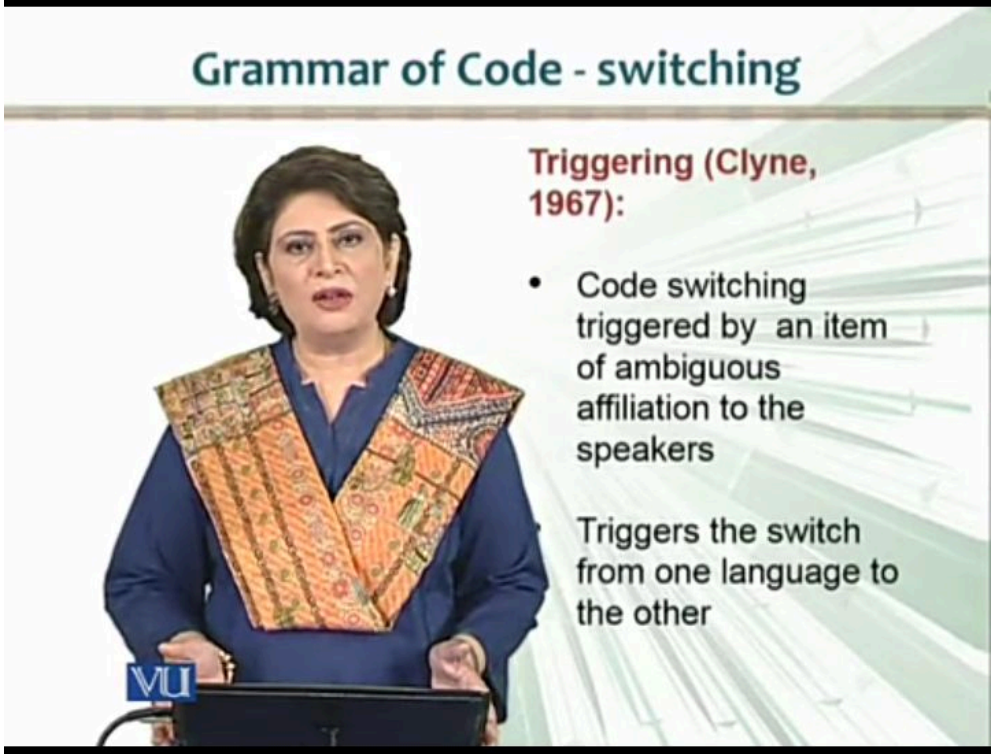

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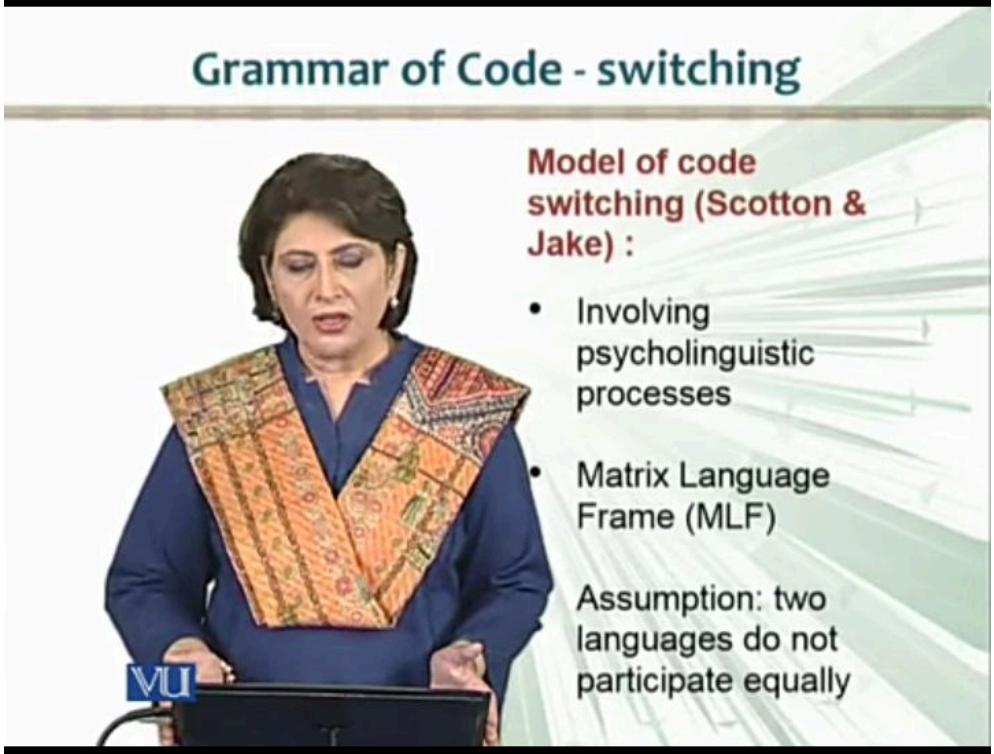

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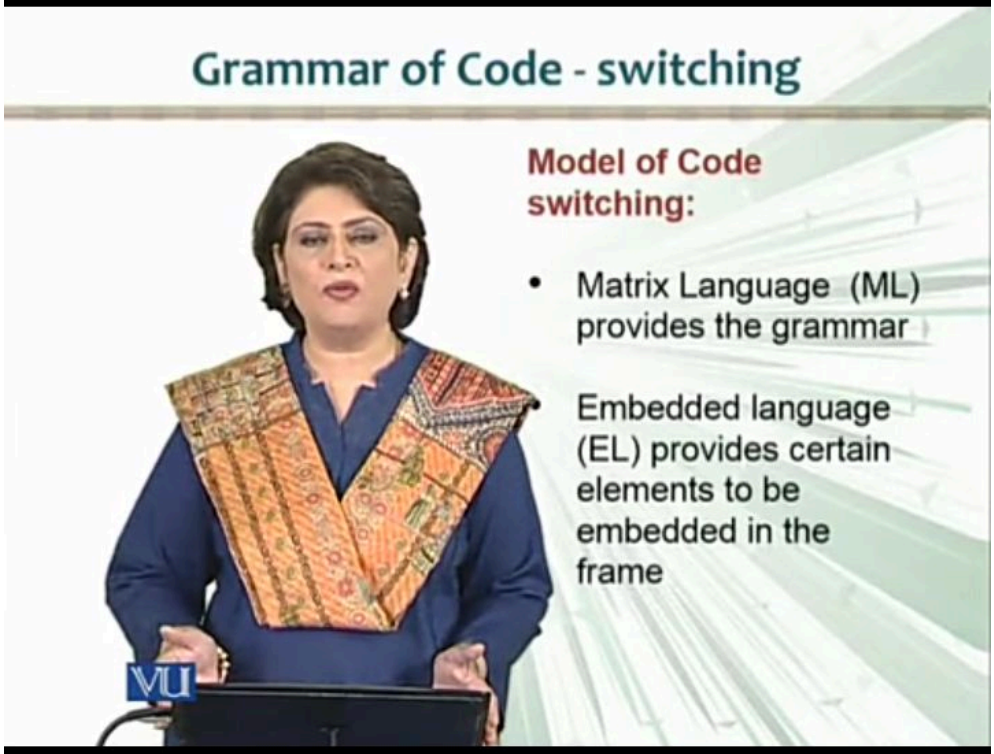

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Michael Clyne argues that the grammatical constraints and the grammatical models of code-switching cannot be substantiated universally. He further develops the idea of 'triggering', which he proposed in his earlier work namely, an item of ambiguous affiliation—i.e. one belonging to the speakers' two systems triggers off a switch from one language to another. He points out that trigger words are not part of the switch, but indicative of the psycholinguistic process by which the bilingual speaker plans and produces his or her speech.

One System or Two?

The fact that bilingual children mix elements from their two languages is often interpreted as evidence for a unitary underlying language system. Fred Genesee's article examines the empirical basis for such a claim. He points out the serious methodological problems of some of the studies, and re-analyses selected case studies. He also offers new data from speech perception studies, arguing that young bilingual children are able to differentiate two languages from the earliest stages of bilingual development and that they can use their two languages in contextually sensitive ways. He points out that code-mixing itself is not good evidence for the unitary system argument. In fact, children's mixing may be related to mixed input by parents. Genesee calls for more serious research on the possible role of parental input in the form of mixed utterances.

Jürgen M. Meisel addresses the 'one system or two' question by focusing on the syntactic and morphological development of bilingual children however, instead of simply providing further evidence in support of the separate development argument, Meisel raises the theoretically more interesting question of whether the human language making capacity could allow the bilingual individual to separate the two simultaneously acquired grammatical systems from early on, without going through a phase of confusion. Through a longitudinal study of simultaneous French-German bilingual children, he argues that grammatical processing is in fact possible much earlier than is usually assumed on the basis of analyses of monolingual child language. He further speculates that this early development of grammatical processing ability could be explained by the fact that the task of acquiring two language systems simultaneously requires more attention to problems of form, rather than relying on semantic-pragmatic strategies alone.

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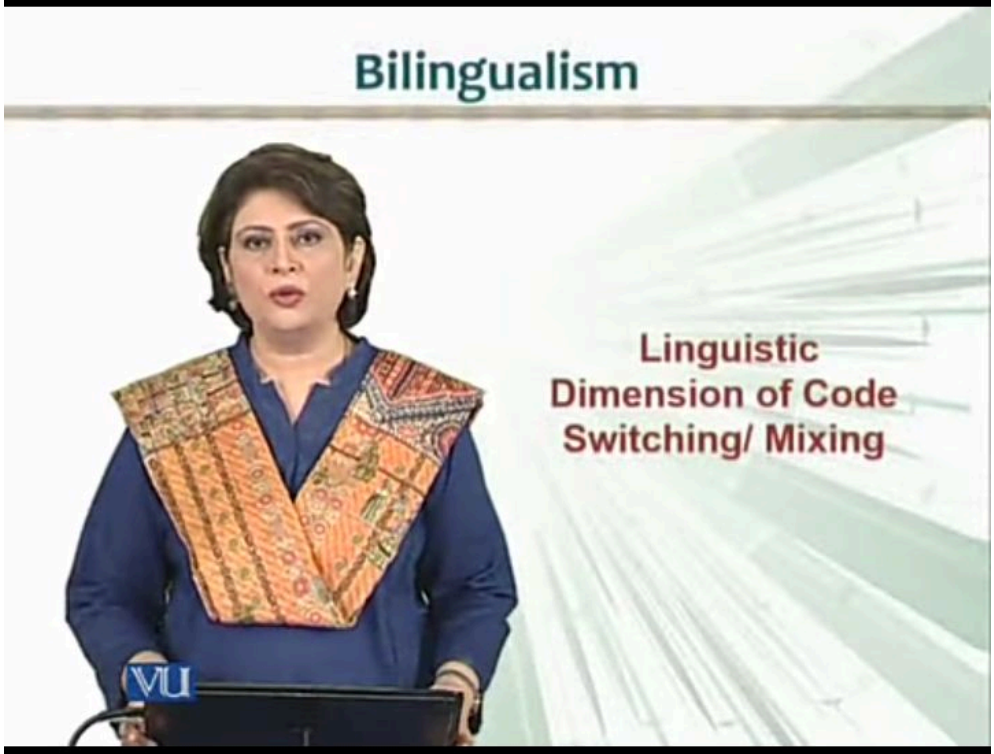

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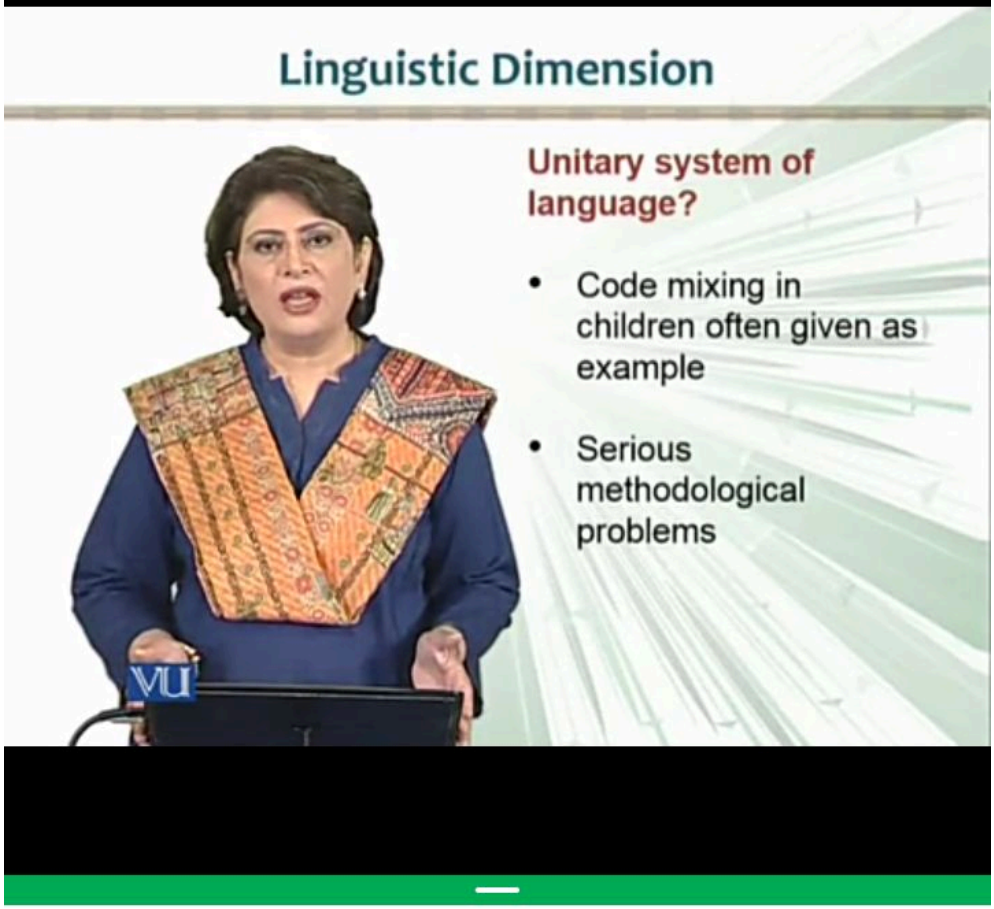

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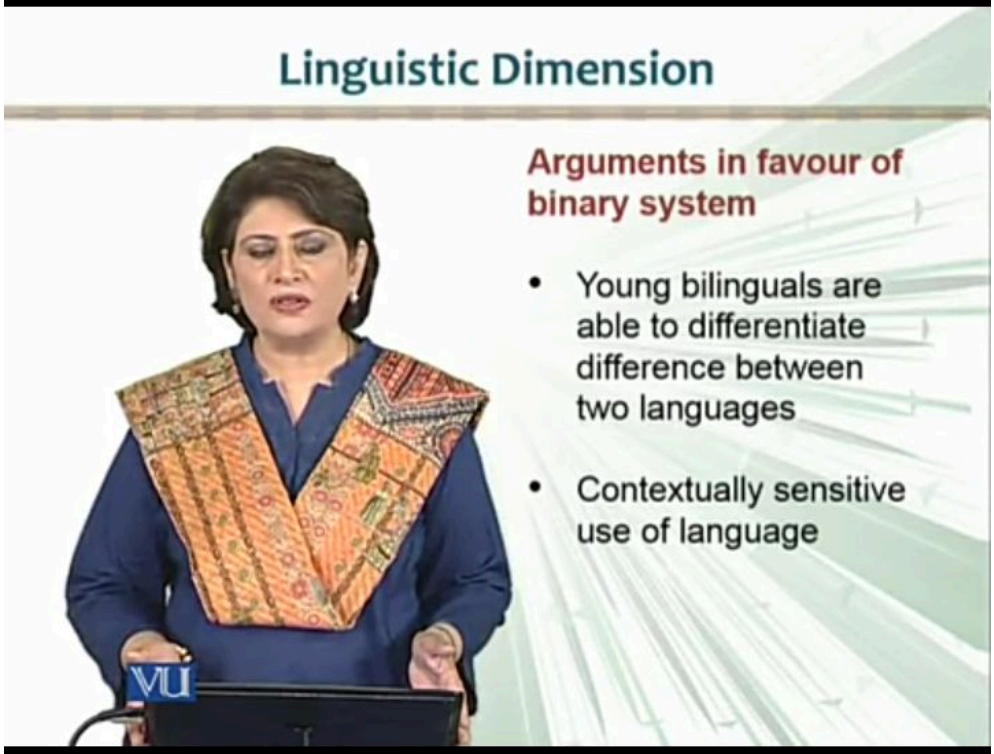

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Challenges: Reported rates of mixing are difficult to interpret or compare across studies owing to:

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2. The possibility of unequal or inequitable sampling of the child's language use in different language contexts and/or with different interlocutors
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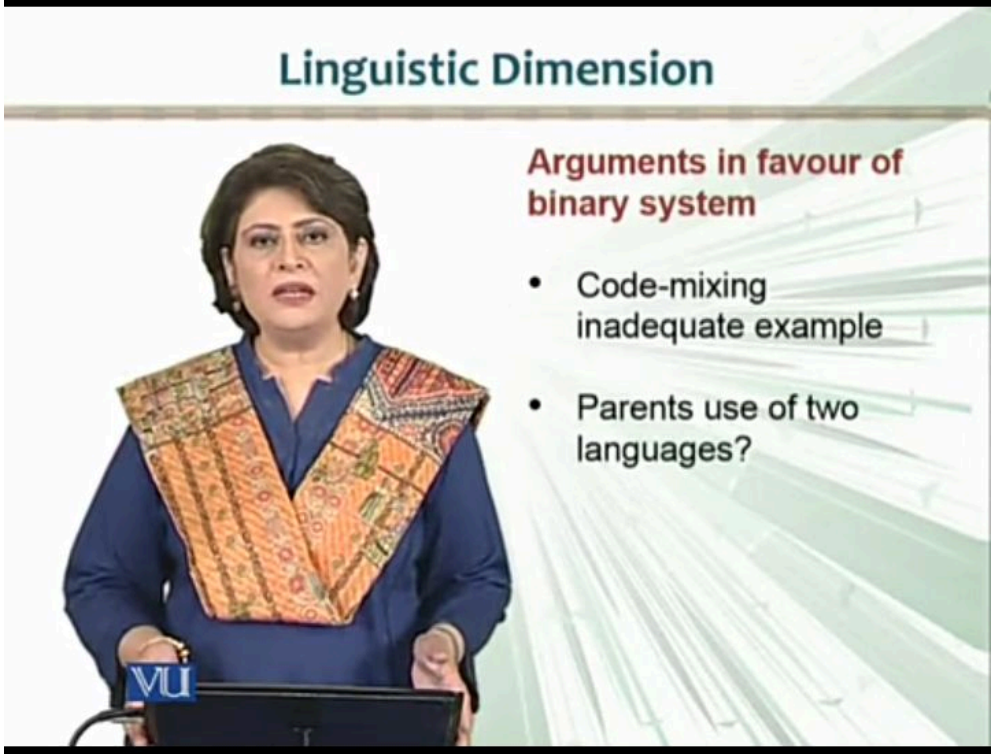

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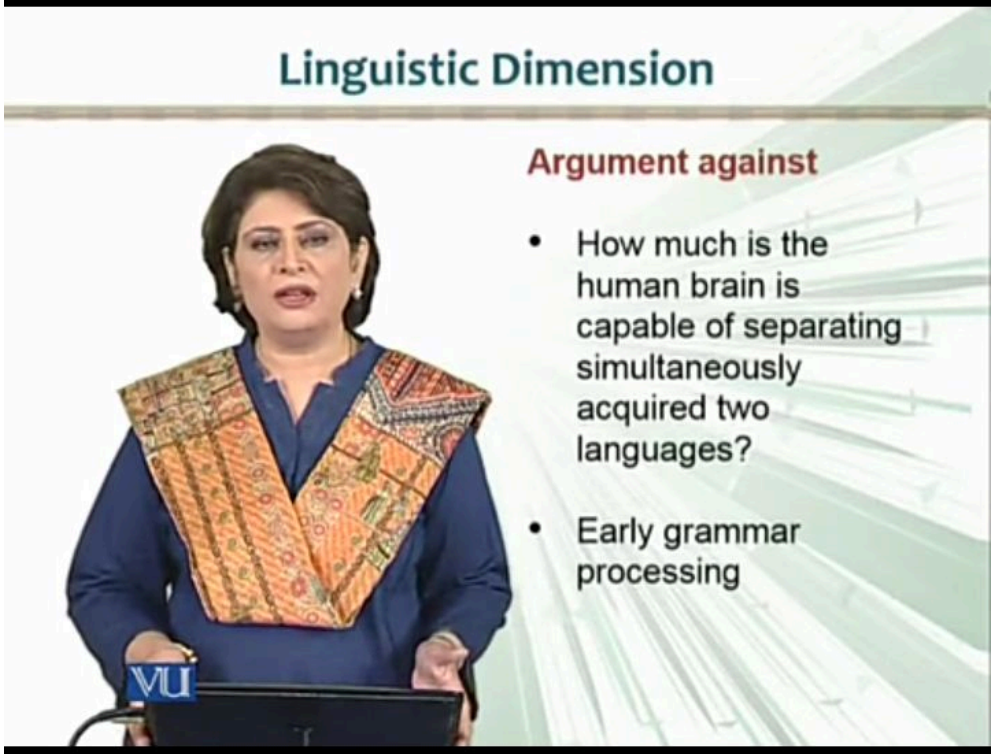

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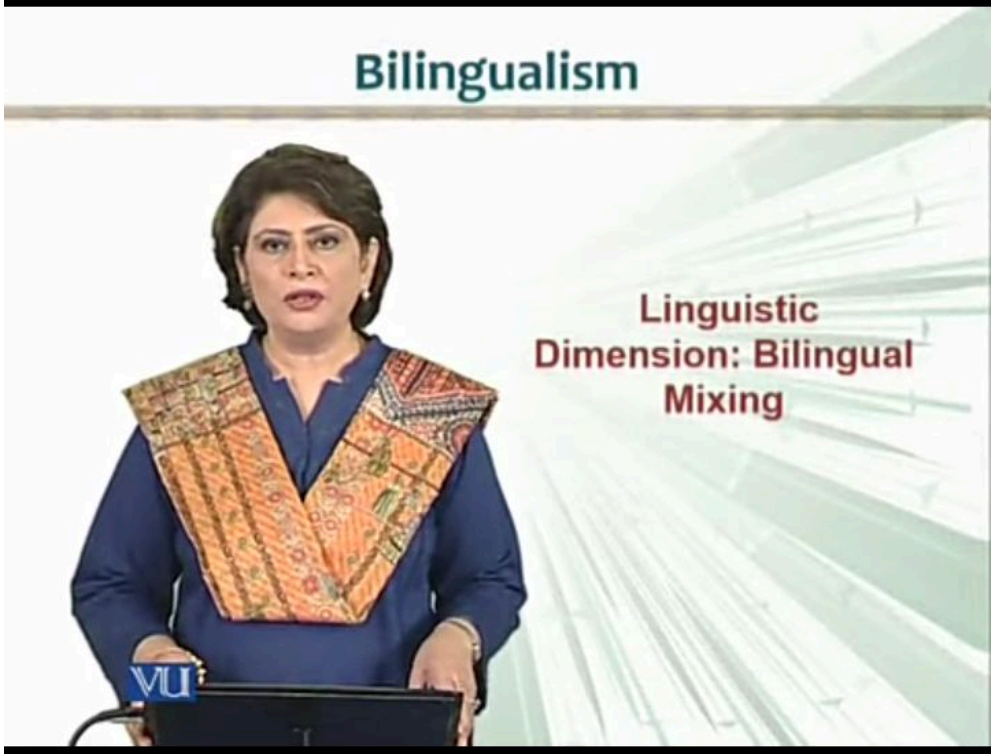

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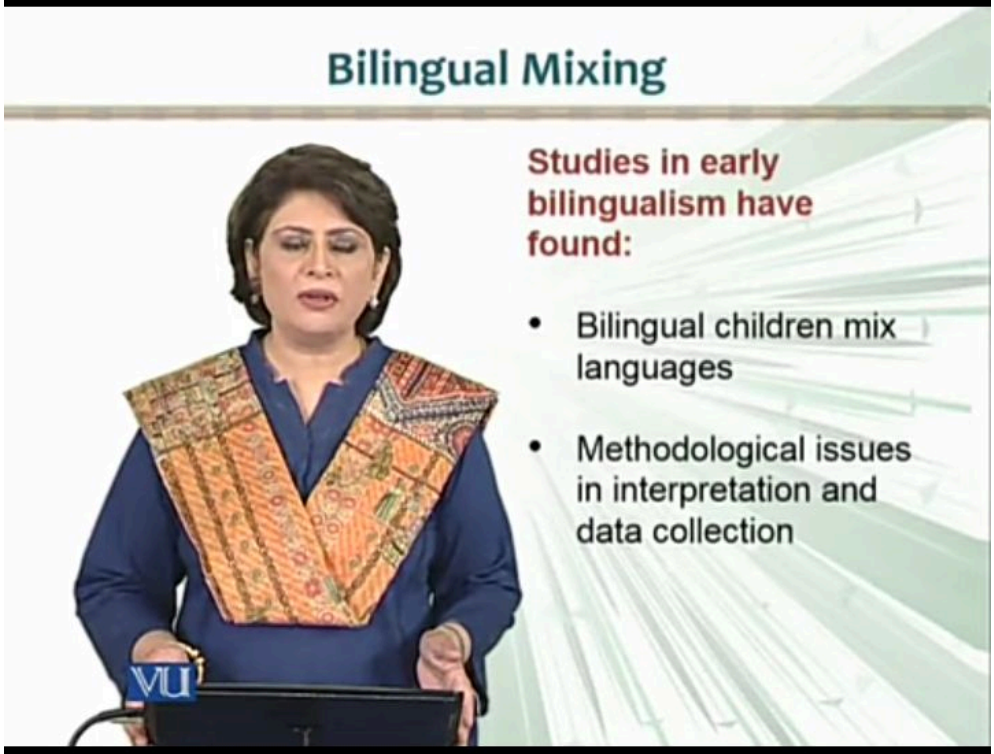

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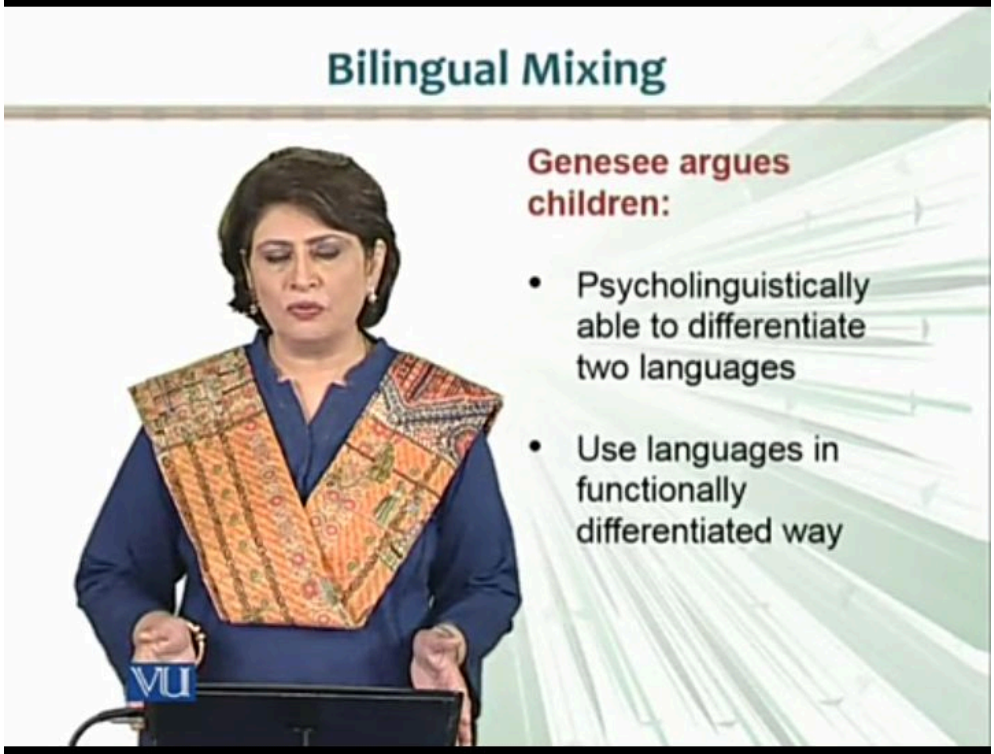

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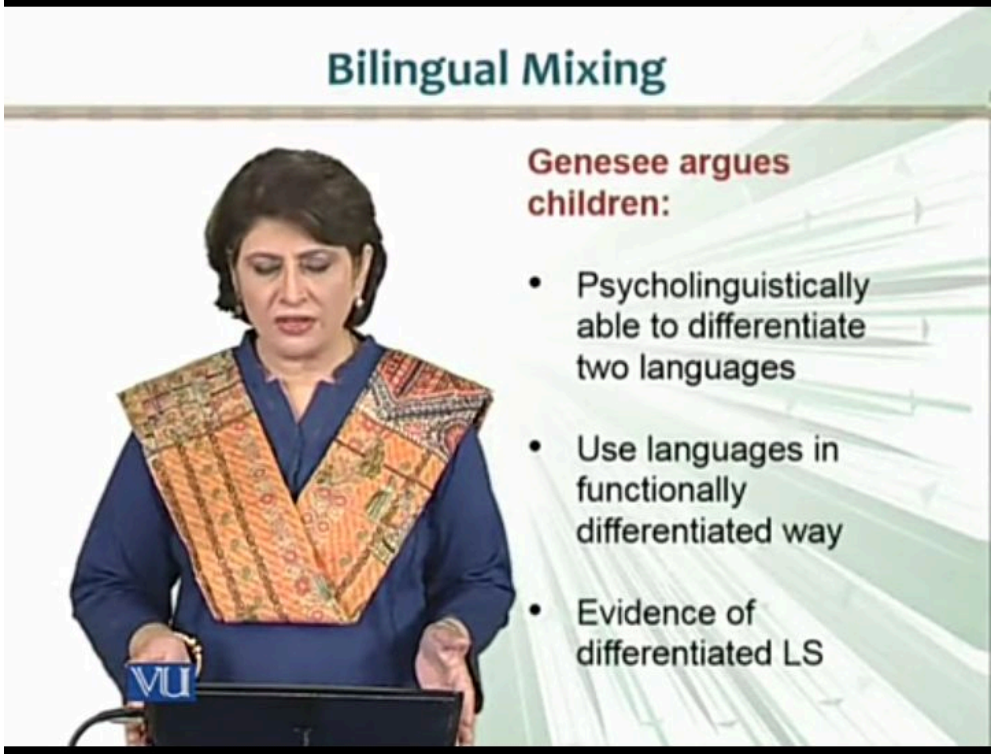

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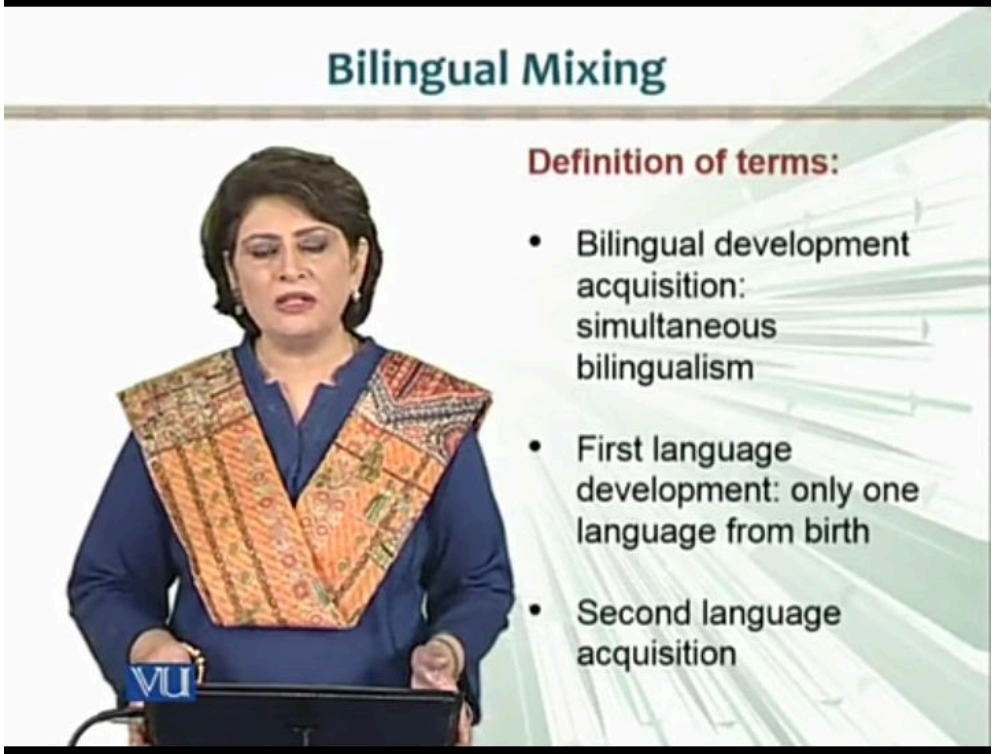
What is thought to distinguish bilingual children's mixing from adult mixing is the lack of systematicity or compliance to linguistic rules in the case of children. The period of language mixing just described is generally reported to be followed by linguistic differentiation. Investigators studying children with different language histories have reported that differentiation occurs during the third year of life. At this time, the child is thought to have developed or to be developing two separate representations of his/her language systems or, alternatively, to have overcome the linguistic confusion characteristic of the earlier stage. He or she begins to switch systematically between languages as a function of the participants, the setting, the function of the message (e.g. to exclude others), its form (e.g. narration), and to a lesser extent, the topic of conversation. Bilingual children are reported to be especially sensitive to their interlocutors so that initially when differentiation occurs they tend rigidly to use the language they associate with the speaker even though he or she may express a willingness to use the other language.



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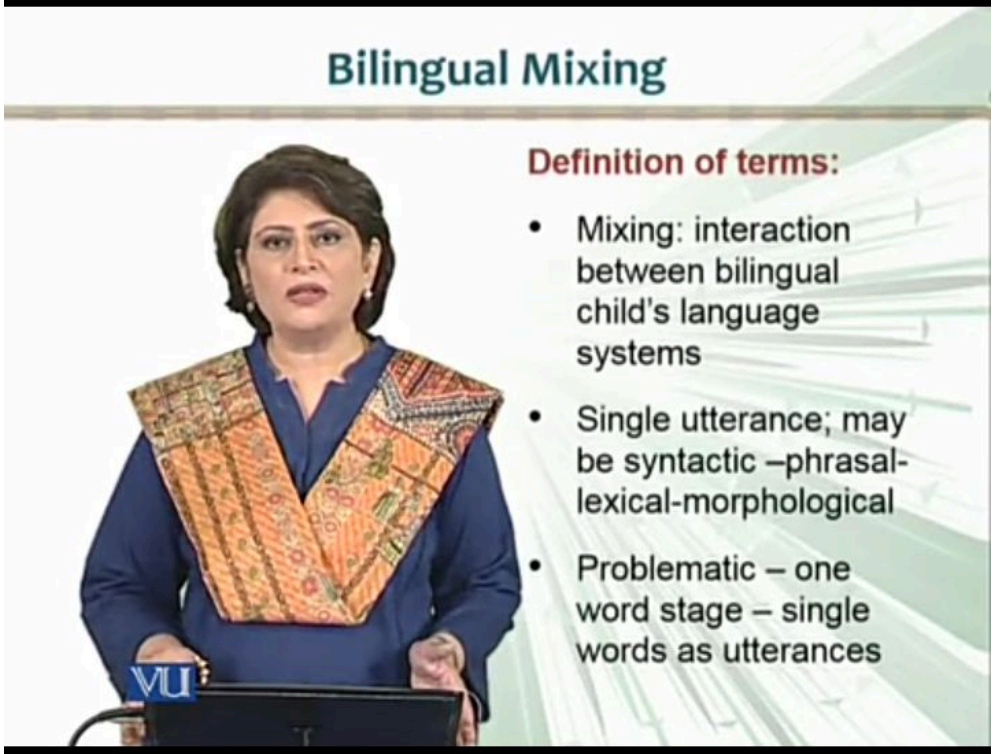

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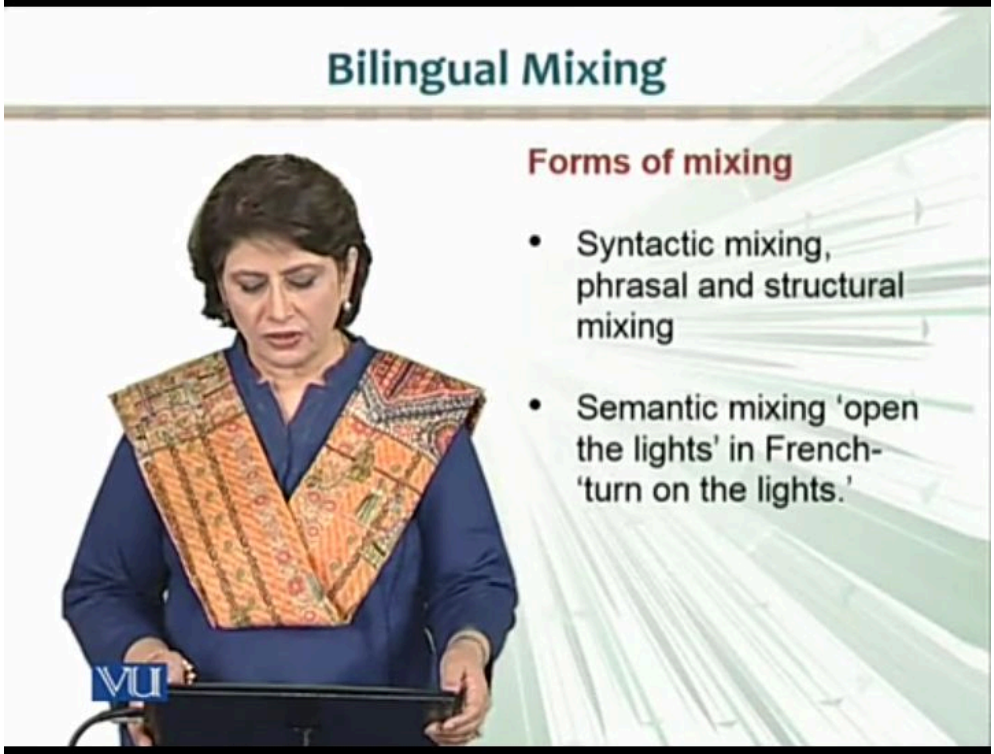

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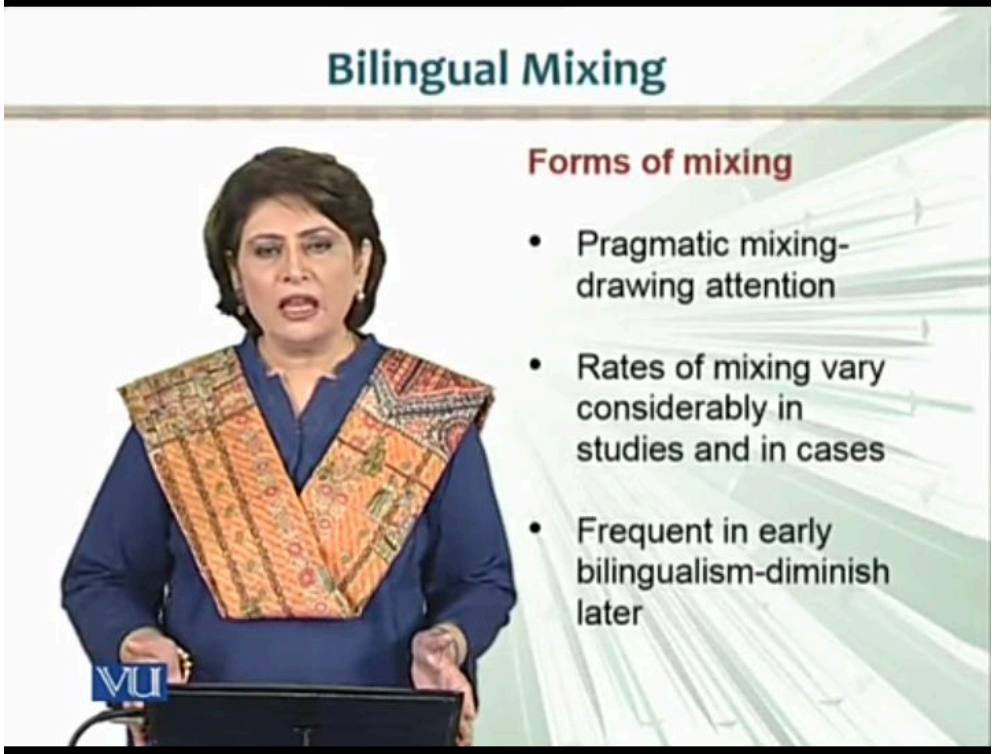

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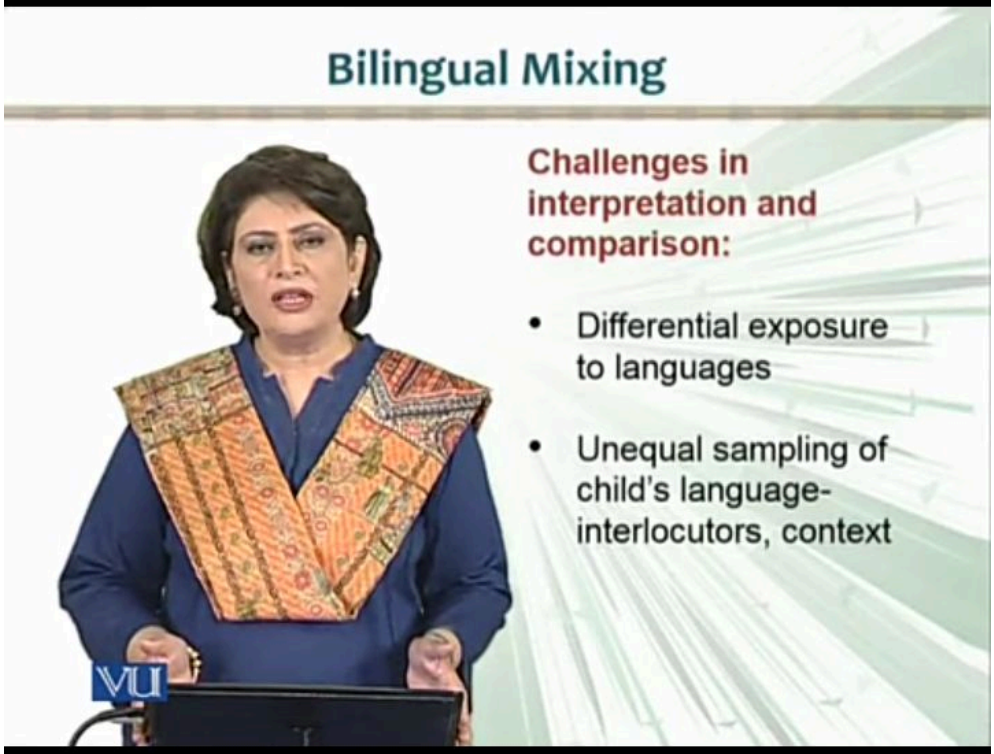

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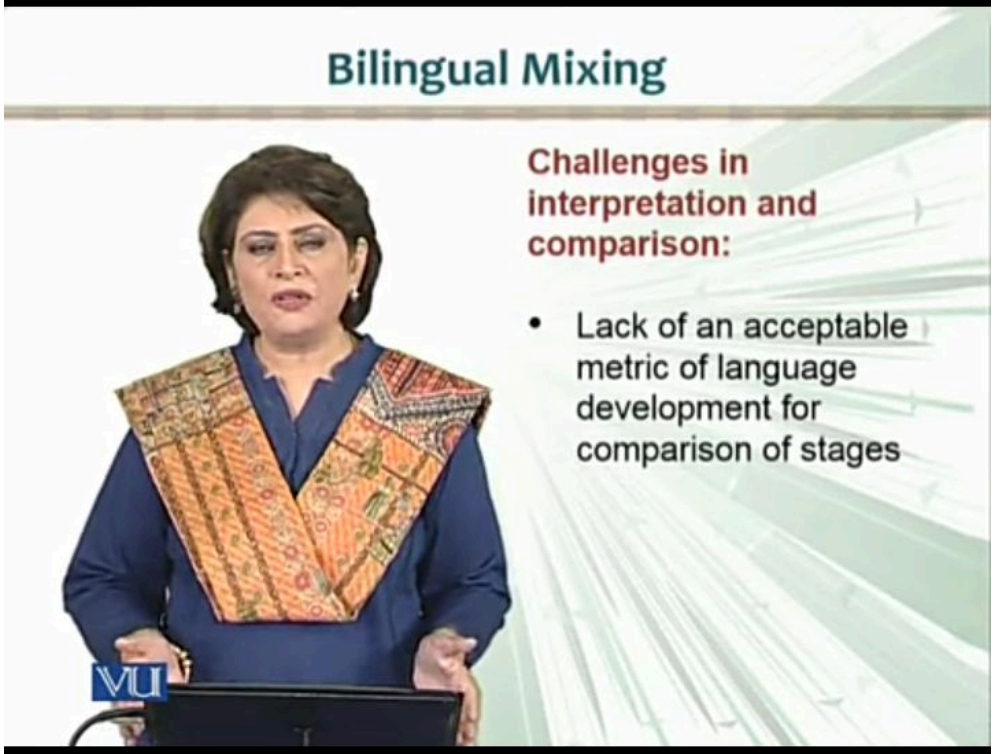

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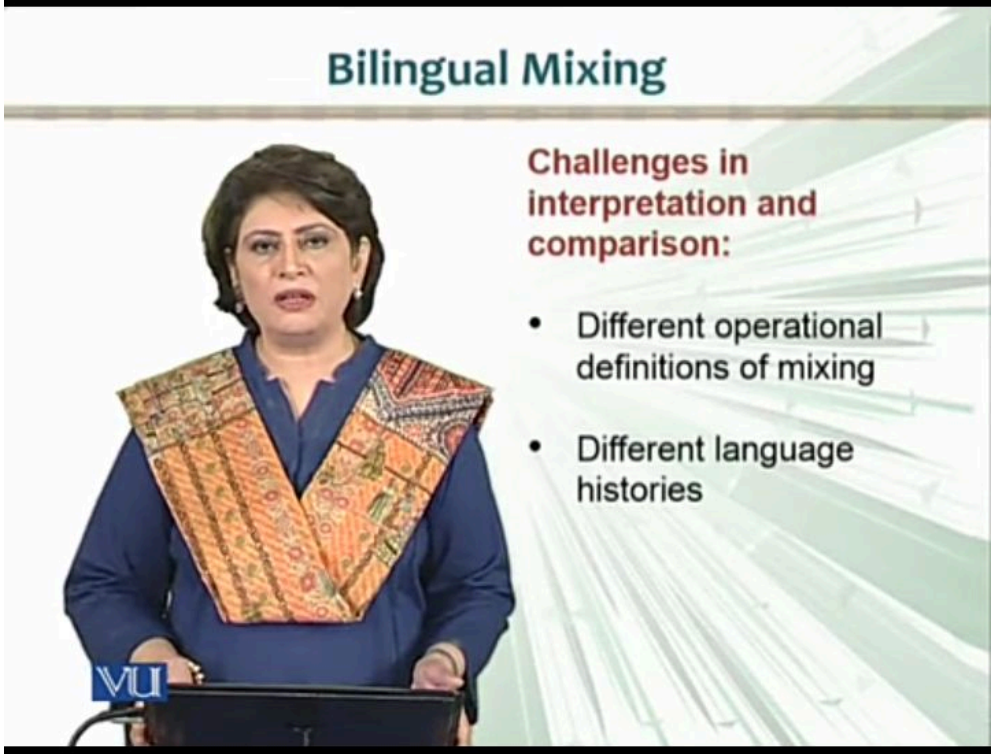

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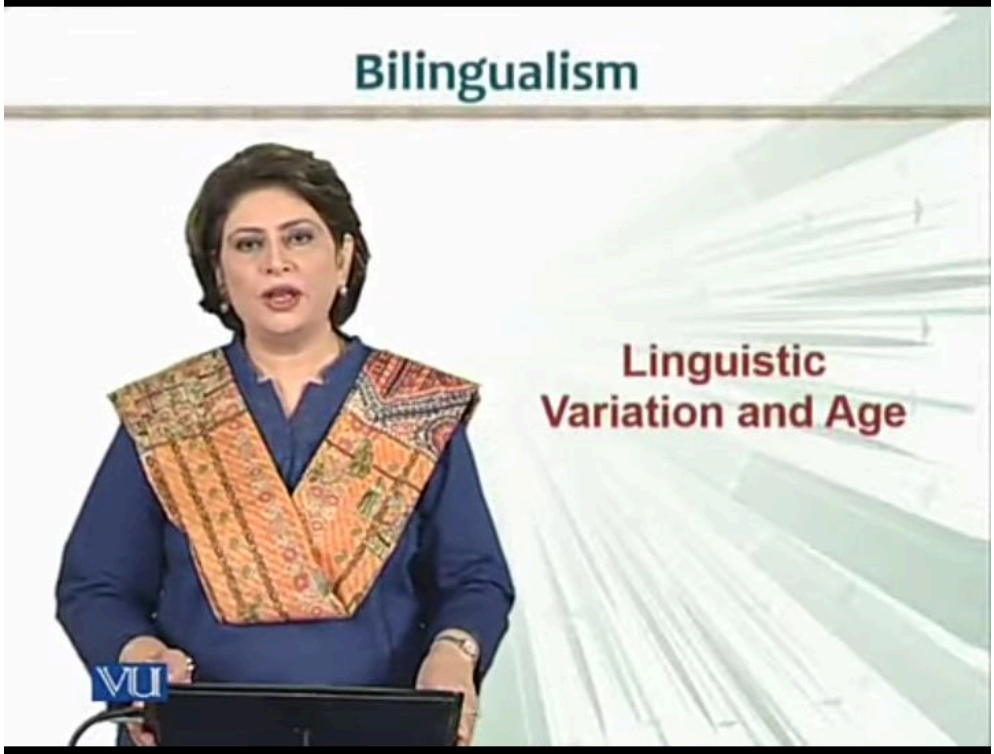

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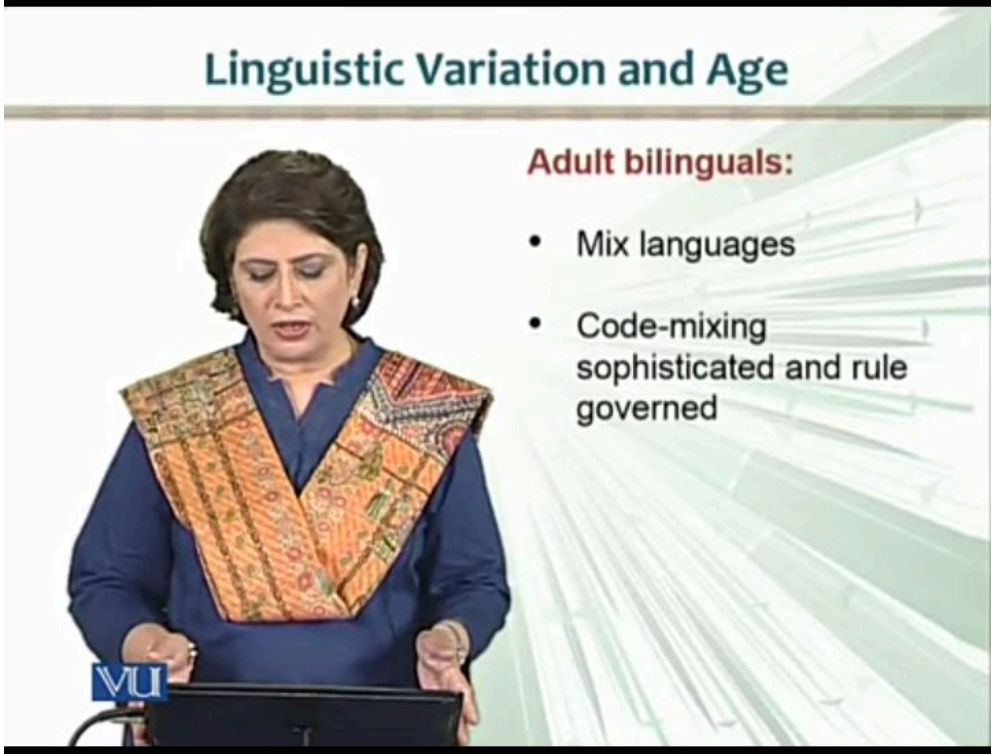

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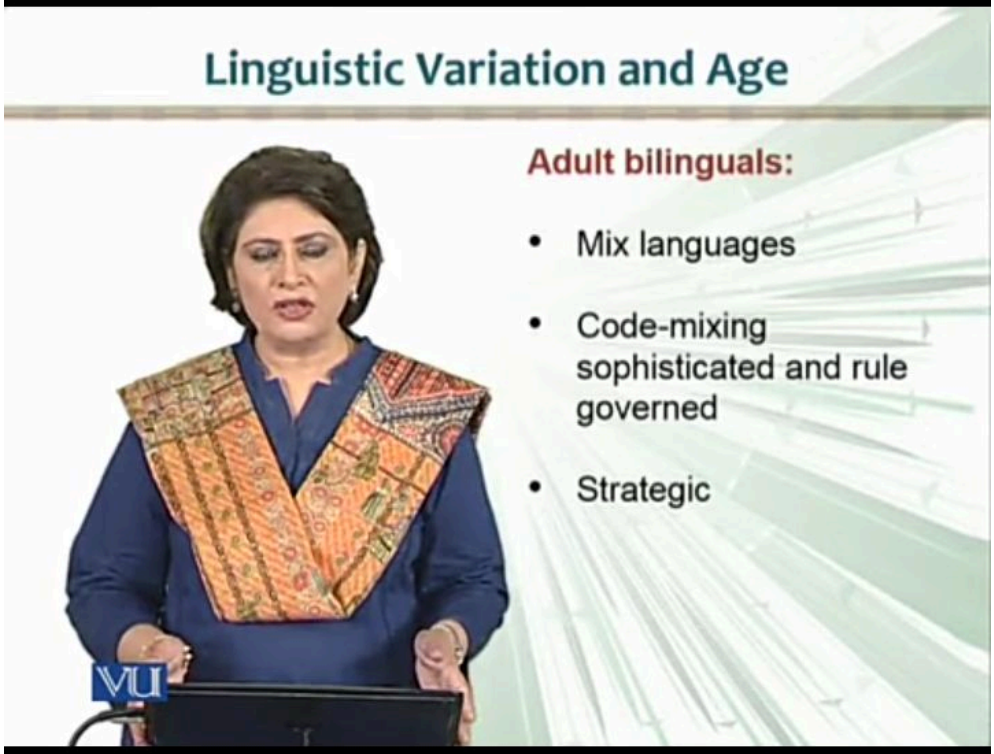

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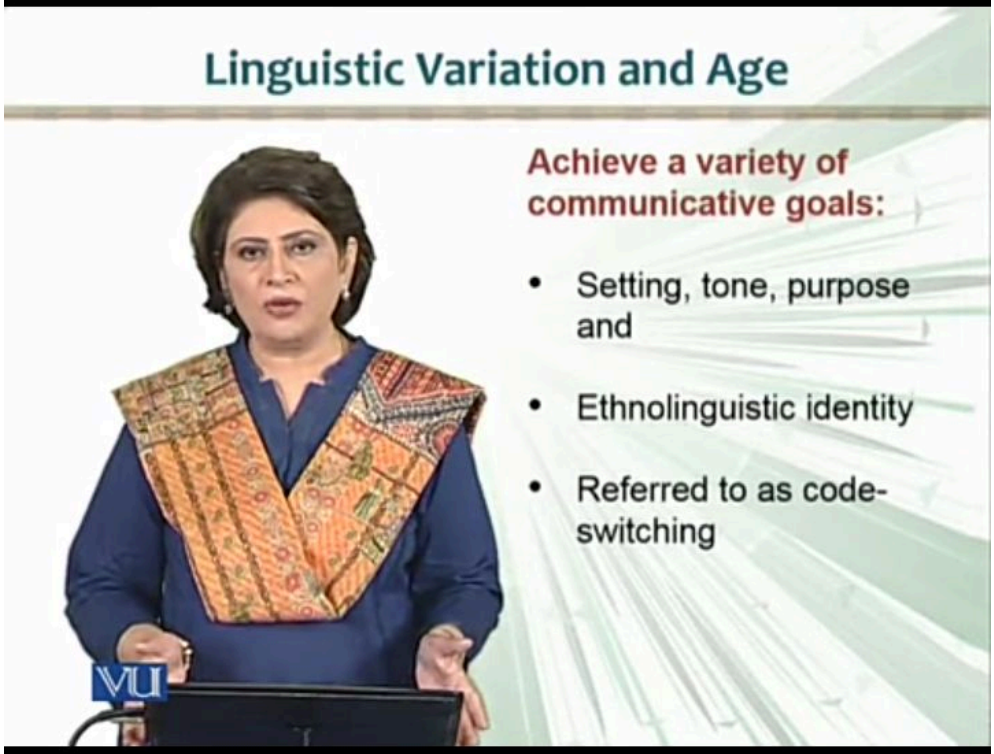

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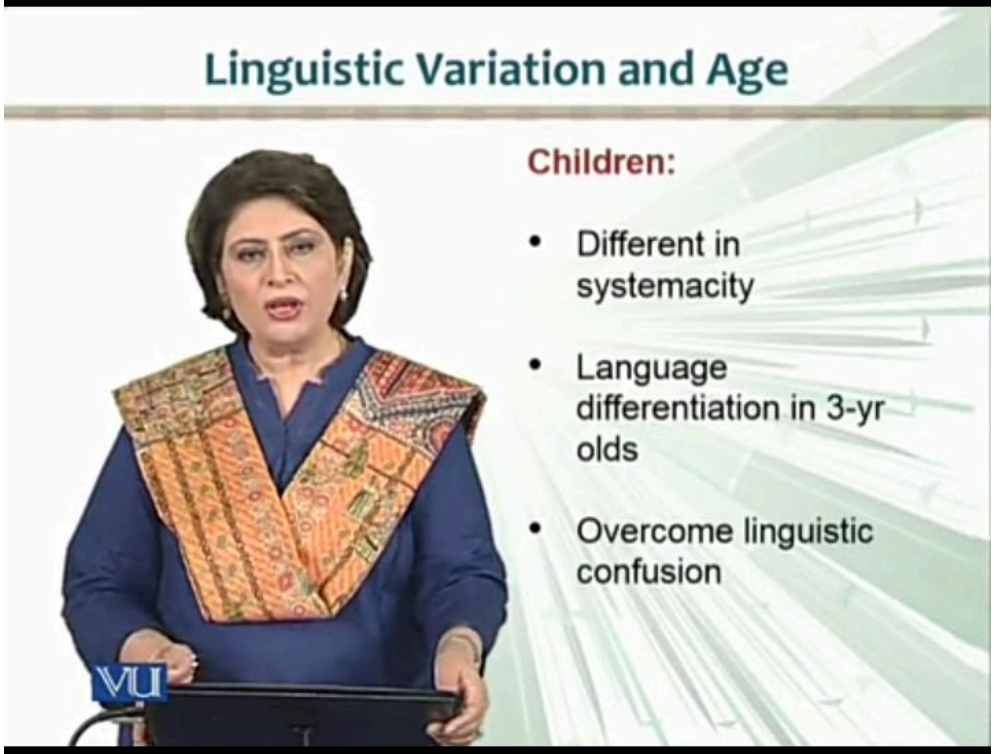

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There have been reported examples of syntactic mixing, semantic mixing and pragmatic mixing also. Nevertheless, it is possible that bilingual children mix because they have heard mixing by their parents or other speakers in the environment. This makes it necessary to study the language models to which bilingual children are exposed in order to understand all possible sources of mixing. Rates of mixing vary from study to study and from case to case. Mixed utterances are reportedly more frequent in early stages of bilingual development and diminish with age.

Challenges: Reported rates of mixing are difficult to interpret or compare across studies owing to:

1. Differential exposure to the languages in question
2. The possibility of unequal or inequitable sampling of the child's language use in different language contexts and/or with different interlocutors
3. The lack of an acceptable metric of language development with which to identify children at comparable stages
4. Different operational definitions of mixing
5. Different histories

Adult code-switching: Studies of code-mixing in adults show it to be a sophisticated, rule-governed communicative device used by linguistically competent bilinguals to achieve a variety of communicative goals, such as conveying emphasis, role playing, or establishing socio-cultural identity. It has highly structured syntactic and sociolinguistic constraints. In particular, mixing of linguistic elements from one language into another is performed so that the syntactic rules of both languages are respected. There is evidence to the effect that intra-sentential mixing increases in adult bilinguals as their competence in the two languages increases. Adult bilinguals also switch between languages as a function of certain sociolinguistic factors, such as the setting, tone and purpose of the communication or the ethno-linguistic identity of the interlocutor. This language behaviour is referred to as code-switching (Sridhar and Sridhar, 1980).

What is thought to distinguish bilingual children's mixing from adult mixing is the lack of systematicity or compliance to linguistic rules in the case of children. The period of language mixing just described is generally reported to be followed by linguistic differentiation. Investigators studying children with different language histories have reported that differentiation occurs during the third year of life. At this time, the child is thought to have developed or to be developing two separate representations of his/her language systems or, alternatively, to have overcome the linguistic confusion characteristic of the earlier stage. He or she begins to switch systematically between languages as a function of the participants, the setting, the function of the message (e.g. to exclude others), its form (e.g. narration), and to a lesser extent, the topic of conversation. Bilingual children are reported to be especially sensitive to their interlocutors so that initially when differentiation occurs they tend rigidly to use the language they associate with the speaker even though he or she may express a willingness to use the other language.

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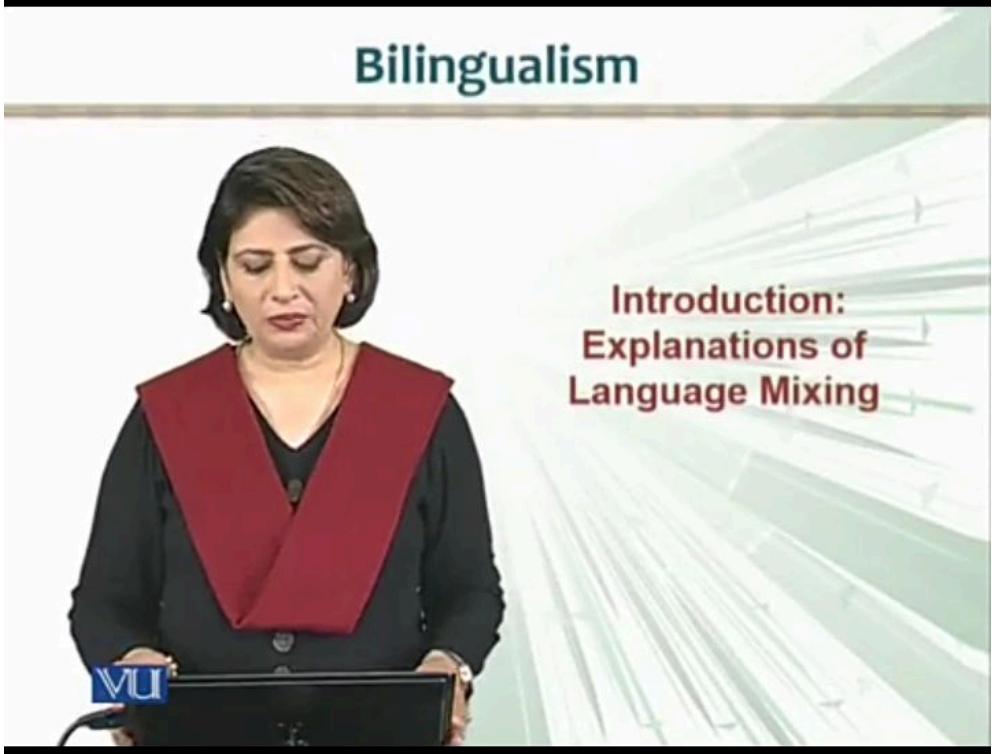

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Lesson-17

EXPLANATIONS OF LANGUAGE MIXING

Topic No. 090-095

Introduction; Unitary Language System; Three Stage Model; Other Explanations Restricted Lexical Use; Other Explanations-Universal Operating Principles; Acquisition and Language Mixing

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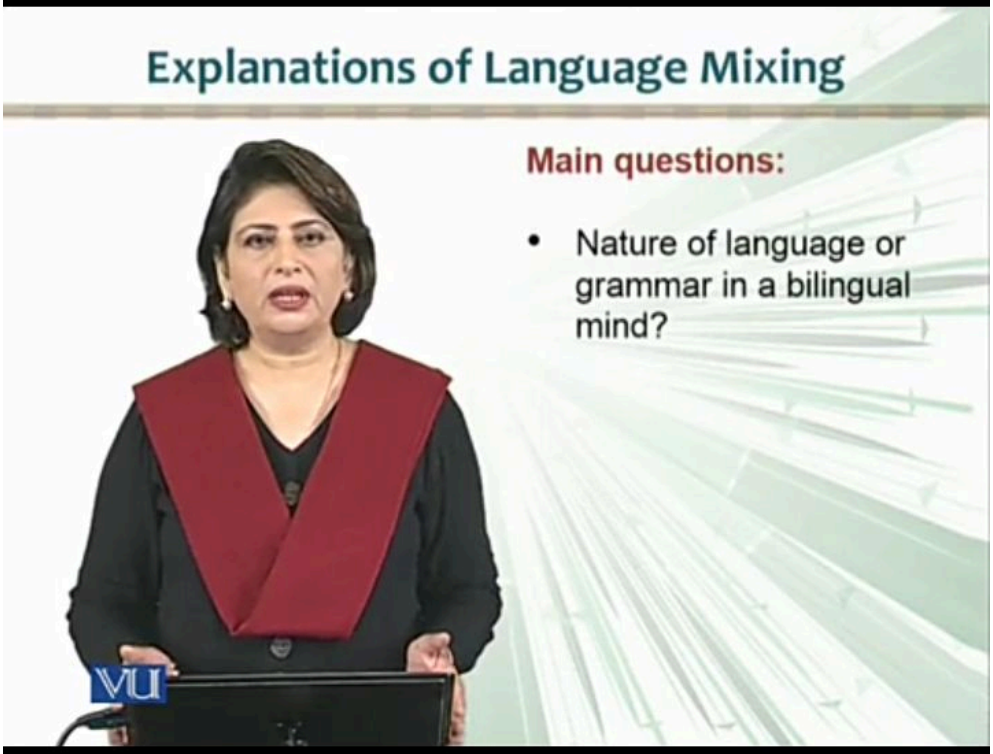

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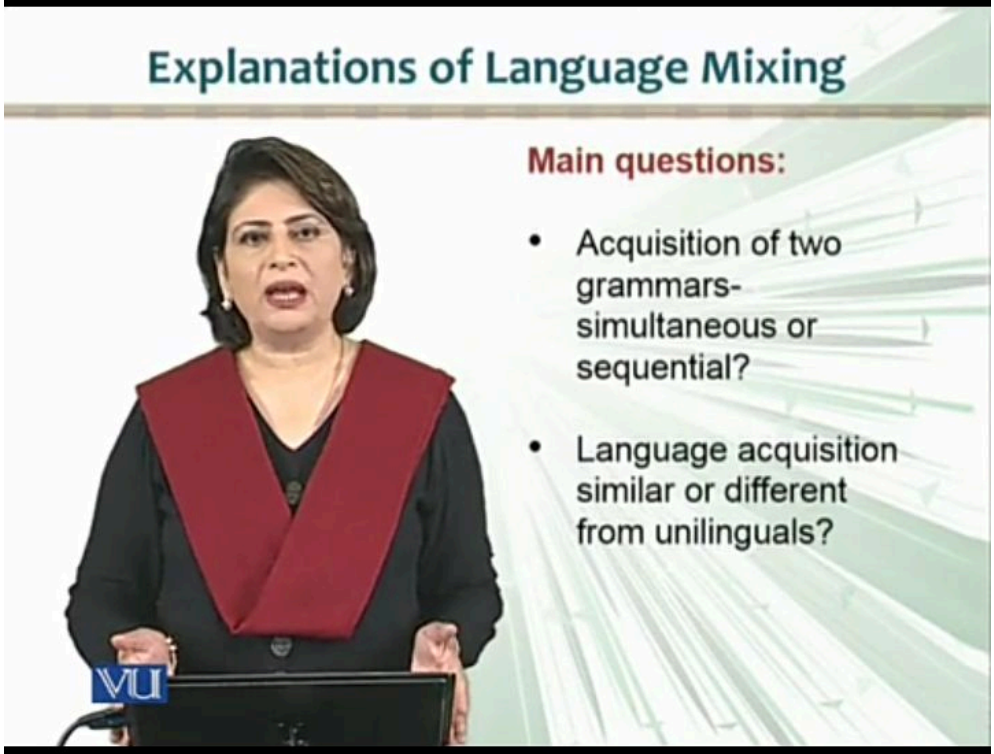

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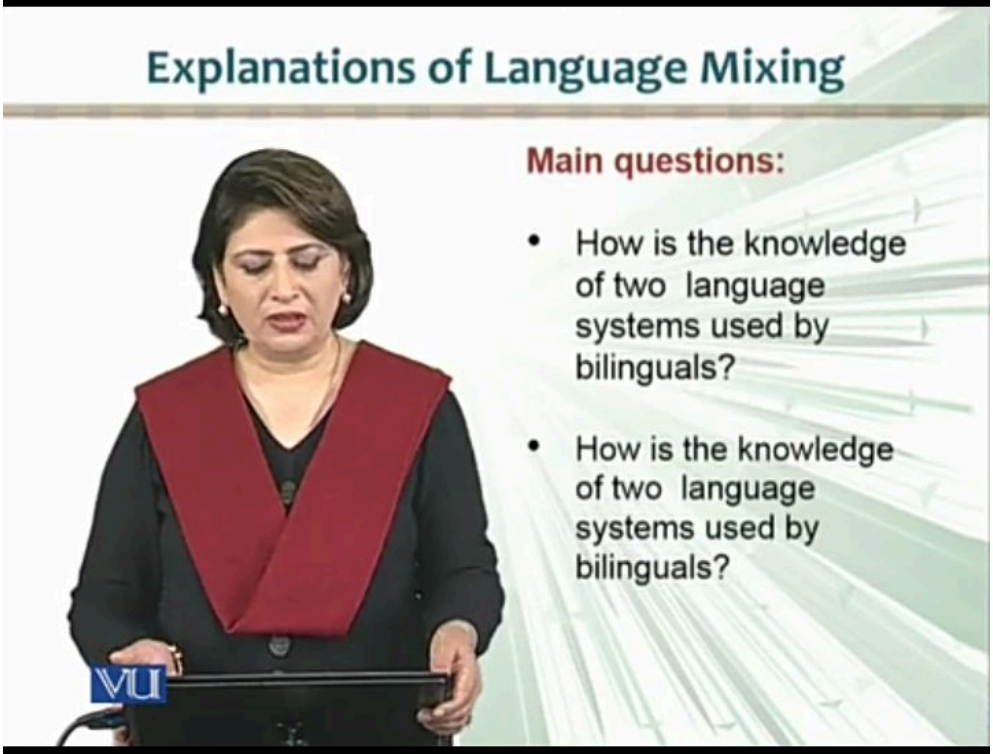

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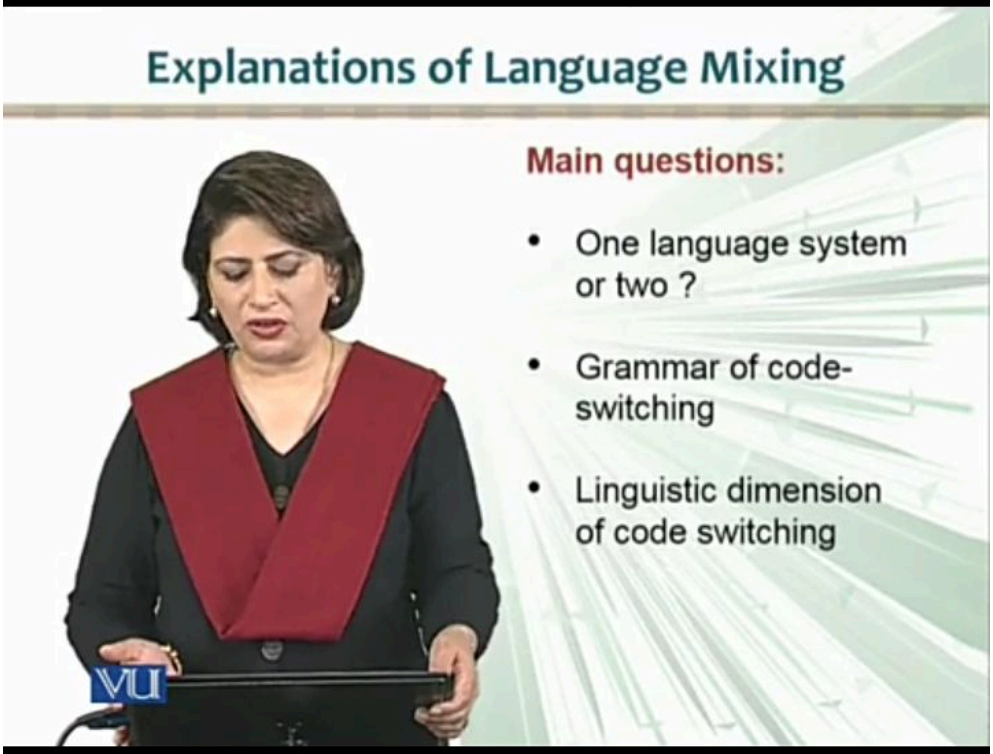

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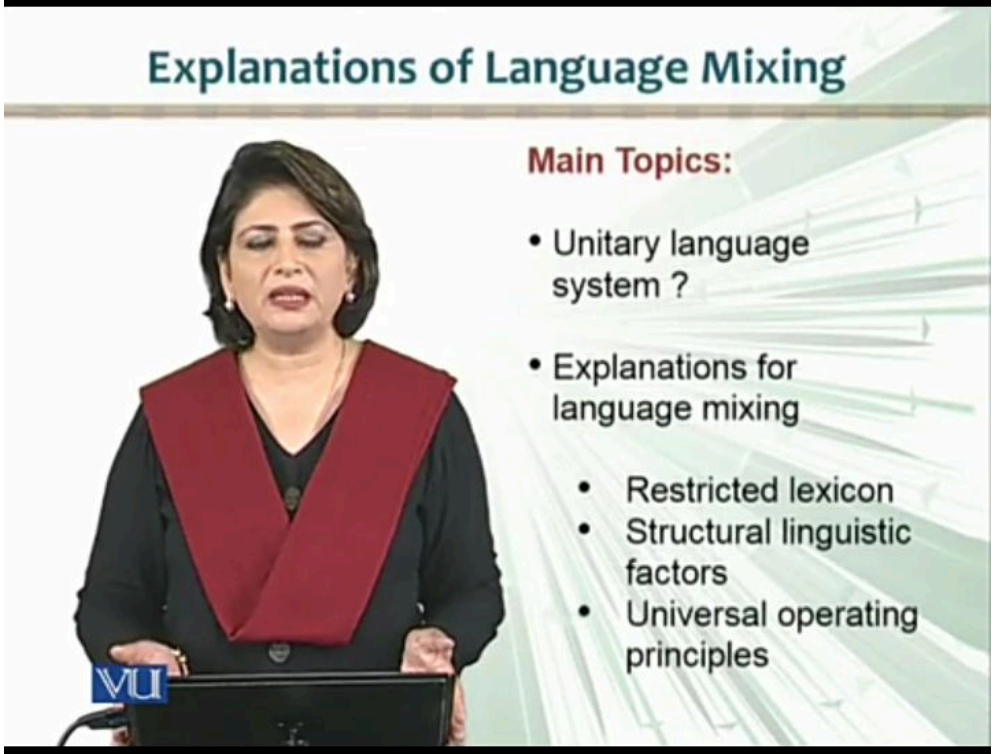

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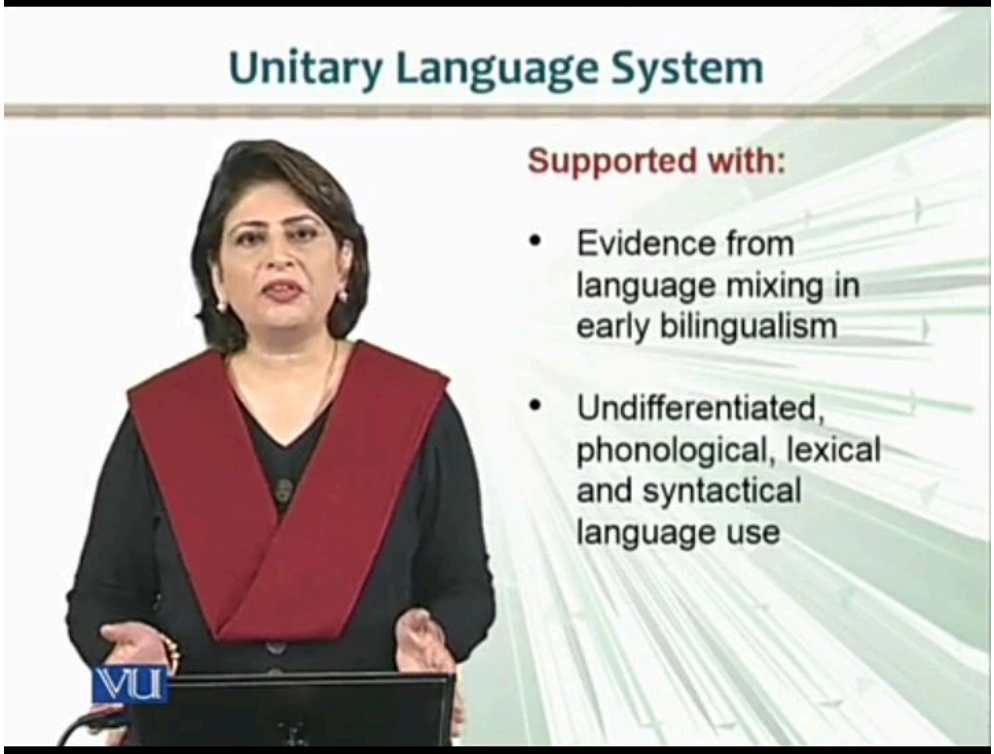

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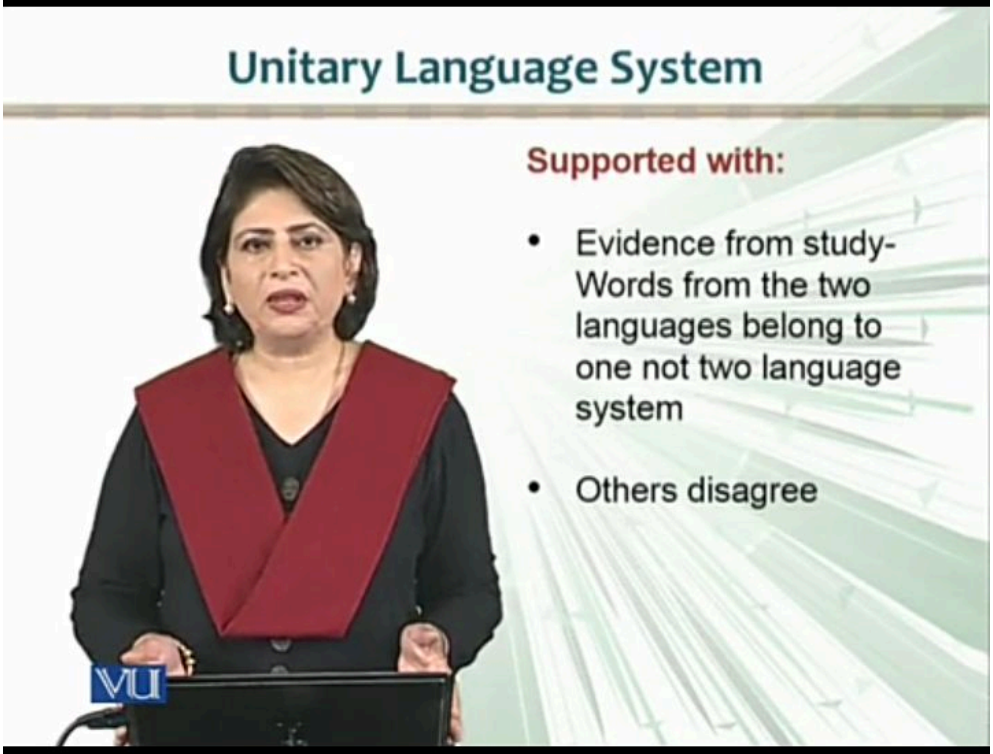

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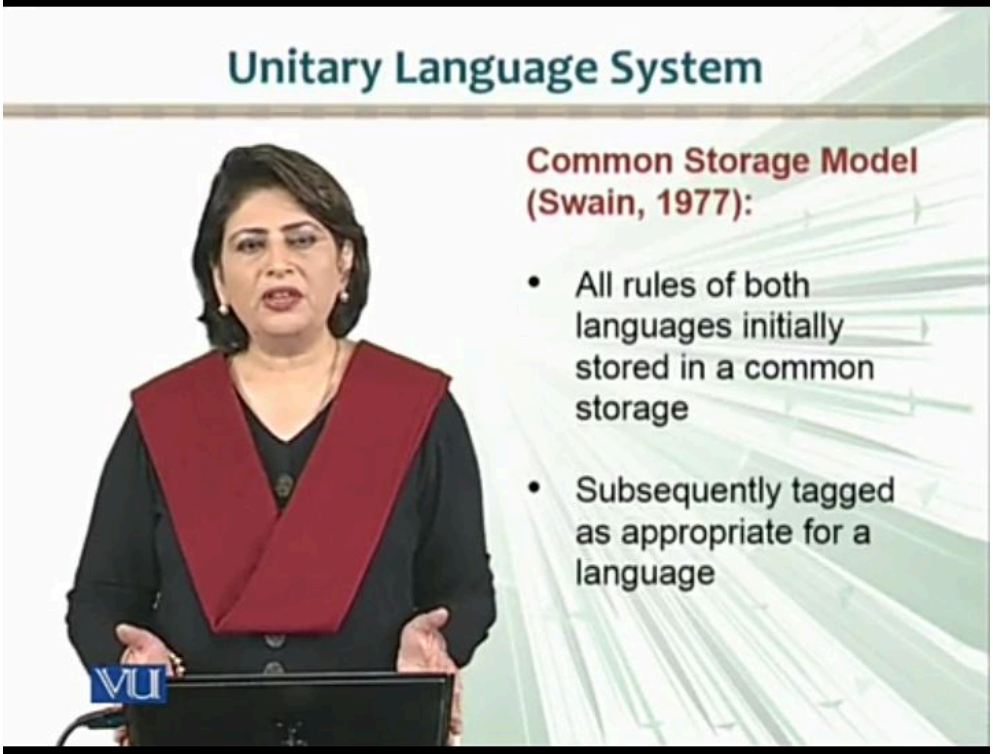

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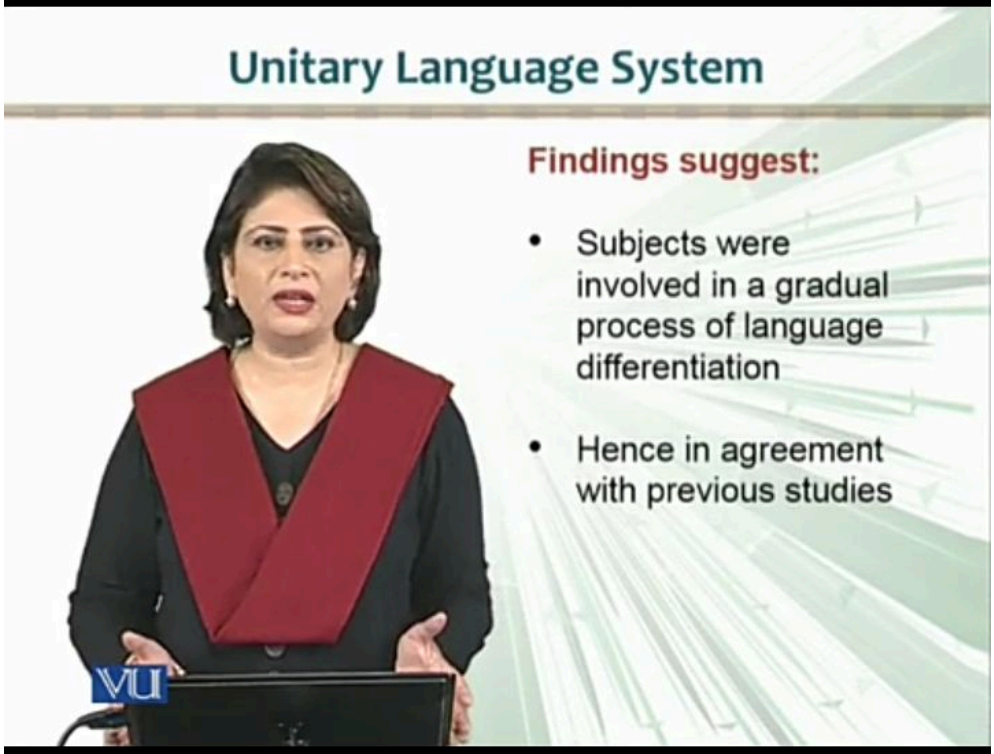

Lesson-17

EXPLANATIONS OF LANGUAGE MIXING

Topic No. 090-095

Introduction; Unitary Language System; Three Stage Model; Other Explanations Restricted Lexical Use; Other Explanations-Universal Operating Principles; Acquisition and Language Mixing

The Unitary-Language System Explanation

Language mixing during the early stages of bilingual development has been interpreted in general terms as evidence of a unitary-language system with undifferentiated phonological, lexical and syntactic subsystems. This would mean that 'Words from the two languages did not belong to two different speech systems but to one…' (In Hatch, 1978:27). Swain (1977) postulated a 'common storage model' of bilingual development according to which all rules of both languages are initially stored in a common location and subsequently tagged as appropriate for a particular language through a process of differentiation.

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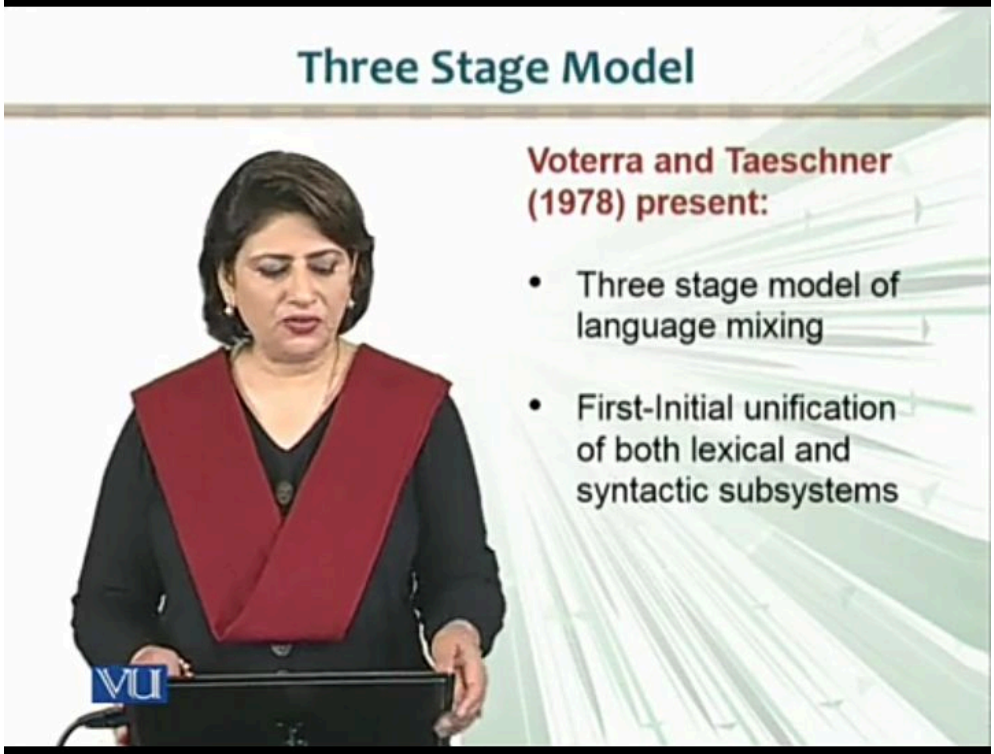

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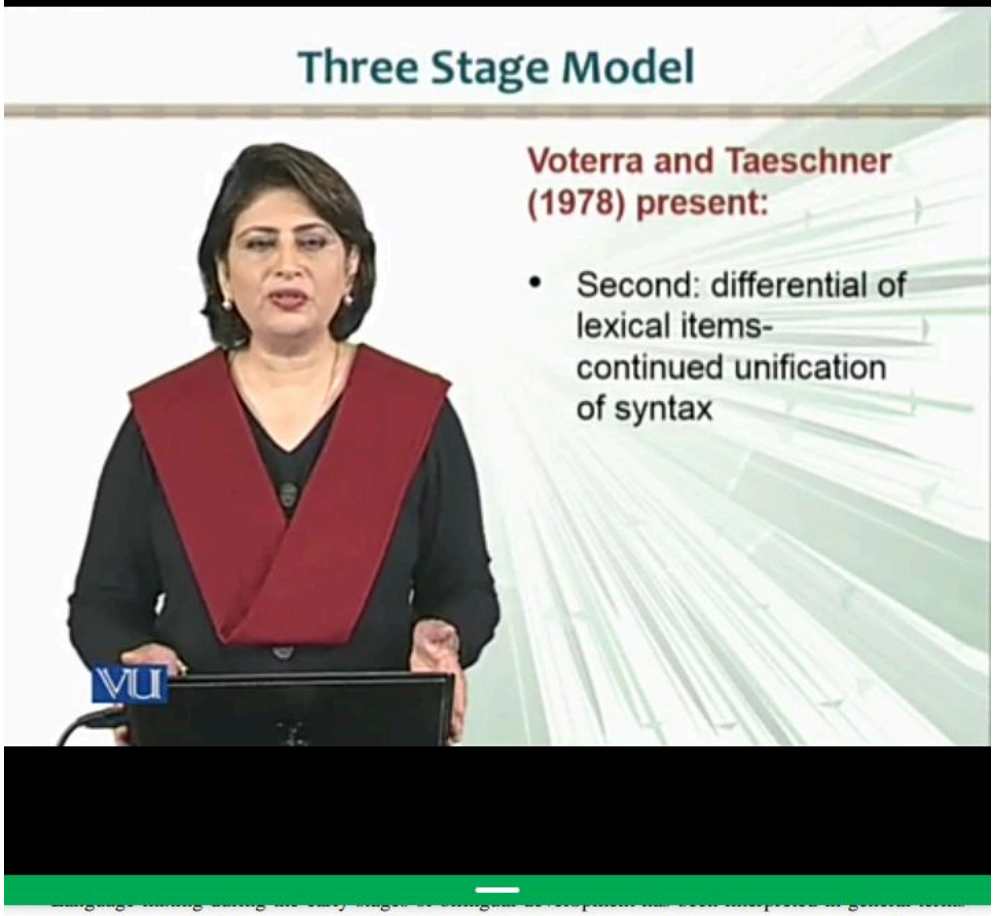

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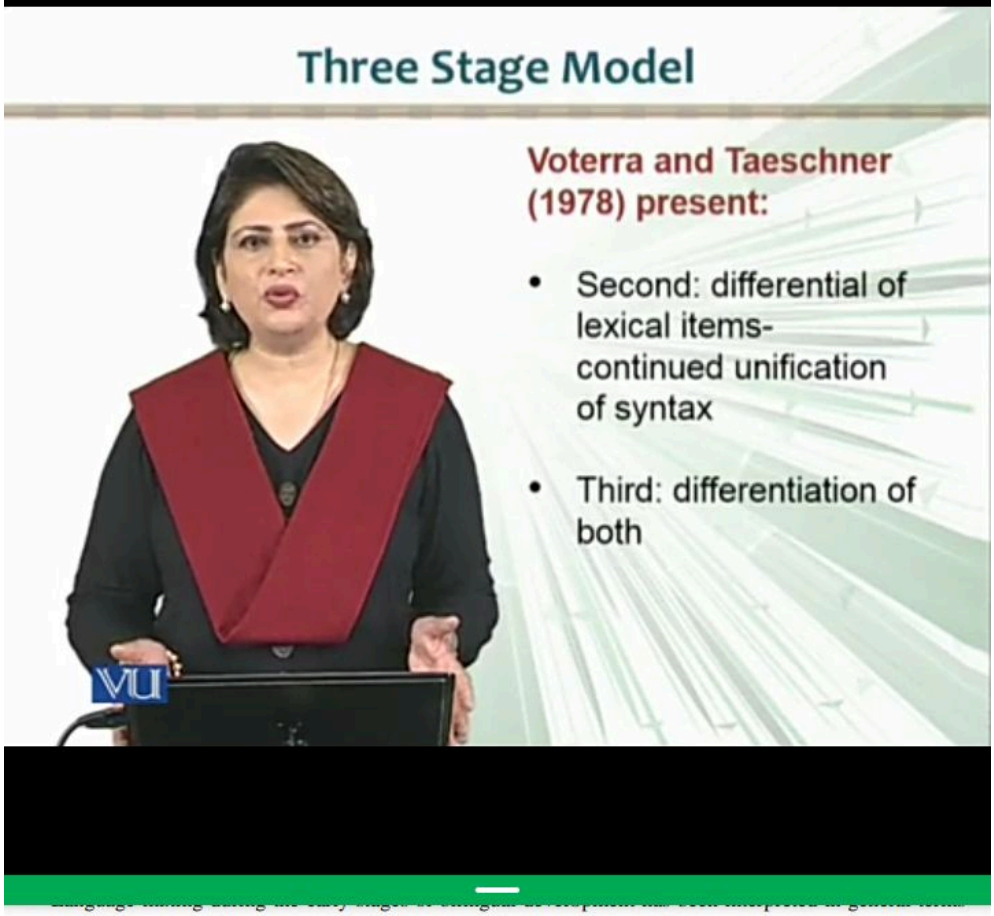

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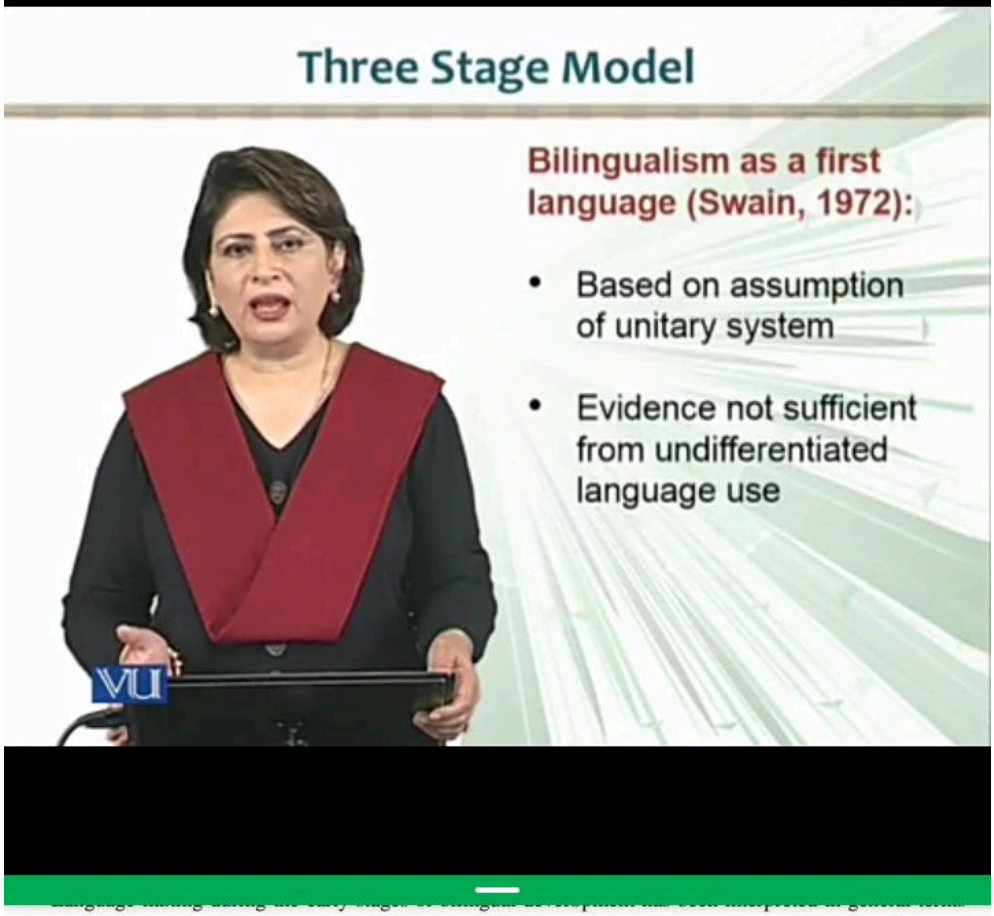

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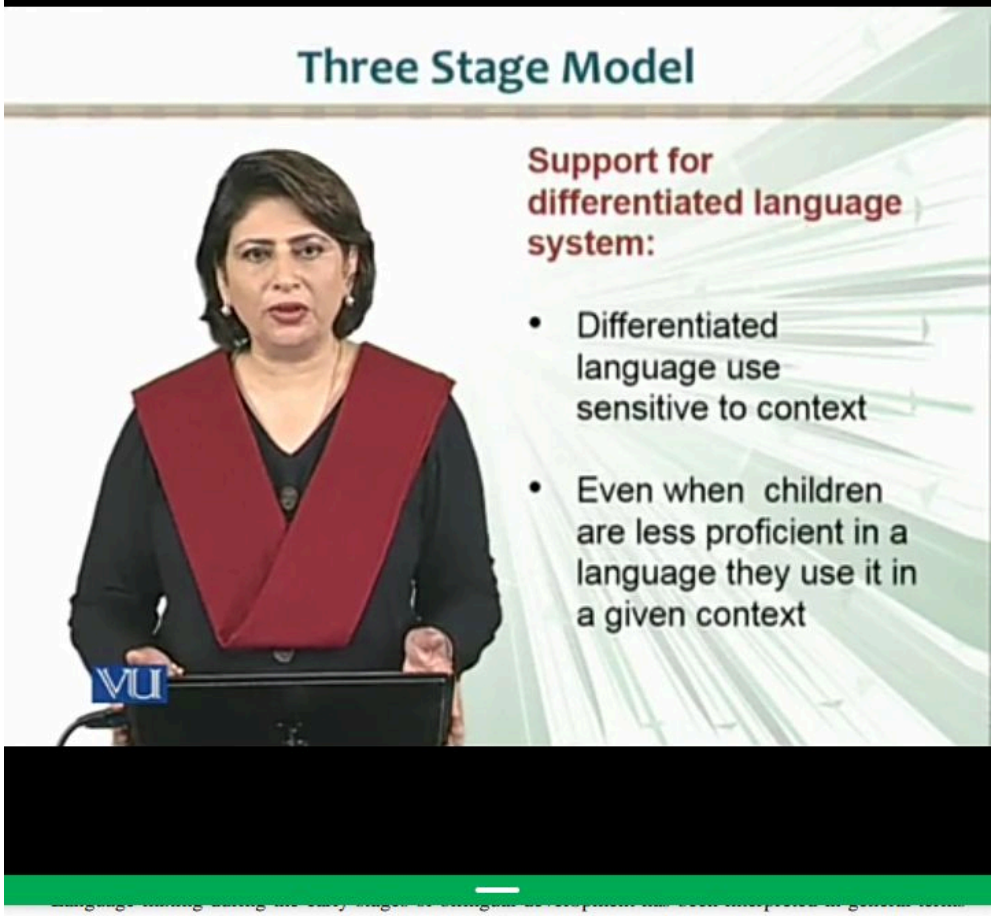

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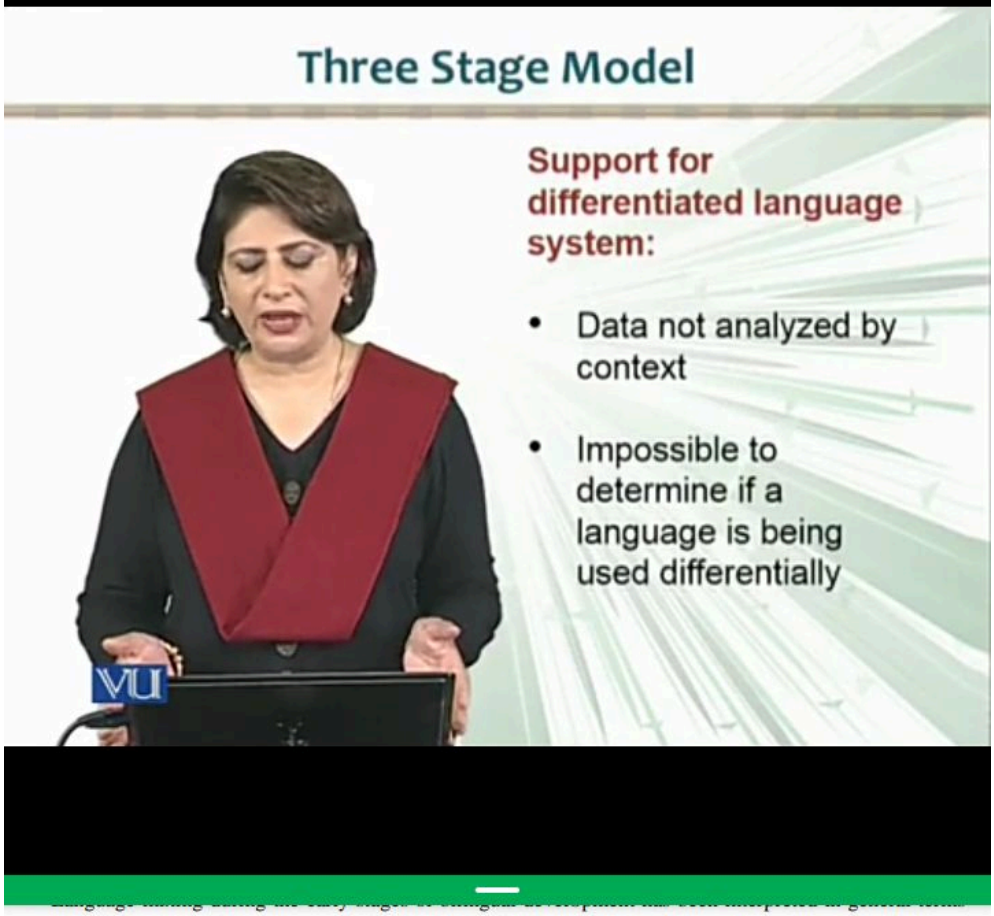

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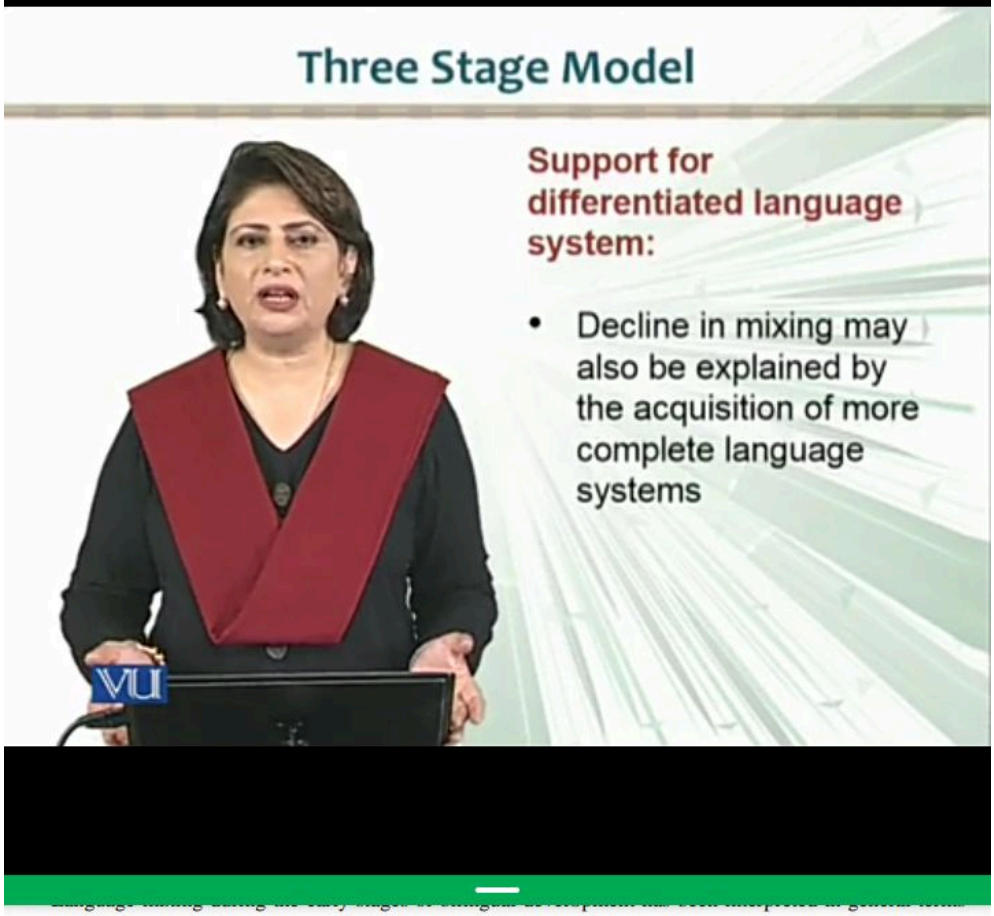

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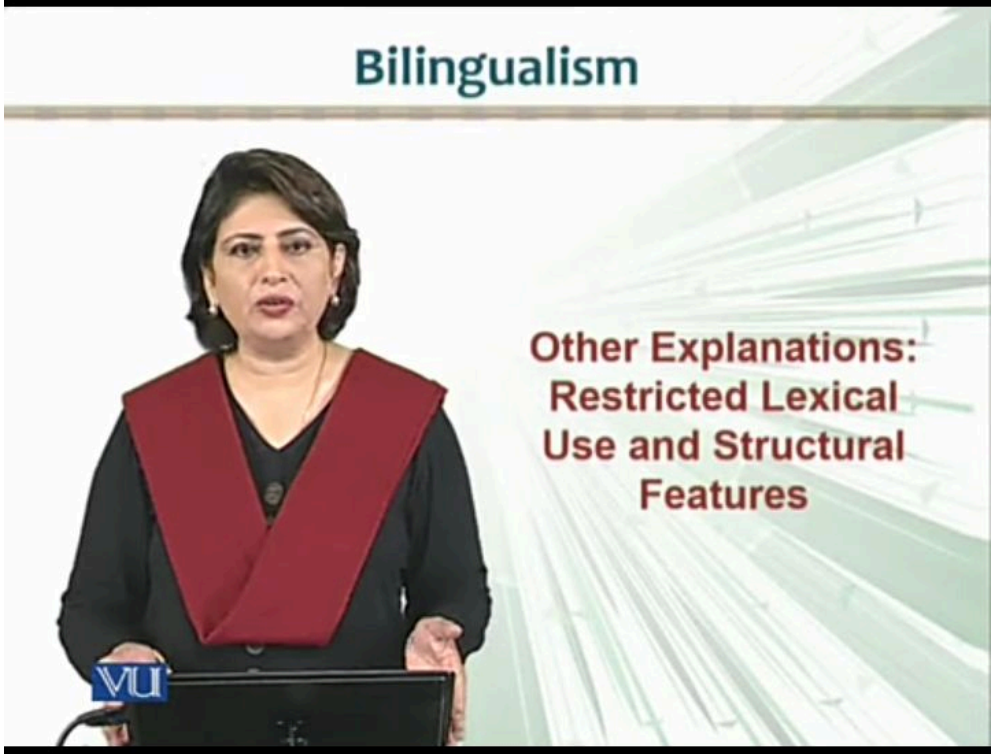

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Mixing has also been reported in cases of overly restricted use of specific lexical items. Imedadze (1978) and Swain and Wesche (1975) have suggested that in some cases bilingual children identify a referent with the lexical item in the language that was first or most frequently used to label it. They might insist on using that word at all times when talking about that referent regardless of the linguistic context. These instances of mixing due to lexical borrowing could be viewed as overextensions of the type observed in monolingual children (Griffiths, 1986) with the difference that bilingual children overextend inter-lingually as well as intra-lingually while monolingual children overextend intra-lingually only. In the case of first-language acquisition, it has been observed that particular overextensions of nominals usually cease once the child has learned what mature speakers of the language would consider a more appropriate word. This also seems a reasonable interpretation of bilingual overextensions (see also Goodz, 1989) and, in fact, accords with the tendency for bilingual children to mix less as their proficiency increases as noted earlier. Anglin (1977) has suggested that in fact under-extensions are more frequent than overextensions in monolingual development, but they often go unnoticed because they do not violate adult usage. Bilingual children may overextend longer than monolingual children because they hear more instances of particular nominals being used in specific contexts (e.g. the German nominal for 'glasses' being used in German contexts or with German-speaking interlocutors), whereas monolingual children are likely to hear the same nominals used in extended contexts (e.g. glasses used in all

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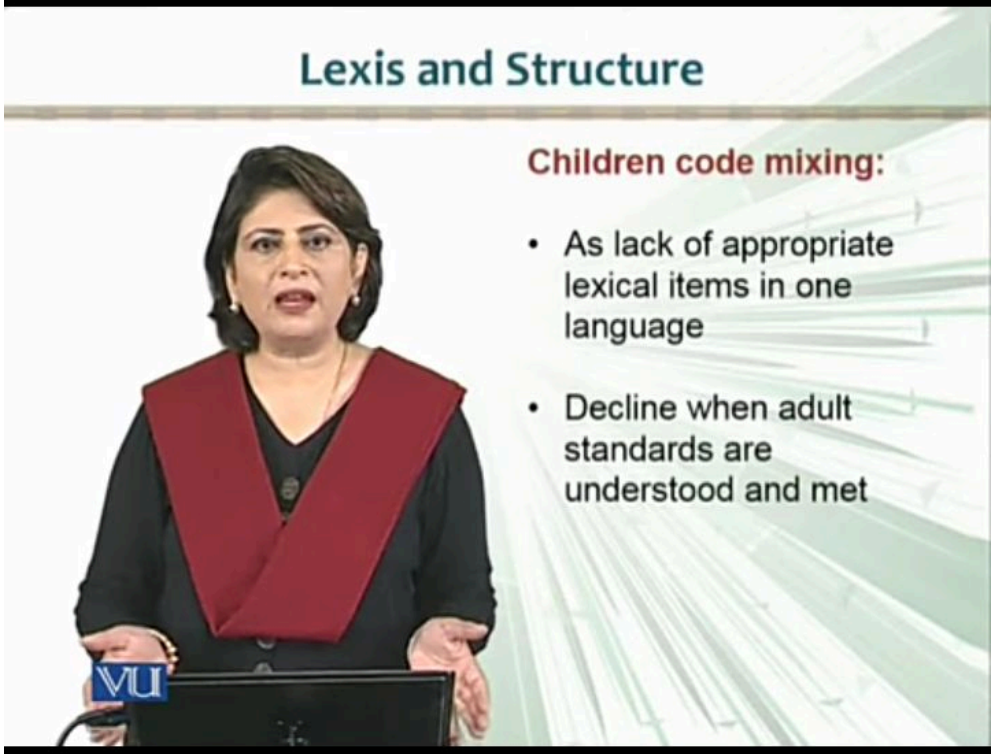

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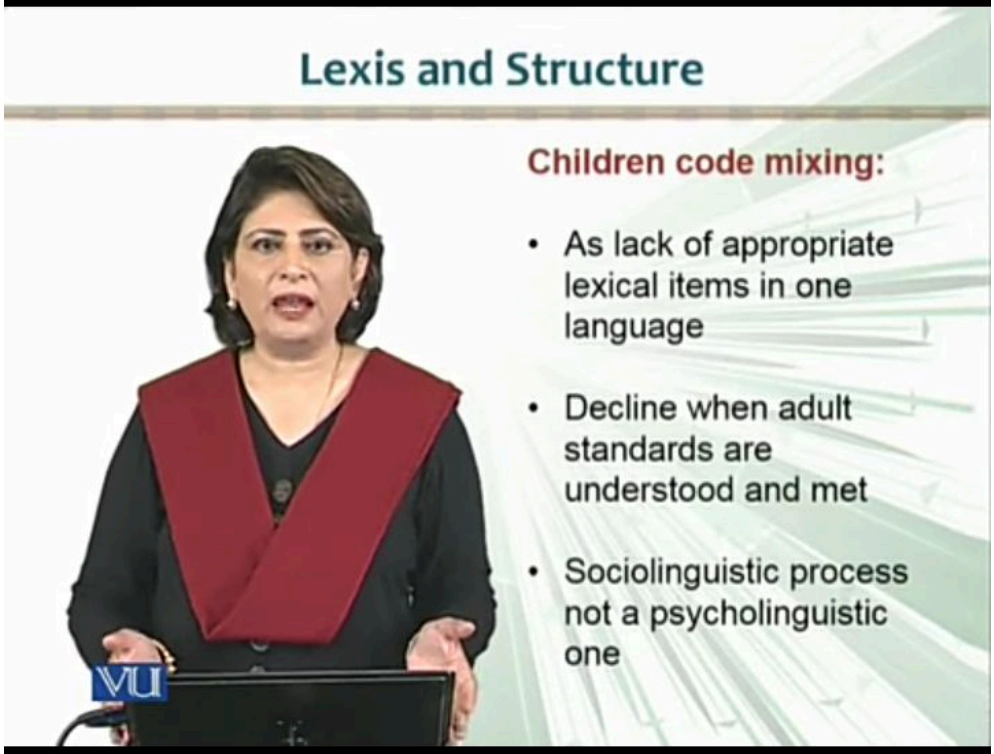

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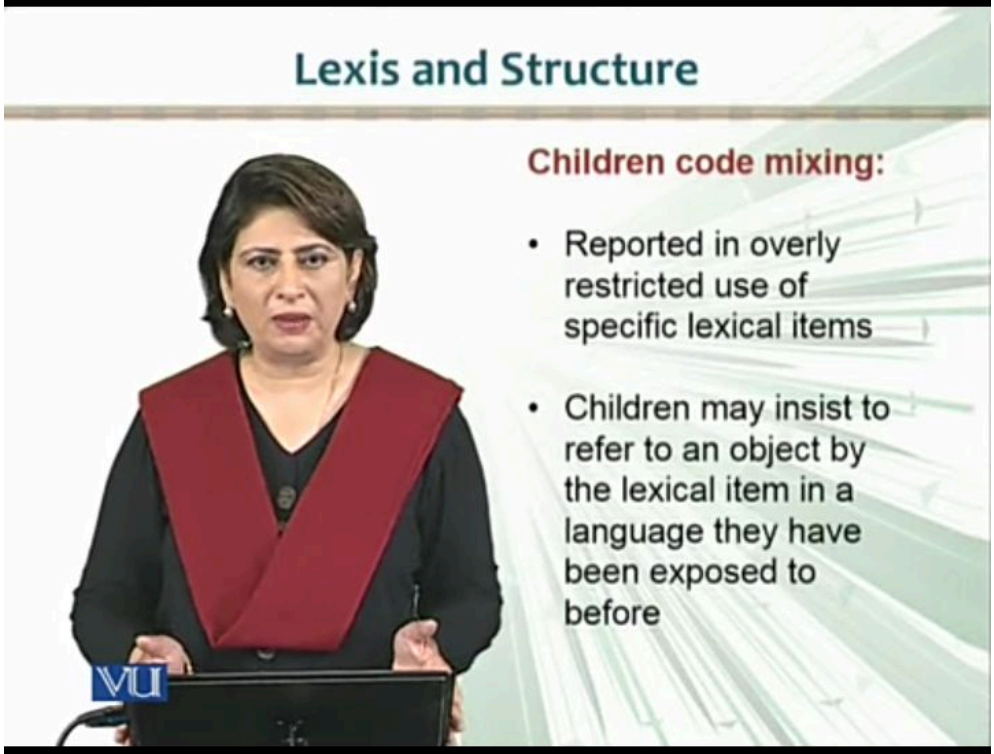

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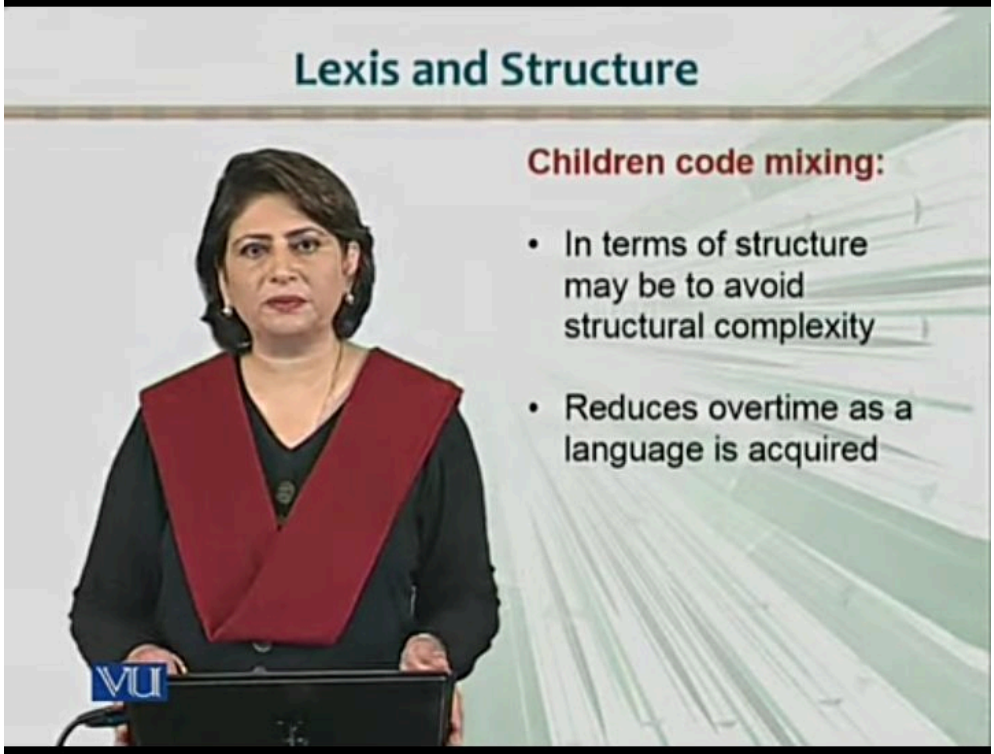

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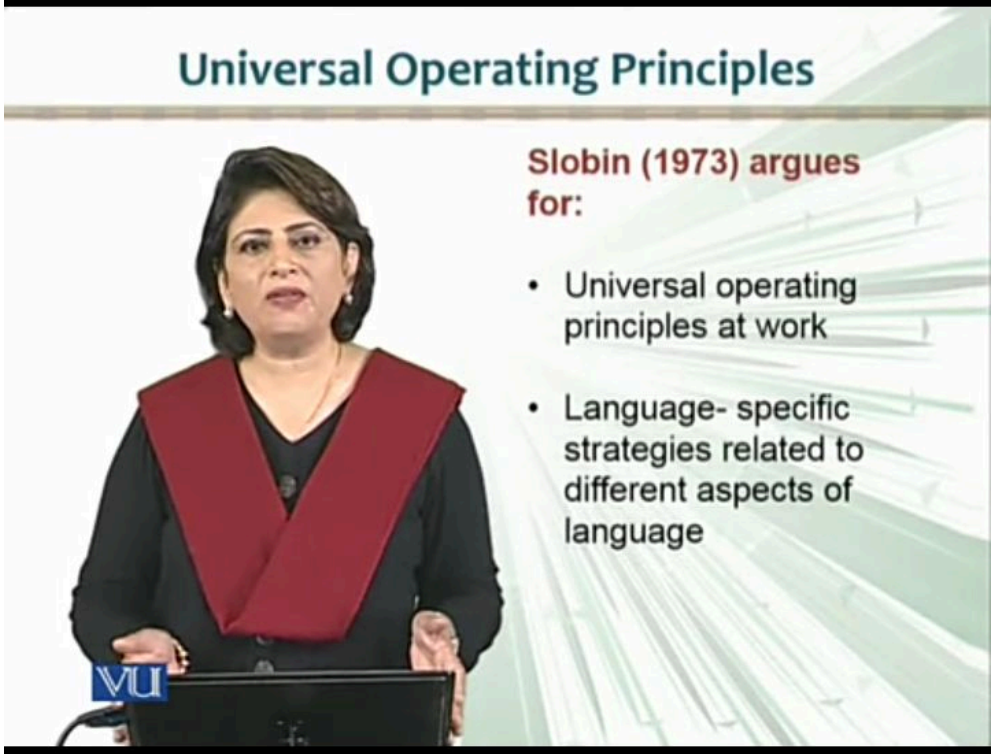

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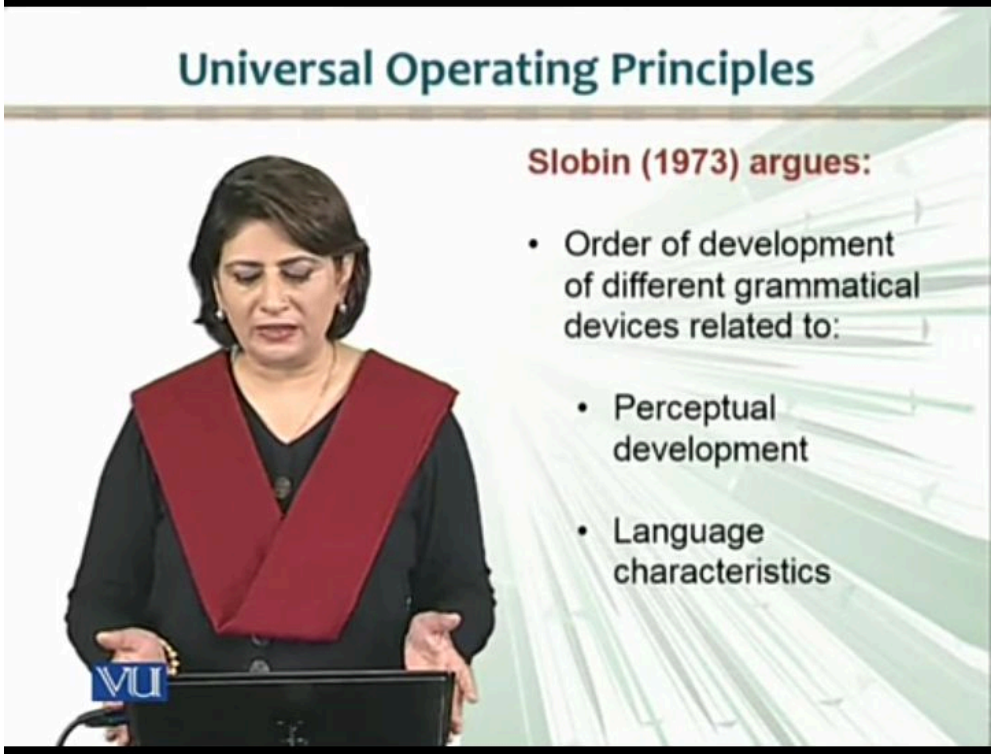

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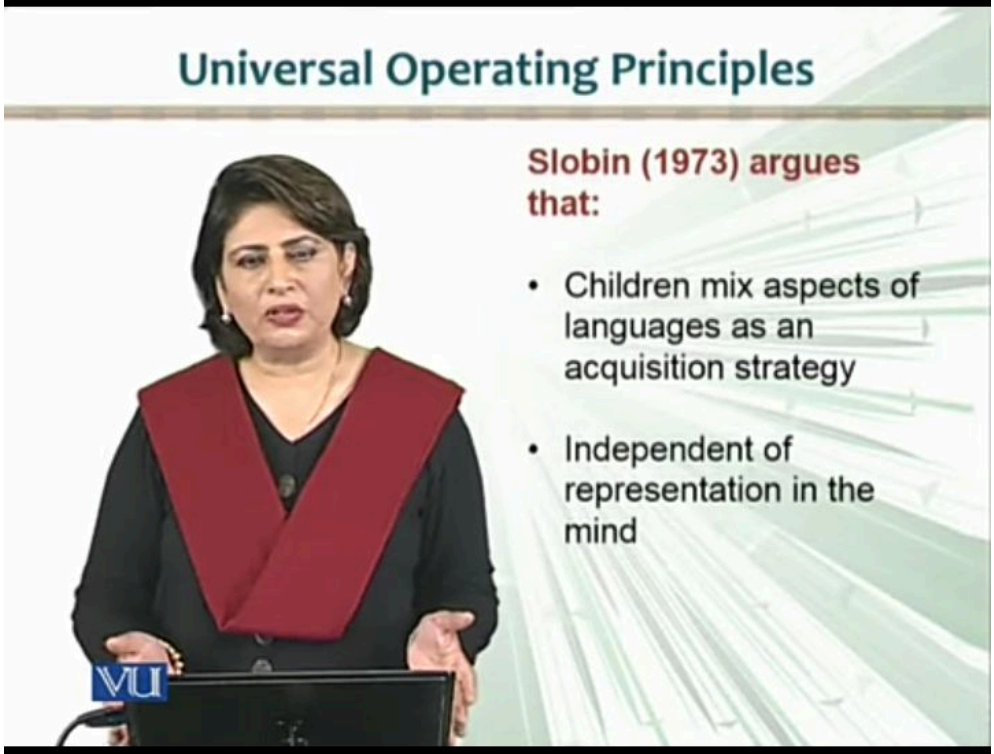

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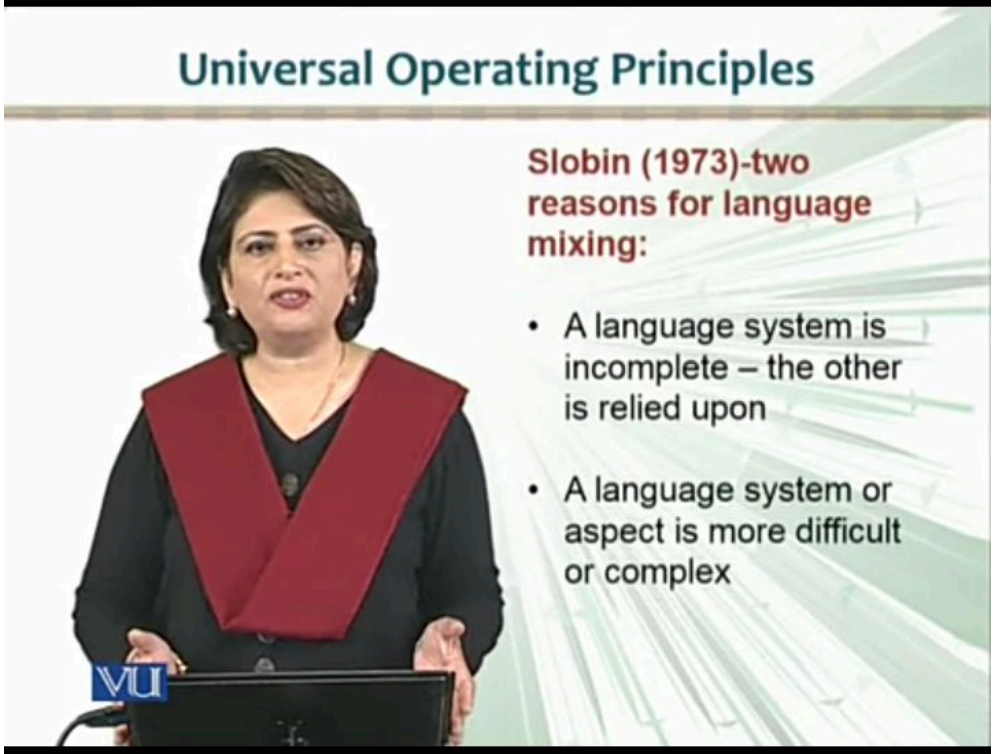

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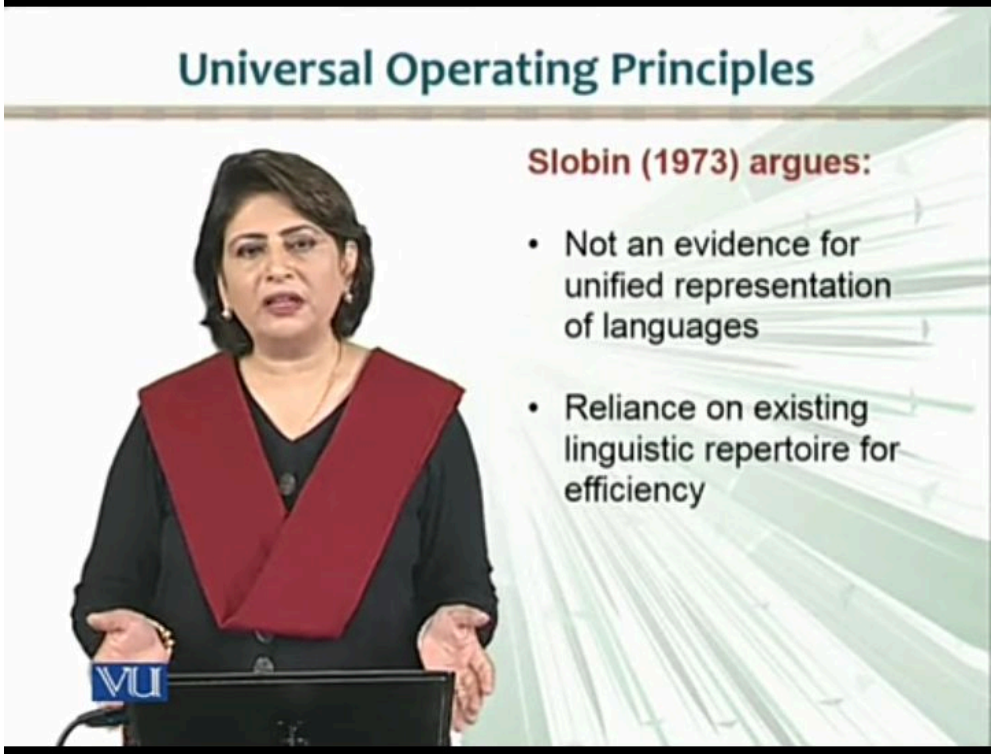

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mixing due to lexical borrowing could be viewed as overextensions of the type observed in monolingual children (Griffiths, 1986) with the difference that bilingual children overextend inter-lingually as well as intra-lingually while monolingual children overextend intra-lingually only. In the case of first-language acquisition, it has been observed that particular overextensions of nominals usually cease once the child has learned what mature speakers of the language would consider a more appropriate word. This also seems a reasonable interpretation of bilingual overextensions (see also Goodz, 1989) and, in fact, accords with the tendency for bilingual children to mix less as their proficiency increases as noted earlier. Anglin (1977) has suggested that in fact under-extensions are more frequent than overextensions in monolingual development, but they often go unnoticed because they do not violate adult usage. Bilingual children may overextend longer than monolingual children because they hear more instances of particular nominals being used in specific contexts (e.g. the German nominal for 'glasses' being used in German contexts or with German-speaking interlocutors), whereas monolingual children are likely to hear the same nominals used in extended contexts (e.g. glasses used in all contexts in which the referent occurs).

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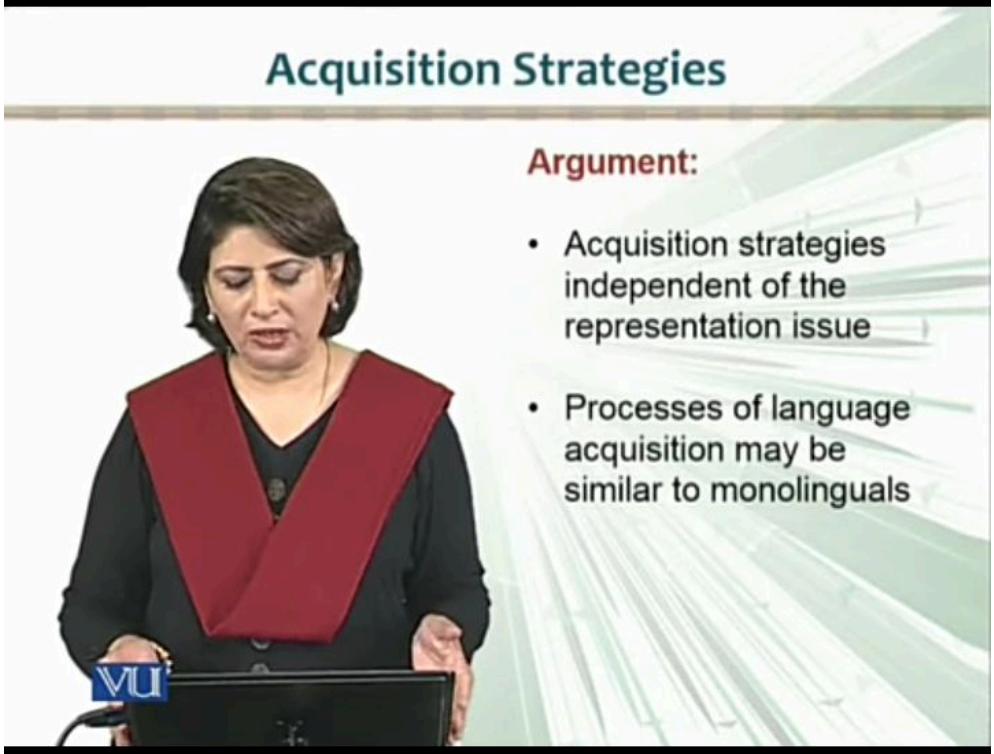

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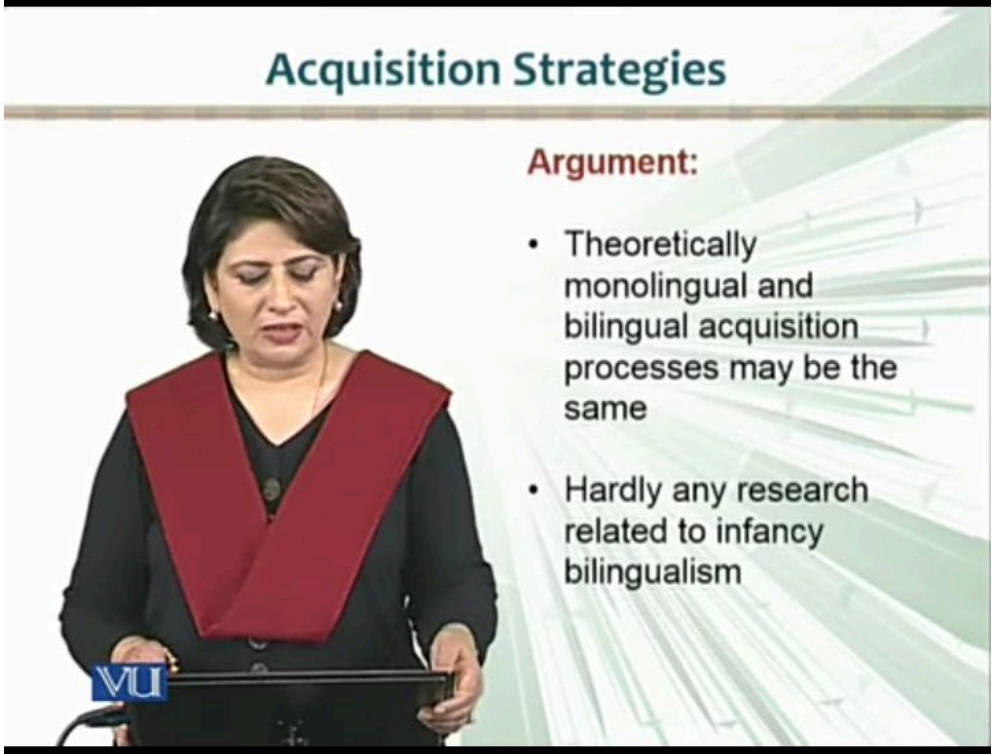

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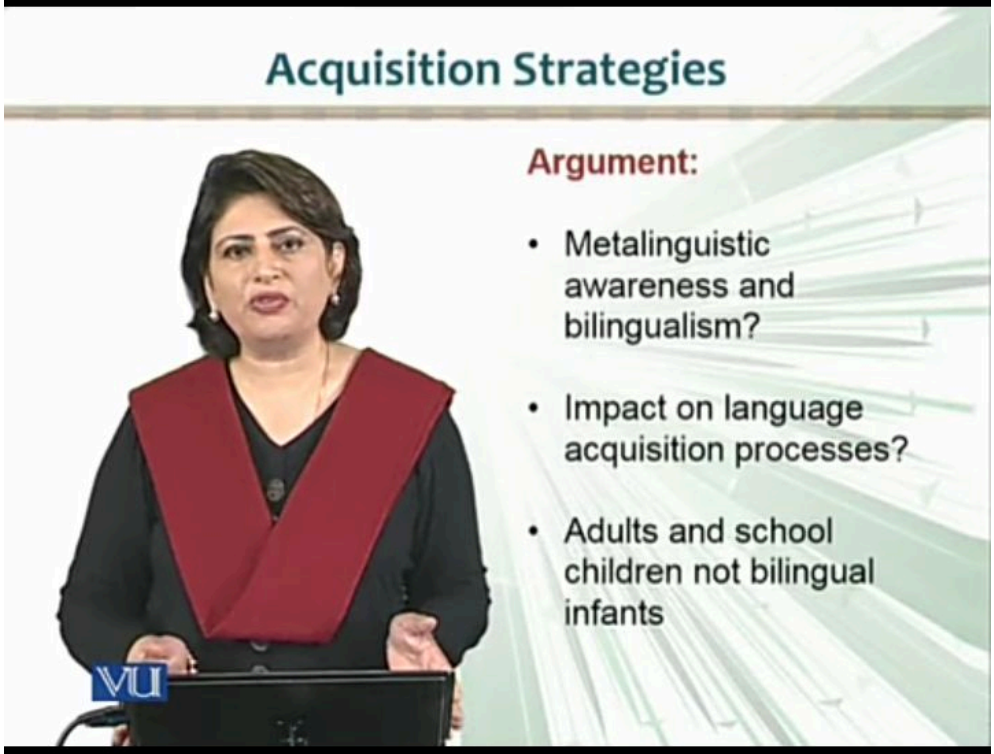

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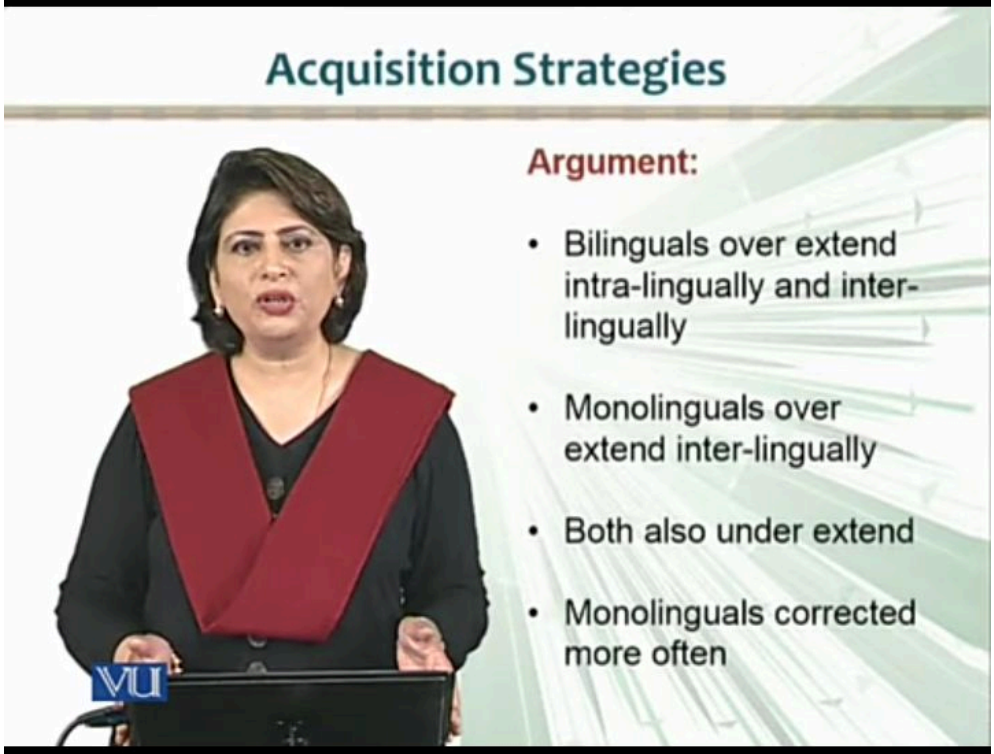

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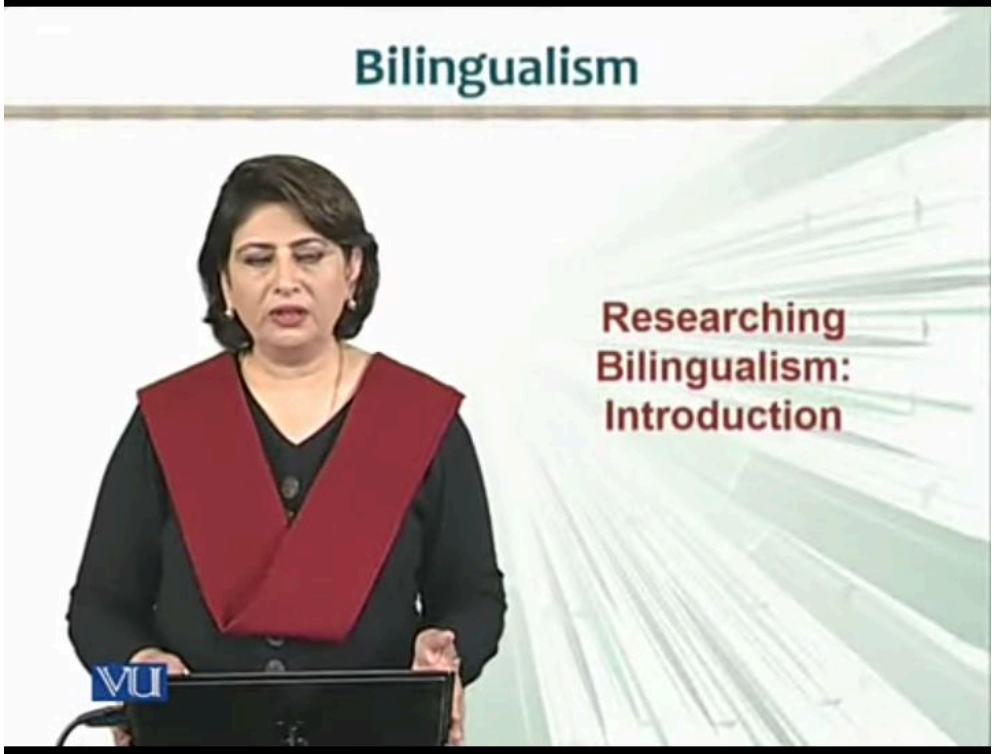

No connection

Topic No. 096-100

Researching Bilingualism; Research Identity; Research Issues; Examples; Impact of Research Identity

The identity of the researcher is extremely important as it affects the aims and objectives of the research, the relationship with the people being studied and the choice of theoretical and methodological perspectives. Unfortunately, we do not always think about this question when we read other people's findings, or for various reasons the identity of the researcher is not made explicit in the research report. In studying the language behaviour of bilingual speakers, it is particularly useful to consider the following issues:

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It may well be , however, that the number of researchers who can claim such competence is relatively small and that the majority of the existing studies of the language behaviour of bilingual speakers are carried out by non-native speakers of one of the languages. So researchers are lucky enough to obtain sufficient funding to employ a team of temporary assistants to carry out data collection and data analysis. However, problems of comparability may then arise as different researchers may impart their own perspectives to the phenomenon being investigated into the data collection and analysis. While such different perspectives are themselves interesting and provide valuable information worthy of studying, they create difficulties in interpreting the research findings. Sometimes even if a researcher with the appropriate linguistic background is located, he or she may not be of the ethnic origin or nationality appropriate or necessary for the study. This often happens when the language boundary crosses ethnic or religious boundaries, i.e. the same language is used by members of different ethnic or religious groups.

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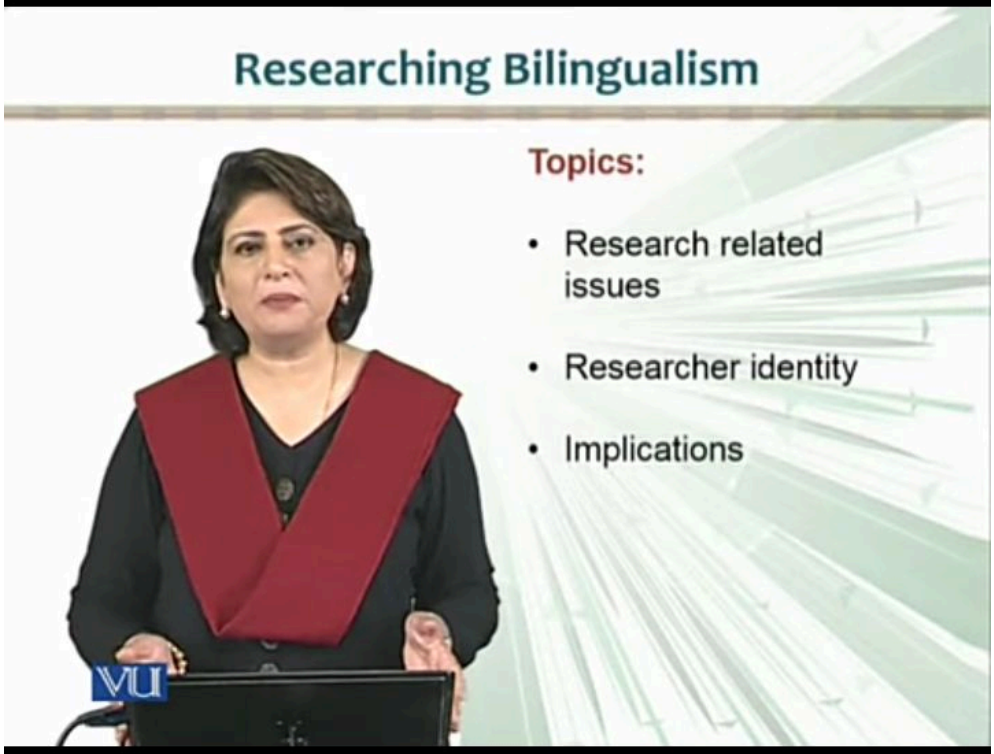

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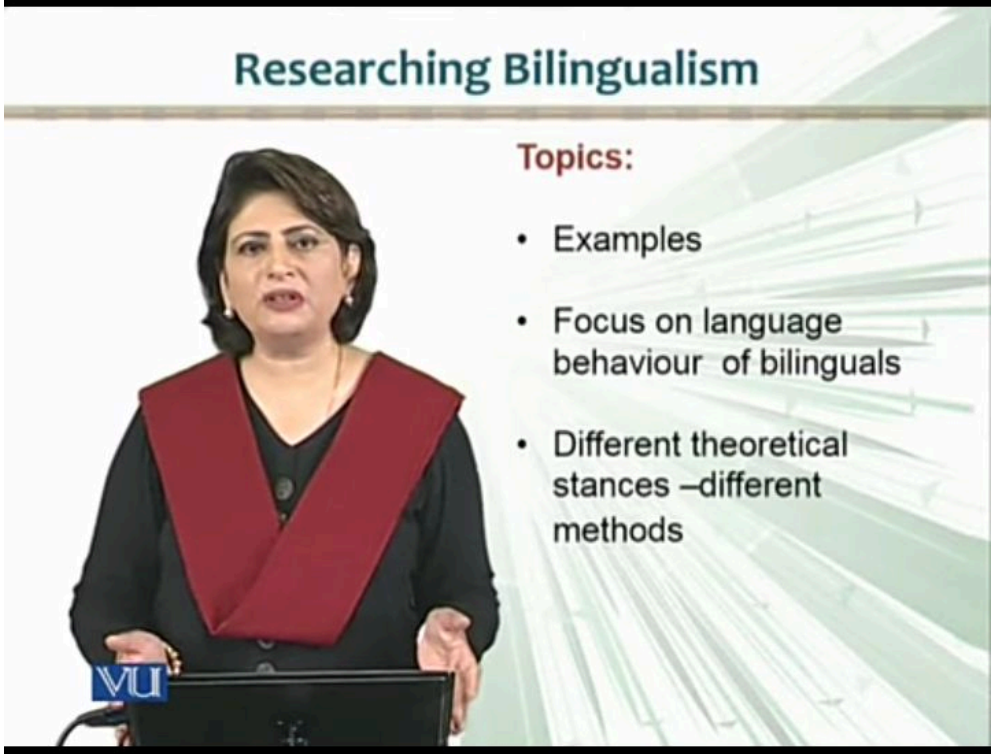

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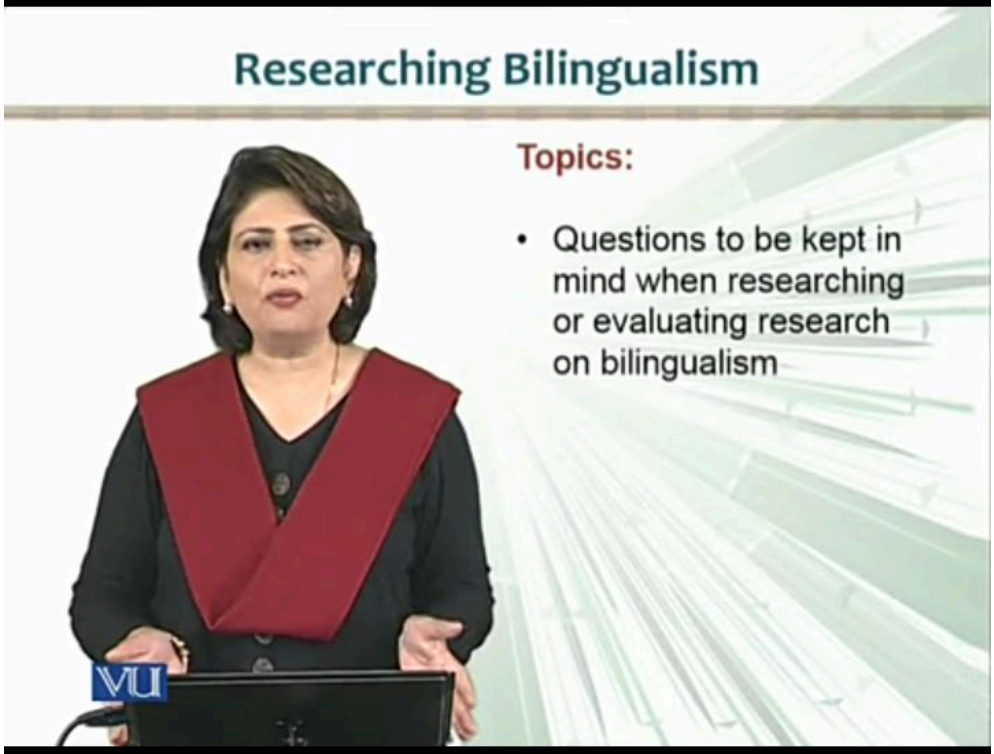

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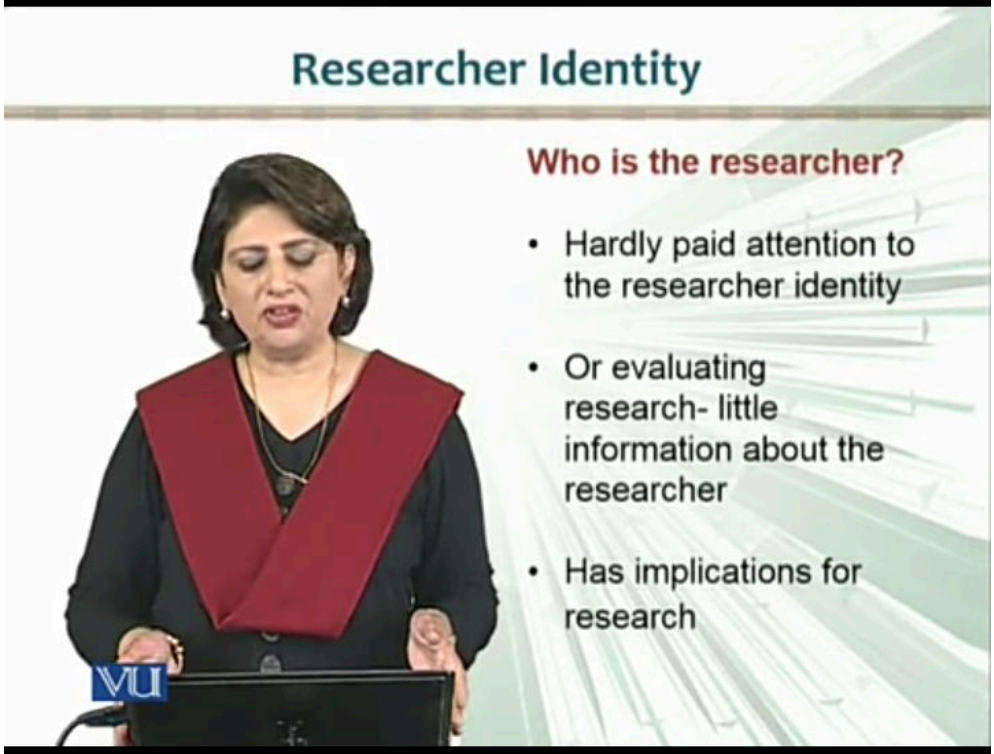

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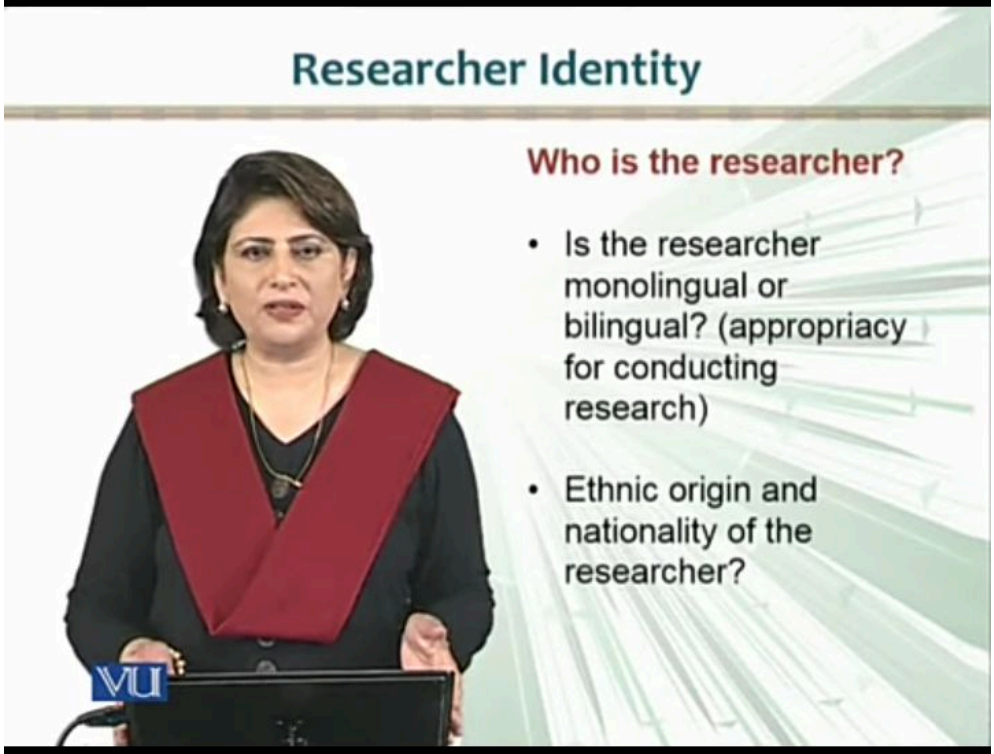

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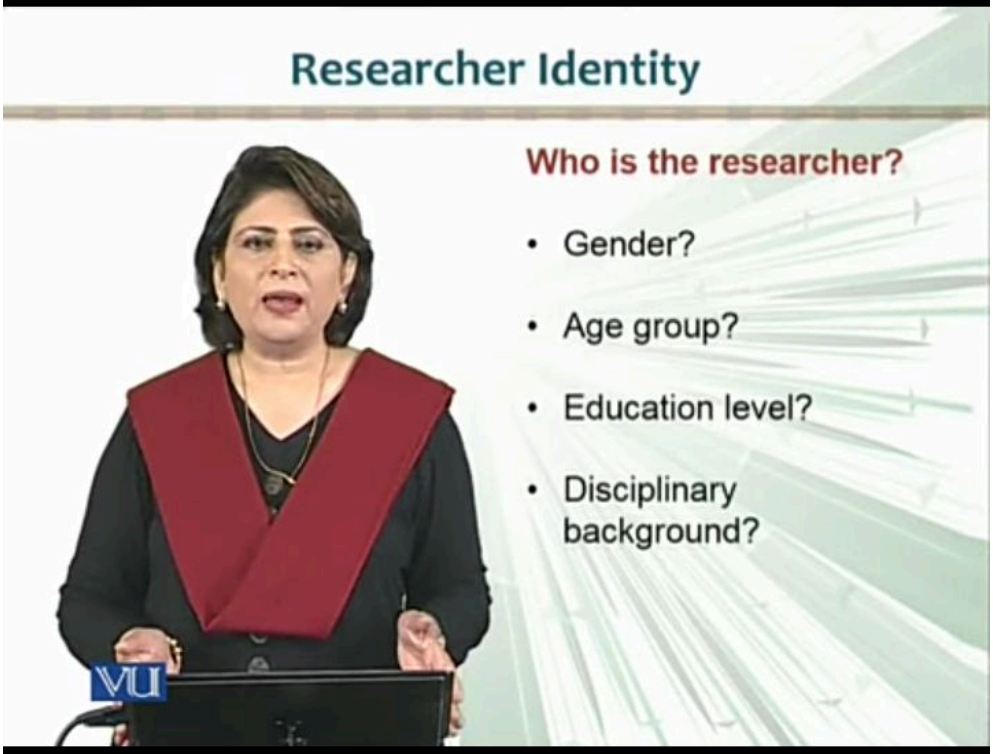

Researching Bilingualism; Research Identity; Research Issues; Examples; Impact of Research Identity

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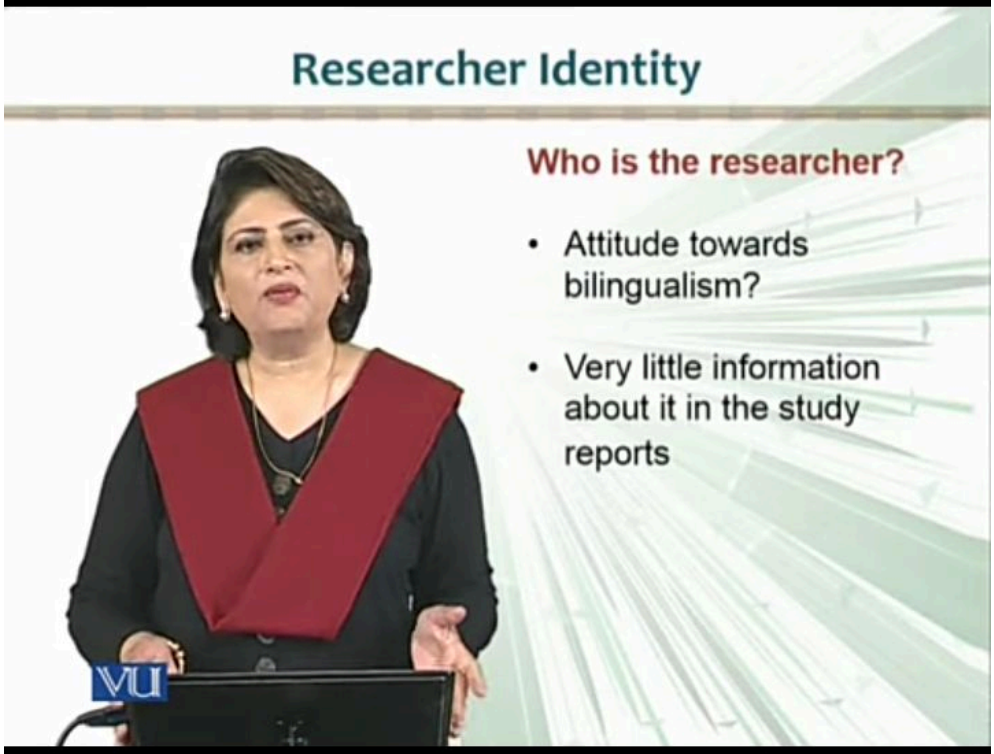

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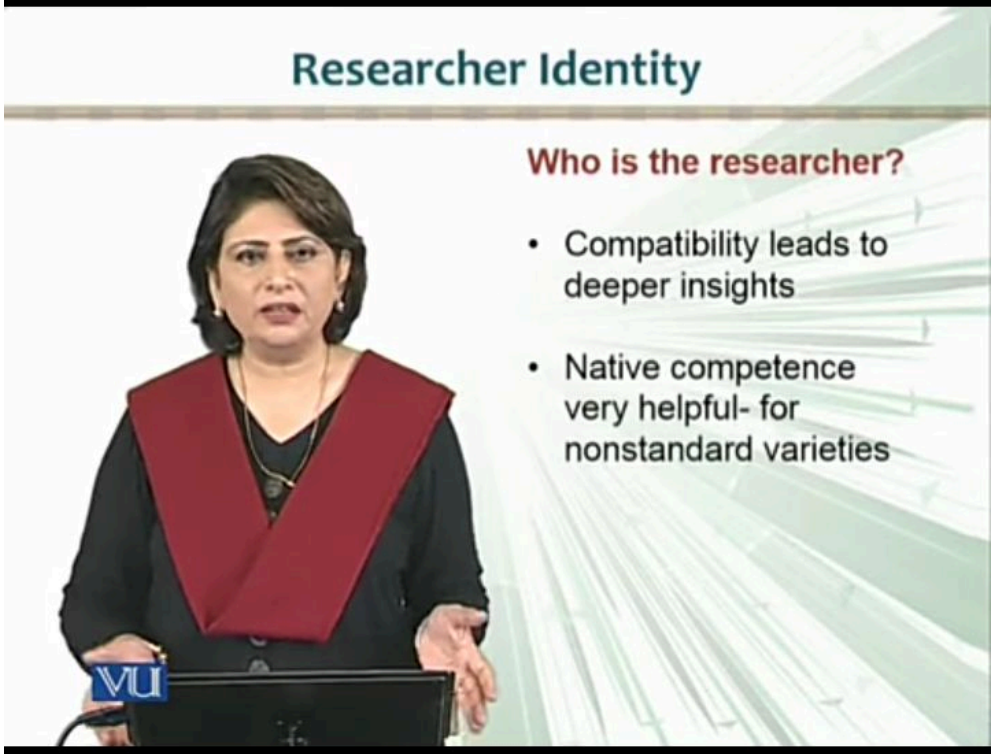

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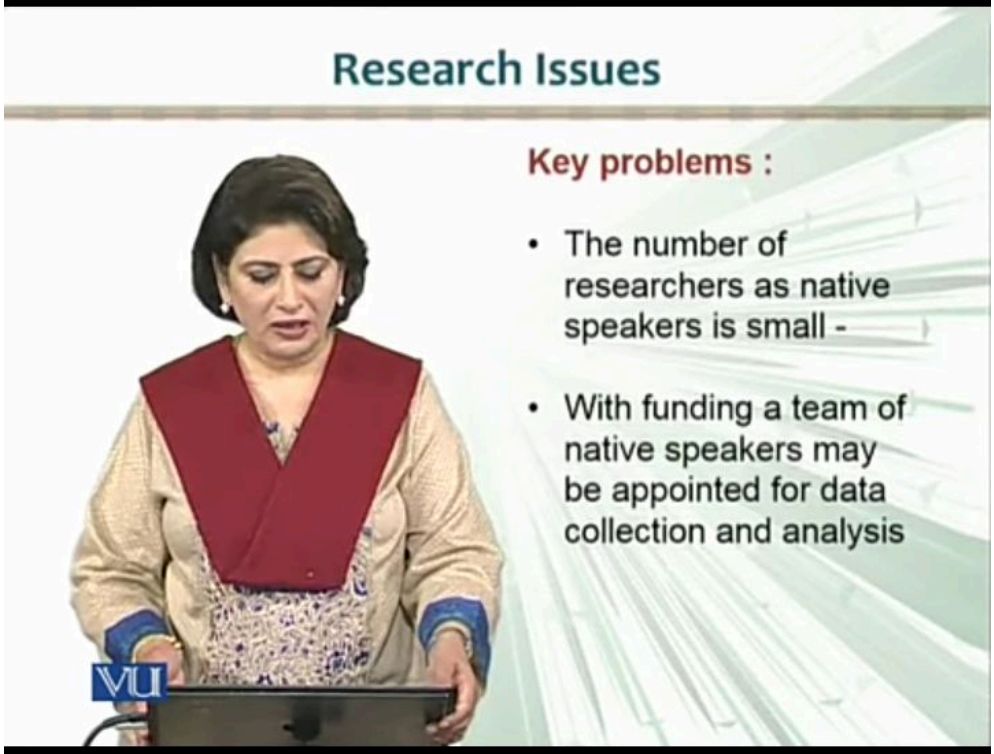

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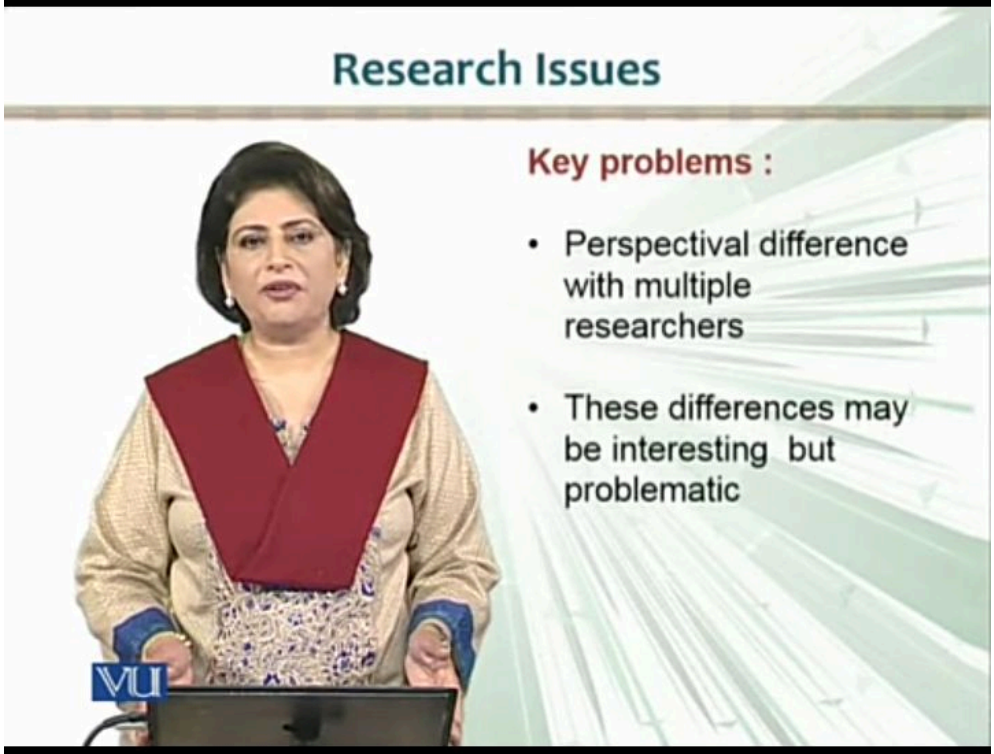

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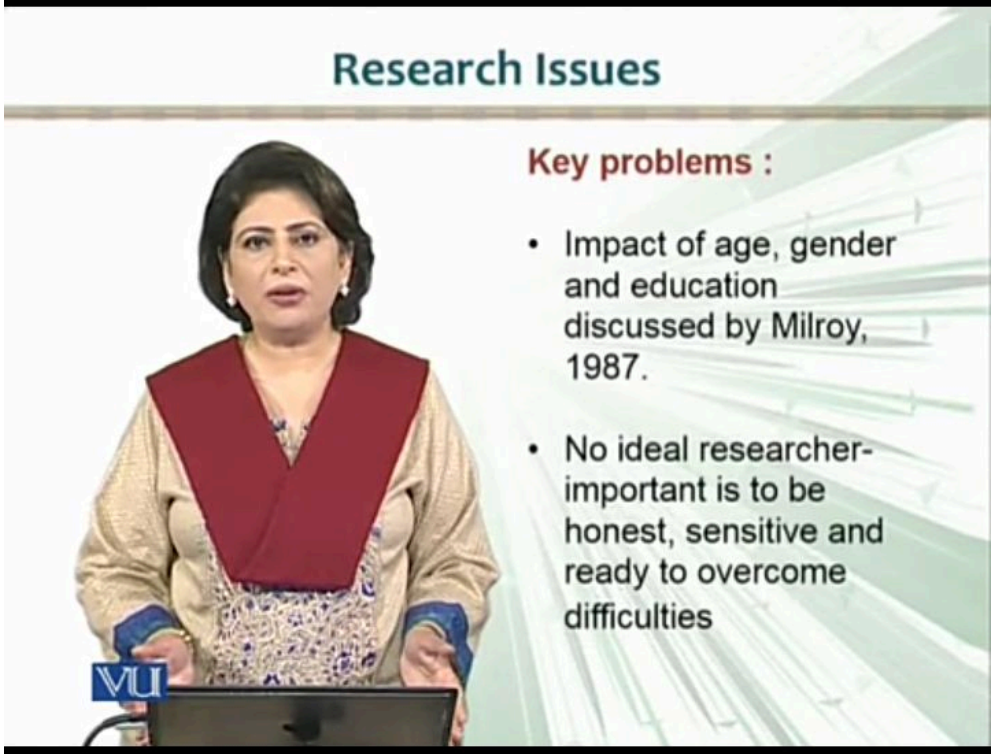

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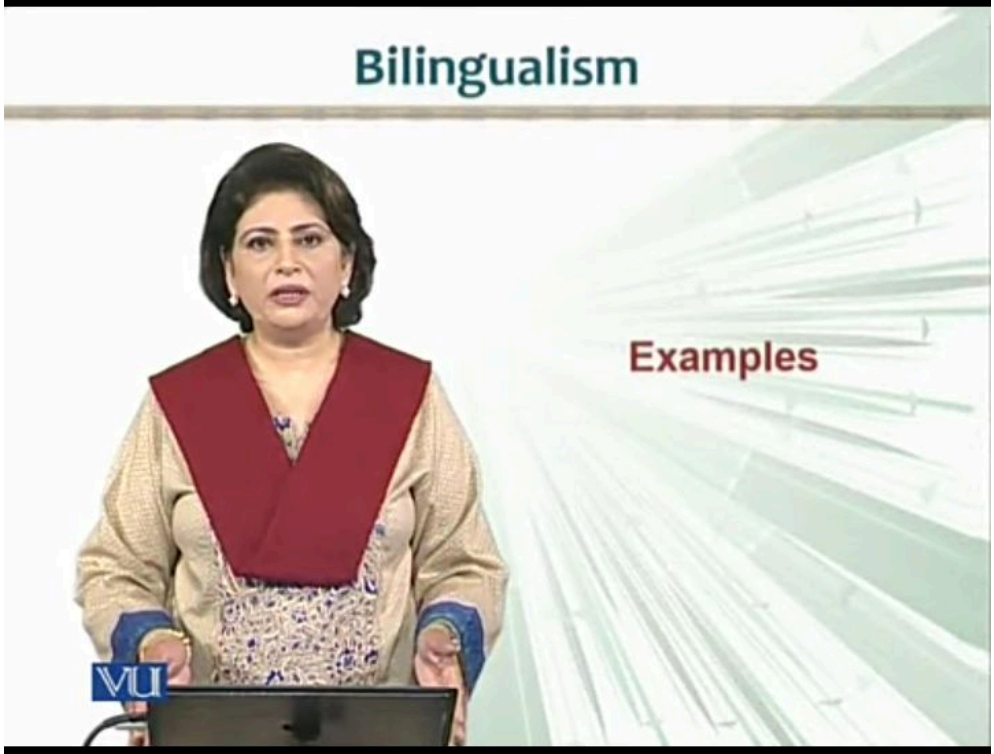

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- Studies of the language development of bilingual children can be based on parental diaries, video-recording or audio-recording of children's play and conversation, or standardized tests and checklists.
- Studies of the language attitudes and language ideologies can be based on analyses of written documents or interview data.
- Studies of language processing of bilingual speakers, on the other hand, are normally based on

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There is no one method that is intrinsically better than others. Good methods are those that are appropriate for the research agenda and can provide evidence for answering the research questions. We should be particularly aware of the possibility that style of research (e.g. ethnographic, experimental, survey, systematic observation) and use of tools (such as questionnaires, interviews, tape-recordings, tests, attitude scales) can carry with them a political ideology, a view of the person and a philosophy of knowledge. For example: surveys often aim for participative democracy whereas experiments are often about control; qualitative ethnographic observation aims for a holistic view of the person while quantitative variationist studies tend to fragment the person into variables; tape-recordings and detailed transcription of them aim for a 'mirror reflection', or a 'positivist' picture, of what actually happens, whereas in-depth interviews and critical

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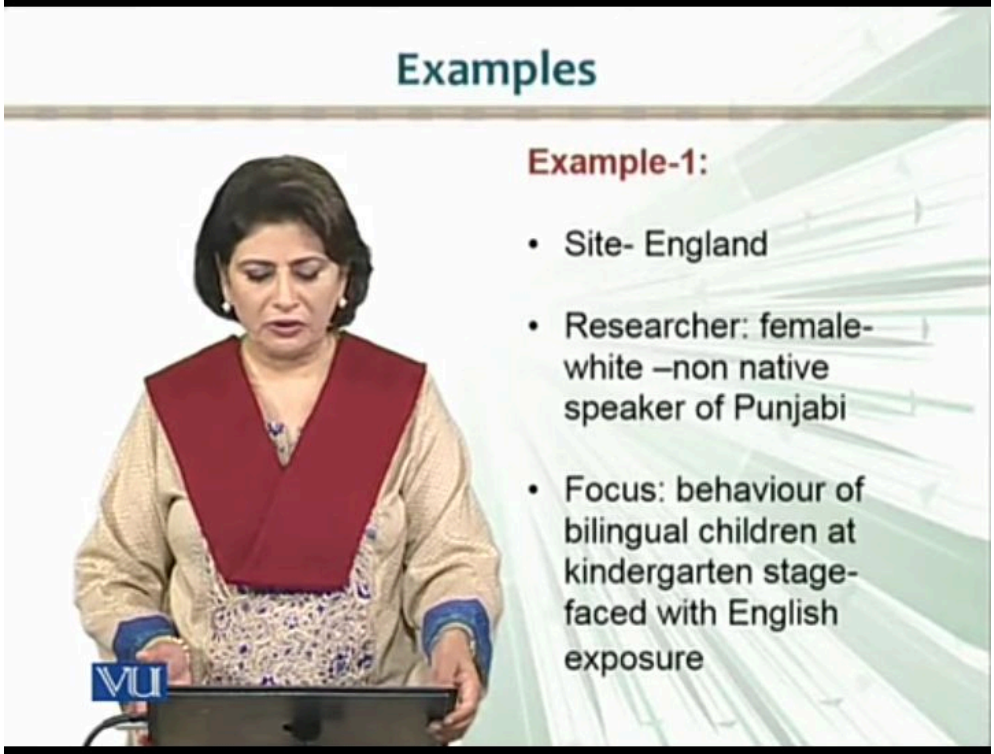

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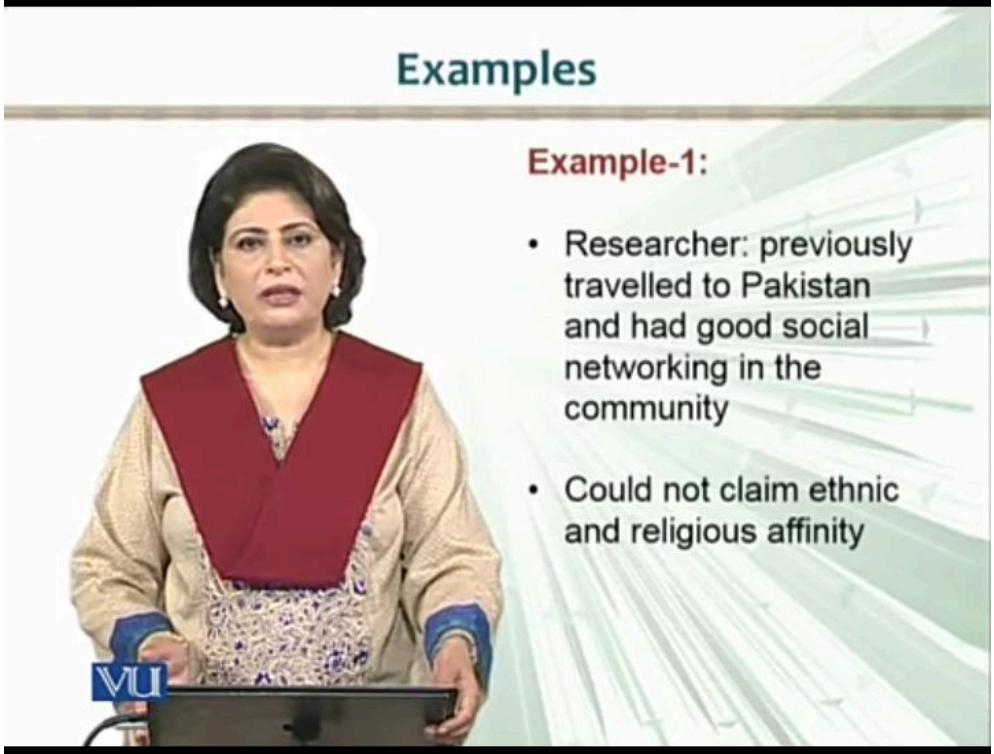

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- Studies of the language development of bilingual children can be based on parental diaries, video-recording or audio-recording of children's play and conversation, or standardized tests and checklists.
- Studies of the language attitudes and language ideologies can be based on analyses of written documents or interview data.
- Studies of language processing of bilingual speakers, on the other hand, are normally based on

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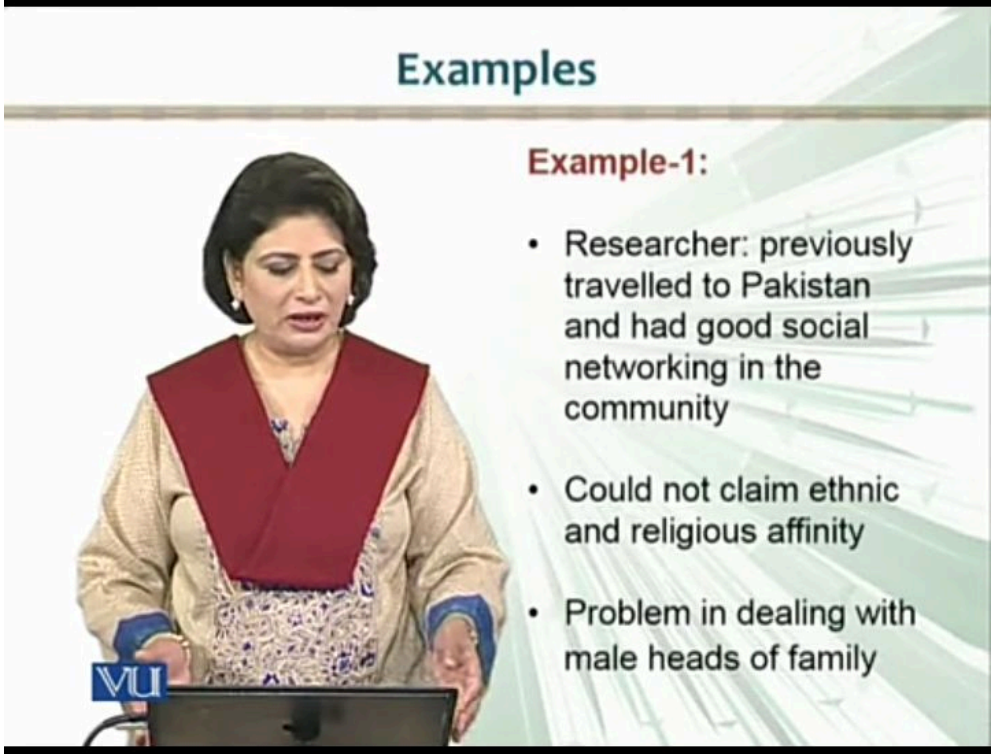

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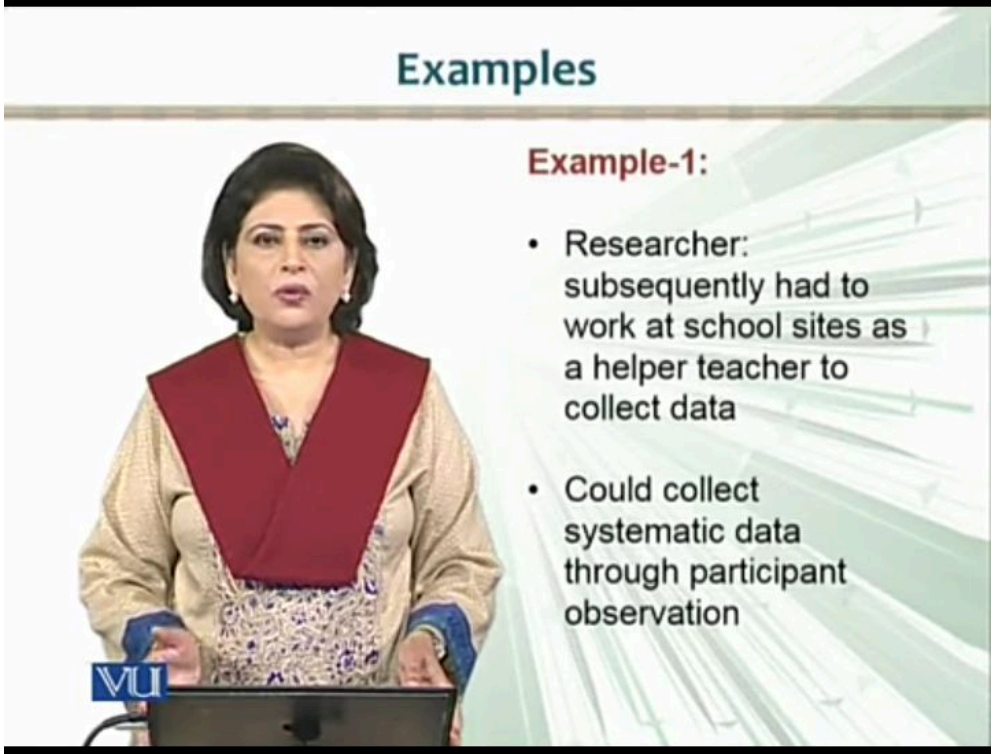

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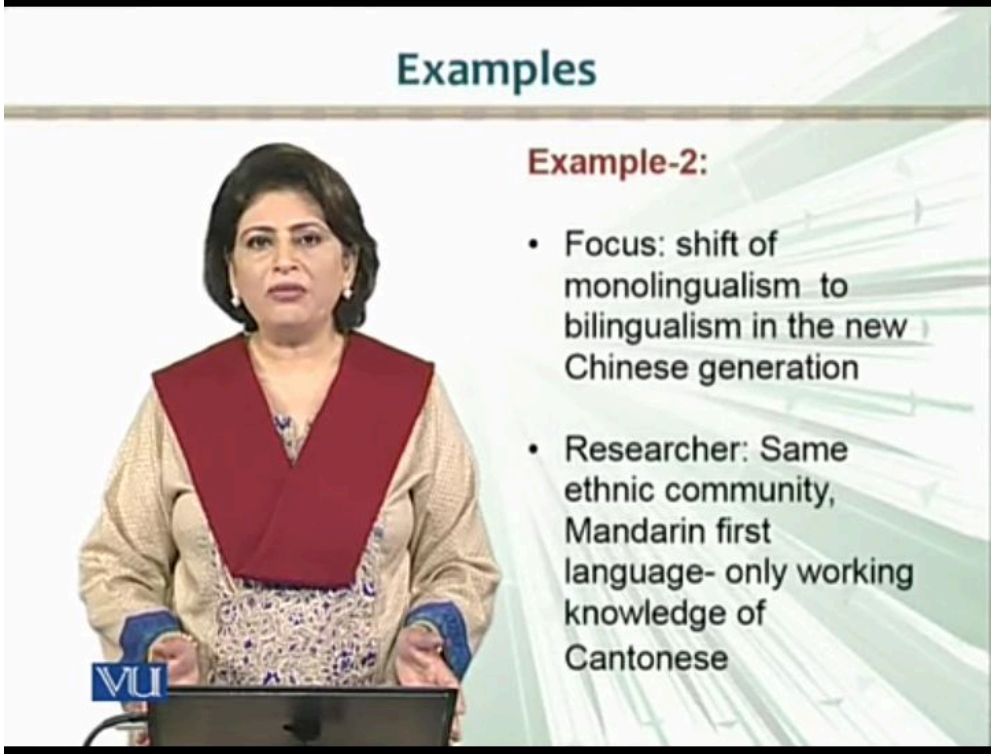

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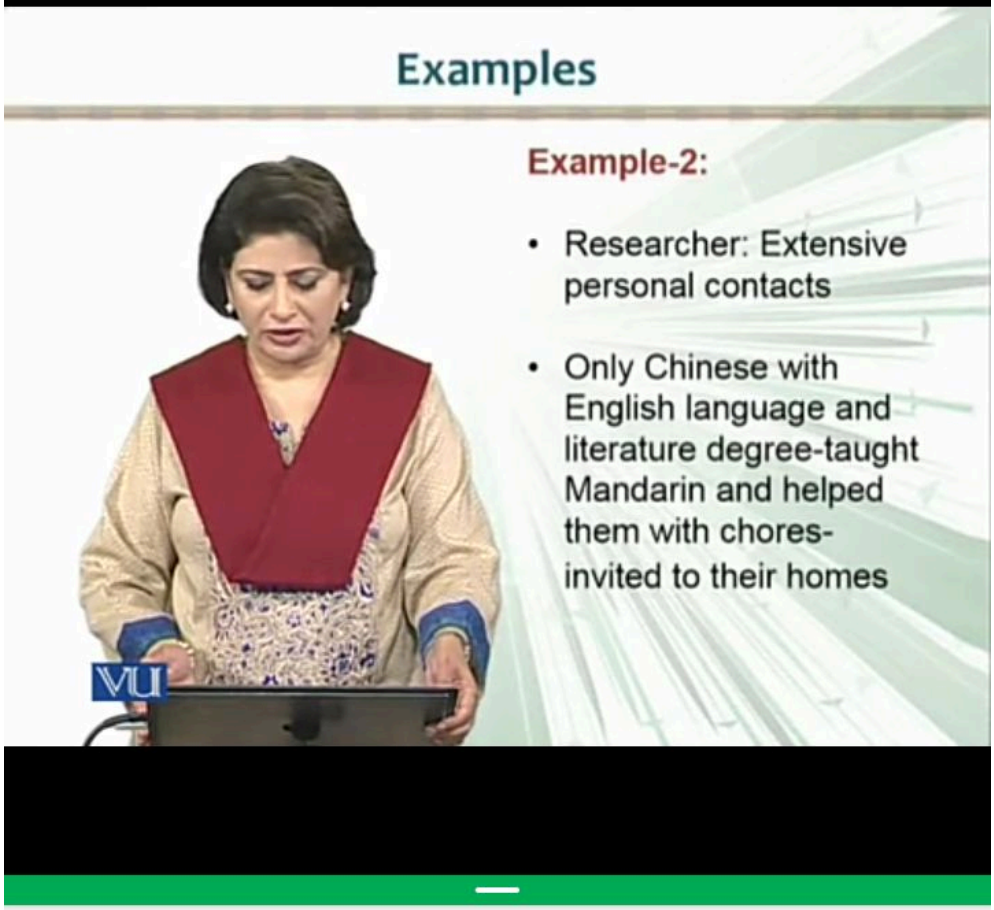

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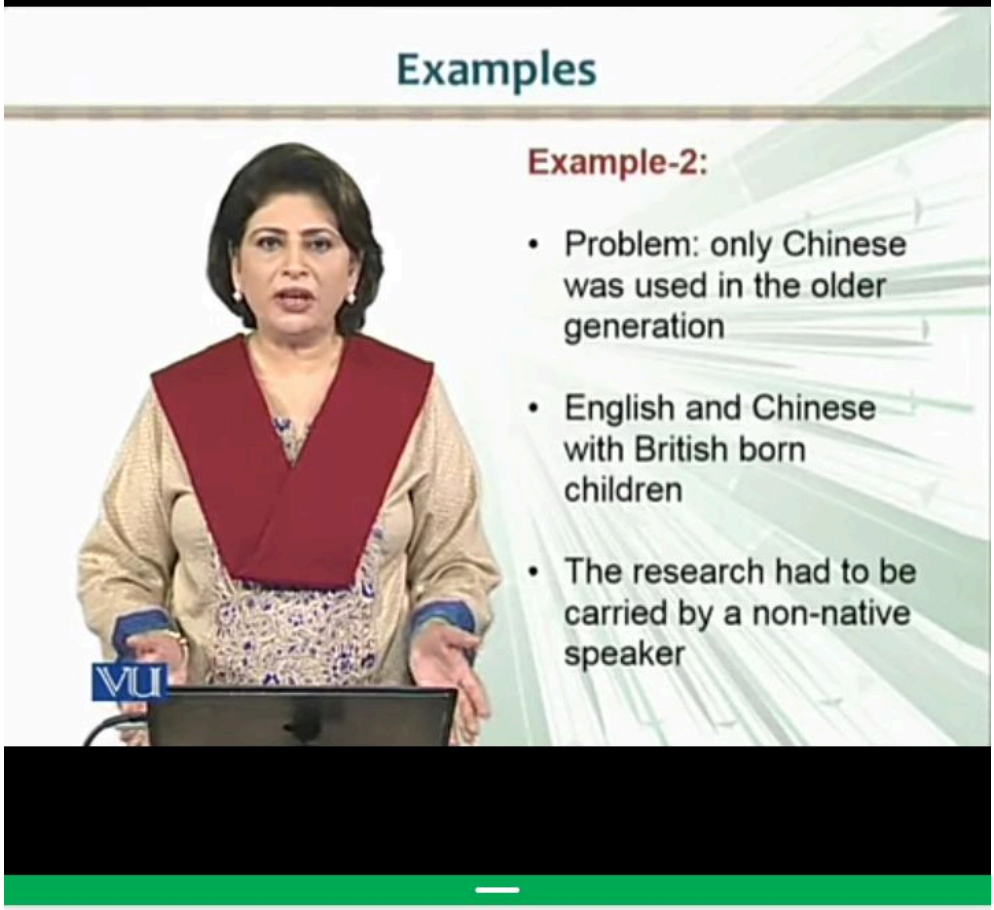

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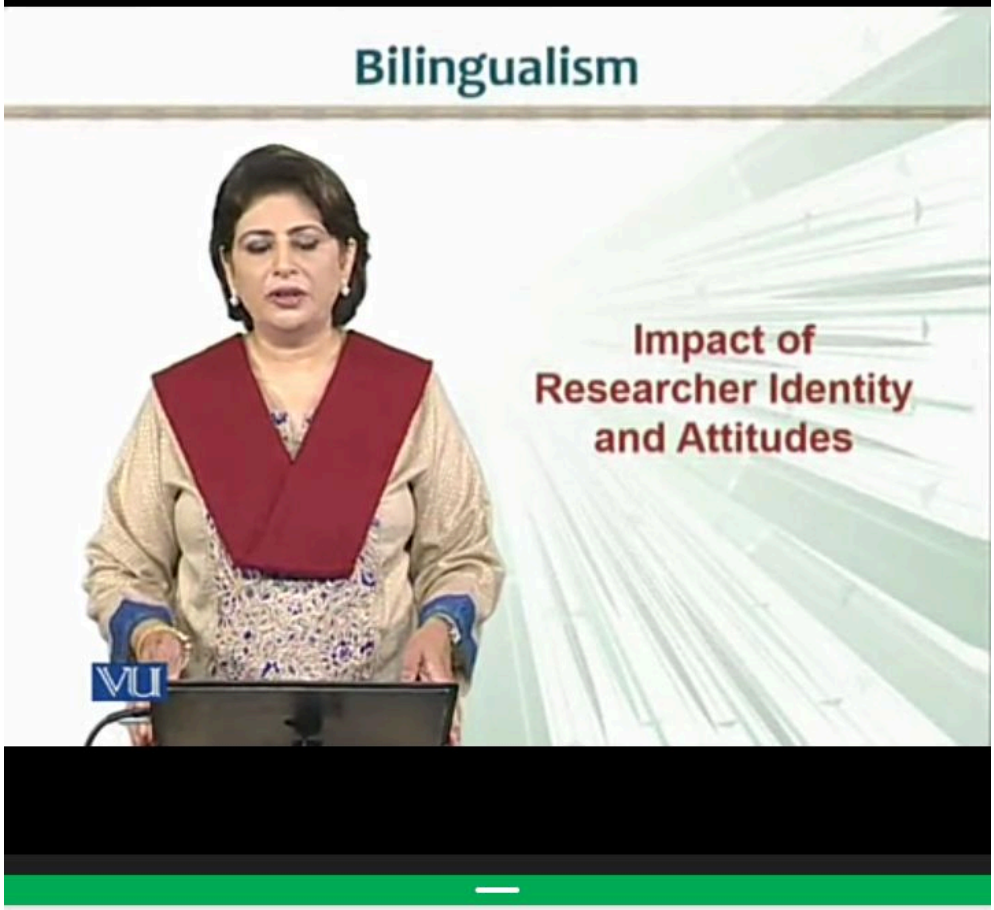

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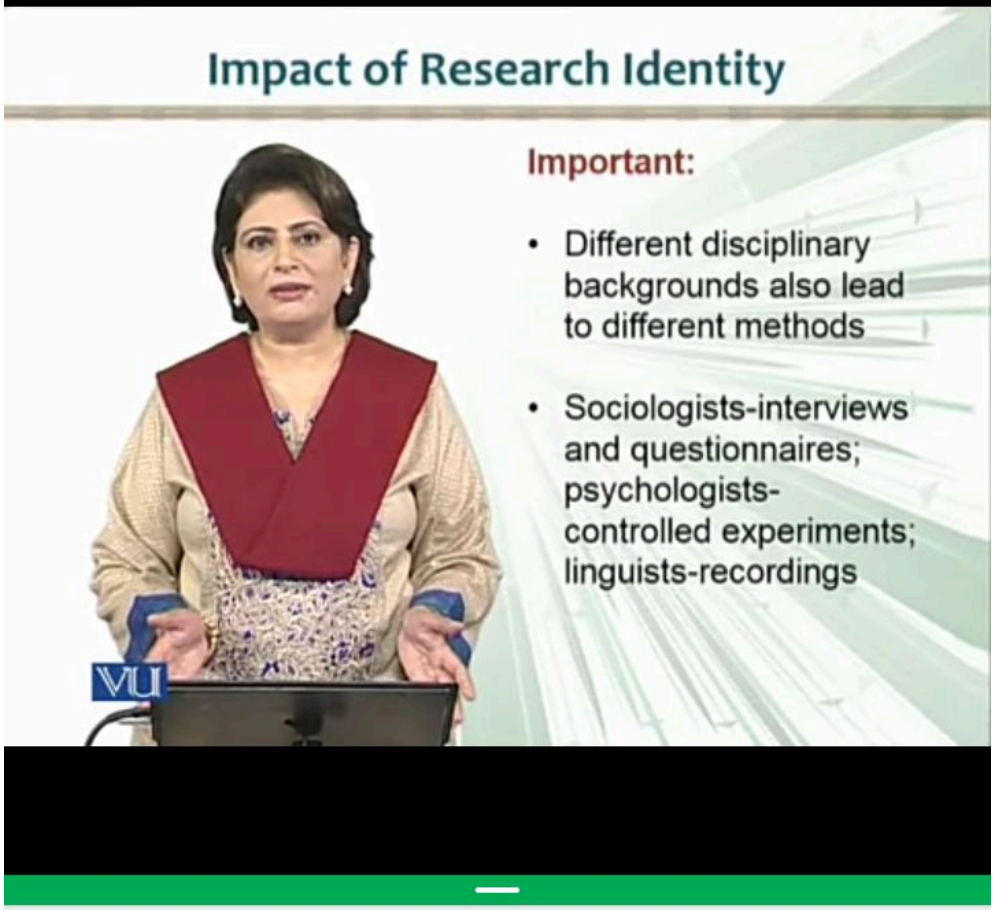

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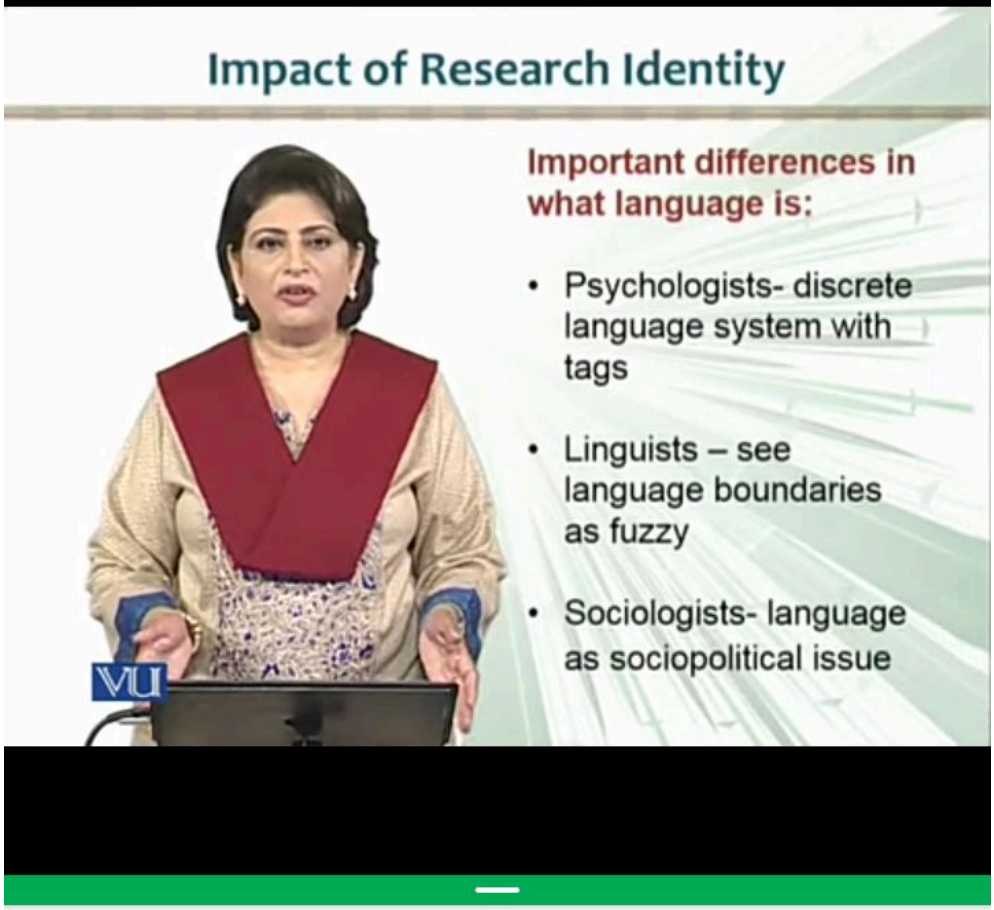

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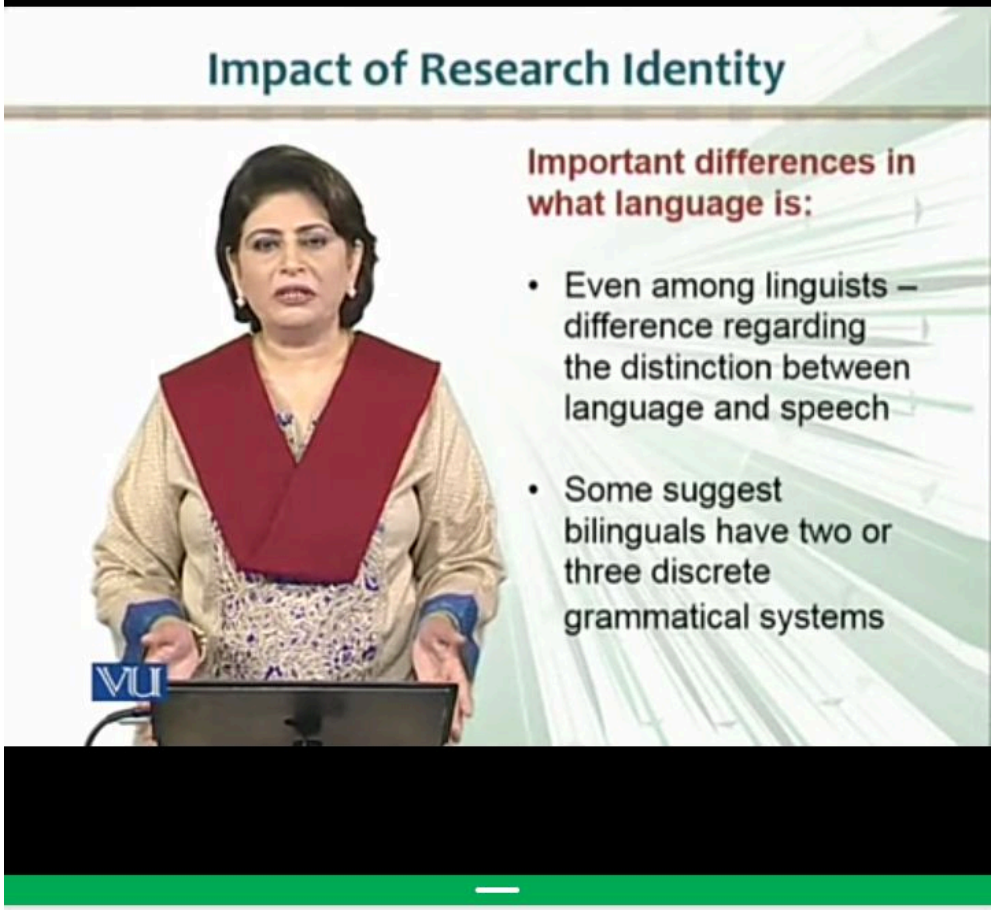

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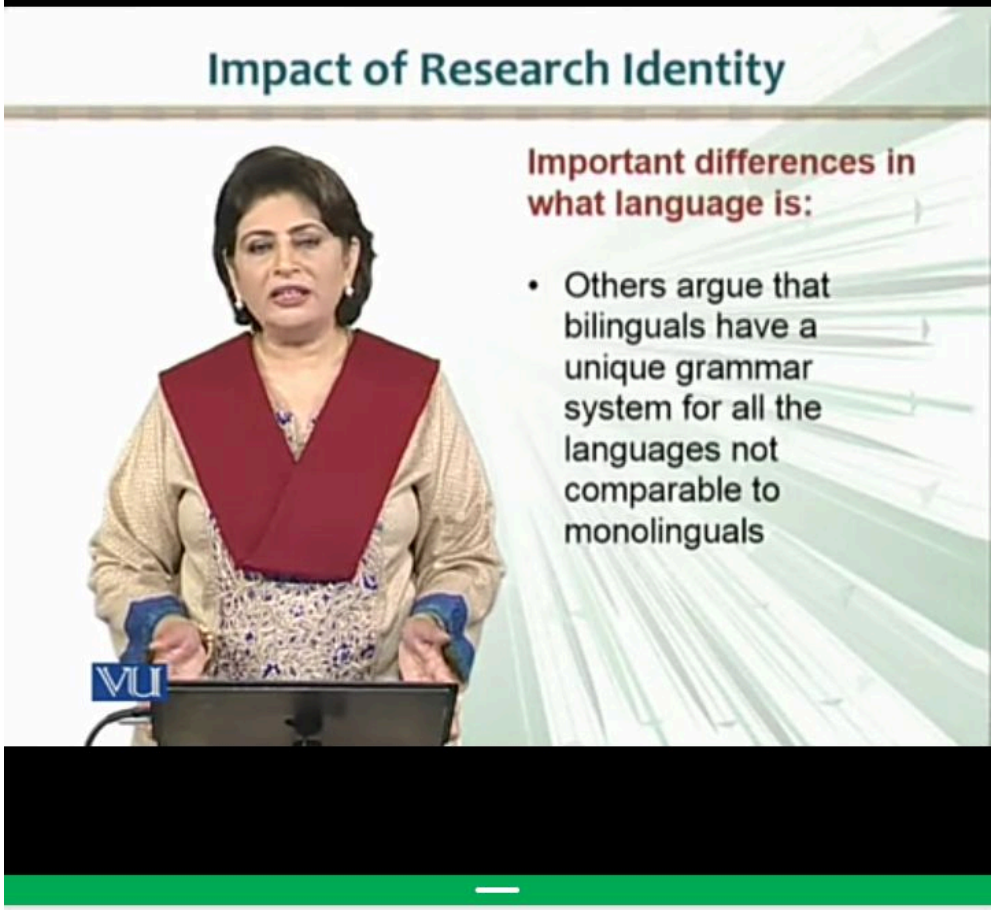

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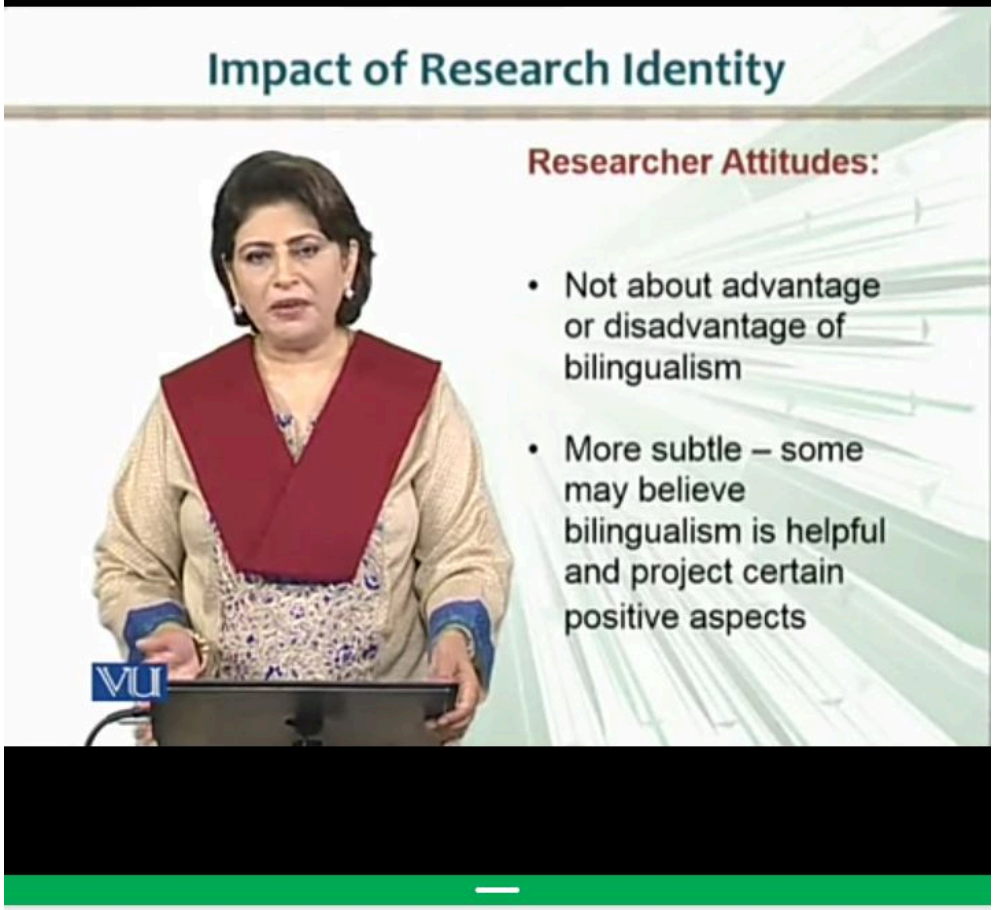

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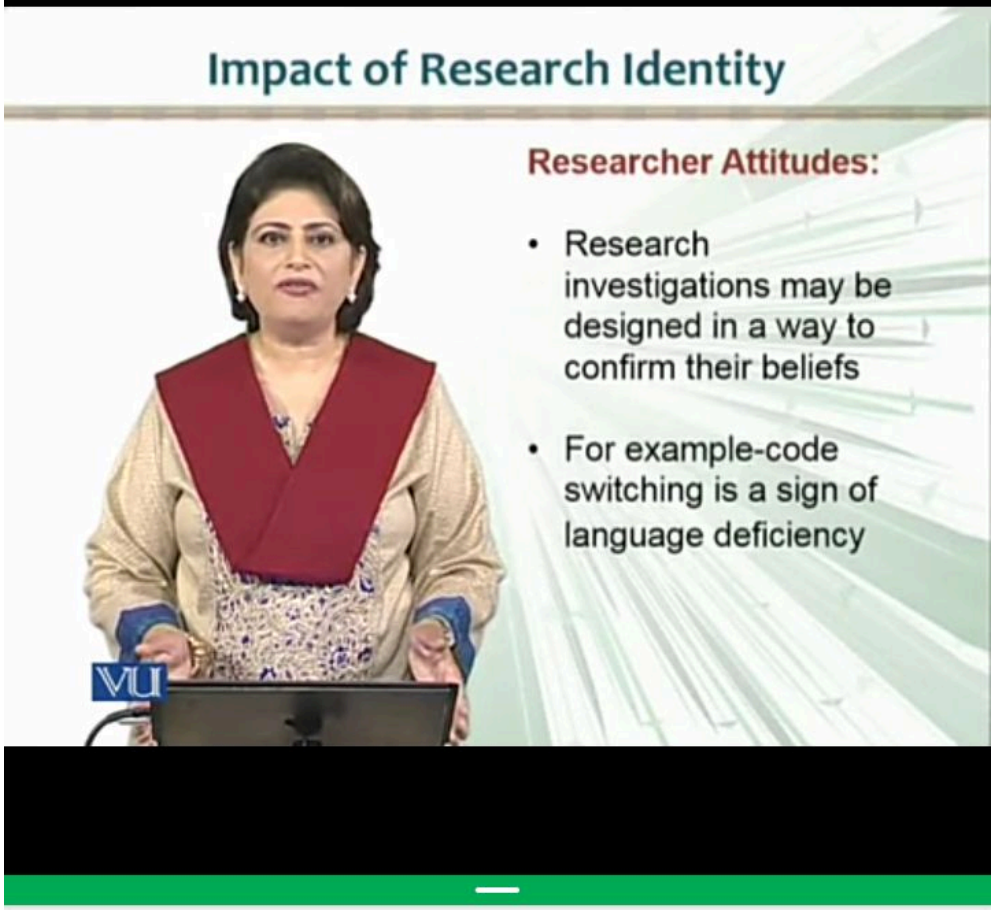

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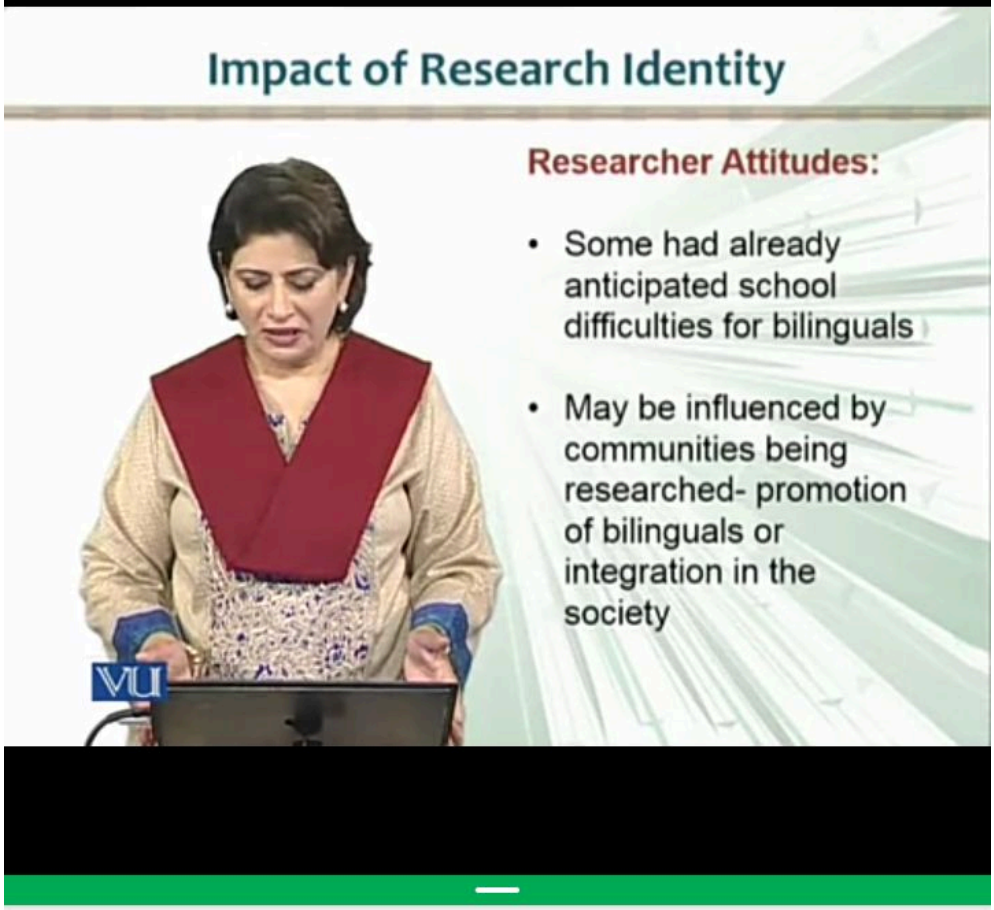

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ENG512_Topic101

No connection

Topic No. 101-105

Bilingual Education Introduction; Scenarios; Defining Bilingual Education; Bilingual Education and Language Teaching; Monoglossic Ideologies in Bilingual Education Scenarios

What is bilingual education?

We immediately think of someone who has a good command of two languages as bilingual; and the use of two languages in education as bilingual education but, as Cazden and Snow (1990) point out, bilingual education is "a simple label for a complex phenomenon." Colin Baker (1993: 9), one of the most perceptive scholars in the field of bilingual education, suggests that sometimes the term bilingual education is used to refer to the education of students who are already speakers of two languages, and at other times to the education of those who are studying additional languages. Bilingual education is different from traditional language education programs that teach a second or a foreign language. For the most part, these traditional second- or foreign-language programs teach the language as a subject, whereas bilingual education programs use the language as a medium of instruction; that is, bilingual education programs teach content through an additional language other than the children's home language. More than anything else, bilingual education is a way of providing meaningful and equitable education, as well as an education that builds tolerance towards other linguistic and cultural groups. In so doing, bilingual education programs provide a general education, teach in two or more languages, develop multiple understandings about languages and cultures, and foster appreciation for human diversity.

Traditional second or foreign-language programs often aim to use only the target language in instruction, whereas bilingual education programs always include some form of more than one language in at least some parts of instruction. Although the approach may be different, the development of some type of bilingualism is accomplished in both language-teaching programs.

Language-teaching programs in the twenty-first century increasingly integrate language and content, therefore, coming to resemble bilingual education; and bilingual education programs are paying more attention than ever to explicit language instruction also.

Although many second-language and foreign-language programs pay lip service to using only the target language in instruction, in reality bilingual ways of using languages are very often present in these programs, in the instructional material used, in the language use of the teacher, and certainly in the language use of the children. Moreover, sometimes in bilingual education programs one finds a language ideology that is very similar to that found in language-teaching programs, with teachers attempting to use only the target language in instruction: that is, no translation is provided and the teacher never uses both languages within the same lesson.

What continues to separate these two kinds of programs has to do with the broader general goal of bilingual education, the use of two languages to educate generally, meaningfully, equitably, and for tolerance and

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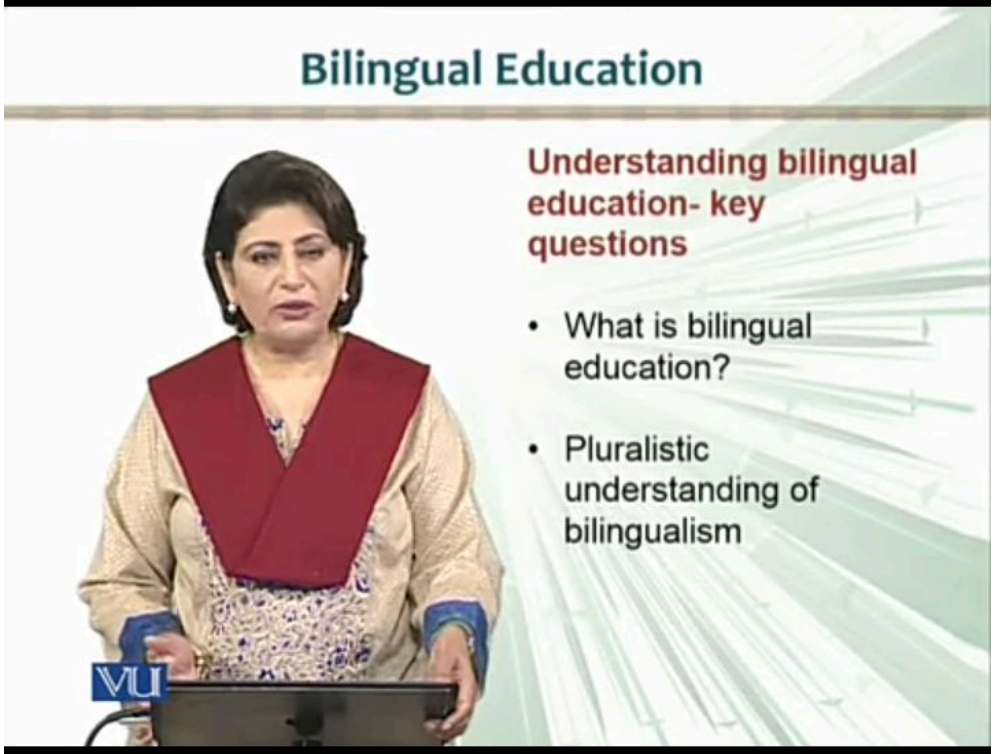

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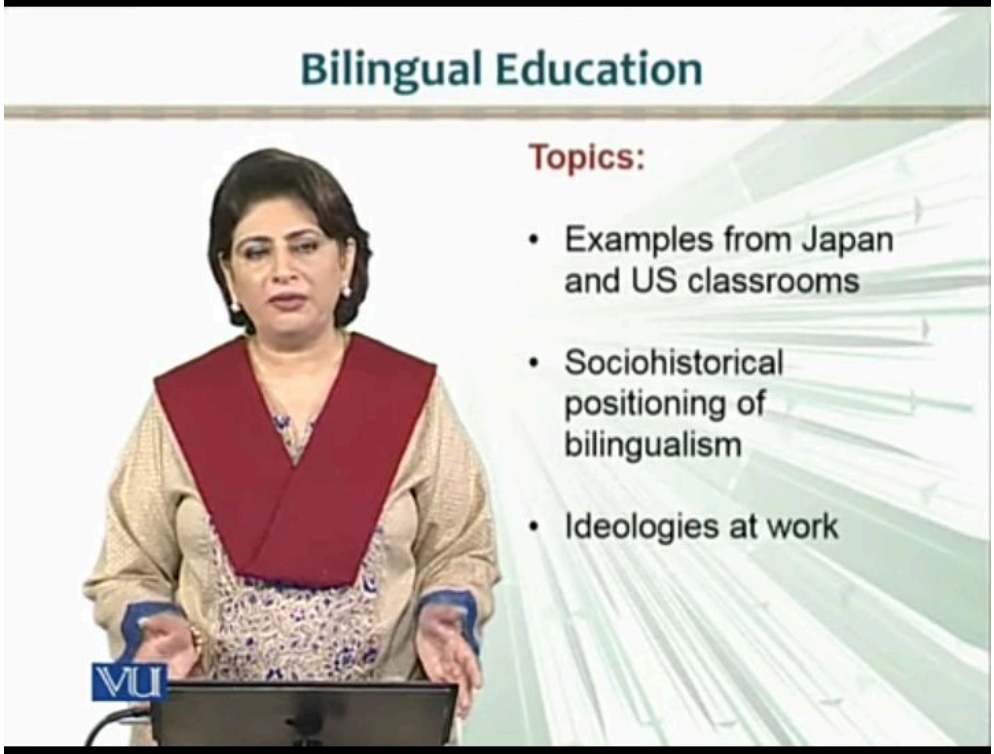

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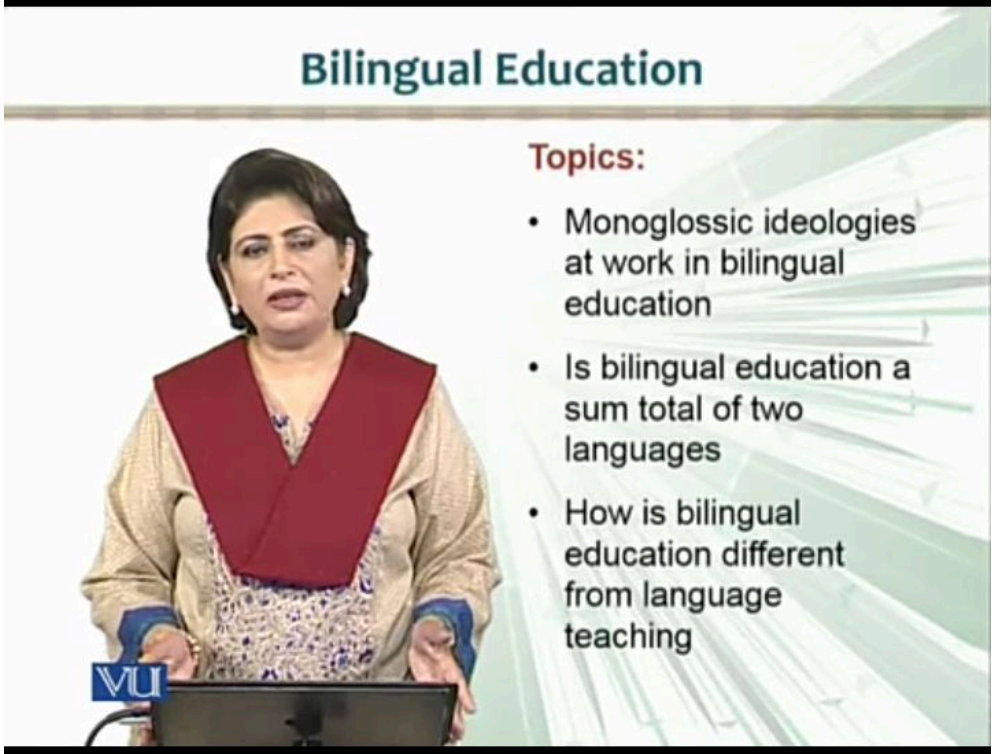

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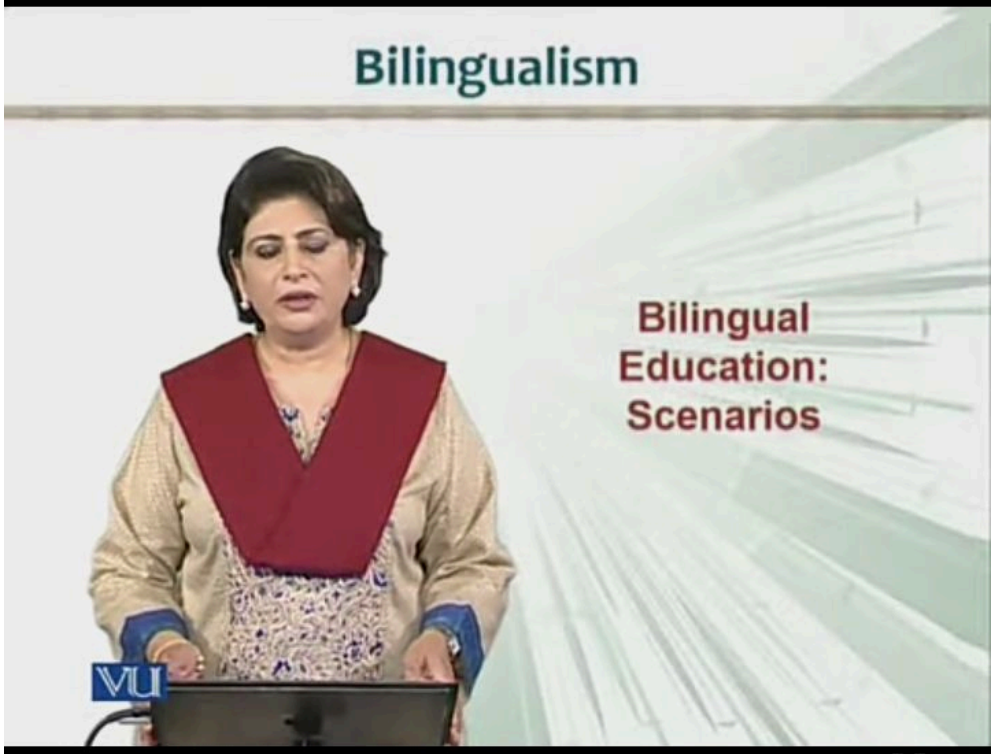

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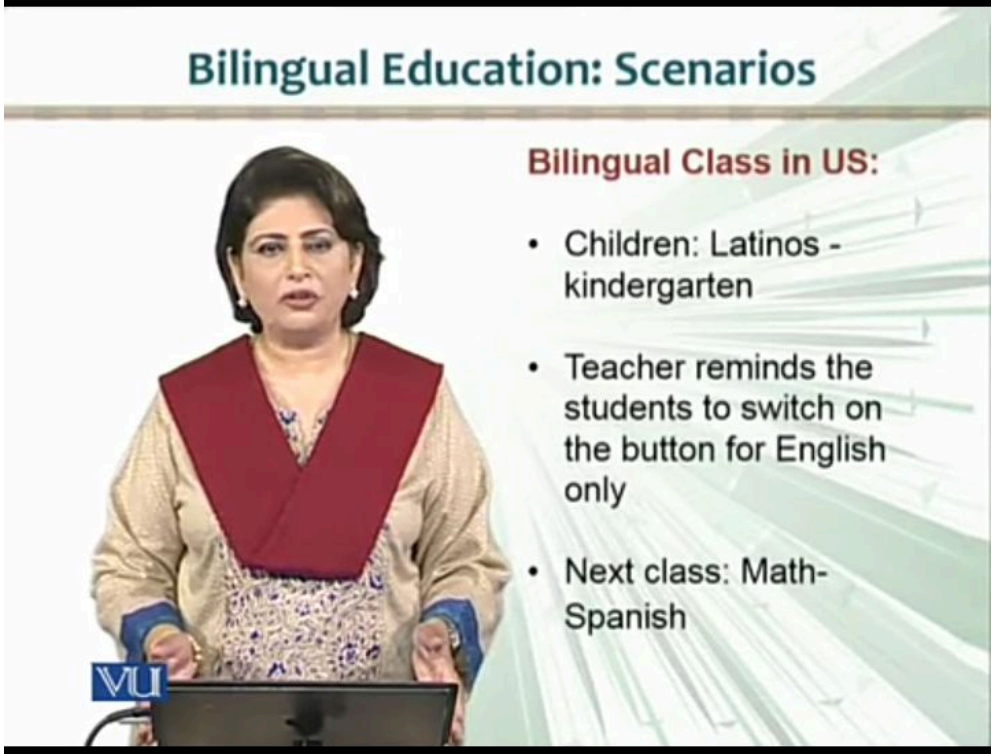

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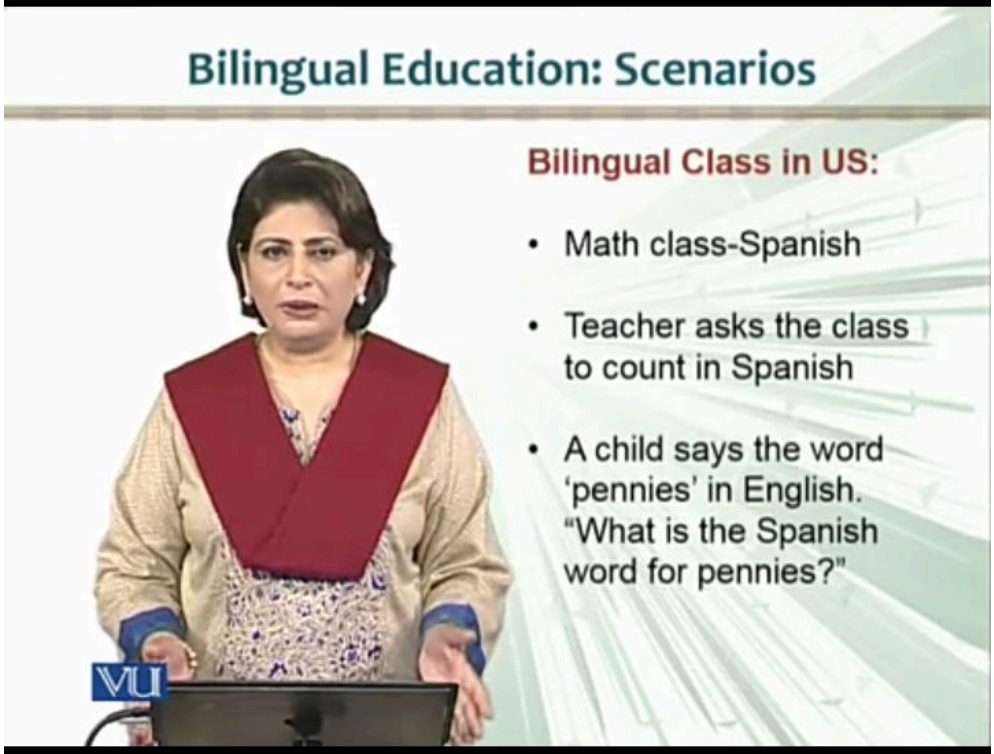

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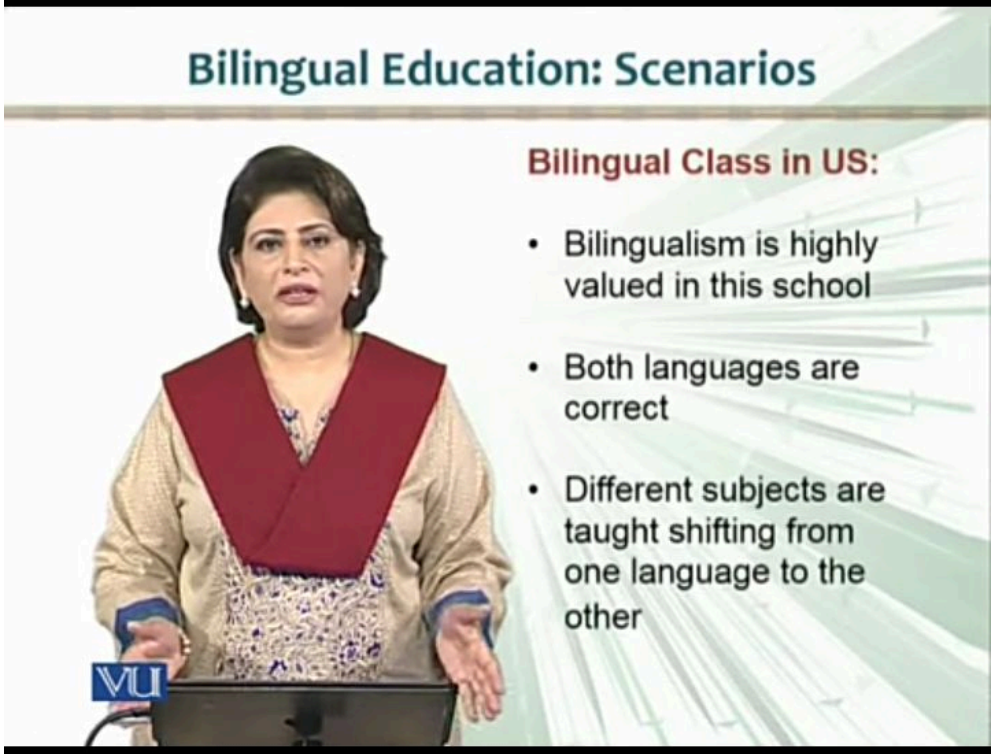

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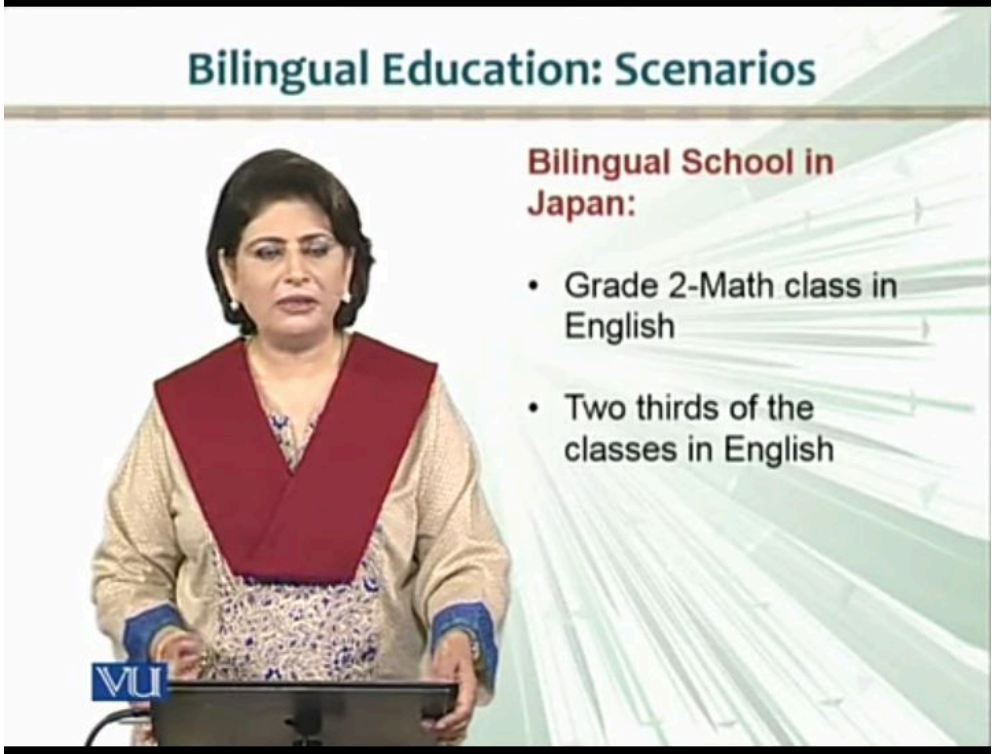

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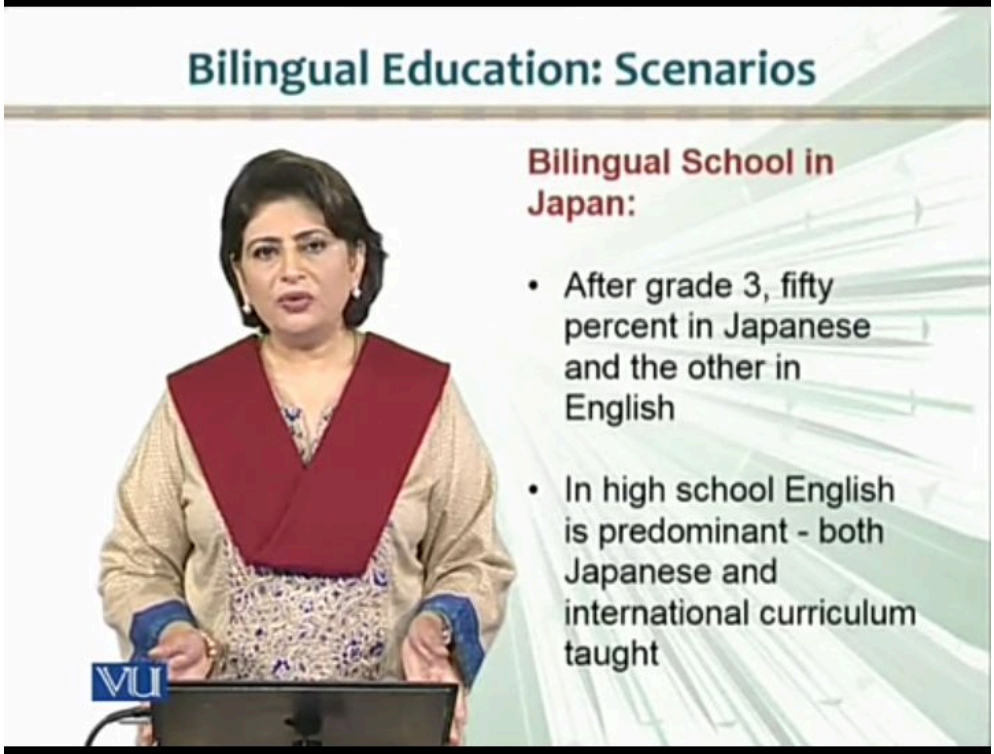

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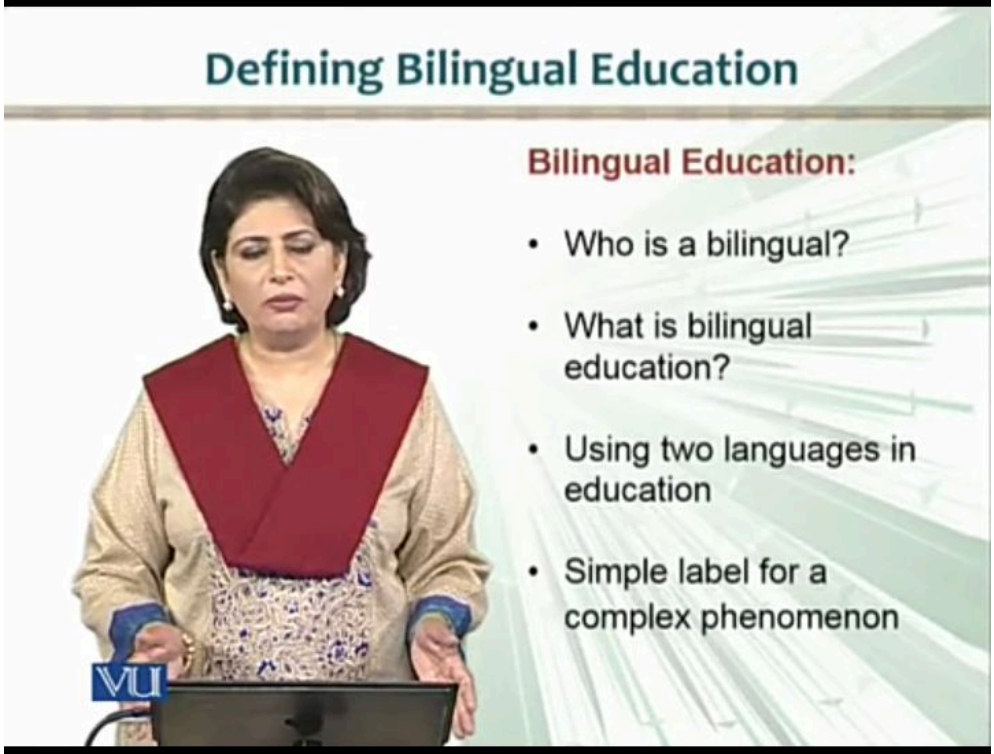

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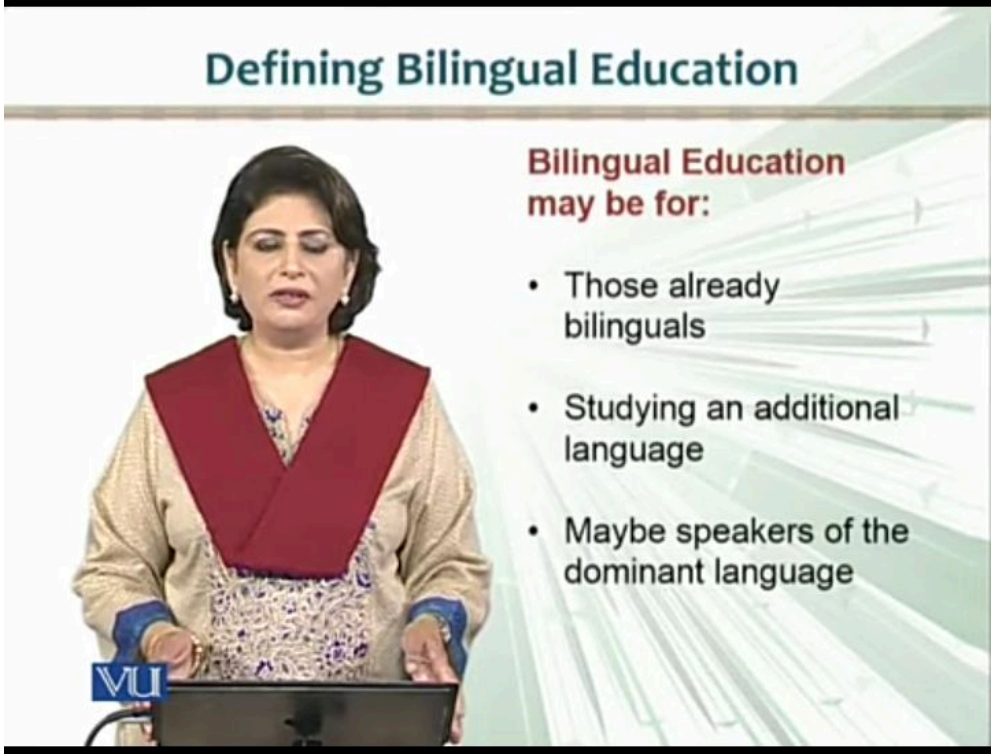

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We immediately think of someone who has a good command of two languages as bilingual; and the use of two languages in education as bilingual education but, as Cazden and Snow (1990) point out, bilingual education is "a simple label for a complex phenomenon." Colin Baker (1993: 9), one of the most perceptive scholars in the field of bilingual education, suggests that sometimes the term bilingual education is used to refer to the education of students who are already speakers of two languages, and at other times to the education of those who are studying additional languages. Bilingual education is different from traditional language education programs that teach a second or a foreign language. For the most part, these traditional second- or foreign-language programs teach the language as a subject, whereas bilingual education programs use the language as a medium of instruction; that is, bilingual education programs teach content through an additional language other than the children's home language. More than anything else, bilingual education is a way of providing meaningful and equitable education, as well as an education that builds tolerance towards other linguistic and cultural groups. In so doing, bilingual education programs provide a general education, teach in two or more languages, develop multiple understandings about languages and cultures, and foster appreciation for human diversity.

Traditional second or foreign-language programs often aim to use only the target language in instruction, whereas bilingual education programs always include some form of more than one language in at least some parts of instruction. Although the approach may be different, the development of some type of bilingualism is accomplished in both language-teaching programs.

Language-teaching programs in the twenty-first century increasingly integrate language and content, therefore, coming to resemble bilingual education; and bilingual education programs are paying more attention than ever to explicit language instruction also.

Although many second-language and foreign-language programs pay lip service to using only the target language in instruction, in reality bilingual ways of using languages are very often present in these programs, in the instructional material used, in the language use of the teacher, and certainly in the language use of the children. Moreover, sometimes in bilingual education programs one finds a language ideology that is very similar to that found in language-teaching programs, with teachers attempting to use only the target language in instruction: that is, no translation is provided and the teacher never uses both languages within the same lesson.

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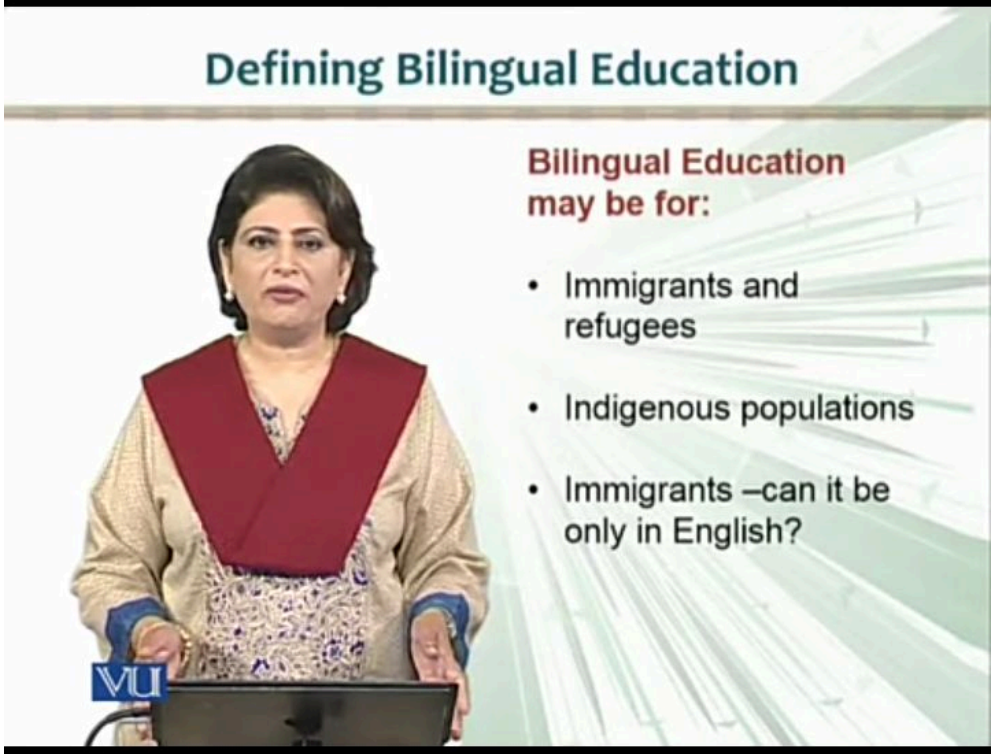

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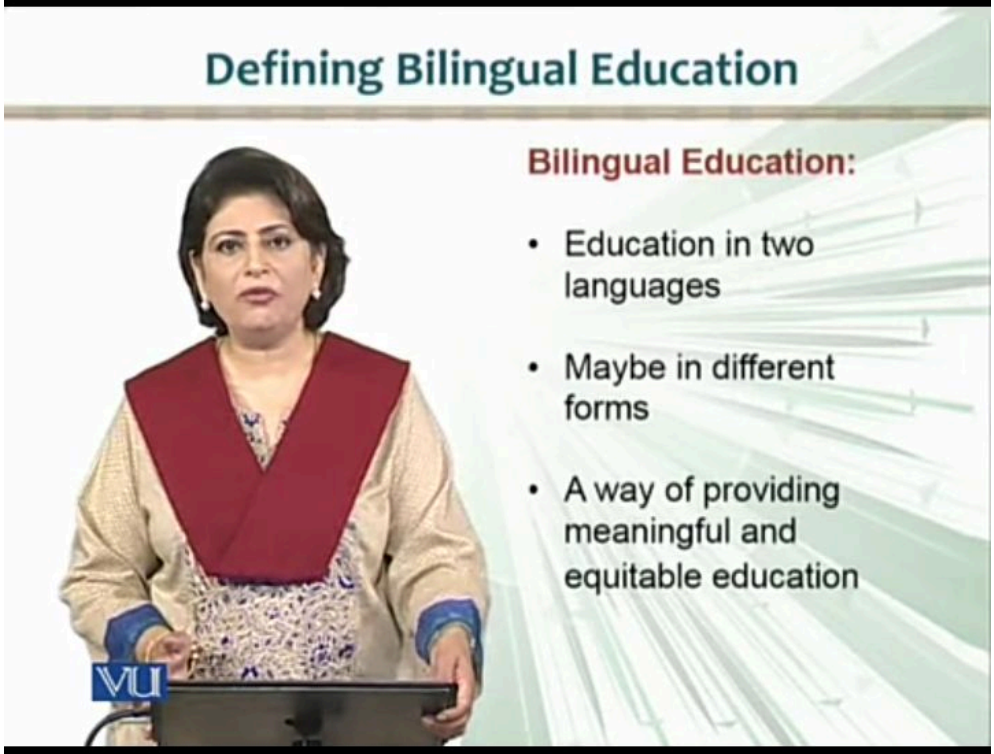

Topic No. 101-105

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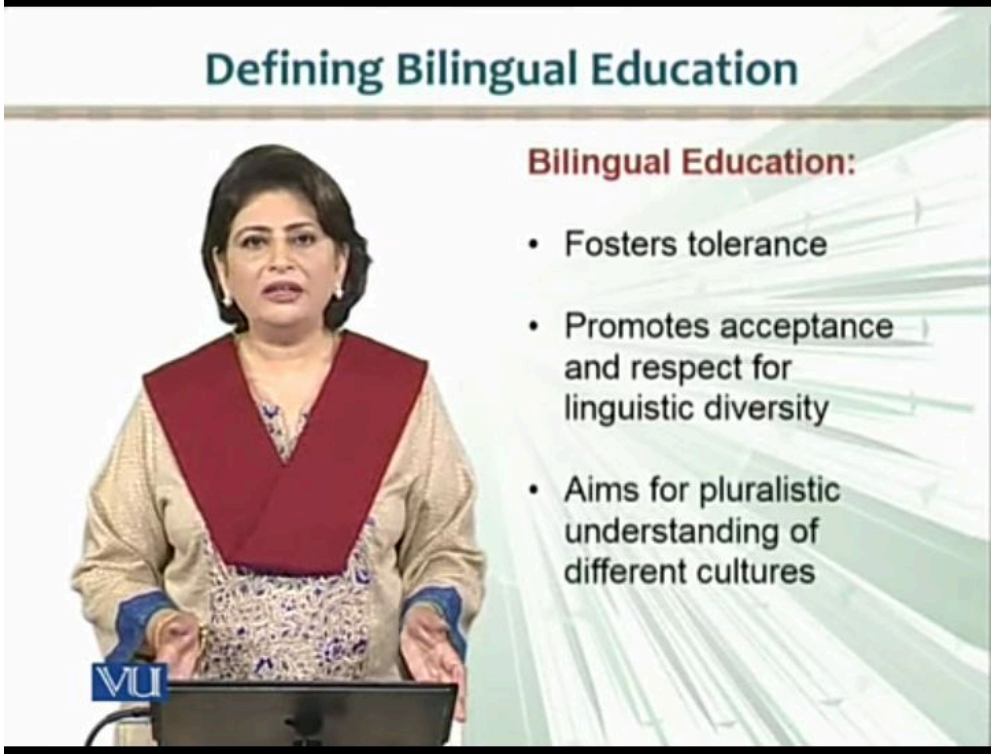

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Even the widely accepted definition of bilingual education being the use of two languages in education is not straightforward. As Baker (2001: 4) points out, "the ownership of two languages is not as simple as having two wheels or two eyes." and being educated bilingually cannot be equated to being given two balanced wheels like those of a bicycle: bilingual education is not simply about one language plus a second language equals two languages. The vision of bilingual education as a sum of equals reduces bilingual education to the use of two or more separate languages, usually in different classroom spaces, time frames, contexts, or as spoken by different teachers. In this reductive view, bilingual education has been often interpreted as being the simple sum of discrete monolingual language practices. Separate and full competencies in each language are expected of students. Furthermore, these "idealized" bilingual education practices take little account of how languages are used in society, or of real bilingual and multilingual practices.

Monoglossic ideologies of bilingualism and bilingual education treat each of the child's languages as separate and whole, and view the two languages as bounded autonomous systems. We contrast this monoglossic language ideology to one based on Bakhtin's (1981) use of heteroglossic as multiple voices. A heteroglossic ideology of bilingualism considers multiple language practices in interrelationship, and leads to other constructions of bilingual education.

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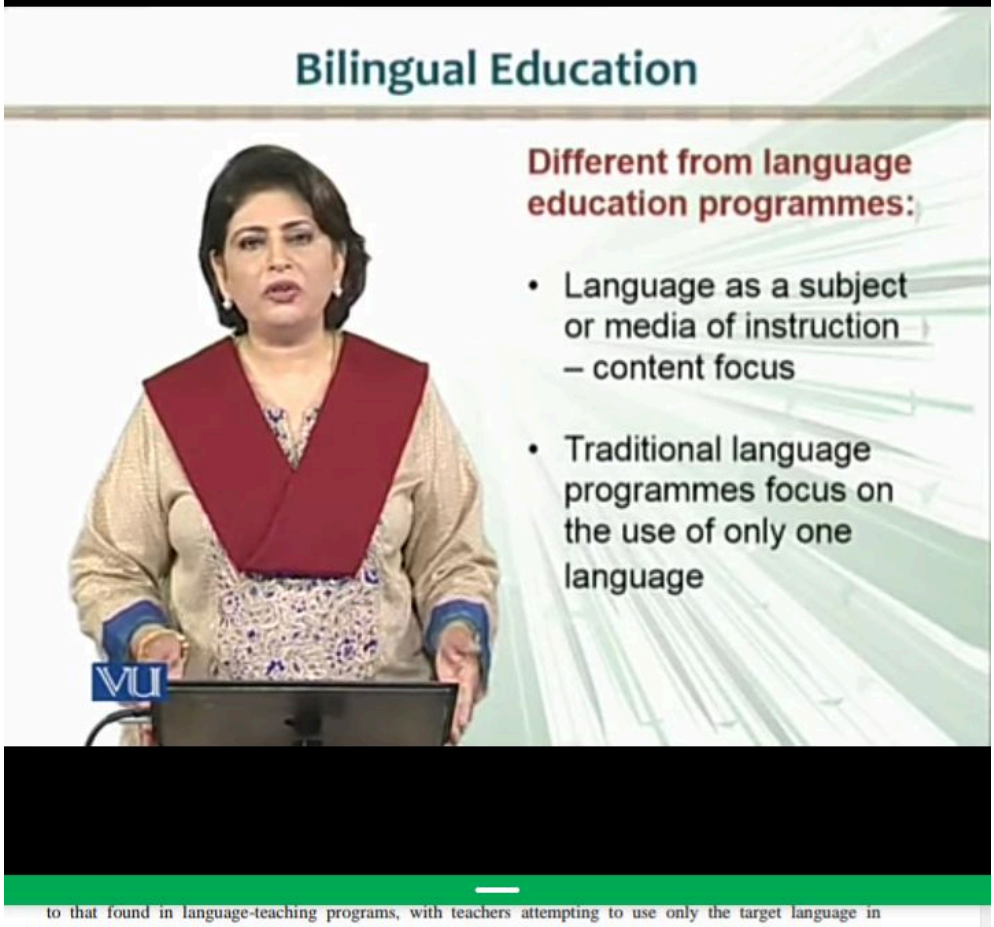

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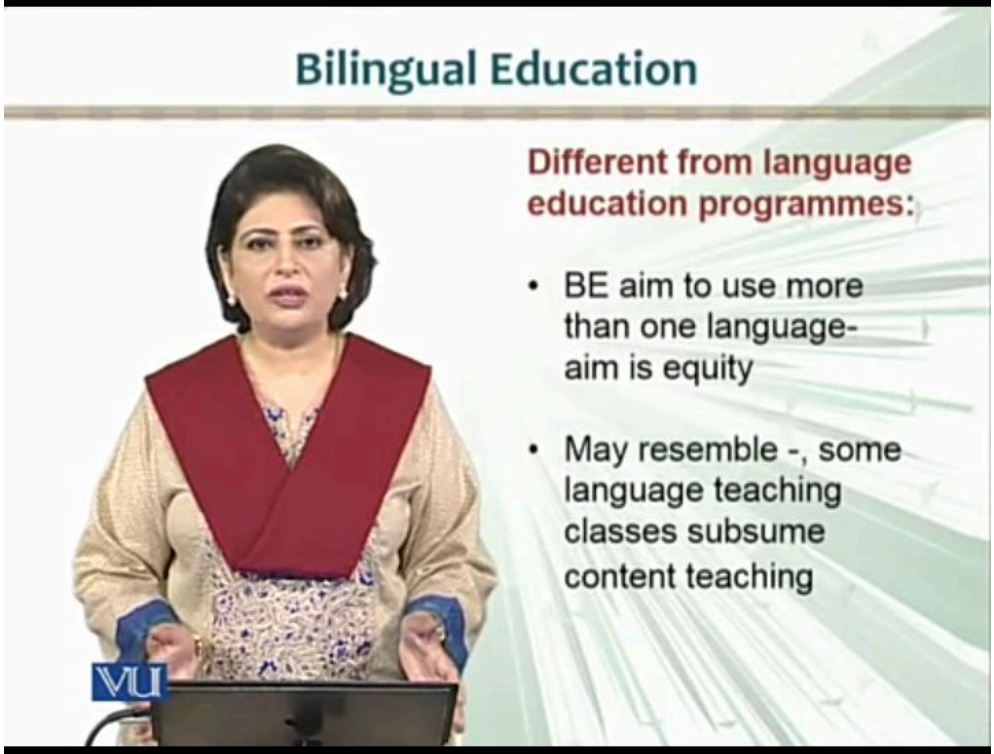

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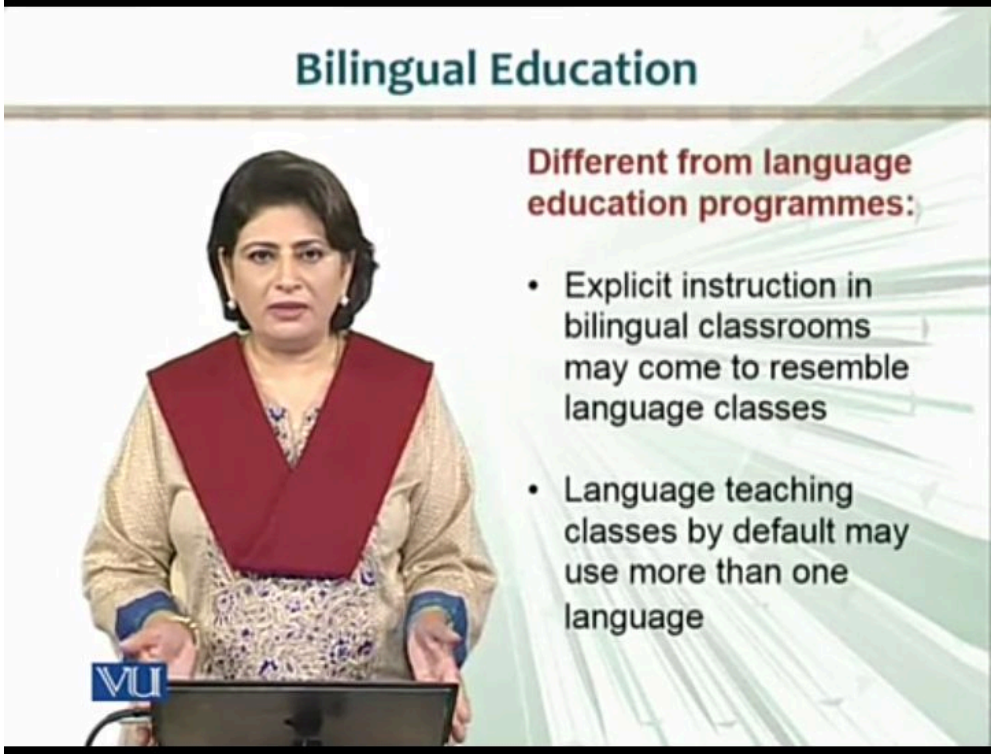

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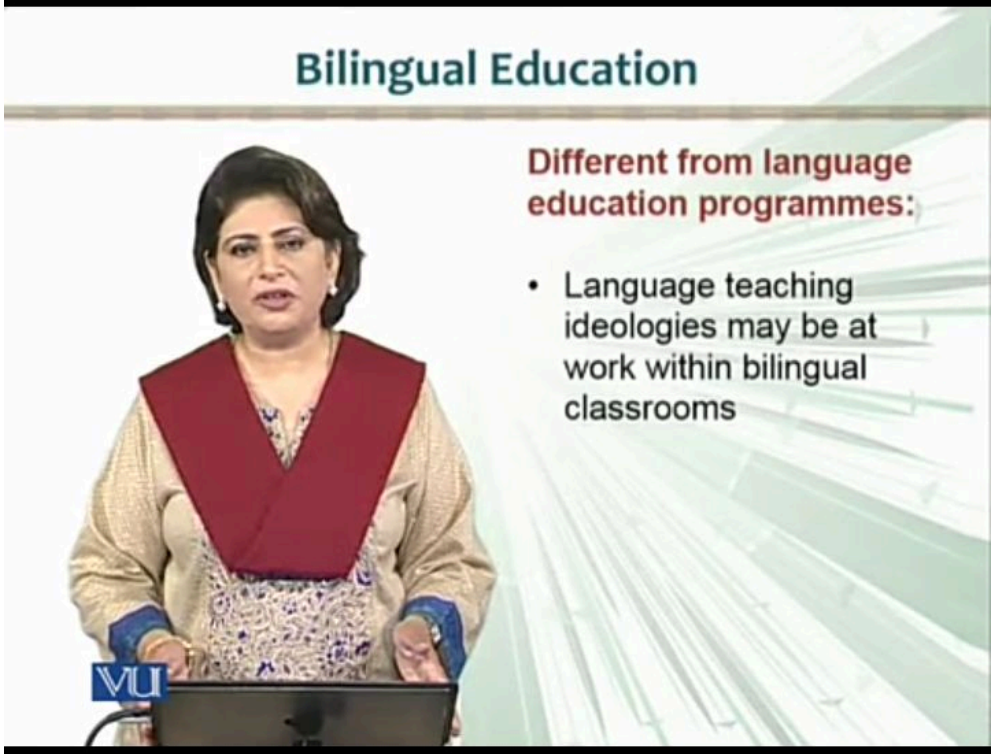

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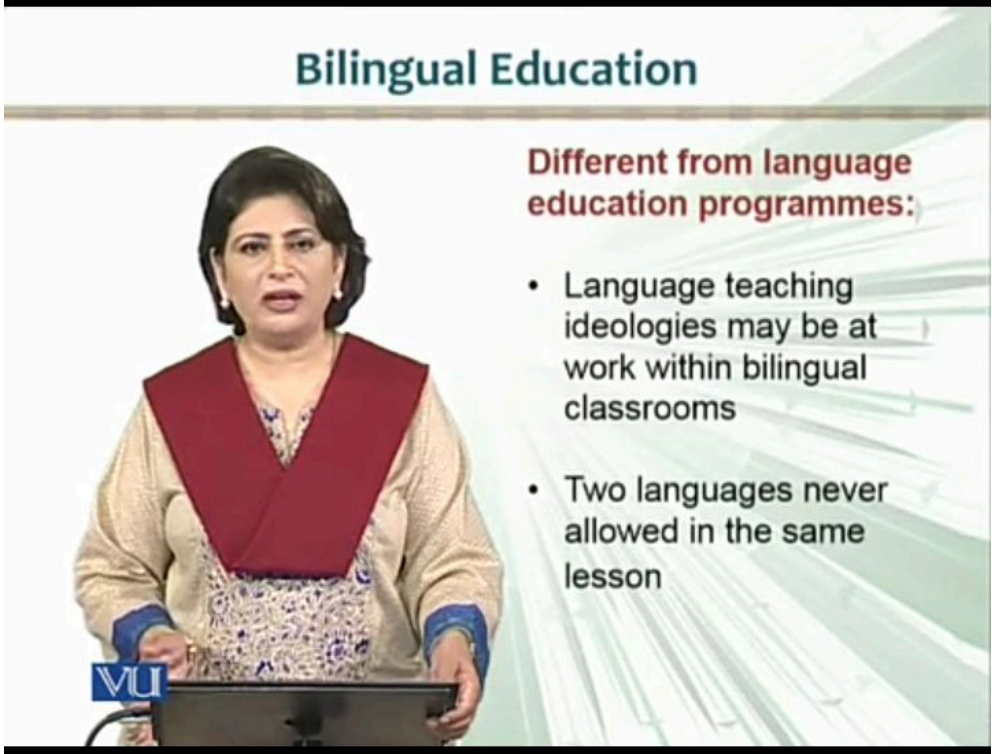

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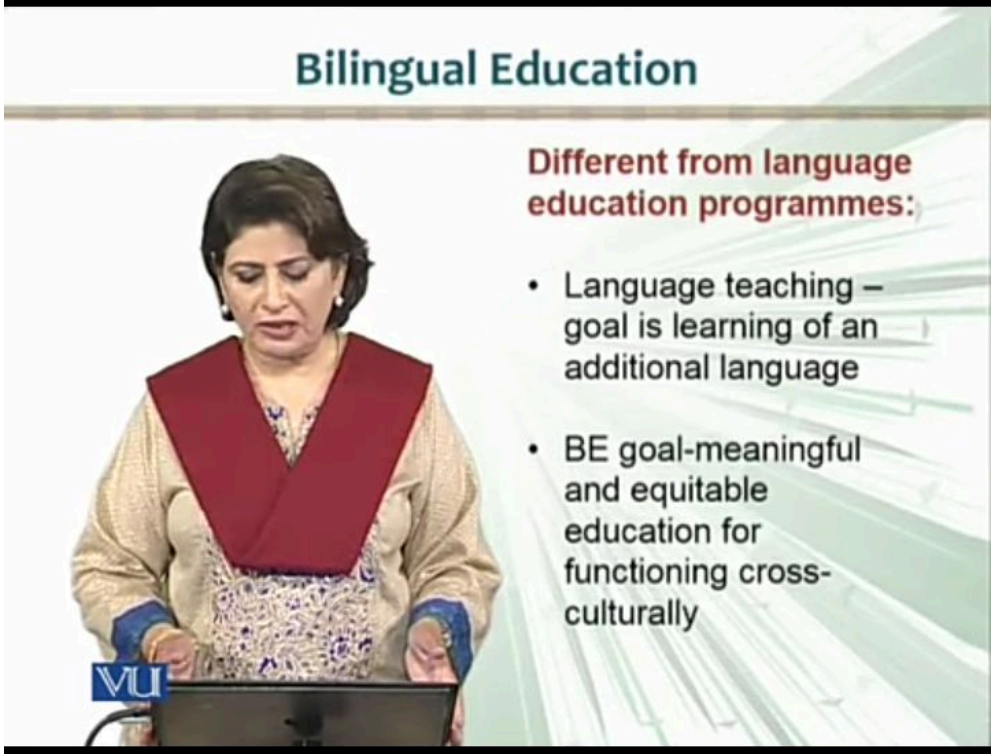

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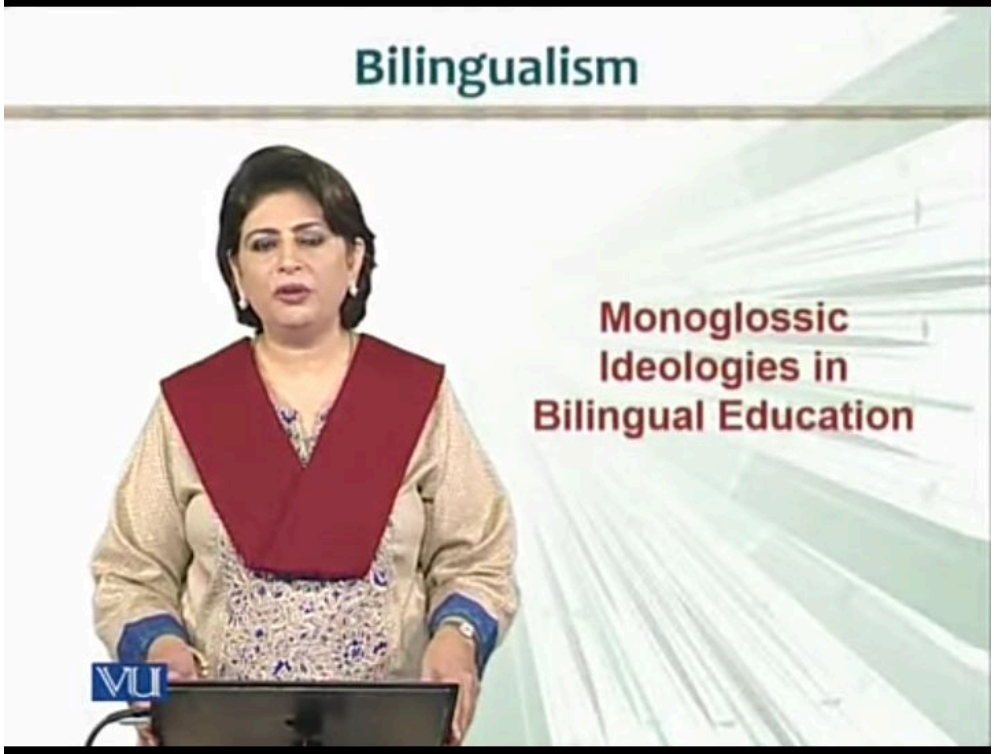

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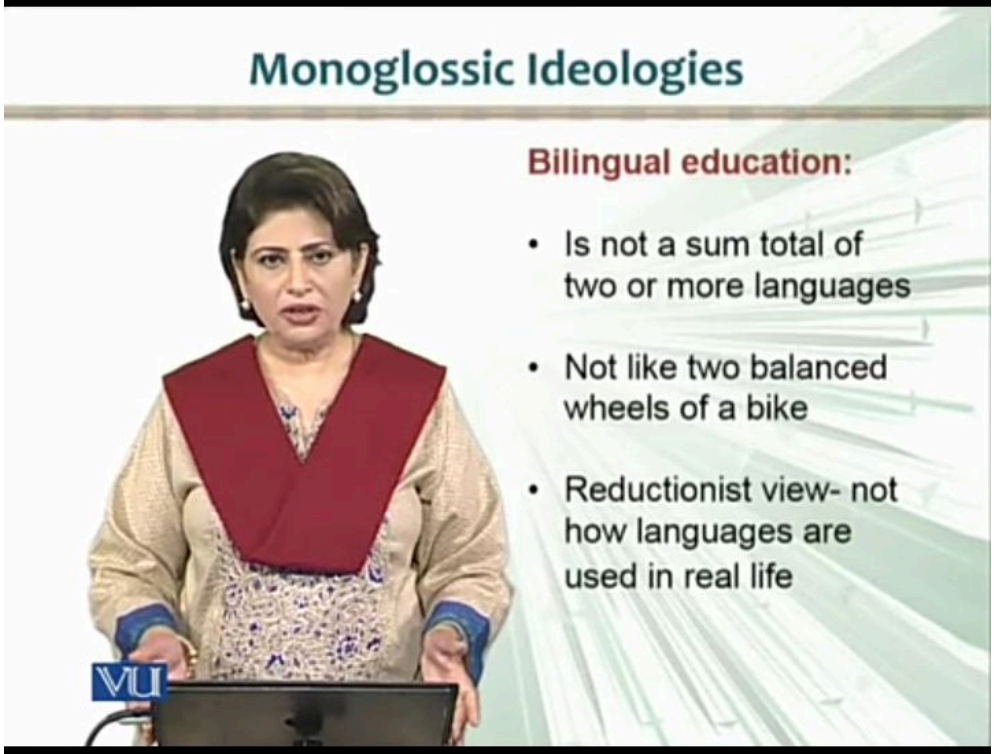

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Monoglossic ideologies of bilingualism and bilingual education treat each of the child's languages as separate and whole, and view the two languages as bounded autonomous systems. We contrast this monoglossic language ideology to one based on Bakhtin's (1981) use of heteroglossic as multiple voices. A heteroglossic ideology of bilingualism considers multiple language practices in interrelationship, and leads to other constructions of bilingual education.

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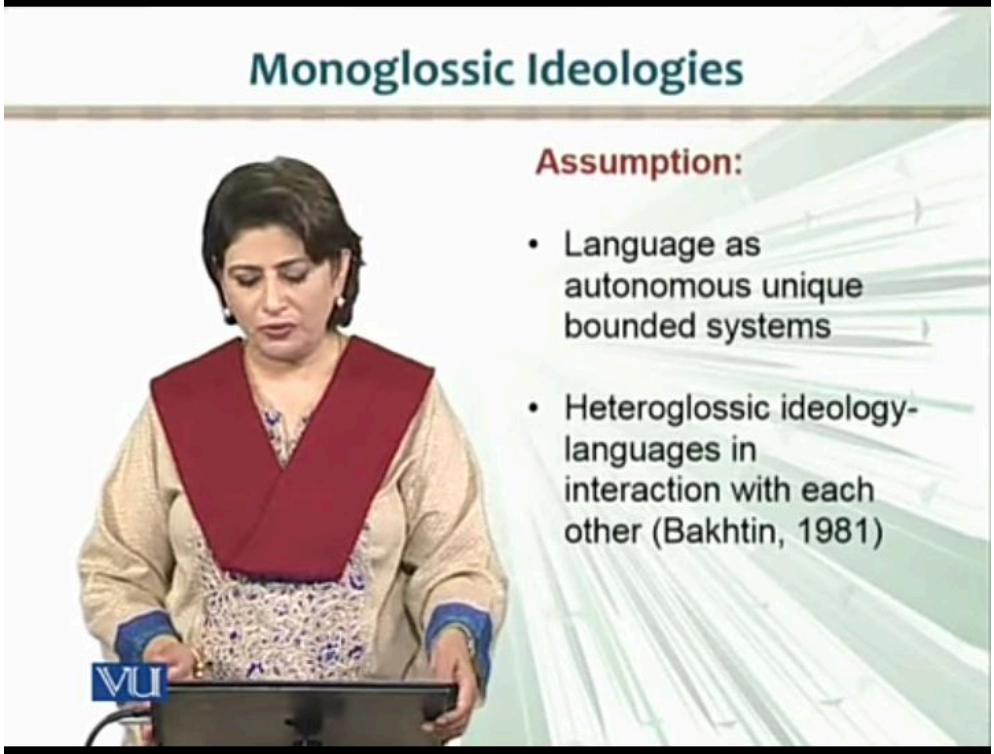

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What continues to separate these two kinds of programs has to do with the broader general goal of bilingual education, the use of two languages to educate generally, meaningfully, equitably, and for tolerance and

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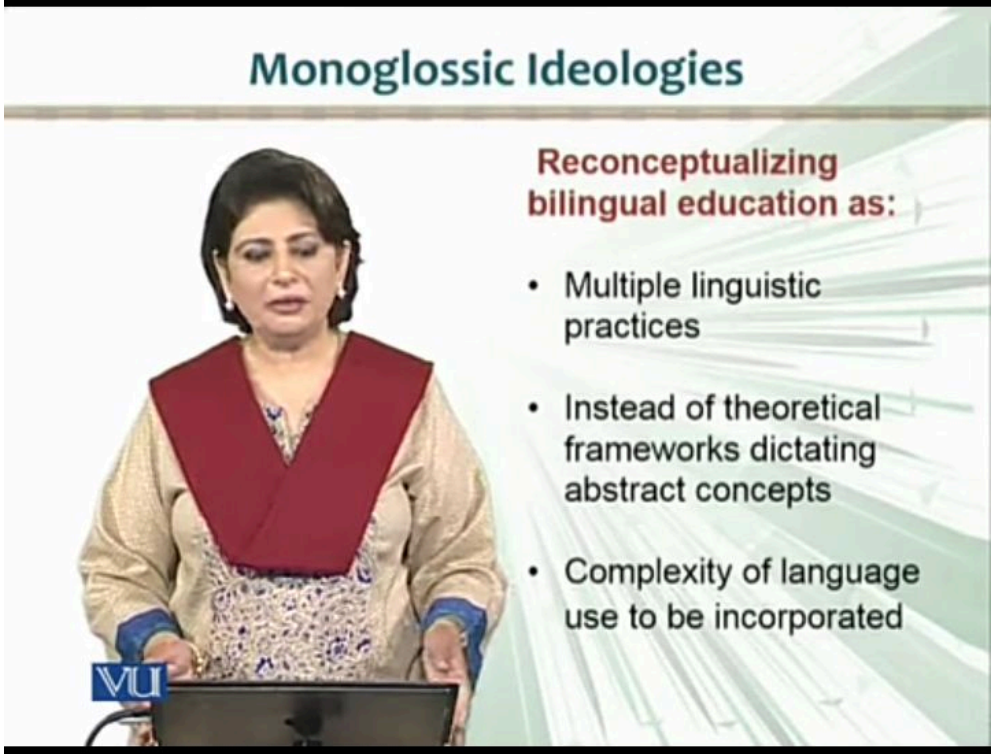

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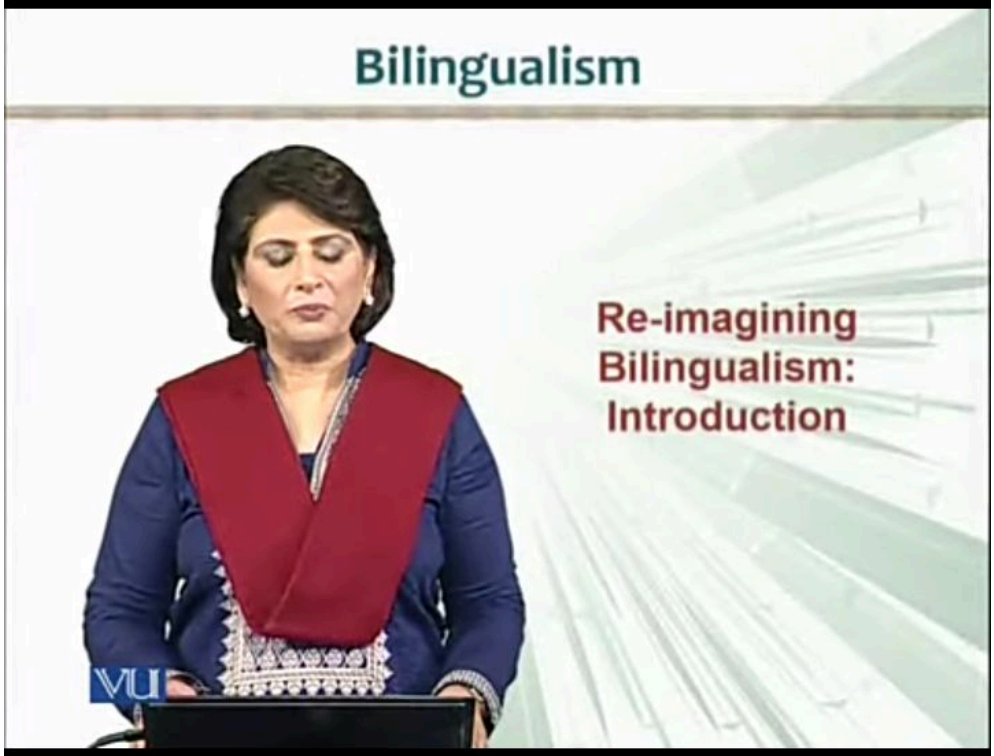

No connection

Topic No. 106-110

Bilingual Education Introduction; Bilingual Education A New Angle; Global Practices; Bilingual Education Beneficiaries; Issues of Power

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However, these arrangements have much more to do with residential and social class segregation than with bilingual education per se. Although it is important to pay attention to all children with different ethno-linguistic profiles, it is Latino children who are often most in need of bilingual education programs in the U.S., for they constitute the greatest proportion of English-language learners in the country (approximately 75 to 79 percent), and yet receive but scant attention. Bilingual education is also often blamed because nations and states seeking legitimacy in the twentieth century have often claimed an immutable relationship between language and identity, using bilingual education as a means to strengthen that link (Heller, 1999).

In the United States, the growth of immigration and migration, especially of Spanish speakers, has unleashed a reaction against bilingual education. The states of California, Arizona, and Massachusetts have declared bilingual education illegal and the term "bilingual education" is often attached only to programs for recently arrived immigrants that are transitional in nature, and not to programs that include speakers of English

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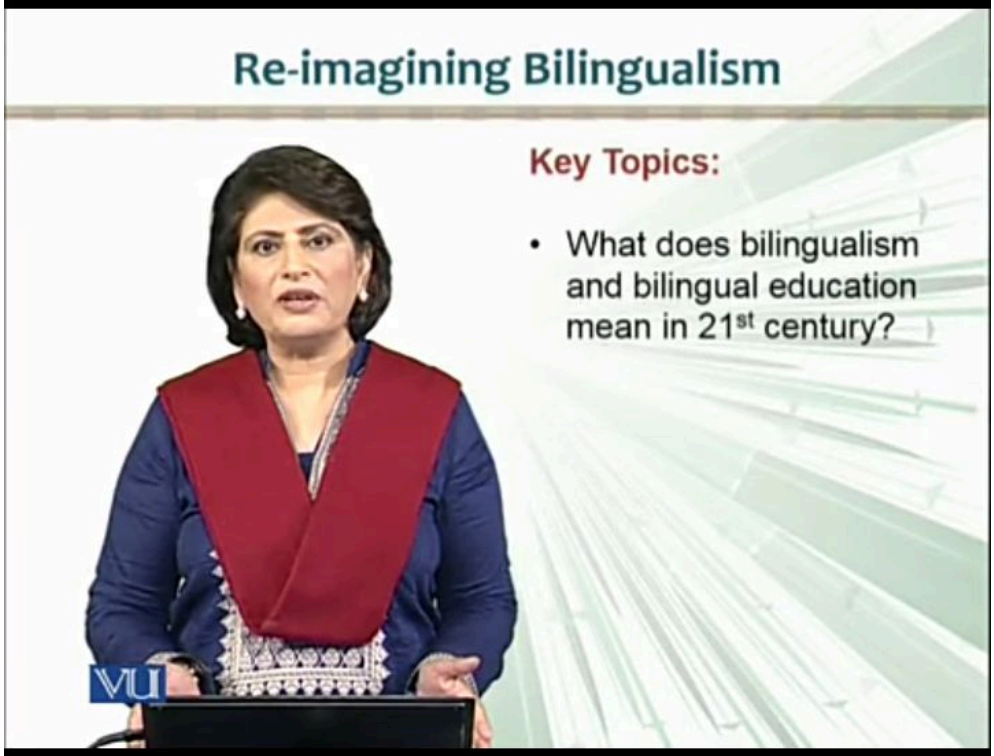

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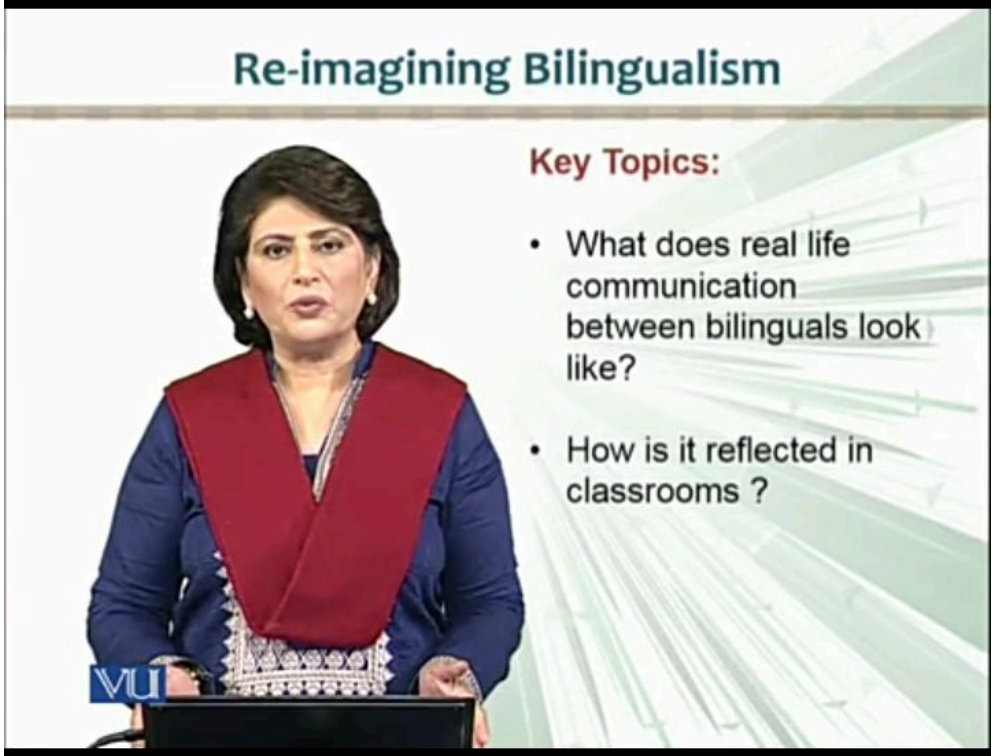

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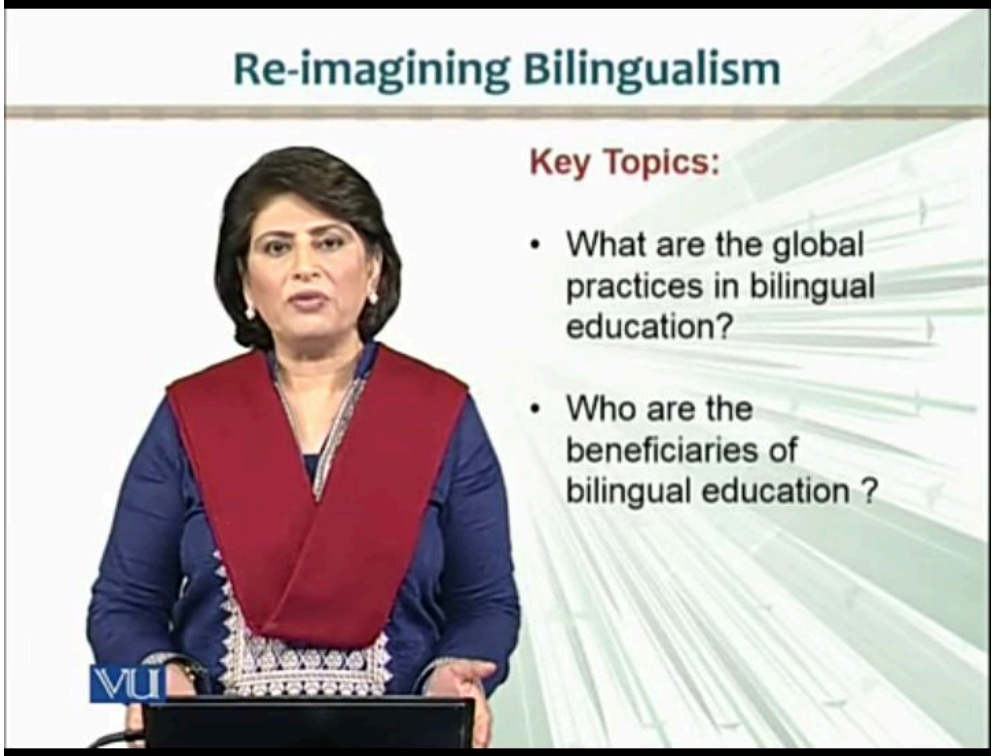

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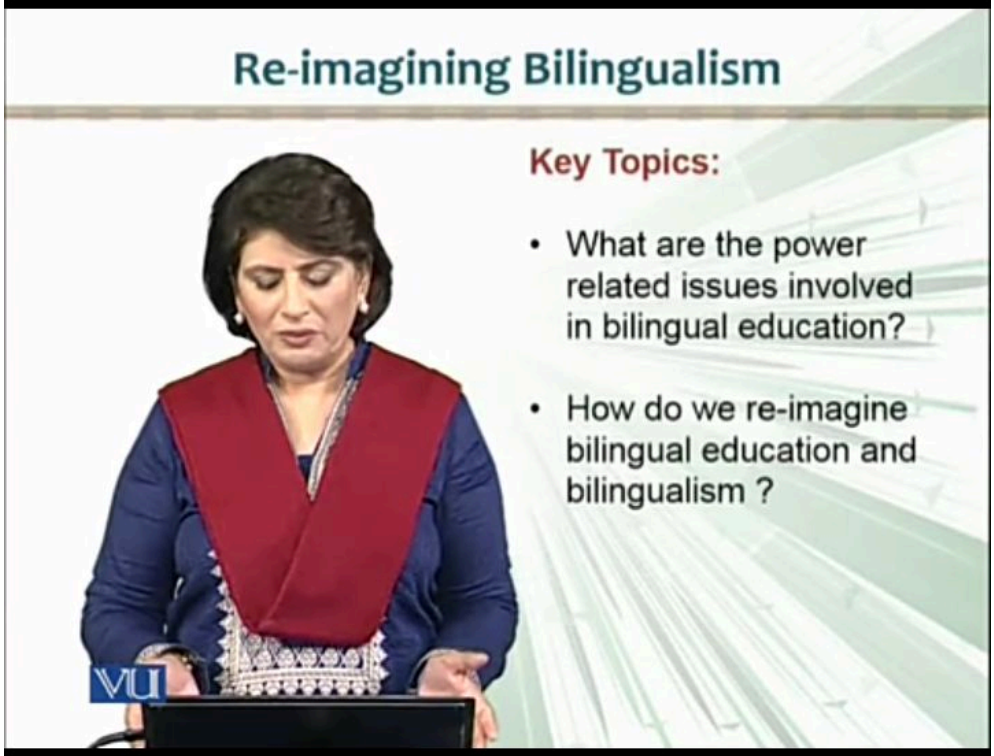

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No connection

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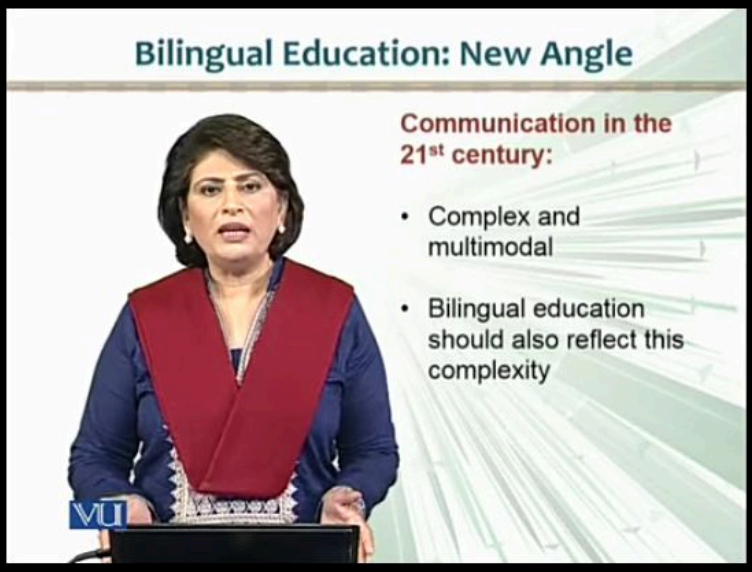

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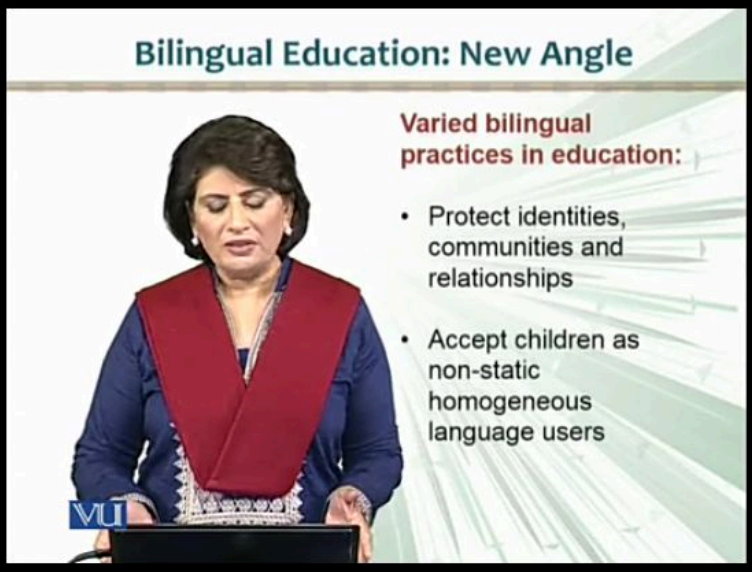
What is needed today are practices firmly rooted in the multilingual and multimodal language and literacy practices of children in schools of the twenty-first century, practices that would be informed by a vision starting from the sum: an integrated plural vision. Educating children bilingually enables language practices that, like the banyan trees, build on each other in multiple ways and directions – up, out, down, across – but yet rooted in the terrain and realities from which they emerge.

Bilingual education, for us, is simply any instance in which children's and teachers' communicative practices in school that maximize learning efficacy and communication; and that, in so doing, foster and develop tolerance towards linguistic differences, as well as appreciation of languages and bilingual proficiency. Bilingual education in the twenty-first century must be reimagined and expanded, as it takes its rightful place as a meaningful way to educate all children and language learners in the world today. Bilingual education is here used to refer to education using more than one language, and/or language varieties, in whatever combination. In today's globalized world, bilingual education is at times criticized, on the one hand, because it is seen as maintaining separate linguistic enclaves, and, on the other, because it does not accommodate the linguistic heterogeneity of the times. For example, in the United States bilingual education is often blamed, first, for the ghettoization of U.S. Latino students in segregated classrooms, and, second, for the lack of attention paid in these programs to ethno-linguistic minorities other than Latinos.

However, these arrangements have much more to do with residential and social class segregation than with bilingual education per se. Although it is important to pay attention to all children with different ethno-linguistic profiles, it is Latino children who are often most in need of bilingual education programs in the U.S., for they constitute the greatest proportion of English-language learners in the country (approximately 75 to 79 percent), and yet receive but scant attention. Bilingual education is also often blamed because nations and states seeking legitimacy in the twentieth century have often claimed an immutable relationship between language and identity, using bilingual education as a means to strengthen that link (Heller, 1999).

In the United States, the growth of immigration and migration, especially of Spanish speakers, has unleashed a reaction against bilingual education. The states of California, Arizona, and Massachusetts have declared bilingual education illegal and the term "bilingual education" is often attached only to programs for recently arrived immigrants that are transitional in nature, and not to programs that include speakers of English



Topic No. 106-110

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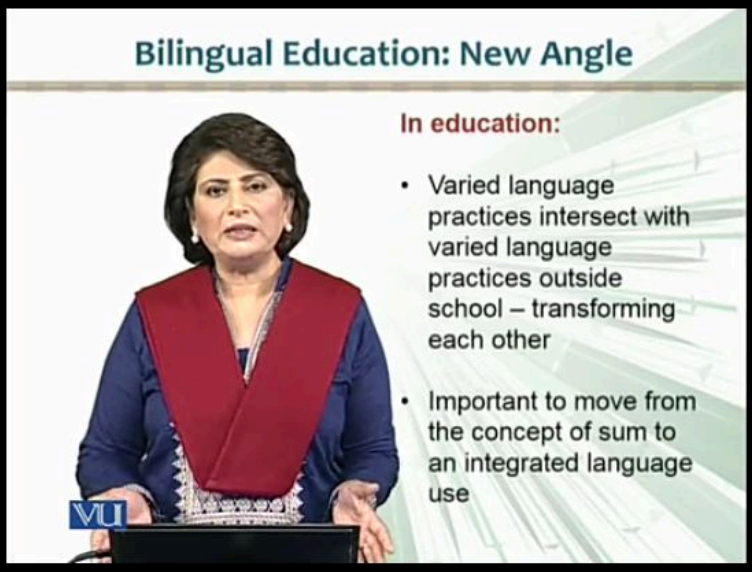

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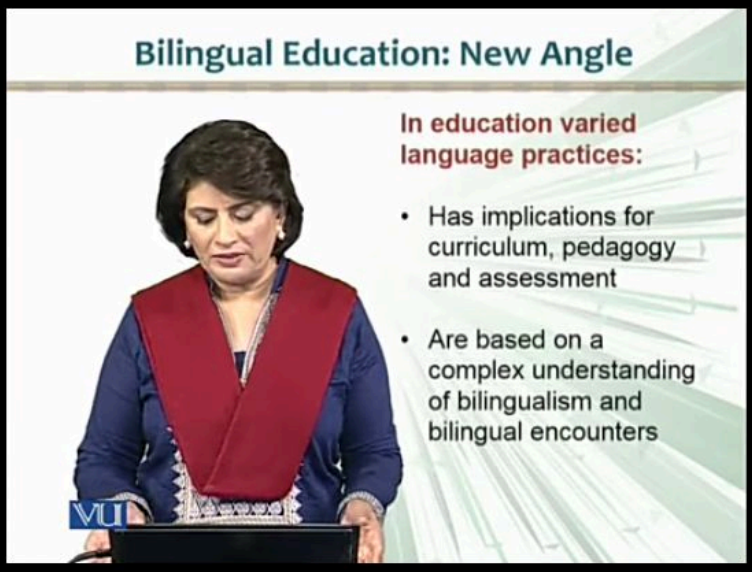

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Within the European Union, bilingual education is being promoted under the banner of CLIL/EMILE, acronyms which refer to "Content and Language Integrated. The choice of CLIL/EMILE responds to the fact that the term "bilingual education" is politically loaded for certain European countries, even though these are bilingual programs that use more than one language in instruction.

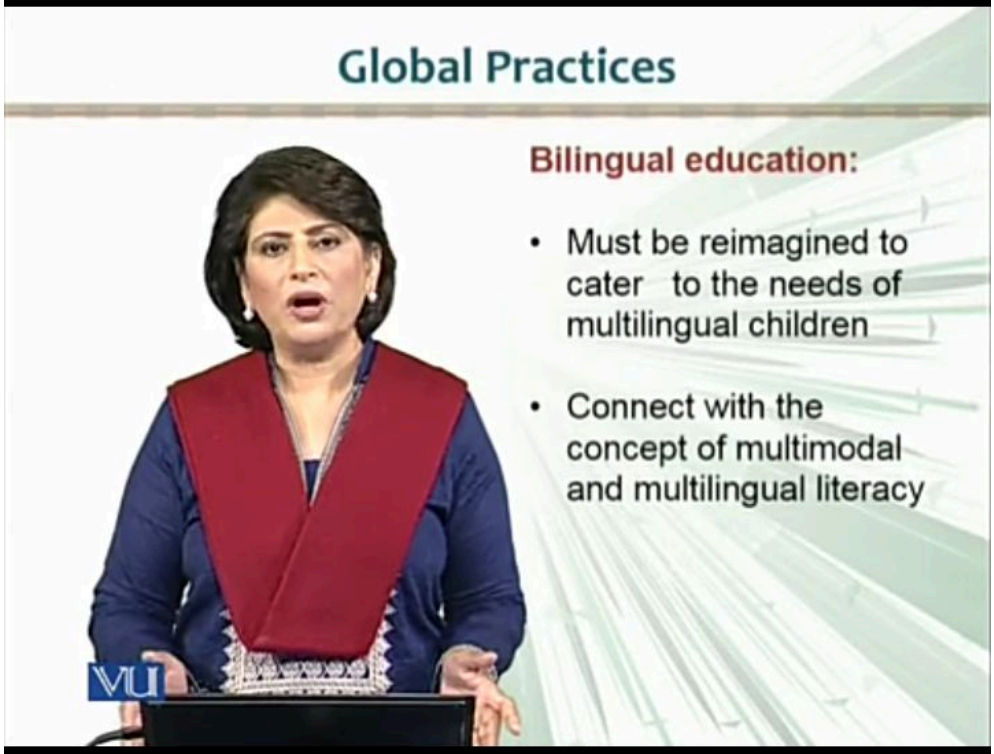
In Canada, the persistent voices of First Nations peoples, and their efforts to revitalize and maintain their languages, continue to challenge the limitation of bilingual education only to the languages of power: English and French, and the recognition of the multilingualism of many countries in Africa and Asia in particular has also served to question the viability of bilingual education in only two languages in a more complex socio-linguistic order.

Throughout the world, bilingual education practices are becoming more popular than ever, and we use the term "bilingual education" because it enables us to link to the research, scholarship, policy, and practice of the last fifty years. We also use it because bilingual education is centered in schools where curriculum and assessment are mostly linear, inducing educators to think of language acquisition in similar ways. Thus, usually children are initially schooled bilingually, that is, in two languages, even when the intent is to develop proficiency in more than two languages, or even when many more than two separate languages are used in instruction.

Beneficiaries: The overarching principle of this book is that some form of bilingual education is good for all education, and therefore good for all children, as well as good for all adult learners. This is a principle that we have always held; one that was well established by Fishman (1976). Bilingual education is good for all language majorities, that is, powerful ethno-linguistic groups, as well as language minorities, those without power. Bilingual individuals enjoy cognitive and social advantages over monolinguals. As Fishman (1978b: 47) has said: "In a multilingual world it is obviously more efficient and rational to be multilingual than not."

Bilingual education has the potential of being a transformative school practice, able to educate all children in ways that stimulate and expand their intellect and imagination, as they gain ways of expression and access different ways of being in the world. By using a language effectively, one can access information extend social networks and build self-worth.

Monolingual education has at times been used as a way to limit access and legitimate the linguistic practices of those already in power. Bilingual education has the potential to give access to languages of power and bilingual education can also legitimize minoritized language practices. As such, bilingual education can be transformative. As Lewis says (1978: 20, our italics): "Bilingual education has been advocated for entirely pedagogical reasons, while the fundamental rationale for the proposal is to bring about greater political, economic, and social equality because all forms of education are concerned with the redistribution of power or the maintenance of its current distribution.



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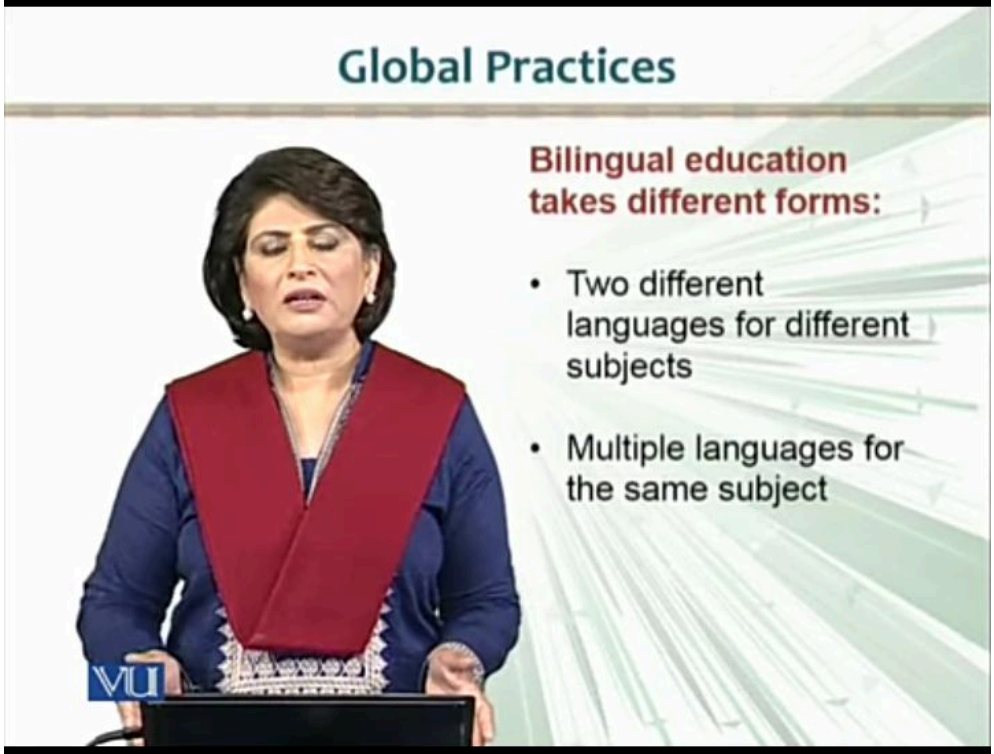

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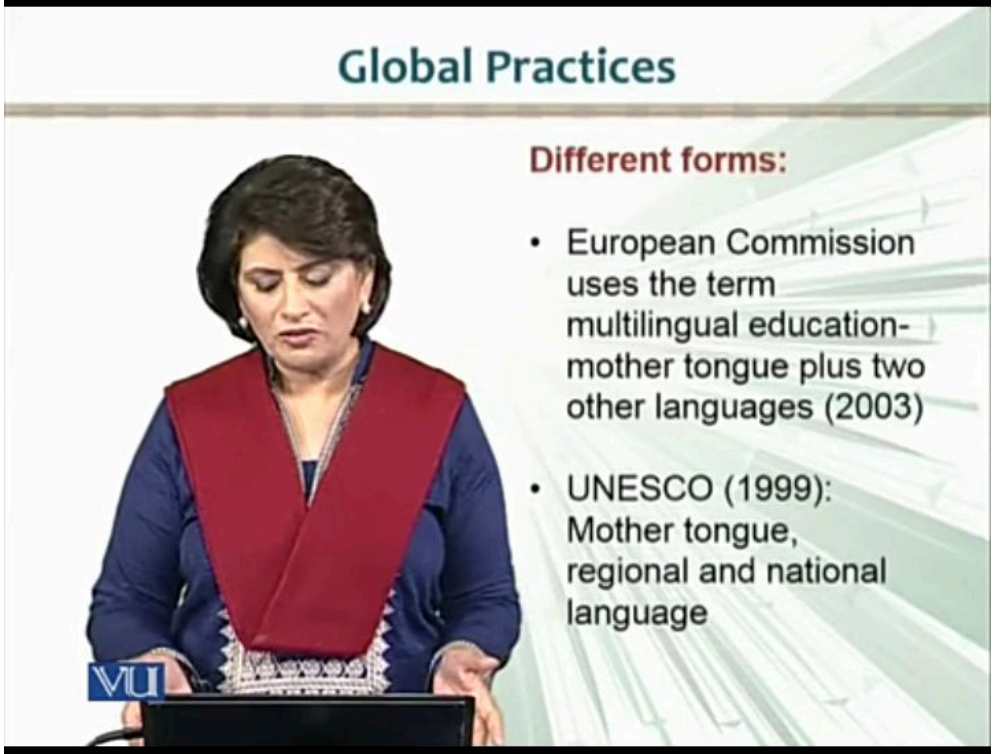

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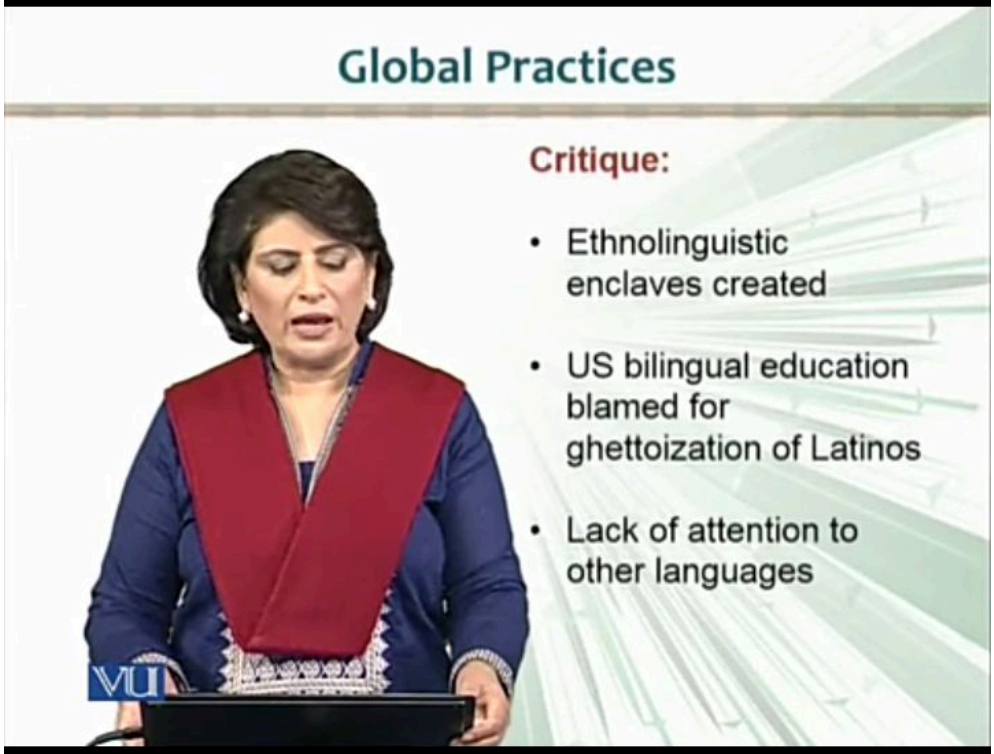

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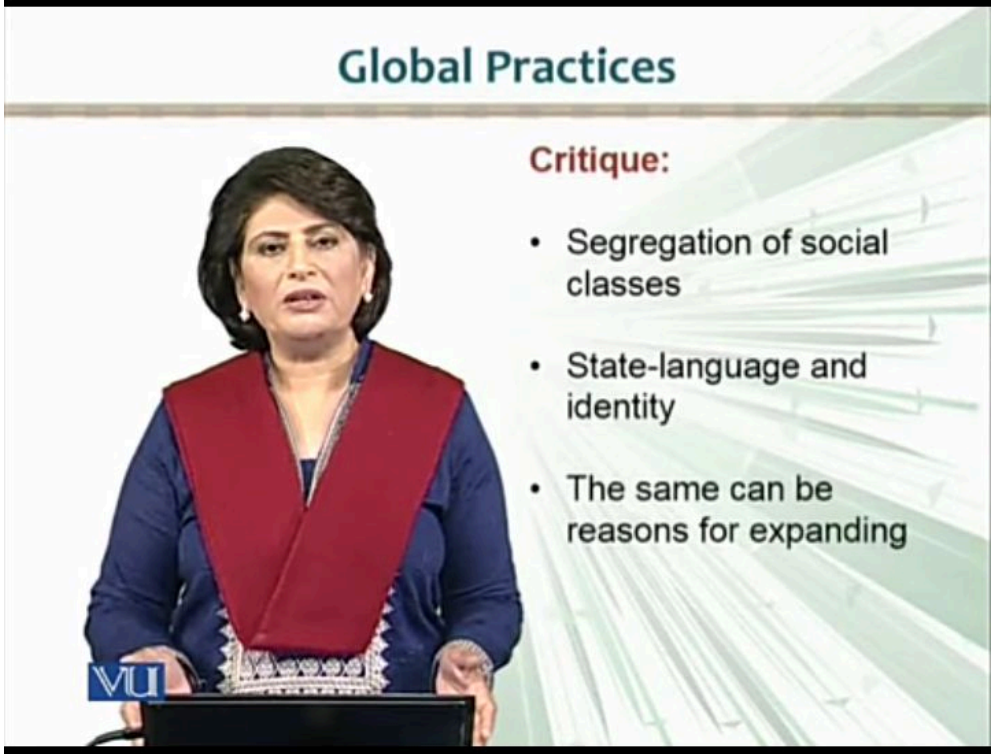

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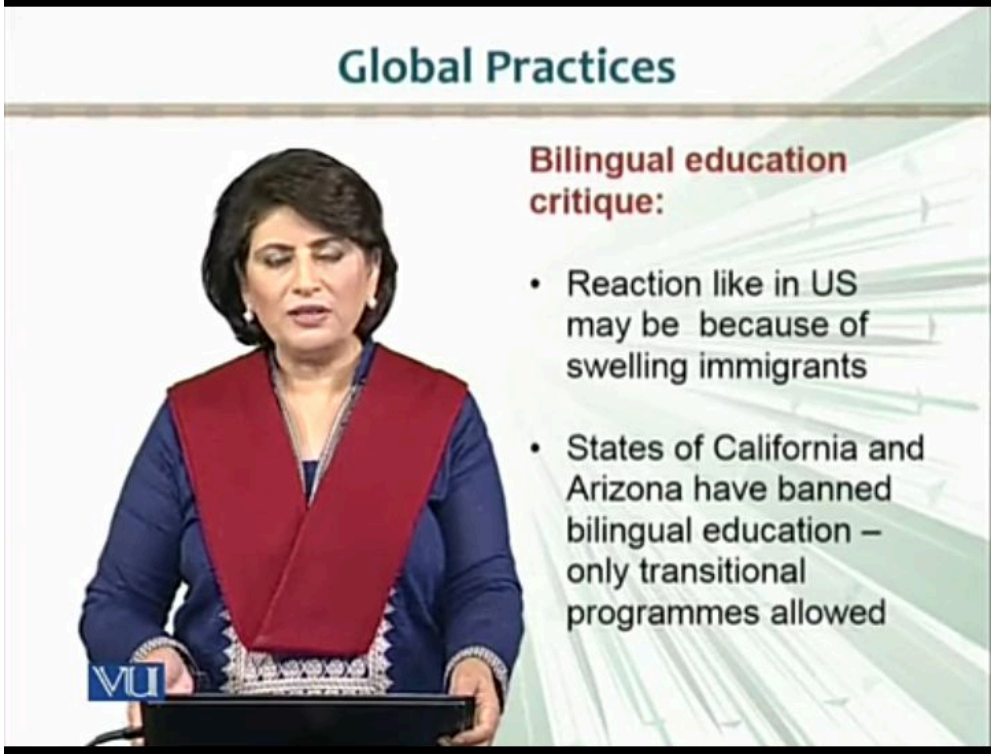

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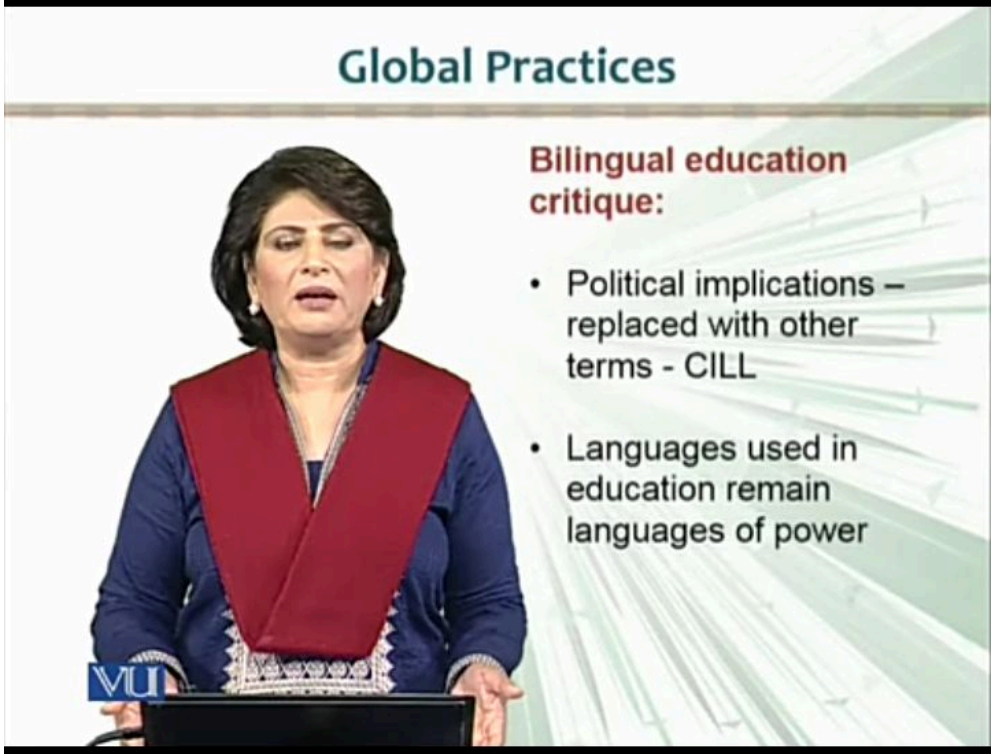

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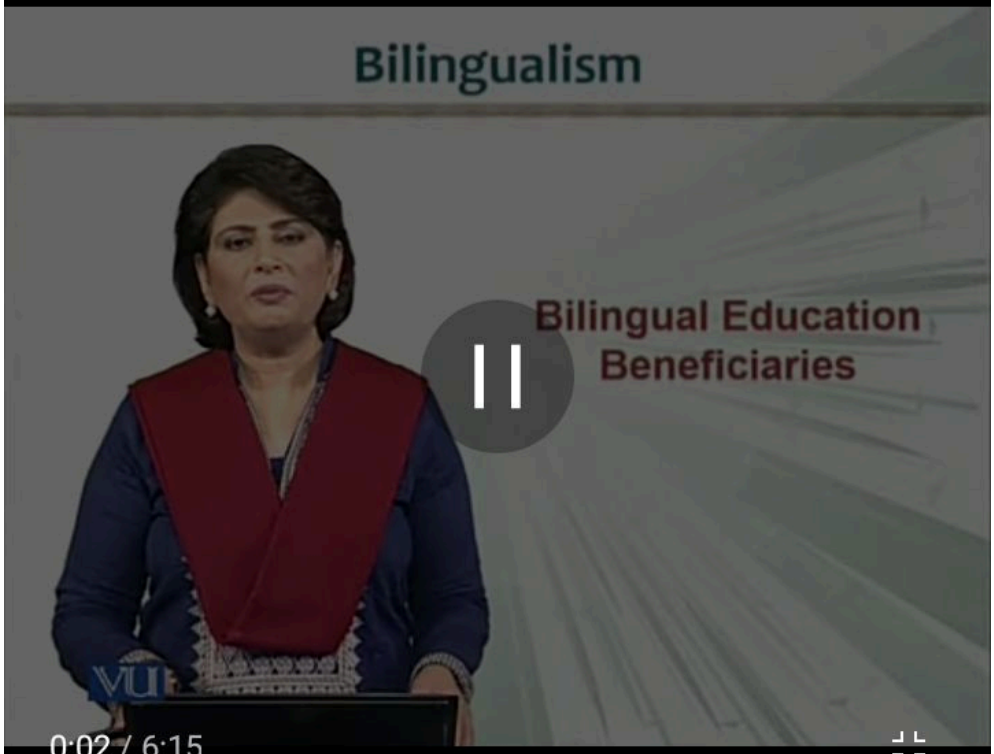

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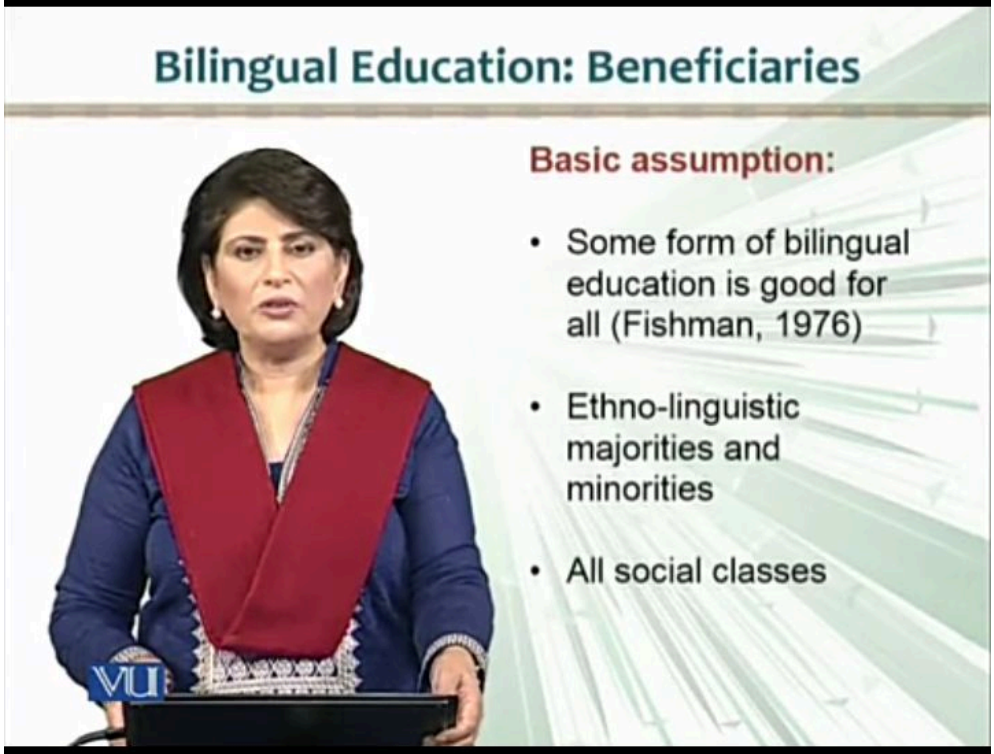

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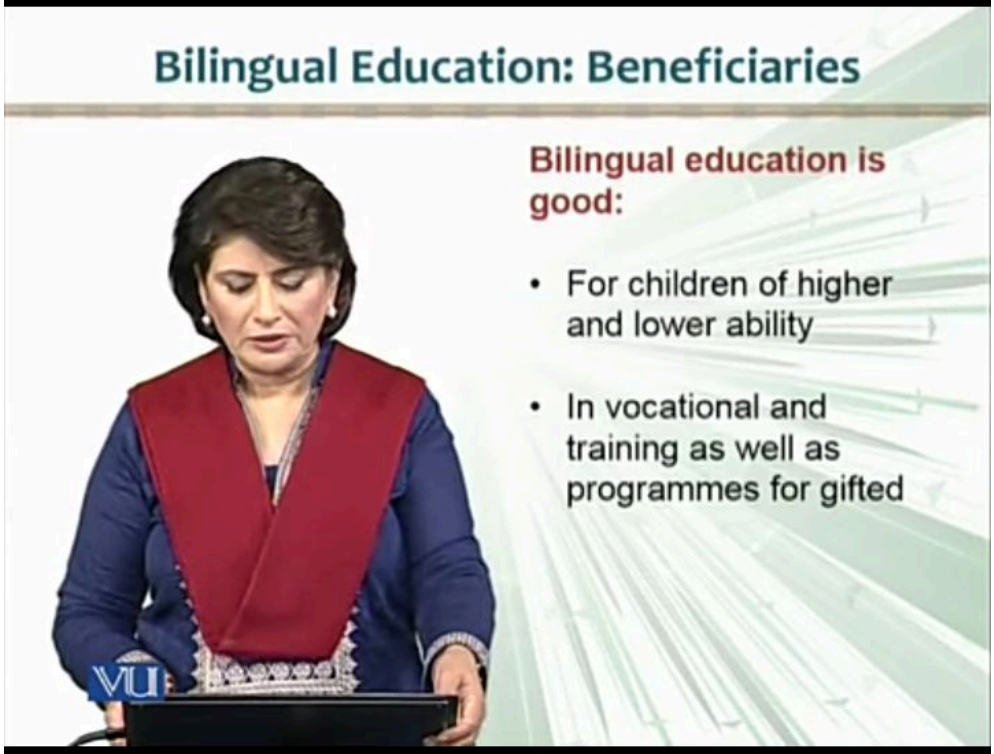

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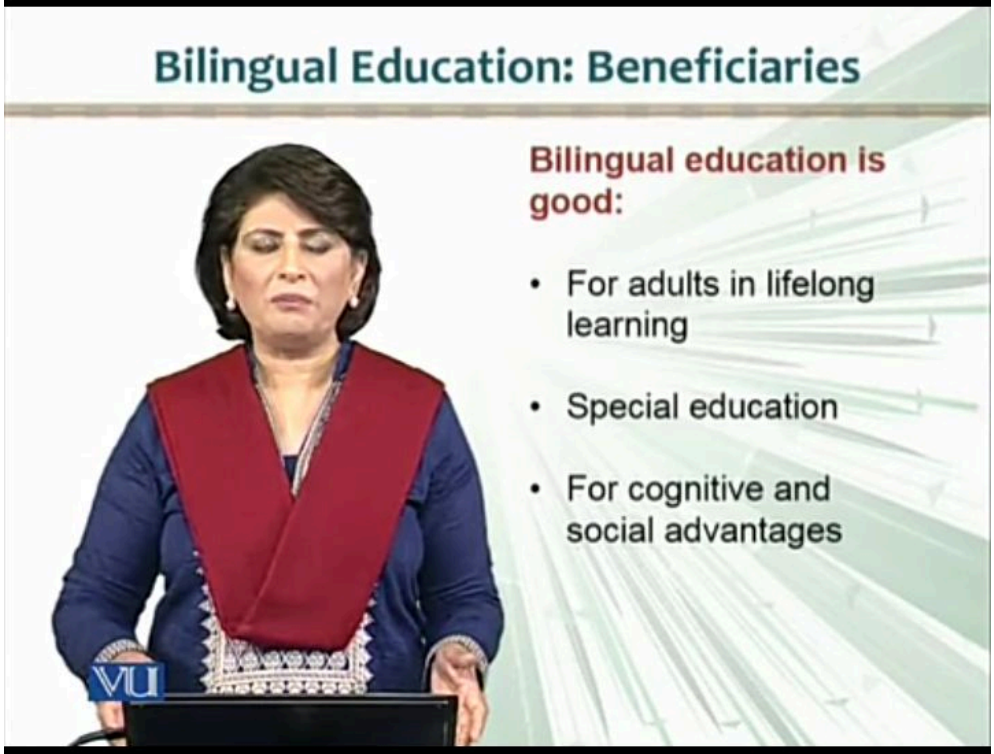

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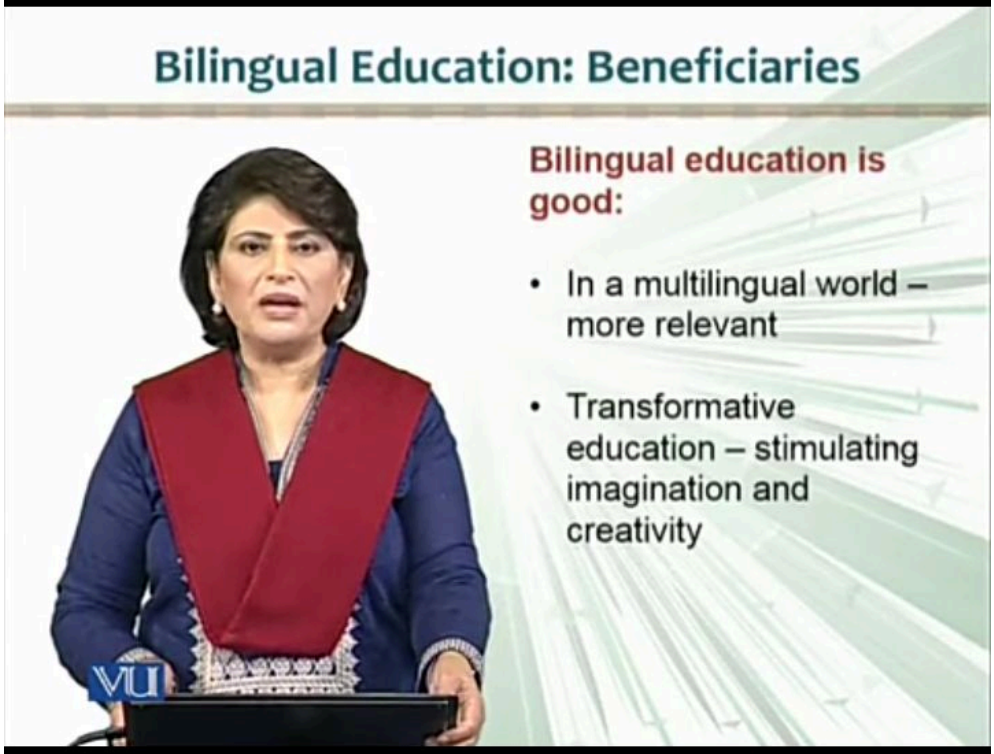

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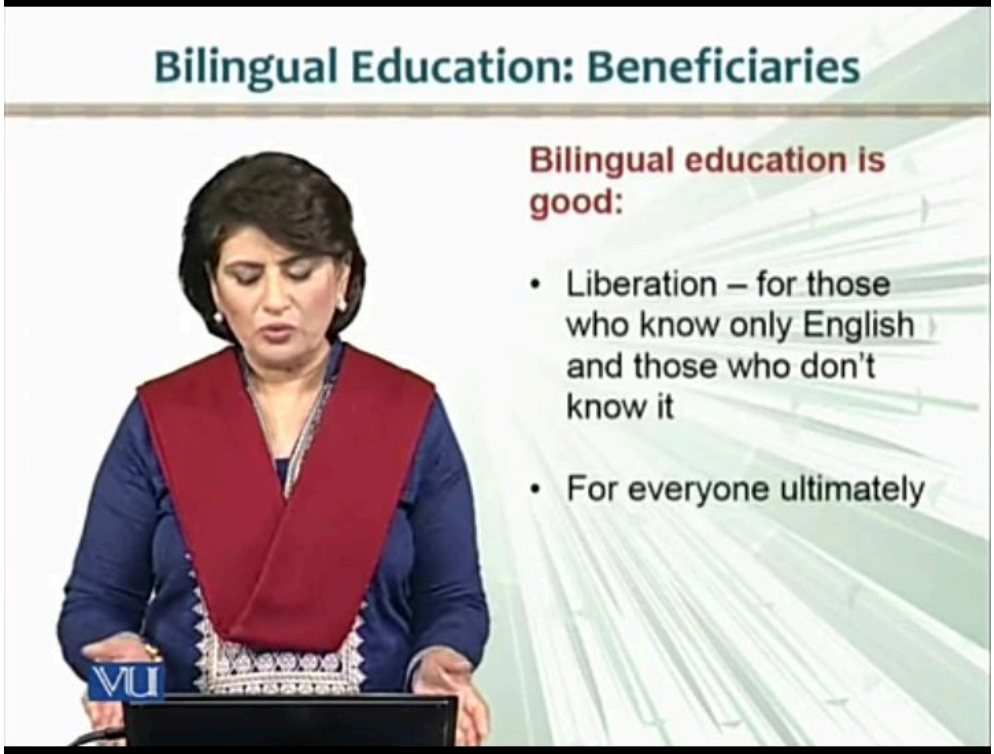

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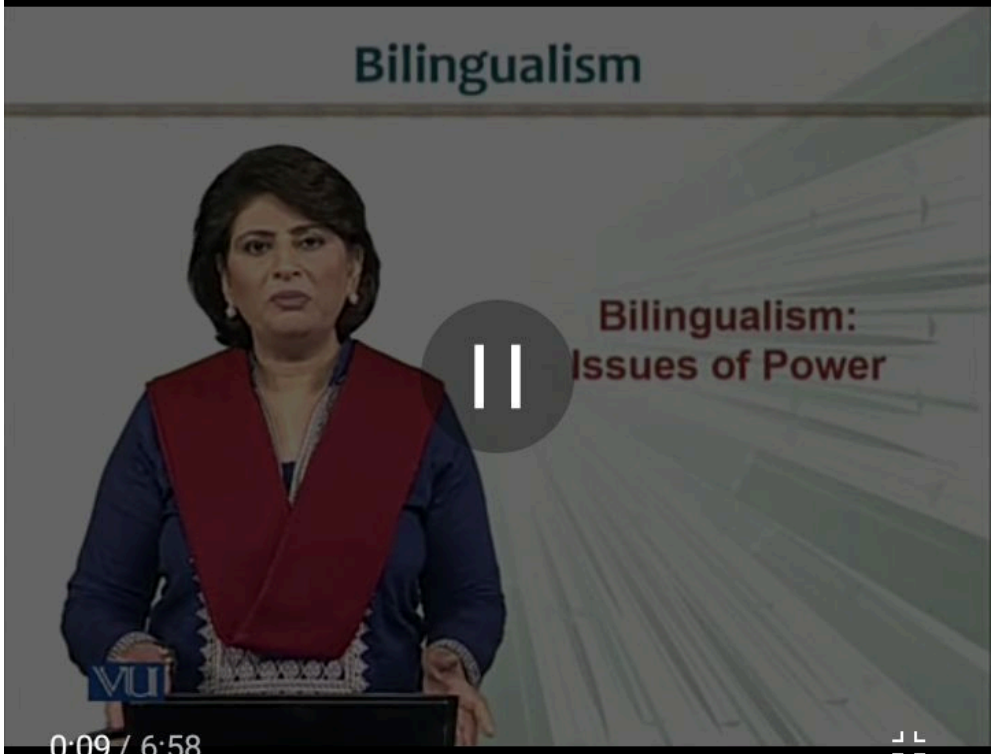

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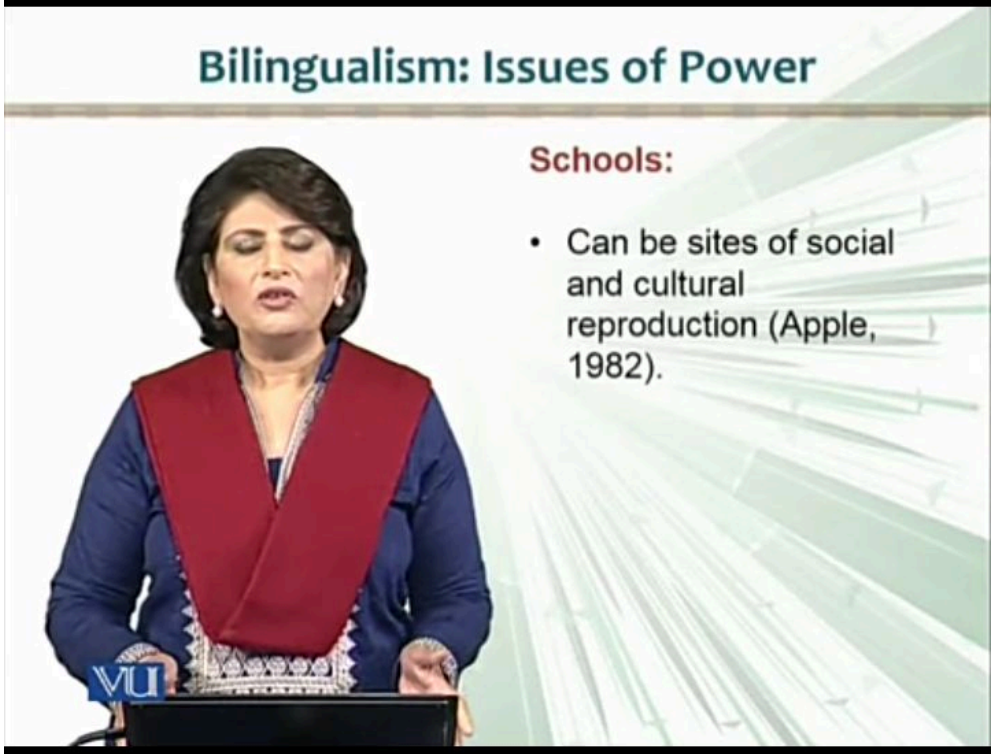

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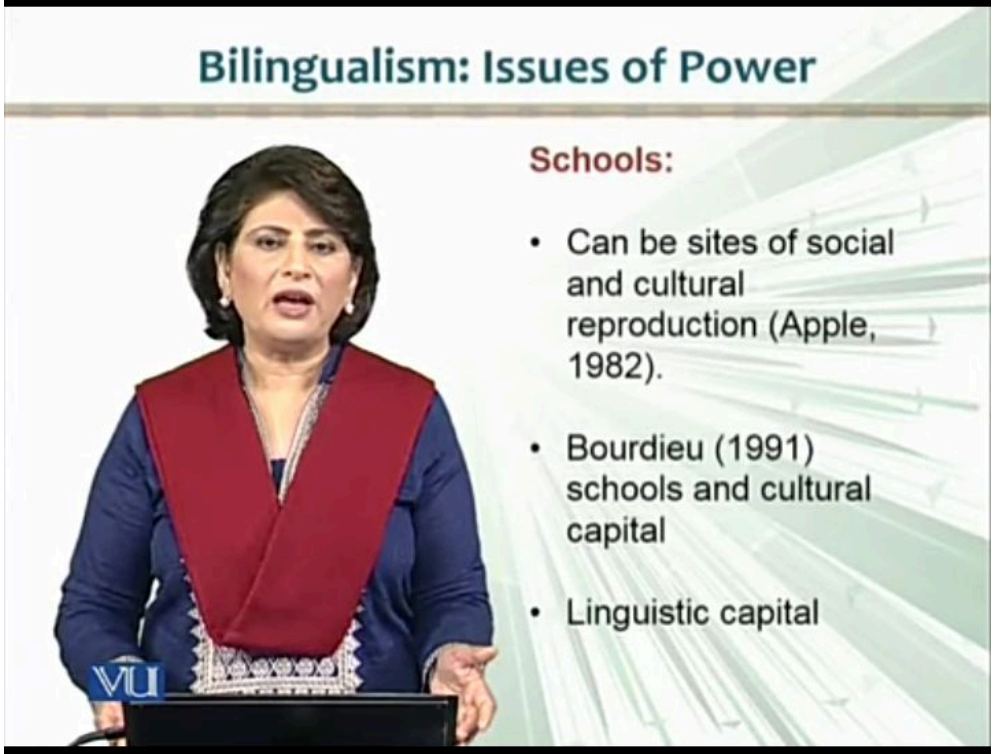

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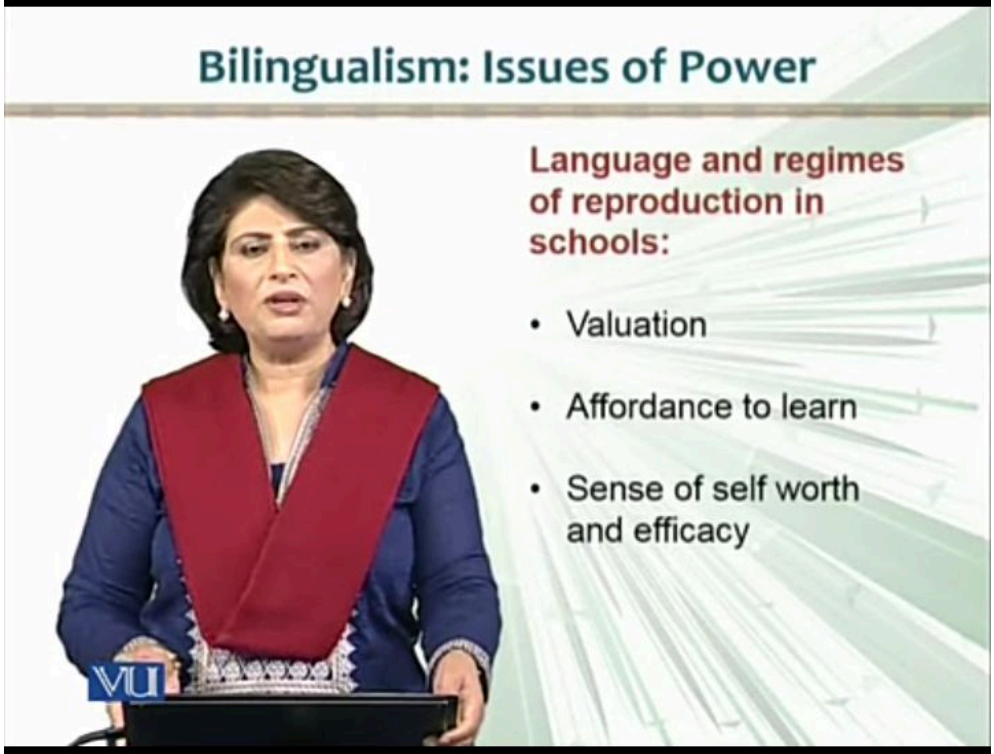

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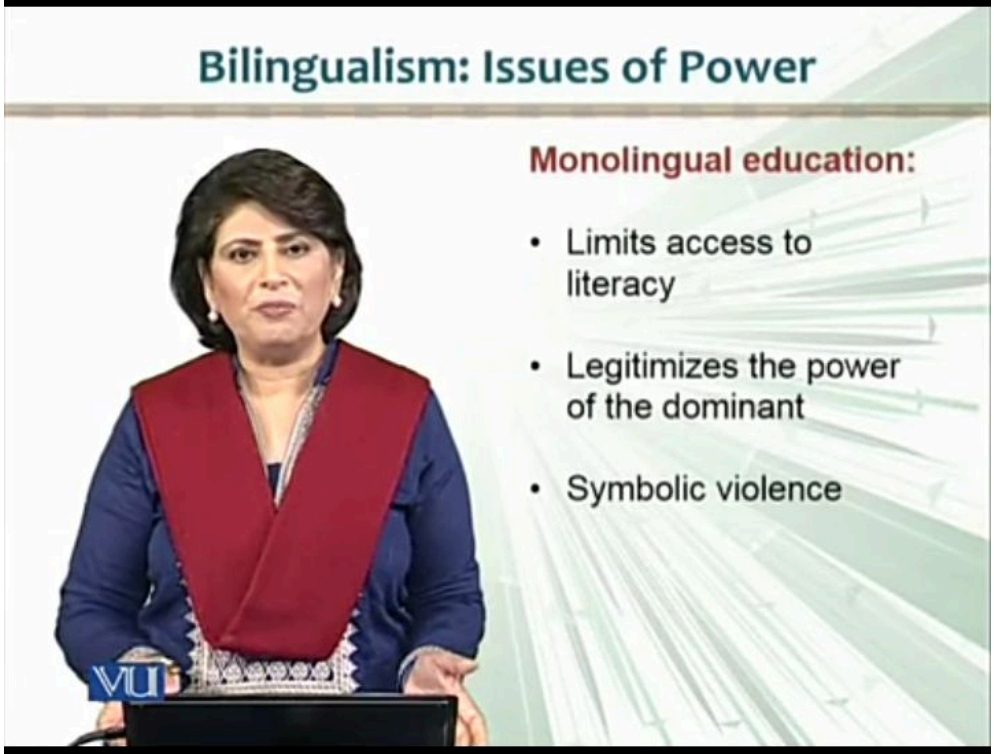

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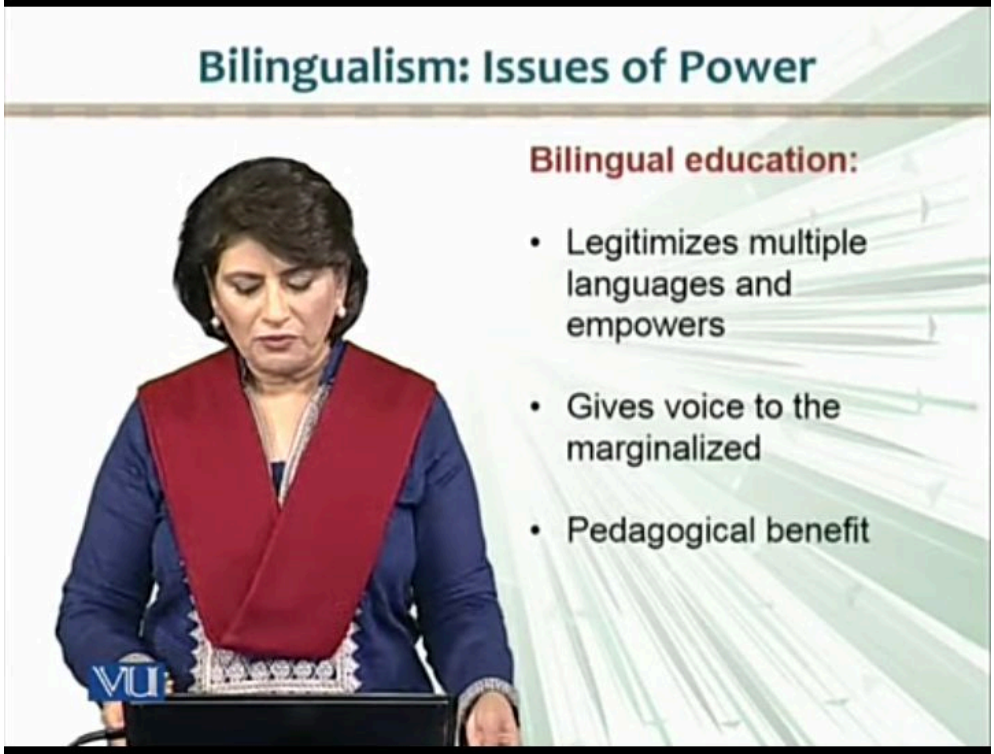

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